PREFACE

Most, if not all, of the subjects which have engaged me theologically have sprung from teaching and the preparation which it requires, and none more so than the doctrine of the Holy Spirit. Three sets of circumstances in particular have commanded my attention over the years.

The first has been the fascination with the scriptural foundation of the doctrine on the part of almost all those who have written on the subject of the Spirit. This fascination has in no way been diminished by the heterogeneity of the references to the activities of the Spirit in the Scriptures. Rather has there emerged renewed interest in scriptural views of the Spirit in most mainstream denominations as a result of reports of the worship of those charismatic groups who seek to reproduce a biblical experience of the Spirit.

Secondly, in equal step with the foregoing there has been increasing awareness of the dominance of patristic theology, cast firmly as it is in the trinitarian mould, in most doctrinal accounts of the Spirit. The detailed treatment of Greek patristic thought given in chapter four – a revision of an article which appeared in the *Scottish Journal of Theology*, vol. 7, no. 4 (1954) – is a fair measure of the formality of the tradition. Yet while caricatures of that dominance have suggested that the result of that pneumatology is a formal sterility, responsible for the absence of any dynamic accounts of the Spirit to match the charismatic enthusiasm; on the contrary it has proved to be creative of a whole range of interpretations of the Spirit. In such interpretations lies the hope in our generation for rediscovery of the power, the blessing, the enlightening and the comfort of the Spirit.

Thirdly, the success of such rediscovery – in morality, decision-making, worship and the sacraments, preaching and prayer, theology and hermeneutics, pastoral relationships, spirituality, the courts of the Church, personal relations, private devotions – will,

under that same Spirit, be determinative of the ability of the Church to fulfil the will of Christ in our day. Our greatest danger is to think that we have endless time to set off on such rediscovery. Increasing secularism would suggest otherwise.

To Jan, my wife, must go my warmest appreciation of all her support, particularly in these latter years of ill-health which made the preparation of this 'Shape' somewhat more protracted than that of its two earlier companions.

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BETRAYAL? WHAT BETRAYAL? THE PROCESS OF SELF-ASSESSMENT

The question is often asked, 'In what ways does the modern Church differ significantly from the Church of the New Testament and early times?' and the answers given are as varied as the convictions and susceptibilities of the respondents. The question is always considered to be worth raising because, given that the New Testament Church is accorded a normative and paradigmatic status, any changes in the Church of today tend to be assessed in the first instance against New Testament Church practices and beliefs, though admittedly any resultant observed deviation is not automatically to be condemned or discarded. At the same time, if such a deviation were to amount to the abandonment or the loss of some feature seen to be an essential element in the life of the New Testament Church, the question of 'betrayal' would certainly arise. The question is one which almost cyclically emerges when the Church is going through a period of self-analysis brought on by falling numbers, apparent loss of contact with youth, the spread of secularism, or whatever cause – and there are many possibilities – and it represents a serious attempt to exorcise a sense of guilt due to a fear that somehow the present generation has failed in some major perception of Christian truth. Rarely has that process of self-analysis, as well as the guilt which inspired it, been so much in evidence as is the case today, not only in any single denomination but also across the ecumenical board. So we shall begin by considering a series of possible answers to our opening question concerning the different ways in which the modern Church differs from the New Testament and the early Church. The purpose of such a review

will be to determine whether, on the one hand, these differences constitute development of the true nature and insights of the New Testament and early Church; or whether, on the other hand, the differences amount to 'betrayal' by the modern Church of the New Testament understanding of the very being of God and how he acts in the hearts of believers, in the life of the Church and in history and the world.

First, there are some immediately obvious differences between the New Testament Church and its modern counterpart, such as size, power and social importance. Beginning as a small group within the Jewish community in Israel and reaching forth to towns in neighbouring countries where the Roman and Greek influence overshadowed any Judaic presence, the early Church could never be characterised as other than a diminutive sect. Nor were its members, on the whole, of outstanding status. Paul was not attempting to generate modesty in his readers, or to express contempt for them, when he wrote, 'For consider your call, brethren; not many of you were wise according to worldly standards, not many were powerful, not many were of noble birth' (1 Cor 1.26, RSV). It was not until the fourth century, with Constantine's formal adoption of the faith, that growth in numbers began to appear. With that growth also came power, through the heightened social and political standing of the members of the Church.

The story of the Church since then is a record of its aggrandisement in each of these three respects – size, power and standing. We shall not attempt to trace the appearance in the Middle Ages of a thinly-disguised theocracy which, even when it broke up, left traces of its ideal in many of the countries which rebelled against it. But when we come to the present time, despite the widely-canvassed accounts of disappearing worshippers and declining faith, it remains true that the Church in the United Kingdom, at least, would still expect to number among its committed membership many who are influential in state and society. But its membership has spread far beyond the Mediterranean basin and its northern environs, to America, Africa, the rim of the Pacific and the thousands of islands in the Ocean. In

some of these regions the expansion has been exponential, so that now, in addition to the powerful, there are those in many parts who would still recognise themselves in the words of Paul. In this vast and heterogeneous agglomeration, the Church has clearly come a long way in terms of size, geographical distribution, influence and social standing, from the small pockets of Christian believers whom we encounter in the pages of the New Testament.

Secondly, this enormous spread of the Church around the world has not consisted solely of numerical growth. It has become complex in two respects, when we compare it with the Church of the New Testament. On the one hand, there have come into existence across the centuries literally hundreds of different denominations. It would be wrong to idolise the early Church as if it were without factions and without internal and sometimes bitter controversy. Paul had no hesitation in conveying his condemnation to the Corinthians when evidence of fragmentation had begun to appear in their midst. 'I appeal to you brethren,' he wrote (1 Cor 1.10ff, RSV),

> by the name of our Lord Jesus Christ, that all of you agree and that there be no dissensions among you, but that you be united in the same mind and the same judgment. For it has been reported to me by Chloe's people that there is quarrelling among you, my brethren. ... What I mean is that each one of you says, 'I belong to Paul', or 'I belong to Apollos', or 'I belong to Cephas', or 'I belong to Christ'. Is Christ divided?

Even so, given the incipient divisions of the early Church, there is no comparison between them and the sheer proliferations we encounter in the Church today. These modern divisions might be said to be the major concern of the modern ecumenical movement, in so far as it makes periodic expressions of guilt over the 'unhappy divisions' in the Church, though it is guilt which seems rarely to lead to genuine repentance or to be resolved in redemptive, healing grace. For, apart from limited unions in

South India, England and Australia, it rarely achieves any large-scale international success in creating a union of an integrated nature. More frequently, the divisions are genuinely 'unhappy' and infrequently repented of, in that they are the basis of considerable mutual disparagement and questioning of authentic Christian standing. Indeed, so intractable are the divisions in the modern Church, so crocodilian the tears we weep over our divided denominations, and so ineffectual our attempts to unite them, that one cannot but wonder if there is not some 'more excellent way'. It might be found in the very imagery which is so popular in ecumenical circles – the Pauline image of the Church as the body of Christ, to be found at 1 Cor 12.27ff (RSV), 'Now you are the body of Christ and individually members of it', a sentence which sums up a long passage, beginning at v. 12 of that same chapter, where Paul has spelled out what exactly this image means. In it he has demonstrated that the image certainly does not imply uniformity of membership of the body: 'If all were a single organ, where would the body be?' (v. 19). Accordingly, it has always seemed to me inappropriate that uniformity should be implicitly assumed, when not overtly promulgated, as the ideal of ecumenical relations, especially when a fair case could be made out for the retention of the existing denominations along the lines of the Pauline image but minus, of course, the thinly-veiled mutual disparagement. So, in comparison with the early Church, the modern Church has borne vast denominational divisions and animosities, which the unsympathetic historian might say were present in the atavistic rivalries of the pro-Cephas, pro-Apollos, pro-Paul and pro-Christ parties in the first century. The difference, it might cynically be said, is more one of degree than of kind.

On the other hand, there has been a complexification in the modern Church which imparts a deeper dimension to the divisions between the denominations, namely, the evolution of the concept of hierarchy, which takes many forms according to the denominations in which it appears. The variety of hierarchy ranges from the firmly formalised threefold ministry of the Roman Catholic, Orthodox and Anglican Churches, with several

refinements thereof, and with in each case a supreme head, Pope, Archbishop, Patriarch or Metropolitan; through a system of ministry ordained to Word and sacrament, and ordained elders, with Moderators or Conference Presidents appointed for a year or a longer but terminable period in close connection with a General Assembly, Presbytery or Conference – again with variations thereof; to a loosely-formed group, with no seniority as between members. This account is sketchy and not meant to be complete or fully representative, but it serves the purpose of showing that growth in numbers of church members has seen the appearance of an immense variety of ecclesiastical structures, going far beyond anything observable in the New Testament or the early centuries. It is sometimes argued that what we have today is a straight-line development of the threefold ministry observable in the early Church, but it is a difficult case to sustain. Agreed, there are references to a form of threefold ministry of bishop, presbyter and deacon, but the structure is so foetal and skeletal in form that it has been cited in support of most of the forms of ministry in the major denominations. It is, therefore, scarcely valid to claim that what we have today, in one or other of the ministerial orders mentioned above, is a development from that *ur*-ministry, other than in the very neutral sense that it or they have in fact followed it historically and endeavoured to engross it in their structure, a claim usually made by them all.

Thirdly, pursuing the range of answers to the question, 'In what ways does the modern Church differ most significantly from the New Testament Church?', we come to the immense intellectual sophistication, in both medieval and modern times, in the content or 'substance' of the faith, which was initially fairly simple in form. This process has taken three directions. First, it has become much more elaborate internally, acquiring a fairly formalised and systematised structure, sometimes to a degree far outstripping the apprehension of ordinary believers. It would be wrong to suggest that the New Testament is without doctrinal affirmation, for there are several statements which express in different ways what Christians of those early days believed and, by their nature, we understand that they were not so much ingre-

dients in an intellectual dogmatic as elements in a simple liturgy or in divine worship. That such elaboration should ever have taken place is a subject of wonderment, for it is scarcely necessary for the purpose of sustaining faith in Jesus Christ, or the Church's worship of God. Anselm's description of theology as *fides quaerens intellectum* ('faith seeking self-understanding') is an excellent account of what is involved in this process of intellectual dogmatic elaboration.

We may look in a second direction to see how this elaboration took place, and we notice at once that it involved the adoption of some of the views or concepts which existed in the cultural environment in which the Christian faith was being presented. There is evidence of the process in the New Testament, as the disciples move from the Jewish ambience out into the Graeco-Roman empire. The term 'Logos', used so effectively by St John in his gospel, had a power of communication to those with little understanding of the Jewish Messiah. But as we go on farther, we notice that Aristotelian concepts find their way into classical orthodox christology, with such terms as *physis* and *hypostasis* acquiring central status. We can advance still further, to much more recent times, for example, when generations trained philosophically in the thought of Hegel were likely to interpret Christian doctrinal themes, such as the Trinity, in Hegelian terms; while it is no exaggeration to suggest that many of our contemporaries who had been brought up in a scientific culture were saved for Christianity by the writing of Teilhard de Chardin (e.g., by his *Science and Christ*, ET, London, 1965). The Gifford Lectures, when they have been Christianity-related, have been in this tradition, and their method has stimulated considerable criticism, mainly from Barthians, as to whether the Christian faith was, in this amalgam, subordinated to, and therefore in a sense falsified by, the philosophy used to express it. Such a criticism yields immediately an answer to our question concerning the difference between the Church and its faith in New Testament times and as it is now. The difference would have to be between an original pure form and a later progressive development or deviant adulteration, according to your point of view.

We have now to turn to a third direction which the increasing sophistication of theology has followed, namely, the growth of the discipline traditionally called 'apologetics', that branch of theology which endeavours to answer the objections raised against different parts of the faith, and also to refute false and heretical interpretations of the faith. There are some signs in the New Testament that the early Church had to deal with misinterpretations of the faith, most noticeably docetism; but in subsequent centuries it found itself in a variety of different cultural environments – such as Platonism, Aristotelianism, Islam and, in more modern times, empiricism, logical positivism, historicism, scientism and dialectical materialism, which in their different ways presented profoundly serious objections to the truth of the Christian faith. Faced with such pressures, theologians seem to have endeavoured to meet any attacks head-on, in the conviction that what was at stake was not simply an intellectual point but the very survival of the faith of so many of their contemporaries who were in danger of succumbing. The result was that that part of the faith which called for the defensive strategy was often developed to a stage beyond other parts of the faith. In the case of Anselm (1033–1109), a virtue was made of a necessity. In his book, *Cur Deus Homo*, 'Boso' had brought to 'Anselmus' the difficulties which his fellow-monks encountered in theories about the death of Christ. 'Anselmus' examined the problems raised, one by one, also listening carefully to any residual doubts which 'Boso' entertained about the answers. The result was that, from an apologetic situation of a standard type, Anselm worked out what has been regarded as the first full account of the doctrine of the atonement. He applied this technique to other aspects of the doctrine of God, christology and pneumatology. But in a much less systematised way, similar results had been happening for a long time. It was in conflict with the Arians that Athanasius hammered out his understanding of the incarnation, and with the Pneumatomachoi, his view of the Holy Spirit. It is a theme which stretches across the whole history of theology, but such further study would but confirm the central point. So, in this apologetic process, we can glimpse, as we have not so far been able to do,

why there has taken place such an extensive elaboration of what was, in New Testament terms, a fairly simple and straightforward faith. It has been produced through successive attempts, in different generations and changed cultural environments, to present answers to objections to different parts of the faith. Sometimes these answers have been over-sophisticated for those who were not beset by the difficulties which sparked off the responses, but presumably they carried some conviction to those involved. Yet, because these difficulties were dictated, in the first instance, by circumstances outside of the faith, the elaboration has not always been systematic and balanced.

Fourthly, comparison of the simplicity of the original doctrine of the early Church with its modern sophistication leads us to another possible area of difference, namely, that of the eucharist and the liturgy associated with it. Within the liturgy, Gregory Dix, *The Shape of the Liturgy*, chapter 1, *passim* clearly distinguishes three items: first, 'the single rite of the broken Bread and the blessed Cup' within the historical tradition instituted by Jesus, as found in 1 Cor 11.23ff and inspiring a range of allusions in the New Testament which bring out the meaning of the rite; secondly, the outline, or 'shape', of the eucharistic celebration as a whole; and, thirdly, the eucharistic prayer, which revolved around the central action of the eucharist. Whereas the received opinion since the seventeenth century (Dix, p. 5) had been that all eucharistic liturgies in the second to the fourth centuries, both in structure and origin, had the same source in a uniform 'apostolic' model, Dix employs the distinctions above recorded to rebut this opinion. He maintains that the eucharistic rite of the broken Bread and the blessed Cup had the authority which derived from Jesus (as Paul indicated). The shape of the eucharistic liturgy could certainly be established in the apostolic tradition, a fact which is borne out by its sameness 'after three hundred years of independent existence in widely scattered churches' (Dix, p. 5). But, on the contrary, the *content* of the 'eucharistic prayer', during that same period, exhibits considerable local and familial variations in the interpretation of the central eucharistic action and the New Testament meanings of it. Because of the dominical

authority of the eucharistic action, such interpretations fell within certain definite lines.

> Throughout the pre-Nicene age these local eucharistic prayers were continuously developing, dear to the people from local tradition and lifelong personal associations and the habits of devotion, and hallowed by the memory of great saints and martyrs who had observed or ordained them. (Dix, p. 8)

This schema which we owe to Dix provides us with a very straightforward grid for comparison of early eucharistic practice with modern services. For example, the first element in Dix's threefold distinction, the affirmation of the association, which could be regarded as including the identification, of the elements with Christ's own sacrificial Body and Blood, together with the recognition of the source of this association in the words of Jesus, is certainly common to ancient and modern usage. The single, chief noticeable difference between the two is the growing tendency in many modern liturgies to omit the word 'broken' (Greek *klomenon*) from the words of institution, a textual amendment made in concession to a piece of faulty criticism and in defiance of most of the early liturgies examined by Dix (pp. 157ff). Nevertheless, it is distinctly moving to know that in hearing the words of Jesus, we are today united with a living tradition which takes us back to the very roots of the apostolic Church, and to the words and intention of Our Lord.

Next, when we make comparisons on the basis of Dix's second point, the 'shape' of the liturgy, and his third point, on the way in which, for all their idiosyncrasies of expression, the various forms of the great eucharistic prayer observe certain prescribed themes, we are struck by a number of differences between modern and early practice. For example, what is immediately noticeable today is the sheer variety of 'shape', seen in the rearrangement of the 'parts' of the shape and even in the omission of some – variety to be found not only between different denominations, but also within individual denominations. It is a subject in itself to discover what, and how wide-ranging, such variations are, for

'alternative' services have now proliferated in all denominations. But without committing the error of simplistic generalisation, we may add that the variations in shape extend to, and influence, the content of the great eucharistic prayer (by whichever name we call it) with changes dictated by preconceptions connected with the theology of the sacrament, and the omission of such important parts as the *epiklesis* or invocation, which in real terms amounts to the ignoring of the role of the Holy Spirit in the eucharist.

Two comments may be made on the situation as regards the liturgy of the eucharist in the modern Church. In so far as most, if not all, denominations who celebrate do in fact honour the words of institution in one form or another, it could be said that we all fall within the tradition which stretches from now to then. I insist that we 'stand within the tradition' even although some denominations demand that other conditions be fulfilled before anyone can do so validly, for in honouring the words of institution we are 'doing this in remembrance of Him'. So at once the question has to be asked whether the meeting of that minimal requirement is adequate, on the human side, to create the possibility of genuine celebration of the eucharist. In other words, is this requirement, in addition to being necessary, also sufficient? Which takes me to my second comment: so much variation has crept into the liturgies of almost all denominations, that the time has come to say whether there is any virtue in endeavouring to follow the sequence traced out for us in some of the classical forms of the eucharistic prayer. My own conviction has always been that the parts of these older forms represented stages on the spiritual way to actual participation in the communion itself, so that they became themselves components of the whole process rather than simply otiose preliminaries to it. We have already noticed that from the earliest times there was opportunity for the presiding minister to give a personal and local quality to the prayer – but always in such a way that the accepted themes were represented. So in suggesting that more consideration should be given by the Church to the adoption of an agreed structure for the liturgy and especially the great eucharistic prayer, I am not contemplating a prescriptive form of words or sentences, but only that such

originality should observe certain guidelines and have certain recognisable characteristics.

Fifthly, in reviewing the readiness of the Church now to express itself openly on matters of social, economic, political (both national and international), educational, moral and religious importance, we strike one of the major ways in which the Church of today differs from that of New Testament times. Then, the Church was insignificant in size and influence, as we have seen, so that even if it had been outspoken, it is doubtful that it would have been listened to. Individual Christians would make their own confession or express condemnation of some evil, and they were rewarded with martyrdom. Even when the Church eventually emerged from being a persecuted sect to become the received religion of the Empire, there was never any confusion of roles – Church and state each knew their boundaries, even when they took every opportunity to breach them. Nor would it be possible to write the history of Europe in the Middle Ages on the assumption that, because of papal domination, Europe could be described rather simplistically as a theocracy. On the contrary, there was a high level of mutual acknowledgement.

But what we have in most churches today, certainly in the English-speaking countries throughout the world, is a phenomenon without precedent in previous centuries, and certainly not in the New Testament or early Church. I am referring to the practice, followed in most of the major denominations, of reporting to their membership with comment upon the most important issues confronting the nation and, in so doing, shadowing the policies and deliverances of the Government and the Opposition parties. Theoretically the intention of the entire exercise is to communicate to the nation a peculiar Christian slant on the matters highlighted. In the event, such judgements may appear, on occasion, with a Christian luminosity; but more frequently, they appear indistinguishable from the points of view of secular groups. This latter fact may be looked at in one or other of two ways. On the one hand, it may be argued that the identification of the 'Christian' view with what can be held by someone with entirely secular presuppositions is an extension of

the incarnation of the Word, part of the anonymity which so often characterised Jesus' presence in the world. Christians, exercising their faith in the world, cannot afford to wait until some idealised circumstances present themselves, so that they can then make a whiter-than-white unimpeachable utterance. On the other hand, the danger of identifying the 'Christian' course of action with an overtly secular line is that of lending a transcendent authority to a proposal which is essentially human and potentially flawed. Moreover, what is at stake in the widespread intervention of the Church into so many secular matters, with the implication that it has 'a word from the Lord' for each situation, is the credibility of the Christian ethic. What is not clear is that there is sufficient understanding of that ethic to sustain the range of informed judgement required by the many sophisticated situations which arise in modern society, politics, economics and world affairs.

At the back of this universal concern of the modern Church with contemporary problems there lies an image of the Church assuming responsibility for all that goes on in the world. The word 'responsibility' has a twofold meaning, and I do not feel that either of them is entirely applicable to the Church. On the one hand, the term refers to the obligation on someone to look out for the needs, the difficulties, the dangers, the wellbeing, and so on, of some person or persons, and to act appropriately, as we would say that parents are responsible for their children. On the other hand, the term is almost synonymous with 'blameworthiness', in the way in which we would say that Hitler was responsible for the suffering of the Jews.

Of these two senses of the term 'responsibility', the first is validly applicable to the Church in its relation to the world, but surely within the severest limits. It may hold up in prayer to God the needs of the whole of humanity, but that is rather different from thinking that it has an ethical judgement to pass on the multitude of issues that arise around the world, or even within its own nation.

As regards the second sense of the term, *a fortiori* it would be quite wrong for the Church to assume blame for the existence of

evils in the world that were perpetrated even in previous decades and centuries, the blame for which the present-day Church, Atlas-like, endeavours to bear upon its back. I find a considerable amount of vicarious guilt in the Church concerning many wrongs which were committed in the past, such as the deprivation of black people in at least two continents, the heartless neglect of the poor, the destruction of homes and the transport of vulnerable people to foreign lands, the methods employed in wars, and so on. These are manifest and fully acknowledged evils, but it is unreal to impute guilt for all of them indiscriminately to a modern generation, which, of course, is not to say that the Church today must not endeavour in every way possible to remedy such evils. Such situations were referred to often in the Old Testament, in the form of the recurrent theme of God visiting the iniquities of the fathers upon the children even to the third and fourth generations. In other words, many of the situations in our contemporary world are visited upon us for the sins of our predecessors, and that is 'fair comment'. What the Old Testament does not say is that we are morally obliged to bear the guilt of these sins.

We have here what does amount to a quite major difference, in terms both of the depth and range of involvement by the Church in the affairs of the world, and in the degree of responsibility that the Church takes for what happens in the world. But there would be few who would construe such involvement and responsibility other than as a development of moral principles stated or implicit in the Bible and especially in the gospel accounts of the life, death and resurrection of Jesus Christ – the widespread concern for the poor, derived as it is from passages in the Old Testament and from the sayings of Jesus, being an excellent example.

The question from which this chapter started was: In what way or ways does the Church of the present time differ significantly from the Church of the New Testament or the early days of the Church's growth? The hidden agenda of these questions and probing is that if we should come upon a difference of sufficient importance, entailing a lapse on the part of the modern Church

from some essential feature, some life-giving element, in the New Testament Church, we should then be facing a 'betrayal'. The scale of that betrayal, whether minor or great, would depend upon the significance to be attached to the loss. The evidence so far examined suggests that we have not encountered a difference of that dimension and gravity. In fact, it might even be said, with the wisdom of hindsight, that these differences exhibit a kind of inevitability, particularly if we subsume them under the category of development or evolution.

For example, given the exponential growth of the world's population, and the spread of civilisation and culture around the world, the Christian religion was likely to be known and practised in nations and lands undreamt of in New Testament times. There is nothing inherently un-Christian in a factor of size, nor is it unthinkable that the spirit of Christianity will reside in a parcel of believers in Antioch, on the one hand, and find no resting-place in a congregation of 9,000 in Peachtree, Atlanta, on the other hand. If such growth were not to be chaotic, we can see how, in sociological terms, it was next necessary that it should be organised and formalised. The fact that there proved to be such a variety of formalisation, in the immense variations of the denominations, is itself a proof, not that the classical simplicity of the New Testament Church was an option, once the aforementioned enormous growth has occurred, but rather of the necessity of some kind of structuring. Further, given the variety of nations, economies and cultures within which the Church has appeared across the centuries, it is not surprising that there has been continuing intellectual exchange, some of it assisting the Church in the presentation of the faith in terms apprehensible to its contemporaries, some of it, on the other hand, driving the Church to the defence of its positions. Despite the immense intellectualisation of the faith in that process of give-and-take, it would be wrong to conclude that as a result the faith has been submerged or compromised, or that sight has been lost of the great truths of the Gospel. Intellectualisation and simplicity have succeeded in going along hand in hand. From time to time the cry has gone up that the true word is not heard, but, in a

providential way, the errors have been corrected and the faith has not been betrayed.

When we turn to the great differences between the liturgy of today and that of the early centuries, we recall that the question of betrayal has already been answered. The core of the eucharistic rite, the dominical institution, links us at once to the early Church, and so dominant is its position in all thinking about the rite that, however idiosyncratic the prayers – and at times, it must be confessed, they do ramble – they rarely move totally out of touching distance of the words of Our Lord. Finally, while the case has been presented of the modern Church becoming involved in, and often taking responsibility for, the myriad ills of our time to a degree unthinkable in the New Testament, nevertheless, the claim to be acting out the mind and heart of Jesus Christ, and to be implementing the incarnation, must surely put such activity beyond the charge of betrayal. In fact, the basic ethic cited in justification and interpretation of such activity is often quite simply drawn from the Sermon on the Mount.

We have, then, concluded the preliminary search for betrayal of the Church of New Testament times by the Church of today, in a representative selection of fairly obvious areas where the charge of betrayal has on occasion been laid. While we can establish very convincing evidence of what has, at times, to be regarded as enormous change, so far we have found no justification for any charge of 'betrayal'. But circumstances, to which I shall now turn, have driven me increasingly in recent years to wonder whether that would be the complete judgement on the matter, or whether in fact I had not been prematurely optimistic in accepting that reckoning as final, and whether, indeed, I had not been unduly selective and limited in my review of change in the Church. So here personal experience obtrudes itself, providing that generating problem which, as I have often claimed, lies at the root of most books; and, perhaps, it is wiser to declare all than to claim the neutral motivation of a quest for truth. George MacLeod, in the Warrack Lectures on Preaching which he delivered in my time as a student at New College, gave his listeners a piece of advice: 'Consume your own smoke'. His message was that in sermons we

should not reflect unduly the tortuous processes we might have gone through in working out the finished article. I trust that I shall be forgiven if, in this case, I abandon advice which normally I would follow faithfully. So to my story.

My anxiety began when, some eighteen years ago, I was preparing lectures for a 'Middlers' course at Princeton Theological Seminary on the subject of the Holy Spirit. Part of the preparation, obviously, was to read through the relevant passages in the Bible, and especially in the New Testament, to see afresh the biblical understanding of the Spirit and to glimpse something both of the role which he played in biblical times and of both Jewish and Christian expectations of the Spirit.

In doing so I became aware of a number of things. One was that our reading of the Scriptures is either fragmentary, as when we read them in worship, or even atomised as when we are searching for a text upon which to preach on Whitsunday. Another was that any given aspect of the Pentecost subject we are dealing with tends to dictate our stance and determine our perspective, with the double effect of enabling us to see detail which would otherwise escape us, but also of blanking out items which might have been relevant to our enquiries. The modern computer which extracts all the references in a document to a single word or phrase carries this process to its apotheosis. So, though I had intermittently throughout my life read or listened to passages with mention of the Holy Spirit, I had never allowed the *whole* story of the Spirit, as we receive it in the Old Testament, in the Gospels, the Book of Acts and again in the Epistles of Paul, to make a conjoint impact upon me in the way we all have so often done with the whole story of Jesus. Now that the lectionaries are counting the summer/autumn Sundays as Sundays 'after Pentecost' rather than as Sundays 'after Trinity', we shall be hearing more about the Spirit than the frugal serving permitted under the previous dispensation.

It was not until some fourteen years later that I returned to this same subject of the Holy Spirit, this time in New College in the University of Edinburgh, in a course known as 'ST2B'. In preparation I began, as I had done at Princeton, by allowing the

sheer volume of the references to the Holy Spirit in the Bible to make their impression upon me. Once again, there returned to me with renewed force the conclusion left with me those years before, that there appeared to be a vast difference between the biblical and the modern understanding of the role of the Spirit in the world and in the Church, of the extent of his activity in men, women, society and nature, and consequently maybe even of the very nature of the Spirit.

Whether this 'vast difference' is rightly called 'betrayal' could not at that stage be substantiated, for it remained more of a reaction than an argued case. So more had still to be done. The 'more' emerged as I moved beyond the biblical period to the different accounts that unfolded as I followed the history of the doctrine, of which there are several excellent examples. For in the twentieth century, almost in reply to the varied complaints from such different sources as, earlier, Bishops Thirlwell and Westcott and, later, W. G. H. Thomas, Charles Raven and Nikolai Berdyaev, that the Church was lacking in lucid definition of the nature and role of the Holy Spirit, there has been an upsurge of writing on the subject, which has reviewed the history of the doctrine as well as offering contemporary interpretations of it. Such writing has, however, only served to bring out the problems which arise when you attempt to relate the present understanding of the doctrine of the Spirit to the biblical accounts of his being and works. The nature and source of some of these problems we shall consider next.

It is many years now since the late Dr Angus Sinclair of the Philosophy Department of the University of Edinburgh first introduced me to the saying of Hegel's that 'the owl of Minerva takes not her flight till the shades of night have fallen'. It has proved to be an enormous comfort to me on varied occasions – in the early days when Sunday was drawing relentlessly nearer and the 'shape' of the sermon was resisting definition, or later when a lecture was failing to respond to my immature imaginative fumblings, or – most distressing of all – when, at short notice, the call came 'to say a few words' and all memory of appropriate stories or humorous reminiscences disappeared in a mist of

incipient amnesia. This same image of Hegel's returns to haunt me whenever I endeavour to construct an account of the nature, being and works of the Holy Spirit. This sense of being 'benighted' is not, however, altogether simply vague-felt or indiscriminate, for it is open to analysis of the reasons for, and the exact nature of, the difficulties besetting anyone writing constructively on the Spirit. Our hope is that such analysis and subsequent construction will assist 'the owl of Minerva' in her flight.

For example, while it is true that there was a certain amount of controversy over the doctrine of the Holy Spirit in the classical period of doctrinal formulation in the third to sixth centuries, there was not the intensity of conflict and the protraction of debate on the minutiae of texts such as occurred in the christological controversies. The latter swayed to and fro for centuries and, as late as the sixth century, interpretations were being proposed which came to have authentic status and were still influential in the twentieth century – I am now thinking of Leontius of Byzantium (or, as is now strongly argued, Leontius of Jerusalem). By contrast, the disagreements over the Holy Spirit were modest, even though at times most bitter, the participants being all too ready to raise the cry of 'Heretic!' against each other. However much we deplore the divisive consequences of theological controversy, it cannot be denied that it 'concentrates the mind wonderfully' and yields clarity of definition, both of the orthodox findings and of their unacceptable alternatives. The comparative brevity of the Spirit debates, the narrower lines of interpretation followed in the formative centuries, as well as the lack of any comprehensive metaphysical apparatus to extend these lines – there was not to be a 'chalcedonian pneumatology' – ensured that the doctrine entered the modern period having been less intensively debated than christology, and without the canonical authority of a full creed. It was this latter deficiency which led to the almost unrestricted views of the Spirit, and which is our main contemporary problem.

Mention of the christological definition leads us at once to the problem which it created for comparable Spirit definition,

namely, the compulsion, as it seemed, to draw up the doctrine of the Spirit on a pattern similar to the style of christology, and to regard the doctrine of the person of Jesus as the evidence for the doctrine of the Spirit. Even though the two doctrines were undeniably connected, as we shall be observing, yet a method which construed the one solely in terms of the other prevented the emergence of the study of the specifically pneumatic character of the doctrine. Nor is it self-evident that the doctrine of the Holy Spirit should be treated as if the Spirit were a further incarnation, an *alter Christus*. In fact, reflection brings out not a few respects in which they are so very different: the Holy Spirit cannot 'be seen and heard, touched and handled' as Jesus was; he performs a different role in the *ordo salutis*, the order of salvation, from Jesus; while his relation to human beings would seem to be different from that of Jesus Christ, risen, ascended and glorified. Consequently, we might incline to the conclusion that the application to pneumatology of a method strictly analogical to that followed in christology would lead to the obscuring or even distorting of some of the essential characteristics of the former.

It was not just in the great formative centuries of doctrine that the person of Jesus Christ received detailed, if at times also very controversial, treatment, for in the last century and in this, there has been enormous continuing christological debate relating to the nature of the humanity of Christ, the historicity of the stories about him, the validity of the metaphysical categories employed to define his 'person', and so on. Once again, there have been no comparably profound disagreements about the person of the Holy Spirit in the same period. There have been many optional accounts of his nature and work, but these have been, on the whole, alternatives to one another, not in any sense competitively vying with one another or attempting to be exclusive of one another as has been the case in the modern christological debates. So, on the principle that controversy at times generates light as well as heat, the Church has received no comparable ambivalent assistance from the conflicting judgements of its doctors.

One of the major problems confronting the enquirer in the field of pneumatology is the question of the identity of the

subject. Again, the comparison with christology is immediately obvious, for the latter discipline takes its beginnings from the Gospels, which tell the story of a historical person, Jesus Christ, who said this and did that, and whose message and mission are explained from time to time by himself, and interpreted for us by the biblical writers. On the other hand, the sheer heterogeneity of the material forming the basis of our study in pneumatology, as we shall see, ranges from the inspiration of warriors, artists and skilled craftsmen, through messianic prophecies and moral edification, to the strange and mysterious presence with Mary, the Mother of Jesus, the commissioning of Our Lord in his ministry, and the raising of the same Lord, when crucified; to the formation of fully-rounded Christian discipleship as well as the unusual phenomena of tongues and healing. Part of that same problem is the matter of designation and/or semantics, of deciding if the Bible is using a periphrasis for God when it speaks of the 'Spirit of God', and again whether the phrase 'Spirit of Christ' is a periphrasis for Christ or for the Holy Spirit.

A further dimension is lent to what I called the heterogeneity of the descriptions both of the nature and the role of the Holy Spirit within the Godhead, first, through his incorporation in the trinitarian accounts of the Godhead; and secondly, in the specifically pneumatological definitions expressed with very considerable authority by the Greek Fathers. The former of these accounts, dating from the fourth century but already firming up by the end of the third, provided what were to emerge as the basic structures within which many subsequent descriptions operated; while the latter, dating from the sixth century, carried these processes in much the same direction of formalisation and conceptualisation. These processes, however, must not be thought of as independent of the biblical descriptions of the Holy Spirit. On the contrary, the writers sought biblical confirmation of their propositions, by way of extensive exegetical commentary upon the Scriptures. Their disagreements, which were many, as often concerned the minutiae of biblical texts as they did metaphysical interpretation of them.

2

THE SHAPE: A SKETCH

Given these formidable problems which beset any attempt to integrate doctrinally the various views of the Holy Spirit, and with an eye to assessing whether the Church of today has 'betrayed' a biblical understanding of the Spirit, we have to endeavour to find some structure in the vast body of material before us, in short to discover 'the shape of pneumatology'. Only then, and not by means of any snap-judgement, will we be able to discover whether the original insights have been secured or maybe even enriched, or whether the changes and differences have produced distortion and minimised the possibility of believers experiencing the Spirit. By this latter way would lie 'betrayal'.

When, however, we speak of a 'shape' that is discernible in pneumatology, we have to indicate what is implied. It is not being suggested that it is a programme followed uniformly by all of the writers dealing with the subject. On the contrary, we shall encounter an immense variety of ways of representing and of addressing the Holy Spirit, some of which are adopted by writers of different persuasions and others selectively employed by the same writer at different times in his or her writing. In looking for 'the shape of pneumatology' we are looking for the components of this rich variety. On the other hand, despite the variety and heterogeneity already mentioned, our expectation will be that there will be certain common sources from which they draw, a certain dependence upon one another, with a degree of mutual inspiration and certain parameters within which their descriptions fall, sufficient to justify our acceptance of them within the discipline of pneumatology.

In this search, I propose to use now-familiar terminology: the

term 'model' to designate that generic concept, idea or image, which comprises economically a given class of description of the person and work of the Holy Spirit; and the term 'pattern' to apply to the way in which the model is precisely developed by any single theologian or group of like-minded theologians. The pattern will then be an exemplification of the model, or a kind of sub-class within it. In a sense, then, we shall be engaged in the first instance in an exercise in taxonomy, a process of classification. Only then will we be better able to move on to the second part of our examination, when we should perhaps change the basic metaphor from the rather static 'taxonomy' to the more dynamic 'anatomy', for we shall be considering how the various components of the shape thus classified and analysed are fleshed out to operate in relation to one another within the living reality of the Church and the world.

A word of confession may not be out of place at this point. Obviously, the analysis and classification of the interacting and mutually influential components of the 'shape' are not the first, or yet the second, steps taken in writing about the Holy Spirit. They come rather as the last stage, after contact has been made with many, if not all – that would be an impossible task – of those for whom this subject has been at the core of their understanding of the ways in which God completes his works of creating, redeeming, sanctifying and perfecting his world and his people. The volume of texts on pneumatology is almost overwhelming but, reverting to Hegel's figure, there is no limitation of freedom to use the wisdom which lies at the end of the flight of the owl of Minerva. The statement of 'the components of the shape' to which we now proceed was reached after reflection on the relevant literature, and comes as the wisdom of hindsight. But it is offered thus early to enable us to provide a placing for the variety of views of the Holy Spirit, already referred to, which have arisen in the history of the Church, and have been rather prolific in the twentieth century.

So let us turn now to the process of classification, and in each case I propose to use a designatory title which will operate both as a shorthand and later as an identifying indicator, and, I hope,

enable us to see how the classes are composed and related to one another.

Since for most people writing in this field, the biblical accounts of who the Holy Spirit is and of how he acts are the usual starting-point, these accounts may be taken as our point of departure here. Even those writers who would reject any suggestion that they are biblicists nevertheless regard the biblical accounts as offering criteria of reference for the decision of points of controversy, and some will recognise the normative quality of the biblical accounts by the fact that they regard themselves as under obligation to 'interpret' them in a proposed dogmatic way. The designatory title for this class of treatment of the subject of the Holy Spirit will be: *Definitional/Biblical Pluralistic Model: Multiple Mutually Compatible Patterns* (see Chapter 3).

The components of this descriptive title require to be unpacked. The term 'definitional' in closest association with the term 'biblical' draws attention to three considerations: first, that the biblical accounts, presented in a fairly non-structured and non-conceptualised form, provide the basic data, the raw material for the definition of the doctrine; second, that they prescribe the range within which the understanding of the doctrine is to be achieved; and third, that they set the norm for our expectations of the experience of the Spirit.

So the first circumstance to strike us on approaching this material is its amazingly heterogeneous character. The doubt which, however, might thereby be cast upon any thought of a single comprehensive model is neutralised by the claim that the Bible, though composed of many books, is ultimately one in its witness to God and to his being and activity in the world. The heterogeneity in the biblical material appears in the immense variety of the patterns which draw upon it. No one theologian has ever endeavoured to combine the patterns into a single presentation, and, equally, few have failed to have some interpreter who did not consider them authentic. Consequently, despite the pluralism exhibited by the patterns, they might be considered if not ultimately mutually compatible, at least, less affirmatively, not contradicting or finally invalidating one another.

Following the traditional line of development of Christian theology, from the biblical sources to the patristic writers, we come to a group of accounts of the Holy Spirit which owe their origin to the doctrine of the Trinity and its placing of the Holy Spirit within it. In order to set these dependent patterns in their context, it is necessary first to provide the essential elements of the doctrine of the Trinity, recognising that there is no single canonical account of the doctrine in a form extended beyond the basics of the Nicaeo-Constantinopolitan Creed. One fact soon emerges, however, namely, that whereas it has often been argued that the existence of a doctrinal model inhibits any imaginative further descriptions of the Holy Spirit, in the present case, on the contrary, the trinitarian model has been the source of immense richness and variety of expression.

We might pause at this point to note that in taking stock of these two initial models – in broad terms, the Bible and the doctrine of the Trinity – we record the two fundamental sources of almost all the models used in the deployment of the various patterns of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit, both in ancient and in modern times.

One of the earliest expressions of the trinitarian model was the Greek patristic account, illustrated with minor variations by Athanasius, Basil, Gregory of Nazianzus and Gregory of Nyssa. They draw heavily on the dual sources already mentioned, adopting a tight trinitarian logico-theological pattern which they combine with strong biblical loyalties (see Chapter 4). A possible designation for this category might be *Trinitarian Hypostatic Model/Traditional Pattern*, thereby doing justice to the classical trinitarian base for the patristic theories, and the development of the account of the Spirit through the notion of the *hypostasis*.

From then on, the possibilities fan out in profusion. For example, in the context of Reformed theology, while there is general adherence to the previous account which is Trinity-related and Trinity-controlled, there emerges a closer association of the Spirit with the person and the work of Christ (see Chapter 5). The Spirit appears as completing and fulfilling the work of God in Christ, supplying the faith to accept the Gospel and the

will to embrace the benefits of the Redeemer, as compared with the association which had been emphasised between the Spirit and the creative work of God. So now what we have is within the *Trinitarian Hypostatic Model* but identified as *Christological Pattern.*

The position represented by the Reformers appears in a much accentuated form, as might be expected, in the views of the Holy Spirit advanced by Karl Barth (see Chapter 6). Substantially it amounts to a development of the account of the role which the Spirit plays in the atonement and revelation process. Like the Reformed theory, it depends heavily on the doctrine of the Trinity, and has therefore to be included within the same model, as the *Trinitarian Model/Revelation-soteriological Pattern.*

But the trinitarian model is employed in a quite unique way and expanded into an original and imaginative pattern by John V. Taylor in his book, *The Go-Between God* (SCM Press, London, 1972). He takes up the notion of *emperichoresis*, which is the term used in trinitarian theology to describe the way in which the persons of the Trinity interpenetrate one another and share in the being of one another. The word 'go-between' is an almost literal translation of the complex trinitarian notion. So we have what may be designated *Trinitarian Model/Emperichoretic Pattern.*

We come now to a model and series of patterns which deal with what the Holy Spirit *does*, and, while they do not claim in so many words to define the Holy Spirit, they effectively offer to us signs and evidences of how the Holy Spirit may be identified, and of where he may be found. I refer to the *Dynamic Model*, which requires to be examined in a number of patterns.

First of all, we encounter those accounts which, holding firmly to the doctrine of the Trinity in the matter of the deity of the Spirit, offer patterns of the different *opera ad extra* appropriately assignable to the Holy Spirit. Since these accounts almost invariably begin as follows, 'The Holy Spirit is God himself . . .', continuing in terms of one or other of the relations or operations to be itemised, such forms will be designated *Definitional Dynamic Model/Relational or Operational Patterns* (see Chapter 7). The relevant relations or operations to be considered will be:

relating to, involving in, identifying with, person-to-person relating, and person-to-nature relating.

Separate attention has to be drawn, in the discussion of the role of the *opera ad extra* in specifying the nature and work of the Holy Spirit within the dynamic model, to the relation of the Spirit to the Church. What emerges is a pattern which works, almost in point and counterpoint, with two opposing poles in a field which requires both of them for completeness, to encompass with any adequacy the wealth of relationships between the Spirit and the Church (see Chapter 8). So we have *Dynamic Model/ Ecclesial Polarities Pattern.*

One of the most important examples of the dynamic model/ ecclesial pattern is concerned with the highly significant Pentecostalist, neo-Pentecostalist and charismatic movements generally. It may be designated the *Charismatic Pattern.* Clearly this pattern has much in common with the first, the biblical model, and the patterns it involves, but the way in which the charismatic movements have developed, especially in the twentieth century, takes them into a category beyond the level of biblical interpretation, even though they have been solidly biblicist in their sourcing and in their loyalty.

Place might be found within the dynamic model for several other attributions to the Holy Spirit in the twentieth century. We select one example. It is now widely acknowledged that the Liberation movement and the theology which it has inspired, despite its connections with many different aspects of traditional theology and, in particular, soteriology, is sufficiently unique and independent to be regarded as a phenomenon in its own right; and it has been associated especially with the Holy Spirit, so giving us the designation *Dynamic Model/Liberation Pattern.*

The doctrine of the Trinity has, of course, not always been interpreted along the lines of the Greek or the Latin Fathers. Many modern theologians who still wish to adhere to the doctrine affirm that the greatest impediment to its acceptance is the sophisticated understanding which was originally given to the notion of *hypostasis,* or person. Given the immense developments in modern times in the understanding of the nature of person-

hood, ranging from the early accounts by Martin Buber of the I–Thou relationship, through John MacMurray's Gifford Lectures to the writings of the existentialists in both Germany and France, it seemed inevitable that the trinitarian usage should come to be affected – as indeed proved to be the case. What has emerged is the notion of the 'social Trinity', which can only with the greatest difficulty and inversely proportional success be distinguished from tri-theism. The consequence for the account of the Holy Spirit is that credence is given to the Holy Spirit as more than a function or a predicate, but as a substantive in his own right. So we have the *Social-Trinitarian Model/Substantival-personal Pattern*, which depends entirely on a revision of the notion of 'person' as used in the trinitarian context and therefore in relation to the Holy Spirit.

Others, who have been uneasy about the tri-theistic option in the pattern which we have just been discussing, have moved in the opposite direction – as has classically been the case in the history of the doctrine of the Trinity – and, holding to the unity of the Godhead, have preferred to regard the persons as attributes of God – in a very special way, of course, much as Paul could speak of Jesus Christ as the 'power of God and the wisdom of God'(1 Cor 1.24). In Paul's case, however, such a concept was combined with ample references to Father, Son and Holy Spirit, to the closeness of the relation of the Father to the Son, and to the Spirit as Spirit of Father and Son. So there is no necessary charge of monotheism or sabellianism or denial of the threefoldness of the Godhead to be brought against those who hold this view. We would entitle this category of description the *Trinitarian Model/ Attribute or Predicate Pattern*; and we might look to including imagination as one of the patterns descriptive of the Spirit.

There remains one other pattern within this dynamic model, which I propose with a certain diffidence, and I do so because it does justice to one aspect of the Holy Spirit's activities which an exclusivist Christian approach tends to neglect. I am thinking of the fear of some that we may fail to observe an important work of the Spirit if we take no account of his activities in the secular sphere, outside the four walls of the Church and freed from the

apron-strings of the Church's sacred theology – in fact, wherever truth, beauty, goodness, justice, mercy and love are to be found. This form of our subject could be called *Dynamic Model/Secular Pattern.*

3

THE BIBLE

DEFINITIONAL/BIBLICAL PLURALISTIC MODEL

Turning first, then, to the biblical understanding of the Holy Spirit or, simply, the Spirit or the Spirit of God, we are immediately faced equally with the heterogeneity and the pervasiveness of the occasions on which the Spirit appears. It is an area of research which has been covered in many competent studies, notably in the article on *pneuma* in Gerhard Kittel's *Theologisches Wörterbuch zum Neuen Testament*, by Eduard Schweizer and others, translated as *Spirit of God* (published by A. & C. Black, London, 1960); and by Professor Alasdair C. Heron, *The Holy Spirit* (Marshall, Morgan & Scott, London, 1983). So, to avoid the extravagance of repetition and to decline to use the old excuse that the dwarf, standing on the giant's shoulders, is thereby able to see farther than the giant – an excuse, by the way, which is valid only if the dwarf is looking in the same direction as the giant – I propose, while aiming at a degree of comprehensiveness rather than exhaustiveness, to make selective emphases which are particularly germane to our special interests.

THE OLD TESTAMENT

If we begin our study with the Old Testament, which has much to tell us both in its own right and by way of anticipation, we note that the word which is most frequently translated as 'Spirit' is *ruach*, which originally meant 'wind' or 'breath', of which there are many occurrences. Let us, then, look at the life-story of the word *ruach*, with its varied meanings.

We begin by mentioning references to the use of the word, *ruach*, which it would be wrong to regard as applying to the Holy Spirit, but which would appear to be the beginning of thought in that direction. For example, there are several occasions on which God acts by means of the wind (e.g., Ex 14.21f; 15.8; Gen 8.1; Num 11.31; Jer 4.11ff; Ps 78.26; Is 40.7) – to cause the sea to open up and secure a dry passage for the children of Israel; or when he sent a wind which brought quails from the sea and let them fall by the camp in a place called Kibroth-hattaavah; and sometimes also, as well as blessing and tenderly protecting, to chastise and to avenge. But it would be premature to identify these passages where God uses the wind for his own express purposes with the notion of 'the breath of God', still less with 'the Spirit of God'.

But there are passages where the the phrase 'the breath of God' does begin to appear; some of them, first of all, are associated with the Hebrew word *ruach*, and occur, for example, at Job 4.9, where Eliphaz the Temanite ventures the suggestion that those who 'plough iniquity and sow trouble' perish by the punitive blast of 'the breath of God'. This same theme is reflected in Is 30.28, where we are told, in the middle of a prophecy which assures Israel of the many forms which the graciousness of God will take, that God comes from afar in anger – 'his breath is like an overflowing stream that reaches up to the neck'. This significance is shared in the original Hebrew with the word *neshamah*, which strongly favours the meaning of 'breath', and so appears at Job 33.4b, 'the breath of the Almighty gives me life', with its strong assertion of the creative power of God. The close proximity of meaning of the terms we are discussing is seen in the fact that at Job 33.4a it is said that 'the *ruach* of God has made me', which the commentators agree may be regarded as referring to 'the spirit of God'.

Given these verbal and conceptual forerunners to our main theme, we address ourselves to the texts and passages where it is fairly permissible to say that we are legitimately dealing with the subject of 'the Spirit of God'. The matter will be presented in a form suggestive of what might be the progressively moral and

spiritual definition of the subject; but such a description must carry a caveat against the assumption that such a progression is textually traceable through the Old Testament as some form of 'developing revelation'. There is a valid, broad distinction between earlier and later views of the Spirit, but it would be a sign of literary–critical naiveté to try to tie the 'progression' here proposed to any fully argued case for the historical and literary relation to one another of the different books of the Old Testament. Our purpose is more modest, namely, to draw out a series of views of the Spirit which appear in the Old Testament, some of which are more mature than others.

First, there are occasions on which the Spirit of God empowers warriors of great renown in the history of Israel and commissions them with gifts of leadership. For example, at Judg 6.34, 'the Spirit of the Lord took possession of Gideon; and he sounded the trumpet, and the Abiezrites were called out to follow him' (cf. Judg 11.29ff; 1 Sam 11.6). But the Spirit was not associated solely with the warlike qualities of the leaders; for, in anointing Saul (1 Sam 10.6), Samuel assured him that God would transform him, giving him 'another heart', and that God would be with him. The same association of Spirit with leadership and kingship is seen at 1 Sam 16.13, when, after the anointing of David by Samuel, 'the Spirit of the Lord came mightily upon David from that day forward'. The reverse of the coin, the contrary happening, the sad sequel, is seen in evidence of a different sort, as (v. 14) 'the Spirit of the Lord departed from Saul' and in the vacuum 'an evil spirit tormented him'. Still, the true effects of the presence of the Spirit of God with the leader of a nation are nowhere more tellingly described than by David in his 'last words' (2 Sam 23.2ff), 'The Spirit of the Lord speaks by me, his word is upon my tongue ... When one rules justly over men, ruling in the fear of God, he dawns on them like the morning light, like the sun shining forth upon a cloudless morning.'

The cases so far mentioned have regarded the Spirit as endowing the leaders in question with special powers for their office, but honesty requires us to acknowledge other instances

where the power so imparted has little obvious connection with spiritual leadership or its enhancement – hence the unwillingness noted above to speak of 'development' or 'progression' in the Old Testament accounts of the Spirit. I refer, for example, to two experiences of Samson, at Judg 14.6, 'And the Spirit of the Lord came mightily upon [Samson], and he tore the lion apart as one tears a kid'; while at Judg 15.14, 'the Spirit of the Lord came mightily upon [Samson], and the ropes which were on his arms became as flax that has caught fire, and his bonds melted off his hands'. No less unusual were what might variously be described as two occasions or as two descriptions of the same occasion, the experiences of Ezekiel (Ezek 3.12, 14) when he was suddenly removed from one place to another by the Spirit. At a much earlier period (1 Kgs 18.7ff) we read of Obadiah's fear that at a crucial point in his telling King Ahab that Elijah is to meet him, 'the Spirit of the Lord will carry [Elijah] whither he [i.e., Obadiah] knows not', and the arranged meeting of king and prophet will not take place. And then – woe betide Obadiah!

Another group of phenomena associated with the activity of the Spirit of God comes under the heading of 'prophecy', but even within this group there is room for variety. On the one hand, prophecy may simply be defined as the ability to foretell the future, and, in an early example, Pharaoh, on the basis of Joseph's ability to interpret dreams and to prescribe measures to cope with the eventualities anticipated, proclaims him to be a man in whom the Spirit of God uniquely resides (Gen 41.38). In fairness it has to be noted that, for Joseph, his ability was not just some kind of innate second sight; it was a gift from God. Further unusual phenomena connected with prophecy of this foretelling type and associated with the Spirit, are to be found at Num 24.2, where the Spirit of God is said to come upon Balaam, and he sees 'the vision of the Almighty', the prosperity of Israel, and the exaltation of his kingdom. There is a reference at 1 Sam 10.6, in connection with the anointing of Saul, to the fact that, as an important part of the transformation in him effected by the Spirit of God, he receives the ability to prophesy (v. 10). However, it is an ability much akin to the contemporary 'prophets', who are in fact now

generally regarded as more like oriental dervishes, than to either foretelling (as above) or religious prophesying (to follow). It was almost a case of 'anything you can do, I can do better'.

On the other hand, as has just been indicated, there are examples of the association of the Spirit with prophecy of a truly religious character. At 2 Chron 15.1ff, we have what we would nowadays consider to be a fine example of prophetic preaching from Azariah. 'The Spirit of God came upon Azariah, and he went out to meet Asa, and said "... the Lord is with you, while you are with him. If you seek him, he will be found by you, but if you forsake him, he will forsake you..."' In 2 Chron 24.20, Zechariah, being possessed of the Spirit of God, castigated the people for their transgressions of God's commandments and was stoned to death for his courage. Again, in Ezekiel 11 we read that Ezekiel, who initially (Ezek 2.2) received his marching orders from the Spirit and who subsequently seems to have been the subject of frequent lifting and transferring (cf. 3.2 above), was inspired by the Spirit of the Lord, and (vv. 5ff) charged Israel with responsibility for the slain that filled the streets, and with violation of the statutes of the Lord. Consequently, for punishment, the nation was to be given over to foreigners, to be slain by the sword. Micah, in chapter 3, after a lengthy condemnation of the sins of the leaders of Israel, who hate the good and love the evil, who eat the flesh of God's people and break their bones in pieces, assures them that even if they cry to God, he will not answer them (v. 4). As for the prophets who have led God's people astray: 'the sun shall go down upon [them], and the day shall be black over them' (v. 6b); and 'the seers shall be disgraced' (v. 7). By contrast, Micah expresses his own vocation with the words, 'But as for me, I am filled with power, with the Spirit of the Lord, and with justice and might, to declare to Jacob his transgression, and to Israel his sin' (v. 8).

A number of comments need to be made on these different passages, before taking up the story again of the place of the Spirit in the thought of the writers of the Old Testament. For example, those passages which have been introduced as instances of the Spirit of God empowering 'warriors of renown' in Israel, appar-

ently as if they were individuals engaged quite successfully in their own private enterprises, in fact represent very much more. What happens is part of the great story of the nation and the ways in which God is, one might say personally through his Spirit, involved in that history. It is, moreover, a history for which God has a purpose, which is being worked out through the men of whom we have been hearing. Further, what is happening sits in a context of what was, for that time, world history, which is itself part of that same story. The point has sometimes been made, in the light of the passages which we have been considering, that the Spirit of God is synonymous with God's power. Yet while God's lordship of the nations and in particular of his own people Israel is thus affirmed, nevertheless what we witness is not naked power, but power with a moral or, more correctly, a profoundly religious purpose, namely, the ultimate salvation of God's people, as we understand it from the rest of the Old Testament. It is also a power which looks for a response of obedience to his will and to his commandments, and reacts when such response is not forthcoming in integrity.

Another interesting point appears. It is often assumed that the question of the relations of the *personae* to the Godhead is a problem generated by the sophistications of patristic thought on the Trinity. Yet an anticipation of the question is already appearing if we try to describe the relation of the Spirit to God in the passages we have studied. The Spirit is seen as acting, as noted, with all the power and authority of God, yet God does not lose himself in the Spirit, nor is he identified, without remainder, with the Spirit. Nor is it quite enough to say that the Spirit is the *presence* of God in this occasion or that, almost as if the phrase, 'the Spirit of God' were no more than a periphrasis for 'God'. Such a suggestion does not do justice, either, to the notion, recurrent in so many of the examples we have examined, of God sending the Spirit, or endowing someone with the Spirit, as with some quite unique gift. If terms are not pressed too literally, the Spirit, as we see matters at this stage, is God's *alter ego* going out of himself into the world to effect his will, or dwell with a person, yet not so as to deprive the person of his identity, but rather to enhance it highly.

The unevenness of the data so far provided by the Old Testament towards the definition of what the Old Testament has to say on the subject of the Holy Spirit – and already we have to be very careful, for the term 'holy' is applied to the Spirit of God only on three occasions in the Old Testament, namely, Ps 51.11 and Is 63.10 and 11 – is in clear evidence even in this initial examination. The heterogeneity of the examples in this biblical category gives us a measure of the dimension of the problem for anyone who tries to offer a monolithic definition. What we have is a clearly pluralistic model with multiple patterns. These are regarded as compatible within the compass of the Scriptures in so far as few, if any, of the writers on biblical pneumatology seem inclined to reject or discredit any of the patterns.

There is another group of phenomena associated with the Spirit of God which is sometimes classified along with the examples we have just been discussing, where endowment with the Spirit ensures prowess in battle or induces what appears to be ecstatic frenzy. In a very comprehensive account (Ex 31.2ff, repeated in a shorter version at Ex 35.30ff), Moses, after announcing that the Lord has chosen Bezalel, filling him with the Spirit of God, 'with ability, with intelligence, with knowledge and with all craftmanship', details the ends to which these gifts will be directed – 'to devise artistic designs, to work in gold and silver and bronze, in cutting stones for setting, and in carving wood for work in every skilled craft'. Not only so, but the Lord has imparted such gifts also to Aholiab, inspiring both him and Bezalel to teach others. These crafts and teaching gifts were to be used in the construction and furnishing of the tabernacle, the ark, the table, the lampstand, the anointing oil, the incense, the altar and all its vessels, the laver and the court, the raw materials for all of which had to be provided from the freewill offerings of the people.

I cannot find any passage of comparable length or comprehensiveness in the Old Testament (or, for that matter, in the New Testament) connecting the Spirit of God with the arts, as we would call them – with, perhaps, one exception, which is the subject of disagreement as to its translation. The passage in

question occurs at 1 Chron 28.11f, where David gives to Solomon all his plans for the building and furnishing of the temple and its courts, which echoes quite extensively the account which we have just been considering in the case of Moses and Bezalel. David has been explaining (v. 3) that God has refused him permission to build 'a house of rest for the ark for the covenant of the Lord', because his hands are stained with blood.

The RSV, probably inspired by the Septuagint and followed by *The Good News Bible*, translates vv. 11f as 'David gave Solomon his son the plan of the vestibule of the temple ... and the plan of all that he had in mind for the courts of the house of the Lord'; whereas the AV reads 'by the Spirit' for 'in mind'. It is a fine point, but I wonder whether the form of having something 'in mind' is not a somewhat modern idiom, while, on the other hand, the idea of associating the constructive arts, especially as they are related to the building of the temple, with the Spirit, is more in line with biblical thought as we have already encountered it at Ex 31.3 and 35.31, of which the passage in 1 Chron 28.1ff is somewhat reminiscent.

This association may be felt by some to be an aberration from the more important associations of the Spirit of God, especially with leadership or prophecy, but I am extremely unwilling to relegate it to insignificance for two reasons. First, it is an insight which, as I have said, I do not find repeated in the New Testament, even though some of the bizarre phenomena related to the Spirit do reappear there. Therefore, if we do not retain it in our purview, our final understanding of the full range of the influence of the Spirit is going to be diminished. More importantly, perhaps, it is an insight which any Christian, or 'post-Christian' as some of us like to say, culture could do well to keep in mind, and even to use as a medium of its interpretation of aesthetic presentations and events. To reject such interpretation is tantamount to confirming the secularisation of our culture.

It would be very satisfying, both in intellectual and in dogmatic terms, if, after illustrating the connection in the Old Testament between the Spirit and the arts, we were able to move without controversy on to the cosmic stage, and show that the creativity of

the Spirit, operative on the human scale, was thought and said to be present in the creation of the world and in its continuing maintenance. Scholarship, however, in this as in so many things, has shifted its position on the subject over the years, and no simple account of the matter is forthcoming. There are really two questions involved. The first is whether a valid case can be made for the view that a doctrine of creation, and especially of *creatio ex nihilo*, is to be found in the Old Testament. The second is whether it is arguable that a place can be found for the Spirit of God in creation on the basis of the references to creation in the Old Testament. Implicit in this second question is the problem whether we can find evidence in the Old Testament for the notion of 'Creator-Spirit'. Let us take these two questions in turn.

Whereas it was thought that the first question was settled in an instant by the citation of the Hebrew word *bara'* from Gen 1.1, which was taken to mean 'creation out of nothing', it was later claimed that *bara'* could mean 'to make out of pre-existent material', and several instances of such usage were cited. It was further argued, in favour of the same conclusion, that it was not until 2 Macc 7.28 that there was an unequivocal affirmation of *creatio ex nihilo*, which is certainly without comparison for clarity in either the Old Testament or the New: 'I beseech you, my child, to look at the heaven and the earth and see everything that is in them, and recognise that God did not make them out of things that existed'; or (to quote the RSV footnote alternative) 'God made them out of things that did not exist' (cf. also Jud 16.14; Wis 1.7). My own judgement is that the sheer dogmatic precision and correctness of 2 Macc 7.28 has inhibited the search for any Old Testament passages which might bear a similar meaning. Yet if we look again we may find that there are statements which, when taken together, come very close to, even – we might say – amount to being valid alternatives. Such passages occur throughout Isaiah 40–46; for example, in 42.5, 'Thus says the Lord, who created the heavens and stretched them out, who spread forth the earth and what comes from it, who gives breath to the people upon it and spirit to those who walk on it'; to which may be

added Is 40.26; 41.20; 43.1, 7; 45.12, 18. If these references to creation are taken along with the rest of the teaching of Deutero-Isaiah (Isaiah 45–55) on the subject of the nature of God, particularly his omnipotence and his transcendence, we realise that what in 2 Macc 7.28 is a somewhat brief statement, in Deutero-Isaiah is given content, compassion, sensitivity and the widest dimensions. God's creativity is described in the context of omnipotence and his greatness, and very often presented as the reason for God's clear resolution to redeem and regenerate his people.

But so far we have not mentioned any pointers to *creatio ex nihilo*, which is where most commentators leave the subject and turn to 2 Macc 7.28. But I am convinced that there are clues in the Old Testament that we must follow. The first is to be found in Is 44.24, 'I am the Lord, that maketh all things; that stretcheth forth the heavens alone; that spreadeth abroad the earth; who is with me?' *Who is with me?* – that rhetorical question may rightly be interpreted to mean, 'there is none there to help me'. The aloneness of God as he 'creates all things' seems to me to imply that in creation he was on his own in terms of the absence both of any assistance in what he was doing and of any material from which to construct the heavens and the earth as well as the people therein. Our second clue appears when we take the theme of God's omnipotence, which is so prevalent throughout Deutero-Isaiah, and match it up to the notion of creation: we have to agree that if God's creativity had to operate in the context of a pre-existent material, he would be less than omnipotent. On the contrary, his power would be severely limited by the character of the pre-existent material. When these two considerations are taken together, though the actual phrase *creatio ex nihilo* is not there, nevertheless the concept is implicit in both. More, if the concept were not implicit, it would be difficult to explain what they were saying. Which takes me back to the point from which I began – the dubiety in the minds of scholars over whether the Hebrew word *bara'* means 'created out of nothing' or 'created out of a pre-existent material'. If the drift of my argument is correct, then, in the case of Gen 1.1 and similar passages, it has

the former meaning. Anything less is not just mistranslation; it amounts to a misrepresentation of God's being and of his creative activity.

We come to the second question that we regarded as relevant to our discussion, namely, the place given to the Spirit of God in the Old Testament account of the creation of the world by God. Just as it has become acceptable practice in some quarters to reject all association of the doctrine of *creatio ex nihilo* with the Old Testament, so a similar attitude has been adopted towards the idea that the Holy Spirit is connected with creation. But it is a rejection which flies in the face of certain passages in the Old Testament. For example, in one psalm, which is without rival in the whole of religious literature in its description of the wonderful works of the Lord throughout the entire creation, namely, Psalm 104, the psalmist at v. 30 says, 'Thou sendest forth thy Spirit, they are created, and thou renewest the face of the ground'. At Job 26.13, we read, 'By his Spirit he has garnished the heavens' (AV), while at Is 40.13, at the heart of a passage which extols both the omnipotence of God and his sensitivity to the needs of the gentlest of his creatures, we hear the rhetorical question, 'Who has directed the Spirit of the Lord, or as his counsellor has instructed him?' and at v. 26, the challenge of the whole of the previous passage reaches its summit in a further question, 'Lift up your eyes on high and see; who created these?'

But no one discussing the place of the Holy Spirit in creation can long avoid grasping the nettle of Gen 1.2, for there has been a great deal of diffidence over, and on occasion resistance to, the acceptance of this verse as in any way supporting the case for the creative role of the Holy Spirit. Some of this diffidence is due to the fact that it is often presented as part of a more general endeavour to find the doctrine of the Trinity in the first chapter of Genesis, with the Father initiating the process, the Word being the form in which creation is set in process ('Let there be ... '), and the Spirit being the actual operative effecting the fiat of the Father. Again, it is felt that the notion of 'brooding upon (moving over – RSV) the face of the waters' (AV), with its image of an eagle hovering over its young, is too far-fetched to sustain

dogmatic interpretation. In spite of such misgivings, it is interesting that Friedrich Baumgartel, according to the English translation of the section *pneuma* in Kittel's *Wörterbuch* (ET *Spirit of God*, p. 3) should say, in commentary upon Gen 1.2, 'as before, the Spirit of God is grasped as a dynamic and creative principle'. Then, linking it with Gen 2.7, he adds, 'The Spirit of God is the active principle which proceeds from God and gives life to the physical world', but not to that only, for Job 33.4 affirms, 'The Spirit of God has created me and the breath of God has given me life'. Baumgartel sums up the position in the words, 'In this connection the ... definition holds good, of the Spirit of God as the creative, active, personal power of God'. It is a view to which Alasdair Heron (op. cit., p. 12) approximates closely when he summarises his own views:

> If God's *ruach* is God himself in action, and if his activity includes creation, the doctrine of the Spirit as creator must follow, unless the Spirit is to be detached from God himself in a fashion running counter to the thrust of New Testament teaching.

My own judgement then is that even if we allow that a full-blown trinitarian interpretation of the first chapter of Genesis amounts to unwarranted eisegesis, we are not thereby obliged to reject the reference to the Spirit of God as present and operative in creation. Moreover, if we are not prepared to accept such a statement, we shall have great difficulty thereafter in finding other loci in which to set the creative role of the Spirit. More positively, by acknowledging the creative role of the Spirit as indicated in Gen 1.2, backed by the other passages mentioned above, we are offering the interpretation which the passage demands, namely, the valid account of how the writer of the book of Genesis pictures creation as taking place.

Among the most important references to the Holy Spirit in the Old Testament are the messianic passages, such as Is 11.1f, where

the high religio-moral quality of the influence of the indwelling Spirit is clearly stated:

> There shall come forth a shoot out of the stem of Jesse, and a branch shall grow out of his roots. And the Spirit of the Lord shall rest upon him, the spirit of wisdom and understanding, the spirit of counsel and of might, the spirit of knowledge and fear of the Lord.

We could not have a more unequivocal spelling out of the consequences of the presence of the Spirit in the heart of the subject of prophecy, totally different in character from the dervish-type ecstatic phenomena of the prophets of an earlier genre or from the inspired creativity of the arts, and another dimension even from the work of the Spirit in creation. Clearly we are moving within the range of certain of the New Testament connotations. Again, at Is 42.1, we read, 'Behold my Servant whom I uphold, my chosen one in whom my soul delights. I have put my Spirit upon him, he will bring forth justice to the nations.' The chapter that continues from these words sharpens still further the religio-moral content of the Spirit's indwelling, unfolding both the intense concern for justice which God's Servant will have, and also the attributes of the God who endows his Servant with his Spirit, in a passage to be quoted by Jesus when preaching at Nazareth (Lk 4.18):

> The Spirit of the Lord is upon me, because the Lord has anointed me to bring good tidings to the afflicted; he has sent me to bind up the broken-hearted, to proclaim liberty to the captives, and the opening of the prison to those who are bound. (Is 61.1)

Now to the high religio-moral note are added two other distinctive characteristics, namely, the redemptive role which the Spirit imparts to the Servant, and the strong sense of mission which will now control his life and actions. The Spirit is not given for private possession or indulgence, but for the compassionate caring for the broken-hearted and for the release of the captives.

The complement to the commissioning and endowment of the

Messiah is the apocalyptic gift of the Spirit to the whole people as at Joel 2.28:

> And it shall come to pass that I will pour out my Spirit upon all flesh; your sons and your daughters shall prophesy, your old men shall dream dreams, and your young men shall see visions. Even upon the man-servants and the maid-servants in those days, I shall pour out my Spirit.

Or, as at Is 44.1, 3:

> But now hear, O Jacob my servant, Israel whom I have chosen ... I will pour out my Spirit upon your descendants, and my blessing upon your offspring.

Or at Ezek 36.26f:

> A new heart I will give you [Israel], and a new spirit will I put within you ... And I will put my Spirit within you, and cause you to walk in my statutes.

And, finally, at Ezek 37.14:

> [I the Lord] shall put my Spirit in you, and ye shall live, and I shall place you in your own land.

We have an enlarging of the scale of the Spirit in two dimensions which are to prove very significant when we come to the New Testament – in space as well as in time. On the one hand, the beneficiary of the gift of the Spirit is not one person only, the king, or one of the nation's warriors or leaders, or even only the Servant or the Messiah; it is the whole people, your sons and daughters, your old folks as well as your young folks – a whole nation that will be revivified, given a new heart, to enable it to fulfil the will of God. On the other hand, the promise is for the future, a time that is not yet, a time that is nevertheless in God's hands, and so a time that will be determined by him.

So, to summarise the position at the end of the Old Testament: the notion of the *ruach* of God has been seen to have the meaning of 'wind' of God and 'breath' of God, though even in these senses it was shown that this wind or breath could be tender, compas-

sionate, blessing and liberating, even if on occasion also vengeful. But the concept of the Spirit of God, from being regarded as the inspirer of the leaders, both in military and religious senses, soon became fully moralised and spiritualised, being associated with the redemptive purposes of God and enduing those blessed with this gift with a missionary intention. It is presented within the constellation of the accounts of the Messiah and apocalyptic events within which the Spirit will feature.

Before leaving the Old Testament, I should like to make two points that are rather different from one another. The first is that by emphasising the messianic and spiritualised uses and roles of the Spirit of God in the Old Testament, and by suggesting that these higher values are going to be the more important in the New Testament, I should not like to lose sight of a theme that appeared early in the Old Testament, namely, the association of the Spirit with the arts and crafts, the skills and expertise involved in the design and embellishment of the temple and the tabernacle, and their many furnishings. As we noted, the theme is not to reappear in the New Testament, and appears all too briefly in the history of theology. Yet my conviction is that, despite this infrequency, and impressed as I am by the eloquence of the presentations both in Exodus and Chronicles, I would be very anxious to include this kind of pattern of the activity of the Spirit of God in our theology.

The second matter is more complex. As will have been observed, I have shown a preference for the usage 'Spirit of God', once we had passed beyond the range of passages where the terms 'wind' and 'breath' answer more appropriately to the Hebrew original. Now, it has been argued that the phrase 'Spirit of God' or, as we noted earlier, much less frequently 'the Holy Spirit', is no more than a periphrasis for 'God', another form of which is 'angel of God'. I would not agree that even the latter is periphrastic, but I am convinced that the former are employed in a sufficiently distinctive way, a sufficient number of times, to constitute a specific concept, closely related to God and carrying, as it were, the whole weight of God, yet distinguishable from him.

THE NEW TESTAMENT

When we pass from the Old Testament to the New, as might be anticipated the picture enriches and the problems become more complex. We shall select the main elements in its teaching concerning the Holy Spirit, resisting as far as we can any attempt to impose structures upon it, and yet acknowledging that selection, any selection, has to some extent to contain subjective interests. So, quite openly, I propose to concentrate upon: first, the Synoptics; secondly, the Book of Acts; thirdly, the Epistles of Paul; and fourthly, the Gospel according to John.

THE SYNOPTICS (mainly)

We begin with the three points in the story of Jesus where his association with the Spirit is stated with clarity. In examining these, we are not claiming that the association was confined to these points, and we shall certainly consider others. But they may be regarded as overtly significant expressions and identifiable foci for a relation which was to prove fundamental and continuous. These three points are: *birth*, *baptism* and *resurrection*, the former two being documented from the Synoptics, and the last from the Acts and the Epistles.

Birth

The relation of the Holy Spirit to the birth of Christ is describable in a number of ways. For example, J. V. Taylor (*The Go-Between God*, p. 86) quotes what he calls 'one tradition' which associated Jesus' 'special endowment by the Spirit with his birth'. Now, this 'special tradition' cannot refer to Jesus being filled with the Spirit at his birth, for that was a promise which was made by the angel Gabriel concerning the son to be born to Elizabeth, when telling Zechariah, her husband, of the forthcoming birth, and nowhere concerning the child to be born to Mary. These

same words, 'filled with the Holy Spirit', are applied to Elizabeth when, now pregnant, she meets Mary, also pregnant, and 'the baby leaps in her womb' (Lk 1.41). But this usage is not applied to either Mary or Jesus and, in fact, in the birth narratives the Holy Spirit is not associated with Mary or Jesus in such terms at all. We have to turn, then, to his relation with his mother, Mary, and if the tradition referred to by J. V. Taylor is to be considered critically, we have to say that, according to the birth-narratives in the Gospels of Matthew and Luke, there is no evidence for saying that Jesus' special endowment with the Spirit can be associated with his actual birth.

That assessment is negative, of course, and avoids the questions of the place of the Holy Spirit in the *conception* of Jesus, of the description of that situation, and of the light thereby thrown upon the relation of Jesus to the Spirit. The subject has been enshrined in the Apostles' Creed in the clause, 'conceived by the Holy Ghost', yet despite this clarity, theology has all too often been diverted from that subject to a consideration of the virgin *birth*. Certainly, if we are to consider the place of the Holy Spirit in the birth of Jesus, then, following the texts (Mt 1.18, '[Mary] was found to be with child of the Holy Spirit'; and v. 20, 'an angel of the Lord appeared [to Joseph] ... saying, "...that which is conceived in [Mary] is of the Holy Spirit" '; and Lk 1.35, 'And the angel said to [Mary], "The Holy Ghost shall come upon you, and the power of the Most High will overshadow you; therefore, the child to be born shall be called holy, the Son of God" '), the subject for examination, in the first instance, is the virginal conception and not the virgin birth, which is considered in most of the commentaries. The affirmation of the virgin birth, which in any case is a deduction from the notion of the virginal conception and certainly presupposes it, is perhaps more appropriately associated for origin, according to Raymond E. Brown (*A New Dictionary of Christian Theology*, eds. Alan Richardson and John Bowden, SCM Press, London, 1983, pp. 597f) with the second-century *Protevangelium of James 19–20*, which describes the birth of Jesus as a miracle, avoiding the rupture involved in normal birth. Later developments into what became a doctrine of

the Church, describing Mary as a continuing virgin before Christ's birth, during his birth and after his birth, lead us to believe that this doctrine is more properly assigned to mariolatry than to christology. For the components of that doctrine there is only the slenderest of biblical evidence, if indeed any, and there is no connection, as we have seen, with the Holy Spirit. So let us concentrate on the subject that really concerns us, namely, the virginal conception.

Beginning with the biblical evidence, which is exhausted in the above quotations and is admittedly somewhat meagre, we are surprised to find that its credibility is in inverse proportion to its volume. As many commentators point out, the two gospel writers draw upon genuinely independent sources, Matthew from Joseph, and Luke from Mary. So Raymond Brown (loc. cit.) speaks of the 'facticity of the event', while, almost seventy years earlier, Alfred Plummer, in *An Exegetical Commentary on the Gospel according to St Matthew*, p. 4 (Scott, London, 1915), refers to 'the historical reality' and the 'general trustworthiness' of both narratives. Brown finds that the two narratives agree on little beyond the statement on the virginal conception, the logic of his argument being that differences imply independence. However, given the differences, it would be wrong to ignore what Plummer notes (and no doubt Brown assumes), namely, the presence of the Holy Spirit in the event, adding that the narratives do agree in some respects, for example, in recording that when the divine will was revealed to Mary and Joseph, they were espoused to one another; also that the name of 'Jesus' was to be given to the child, that Bethlehem was his birthplace, and that consequently his parents took him to Nazareth, where he grew up. In view of the case so stated, it is difficult to see why Alan Richardson, who had written the article on the 'Virgin Birth' in the earlier (1969) *A Dictionary of Christian Theology*, which he himself edited, and who accepts the same biblical evidence, nevertheless holds (p. 357) that 'the historical evidence for it is ... quite incomparable with the NT evidence for the resurrection of Christ, and should not be placed on the same level of credibility'. What he means to say is that belief in virginal conception – though he is one who

speaks of 'virgin birth' when the subject is properly 'virginal conception' – does not have the same degree of importance in the corpus of Christian doctrine as the doctrine of the resurrection. No one would deny that. But that kind of importance is different from historicity and historical credibility, and they ought not to be confused.

But for some writers that conclusion does not end the matter, and in defiance of it they raise various objections. They point to the myths in pagan religions of children being born of the intercourse of a god and a human woman, but that is scarcely 'virgin' conception or birth, and, in any case, the idea would be revolting to Jewish sensitivity. More serious is the question why, if the historical evidence were so authentic, the virginal conception appears nowhere later in the New Testament, despite Mary's survival into the decades of the early church life. Others question the authenticity of the biblical evidence by asking why more was not made of the virginal conception in the early Church, especially while Mary was alive and could have validated the record, even though Joseph was already dead. Two comments may be made. On the one hand, because of possible misinterpretation of the record which would expose Mary to the charge of fornication, and Jesus to the slur of illegitimacy, both offensive to Jewish morality, the virginal conception would not be widely publicised. On the other hand, just because of the high risk of the unacceptable consequences of such misinterpretation, the fact of the retention of the two conception-narratives points very firmly towards their authenticity. Suppression would have been an all too easy way of avoiding that sort of embarrassment. In critical terms, the retention of the conception-narratives amounts to the more difficult reading, and is therefore more authentic than their omission.

Perhaps the most curious handling of the subject before us is to be found in Pannenberg's *Jesus – God and Man* (ET, SCM Press, London, 1968), where it is argued (p. 143) that what he insists is the *legend* of the virgin birth is in logical contradiction to the pre-existence of the Son of God, for it implies that Jesus became the Son of God through Mary's conception. This view, amplified in

an extensive critique of Barth's account of the 'Miracle of Christmas', in fact seems to ignore the premise from which Barth proceeds, namely, that the virginal conception relates to Jesus' human nature. For Barth (*Credo*, ET, Hodder & Stoughton, London, 1936, p. 64) had claimed that the affirmation of the virginal conception by the Holy Ghost secured the fact that the creaturely human existence of Jesus Christ, unlike that of other creatures, had its origin in God himself and, Barth adds, 'is therefore immediately God's own existence'.

When we have thus reviewed the textual evidence for the place of the Holy Spirit in the virginal conception, we seem to have come, on the basis of such evidence, to a positive, if somewhat tentative, conclusion as to its historicity as a genuine biblical narrative. Such a conclusion, however, leaves us with the question which had been so casually dismissed by Alan Richardson, namely, its credibility or its right to be regarded as a subject of faith. At this point, most commentators seem to shy away from any kind of acceptance of what the biblical narratives are crediting Mary and Joseph with saying, even when, on textual–critical grounds, they take no exception to the authenticity of the narratives as part of the Gospels of Matthew and Luke. I wonder if that is quite good enough. Quite apart from the matter of the veracity of Mary and Joseph, it is impossible to see why they should want to 'invent' such stories. Their very improbability is a form of guarantee of their objectivity. The content of the stories is such as to be beyond the range of imagination of devout Jews, for whom such a close relationship with God would have induced in them the profoundest fear. Nor could they have anticipated such events from previous sacred literature. The text which soon appeared in Mt 1.23, 'Behold a virgin shall be with child', reflecting Is 7.14, 'Therefore, the Lord himself will give you a sign: Behold a virgin shall conceive and bear a son', does not carry any reference to the Holy Spirit, which is central to the New Testament conception-narratives.

I should like to return, in more general terms, to Alan Richardson's doubt about the credibility of the virginal conception, that is, the appropriateness of its being an item of belief. Let

me make two points. The first has contemporary reference to the fact that so many recent discussions of the virgin conception/ birth have ignored the place of the Holy Spirit in the event, despite the textual evidence, and have concentrated upon the miraculous character or, contrarily, the scientific, physiological impossibility of such an event ever happening. For the two people involved in it, it was the presence of the Holy Spirit which made it both credible and possible. The second comment takes us back to the earlier discussion of the place of the Holy Spirit in creation. The picture which seemed to be forming earlier was that of the Holy Spirit as the effective agent in the creation of the elements in the natural world and of the people in the world. Now, it seems to me to be completely in line with this thinking that it should be the Holy Spirit who once again plays the creative part in the conception of the humanity of the Son of Mary, in such a way that from that point this humanity was in the unique relation with the Son of God which classical christology has always claimed for him. In fact, it would be singularly appropriate once again to use the phrase *creatio ex nihilo* to translate the role of the Holy Spirit in the conception of Jesus Christ. To say so is not in any way to diminish the mystery of the incarnation; quite the reverse, for by placing the mystery at this point and describing it in this way, we avoid the dangers of adoptionism – Jesus Christ is both divine and human from the very start; and of docetism, because his humanity is truly genuine and genuinely human, again from the very start.

Baptism

The baptism of Jesus is recorded, with variations, at Mk 1.9–11; Mt 3.13–17; and Lk 3.21f; but certain elements are common, chiefly that after John had baptised Jesus, and Jesus had come up out of the water, the Spirit of God descended like a dove and alighted on his head, and a voice from heaven said, 'Thou art my beloved Son, with thee I am well-pleased.' We may note two points here: first, once again, there is not at this stage any explicit

statement that the Holy Spirit actually possessed Jesus, as he had been said to do to Elizabeth and John the Baptist; and secondly, the presence of the Holy Spirit is once again associated with the affirmation of the Sonship of Jesus Christ (cf. Gabriel's words to Mary).

We have to observe three other mentions of the Holy Spirit in the context of the baptism narratives: first, John the Baptist, in Matthew and Luke, says that, whereas he baptises with water, there is one coming who will baptise with the Holy Spirit and with fire, Mark omitting the reference to fire. This point was to become important in the history of the young Church, as we see from Acts 1.5 and 11.15–17. Secondly, Luke at 4.1 does make the statement for which we have been looking, that 'Jesus was full of the Holy Spirit', a fact which was in evidence throughout his entire ministry. Thirdly, after the baptism, Jesus was led (Matthew and Luke), was driven (Mark), out into the wilderness for forty days to undergo the temptations.

Resurrection

The association of the Holy Spirit with the resurrection of Jesus Christ does not appear in the Gospels, but is to be found in Acts and in the Epistles. For example, at Acts 2.32f we read, 'This Jesus God raised up ... Being therefore exalted at the right hand of God, and having received from the Father the promise of the Holy Spirit, he has poured out this which you see and hear' – a reference to the events of Pentecost to which we shall return. Rom 1.4 refers to Jesus Christ as 'designated Son of God in power according to the Spirit of holiness by his resurrection from the dead, Jesus Christ our Lord through whom we have received grace and apostleship'; at 1 Tim 3.16 we have a confession in which appear the words, 'He was manifested in the flesh, vindicated in the Spirit', the latter being a reference to the resurrection; 1 Pet 3.18 speaks of Christ being put to death in the flesh and made alive in the Spirit; while Rom 8.11 states the matter explicitly, 'If the Spirit of him who raised Jesus from the

dead dwells in you, he who raised Jesus Christ from the dead will give life to your mortal bodies also through the Spirit which dwells in you.'

These three occasions in Jesus' story associated with the Holy Spirit – his birth, baptism and resurrection – are not, of course, the only occasions of that association, though they are, as was noted, key points in the incarnation. We turn now to some of the others.

Jesus' own understanding of his being and mission would not be lost upon the congregation in the synagogue at Nazareth, as he read to them the words of Is 61.1f, 'The Spirit of the Lord is upon me because he has anointed me to preach good news to the poor ... And he began to say to them, Today this scripture has been fulfilled in your hearing' (Lk 4.16ff, cf. Mt 12.18).

When Jesus' disciples returned to him to tell how they too had been able to bring demons into subjection, Jesus saw in that victory the defeat of Satan and (Lk 10.21f) thanked God, rejoicing in the Holy Spirit, that all things had been delivered to him by his Father.

Again, Jesus instructs his disciples, in the context of teaching them how to pray, to make their petition for the Holy Spirit untiringly constant. Clearly Jesus here has in mind the notion that the Holy Spirit is a gift which God makes to us in response to our asking for it (Lk 11.13).

A fairly similar point appears at Lk 12.11f, where Jesus anticipates the persecution of his followers by synagogal or civil authorities, and advises them not to be anxious about their replies to charges, 'for the Holy Spirit will teach you in that hour what you ought to say'. We have here what appears to be a close approximation to certain occasions in the Book of Acts, and no doubt textual critics may accordingly claim that it has been editorially intruded into the Lucan passage. However, I would still be inclined to see it as a sub-case of the previous occasion of asking for the gift of the Holy Spirit. Either way, we have an indication of how the early Church understood the relevance of the Holy Spirit to the detail of their lives as disciples or as Christians.

We cannot leave the Synoptic passages without considering one of the most difficult in the whole of the New Testament, namely, Mt 12.31f (cf. Mk 3.28ff; Lk 12.10):

> Therefore, I tell you, every sin and blasphemy will be forgiven men, but the blasphemy against the Spirit will not be forgiven. And whoever says a word against the Son of man will be forgiven; but whoever speaks against the Spirit will not be forgiven either in this age or the age to come.

This text has in the history of Christianity caused much sorrowful self-examination and uncertainty over whether the persons concerned had knowingly or unwittingly committed this unforgivable sin. Various accounts have been offered, but an explanation for Jesus' condemnation of this blasphemy is perhaps not too far to be sought.

The context of the condemnation was the Pharisees' remark that it was by the power of Beelzebul, the prince of demons, that Jesus was enabled to cast out demons. The problem is, of course, the contrasting judgement which Jesus makes upon opposition to the Spirit and to the Son of man. No explanation is ever going to be completely satisfactory, but it could be that Jesus is saying that behind his self-presentation as the Son of man there stands the Holy Spirit who is the origin of his mission and the fulfiller of his destiny, the rationale of his presence in the world. To blaspheme the Spirit, then, is by implication to reject the whole of God's purpose for the redemption of his people. By contrast, to speak a word against the Son of man is to criticise the phenomenal appearance of that purpose and destiny. Alternatively, we may allow ourselves a Barthian exegesis: if we regard the incarnation as the 'objective possibility' of revelation – the event that happened 'out there' two thousand years ago – then the 'subjective possibility' of revelation is the power of the Holy Spirit to bring the meaning of that event home to us, so that subjectively we are enabled to appropriate the benefits of the salvation so revealed. In these terms, we can see how someone might speak against, even reject, what happened 'out there', just because he or she is failing to understand it, and all sorts of reasons might be mentioned to

explain why this is so. Such a condition would be forgivable. But on the other hand, those in whom has been fulfilled, through the Holy Spirit, the 'subjective possibility' of revelation and salvation, who have the fullness of that offer laid plainly before them, and who nevertheless blaspheme against that offer and by implication against the Holy Spirit the Giver, are in that very act cutting themselves off from the source of forgiveness. Even so, the awfulness of such consequences continues to chill the heart.

THE BOOK OF ACTS

In turning to the Book of Acts, which might be as accurately described as the 'Book of the Acts of the Holy Spirit' as the 'Book of the Acts of the Apostles', we encounter the clear conviction permeating the entire record that it was the Holy Spirit who was responsible for the birth, survival, growth and development of the early Church, through his inspiration of, and involvement with, the disciples. Here we approach the yardstick by which we hope eventually to assess whether the modern Church no longer regards such permeation as of the essence of its very being and the constant stimulation of its thinking, deciding and acting.

Pentecost

We begin with the story in Acts chapter 2 of the happenings at Pentecost, which came to be regarded by different religious groups as paradigmatic for all thought concerning the Holy Spirit and his activities.

At the start we note that the disciples were all in one place, so that the gift of the Holy Spirit which was to follow was made to them as a community. This context of the gift will remain of importance throughout the history of the doctrine. The phenomena followed, of the rushing mighty wind and the tongues of fire resting on each one. Then they were all filled with the Holy Spirit, a form of statement which will be constantly repeated

throughout Acts. They then began to speak with tongues, 'as the Spirit gave them utterance' (v. 4). From the passage that follows it seems to be incontrovertible that here 'speaking with tongues' means speaking in identifiable languages of foreign nations – Parthians, Medes, Elamites, Mesopotamians, Judaeans, Cappadocians, Egyptians, Cretans, Arabians and so on. Even allowing for exaggeration, the point is clear that what happened was not meaningless non-sense noises, but recognisable speech, what has been called not *glossolalia* but *xenolalia*, which expressed 'the mighty works of God'. So the charge was made that the group were intoxicated with new, and therefore cheap and nasty, wine.

Next, Peter takes the matter up and explains the situation by reference to the prophecy of Joel (2.28–32) which, among other things, specifically records God's promise that he will pour out his Spirit 'upon all flesh', a promise affirmed twice. That promise has now been fulfilled in the presence of Jerusalem Jews. But it has been fulfilled in a very special way and in a very special context.

Verse 22: the context is unfolded by Peter as he tells the story of Jesus of Nazareth, attested by God, delivered to crucifixion and death, raised according to the prophecy of Ps 16.8–11, exalted at the right hand of God and now, receiving from the Father the promise of the Holy Spirit, pouring it upon his disciples.

Verse 37: the hearers are then 'cut to the heart' and are told by Peter to repent and be baptised in the name of Jesus Christ for the forgiveness of sins and they will receive the gift of the Holy Spirit. So the community was formed which was to have the marks of devotion to the apostles' teaching, fellowship, the breaking of bread, and prayers. There are added the further marks of having all things in common and selling their goods for distribution to the needy.

This is a remarkable passage because of the wholeness and comprehensiveness of its description of the place of the Holy Spirit in the life of the early Church, which by implication provides us with a normative account of the place which the Holy Spirit should be acknowledged as having for all time in the history of the Church. It is the wholeness of the description which attracts. We begin from the phenomenal occurrence in

Jerusalem, which for all its strangeness is directed to the declaration of the mighty works of God. But at once Peter fills in the whole vast background to the situation: from the prophecies of Joel, which at once root it in the history of Israel and the promises of God, through the life, death and resurrection of Jesus of Nazareth to the outpouring of the Holy Spirit which was to be consequent upon the exaltation of Jesus Christ. But even that outpouring of the Holy Spirit is not an end in itself; it is the occasion of repentance on the part of the Jerusalem Jews there present, of their baptism and their receiving of the Holy Spirit also, and of the creation of the Church.

One controversial question may here be answered, the question whether Pentecost was a once-for-all event in the life of the Church. If that is a question whether the Holy Spirit was given only to the disciples (and, as argued by later dogmaticians, only to the hierarchy of the Church, who dispensed the Spirit only through the sacraments), then the answer in the light of Acts 2.38 is that the gift of the Holy Spirit is for all who repent and are baptised; and, according to Peter in v. 39, it is an offer open to 'to your children and to all who are far off, every one whom the Lord our God calls to him'. It is hard to extract a hierarchical control of the Spirit, even through the sacraments, from the widely embracing words of Peter.

Further references in Acts

When we move on further into the Book of Acts, we discover that there is scarcely a chapter in which the Holy Spirit is not mentioned, often centrally and strategically and by no means peripherally or tangentially. We shall group them according to similarities.

There are many references to the disciples being 'filled with the Holy Spirit': 4.8: Peter, filled with the Holy Spirit, responded to the challenge of 'the rulers and elders and scribes' as to the authority by which they had been preaching; 4.31: released from prison and returned to their friends, the disciples together with

the whole company prayed and praised God, then 'all were filled with the Holy Spirit'; 6.5: Stephen, 'a man full of faith and the Holy Spirit', when disputing with Cyrenians, Alexandrians and others, spoke with 'wisdom and the Spirit', and, at 7.55, when on the point of death by stoning, was 'full of the Holy Spirit'; 9.17: when Ananias laid his hands on Saul, the latter regained his sight and was filled with the Holy Spirit; 11.24: Barnabas was 'a good man, full of the Holy Spirit and of faith'; 13.9: in Cyprus, before the proconsul Sergius Paulus, Paul fixed his eyes steadfastly on Elymas, a sorcerer, who was trying to turn the proconsul against them, and filled with the Holy Spirit, rebuked the man and brought blindness upon him for his deceit and villainy; 13.52: the disciples were filled with joy and with the Holy Spirit, in Iconium. At 8.15, 17, 19 and 19.2, the notion of 'receiving the Holy Spirit' is introduced, as is that of being 'given the Holy Spirit' at 15.8, both of which are strongly similar to the theme of this paragraph of being 'filled with the Holy Spirit'.

There are several occasions on which the Holy Spirit issues directives, and so actually takes part in the movement of the disciples from one place to another. At 1.2 Jesus is spoken of as giving commands to his disciples through the Holy Spirit, and it is a role that the Spirit is to play on several occasions. At 8.29 we read of the Spirit telling Philip to 'Go up and join the chariot' where the Ethiopian eunuch was reading the prophet Isaiah; and at v. 39, the Spirit caught Philip up, for him to reappear at Azotus – an event similar in character to the experiences which befell Elijah and Ezekiel at the hands of the Spirit in the Old Testament. At 11.12 Peter, when called to Jerusalem to explain to the so-called circumcision party why he had taken the Gospel to Cornelius the centurion and to other Gentiles, told of his dream about the great sheet containing the animals and birds and so on, and of how when the three men arrived from Caesarea from Cornelius, 'the Spirit told him to go without hesitation'. At 13.2 the Holy Spirit gave instructions for the setting apart of Barnabas and Paul, after which the Holy Spirit sent them down to Seleucia (v. 4). Acts 15.28, where we are told that 'it seemed good to the Holy Spirit and to us that the men of Antioch who were not Jews

should not be obliged to meet the stringent regulations of Jewish ceremony', falls within this same category. At 21.4, 'through the Holy Spirit' they, the disciples at Tyre, tried to stop Paul from going to Jerusalem; and at 21.10ff we hear of Agabus binding Paul's hands and feet with a girdle and saying, 'The Holy Spirit says that the Jews in Jerusalem will bind the owner of this girdle in this same way', hoping thereby to dissuade Paul by the sanction of the Holy Spirit. The acted parable had no effect upon Paul, who had already said at 20.22 that he was going to Jerusalem, 'bound in the Spirit' and knowing only that the same Spirit had predicted imprisonment and afflictions when he reached there.

Sometimes the Holy Spirit is interpreted as a power working solely from within human personality, but there are instances in Acts where he is sufficiently externalised for people to be 'over against' him to the extent that first, like Ananias, they lie to him (5.3); and secondly, like the Jews addressed by Stephen, they resist the Holy Spirit, as their fathers had persecuted the prophets (7.51f). This externalisation may take the form of the Holy Spirit witnessing to the resurrection and the exaltation of Jesus, as had the disciples.

Before proceeding to two incidents which create a rather different interest, we may find it valuable to gather up the points that have been emerging concerning the Holy Spirit in the Book of Acts. For example, it is already obvious that the Holy Spirit is all-pervasive throughout the life and the activity of the early Church, to the extent that he might be said to stamp his character upon the Church, and to maintain its integrity and its loyalty to the purposes for which God created it. This all-pervasiveness appears in many forms. He is at the heart of evangelical situations where the disciples proclaim the Gospel of Jesus Christ and interpret to the hearers the significance of his life, death and resurrection. But he is equally present when the disciples are engaged in what we now call apologetics or defence of the faith. From time to time the content of their Gospel was exposed to intellectual challenge and even ridicule, and the Holy Spirit guided them to make adequate response. But the Spirit was not a

permanent possession, a gift which, if one had it, need not be renewed. This fact is borne out in two ways. On the one hand, we read of the same person at different points in the record being 'filled with the Holy Spirit'. It seemed to be given in relation to some specific occasion or crisis, some event which demanded an above-normal reaction. No one could ever come to take the Holy Spirit for granted, despite the assurance given by Christ himself that the Spirit would be given if the request were made to God. Therefore, on the other hand, the gift of the Spirit and the activity of the Spirit occurred within an atmosphere of prayer and faith, and were not psychic or psychological happenings which occurred in a mental vacuum. They were integral to the whole Christian life, structured as it was upon the facts of the Gospel which, as we have noted, were ever in the minds of those receiving the Spirit, and nurtured by prayer, which spiritually was the medium in which the Spirit himself moved.

There are two episodes which we shall examine together, because they gather in a short compass many of the points which reappear in the history of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit or, more accurately, in the practice of the Holy Spirit. It is relevant to note that they present to us a pattern of action reproducing in major respects the original paradigm of Pentecost. We take first of all, then, the rounding off of the visit of Peter to Cornelius, which we have already touched upon (10.44–48). When Peter was still preaching, the Holy Spirit fell 'on all who heard the word' (the point we have just been making), they being Gentiles, and so causing later problems for Peter. But further, they spoke with tongues and praised God. Thereafter, Peter baptised them with water, they having already received the Holy Spirit (v. 47). The baptism was 'in the name of Jesus Christ'. Note the order: preaching, acceptance, gift of the Holy Spirit, speaking with tongues (not specified whether in foreign tongues), baptism with water and in the name of Jesus Christ. The word 'baptism' is not used in relation to the initial gift of the Spirit.

However, at 19.1–6 we find a rather different order. When Paul came to Ephesus, he found some disciples who had been baptised, and when he asked whether they had received the Holy

Spirit when they believed, they replied that they had never heard of the Holy Spirit. It transpired that they had received John's baptism of repentance. Paul baptised them in the name of the Lord Jesus, laid his hands upon them, and the Holy Spirit came upon them and they spoke with tongues (again unspecified) and prophesied. Again, note the order: no preaching (as far as we can tell), John's baptism of repentance, baptism in the name of the Lord Jesus, laying on of hands, gift of the Holy Spirit, speaking with tongues and prophecy. As in the previous case, there is no reference to baptism in relation to the Holy Spirit.

I would like to take up this latter point, which I have made in relation to both of these cases. At Acts 1.5, there was affirmed the statement which we first met in the Synoptic accounts of the baptism of Jesus (Mk 1.8), that John's baptism with water would be superseded by Jesus' baptism with the Holy Spirit. This actual statement is repeated at Acts 11.16. What I have to record is that the concept of 'baptism with the Holy Spirit' is not an expression which the writer uses to describe the *gift* of the Holy Spirit, despite what J. V. Taylor says in *The Go-Between God* (p. 200): 'my own writing convinces me that the Pentecostalist is right when he calls the bestowal of this gift [of the Holy Spirit] "baptism in the Holy Spirit".' The equivalence between 'bestowal of the Holy Spirit' and 'baptism in the Holy Spirit' is not borne out by the text of the Book of Acts. In view, therefore, of the absence of such documentation, it is an unwarranted assumption to make, and one which will somewhat affect any later examination of Pentecostalism. In fact, it would seem that the phrase 'baptise with (in) the Holy Spirit' is used solely of Jesus, when contrasting him with John's practice of baptising with water. At that point we are pulled up short by the statement in John's Gospel 4.2, that 'Jesus himself did not baptise, but only his disciples', and, therefore, by the question of what is meant at Mk 1.8, and Acts 1.6 and 11.16, where Jesus is said to baptise with the Holy Spirit. It is, therefore, difficult to resist the conclusion that the New Testament Church did not describe the baptism which it practised as 'baptism in the Holy Spirit', and that it probably did not do so because such description had been pre-

empted for Jesus himself – and that, surprisingly, even though there is no account of his ever having practised baptism.

The question then arises of what bearing does such a conclusion have upon Dr Taylor's approval of the Pentecostalist use of the notion of 'baptism in the Spirit' mentioned above? Three answers are possible to this question. First, the conclusion, supported as it is by a weight of biblical evidence, creates a real problem for any theologian or religious group who hold a fundamentalist view of Scripture, as do many Pentecostalist groups. This difficulty would no doubt be met by means of some hermeneutical device of the type used by many fundamentalists to meet what appear to be discrepancies in the Scriptures. Secondly, it could be said that, even allowing for the lack of a biblical source for the usage as applied to the experience of believers, the phrase 'baptism in the Holy Spirit' is a very appropriate use of the analogy with water-baptism. It signifies a new beginning for the believer, a renewal of being, admission to the community of the faithful, and above all a new and special relationship with God, and so on. Thirdly, as we are now about to pass to Paul's account of the Spirit, we may briefly refer to his description of the life renewed in Christ as a process of baptism by the Spirit 'into one body', which may be the Church or the body of Christ (1 Cor 12.13) – but the arrangement of ideas does not quite yield the concept of 'baptism *in* the Spirit', but rather 'baptism *by* the Spirit'.

THE LETTERS OF PAUL

The impression left us by the study of the references to the Holy Spirit in the Book of Acts, namely, that he was a central figure, even a controlling figure in the worship, thought, decision-making and actions of the early Church, is totally confirmed by the evidence provided by the letters of Paul. In fact, the material is so dispersed throughout his writings that it is difficult entirely to formalise it. However, greatly daring, and on closer scrutiny, a discernible pattern does appear. Put succinctly: the Holy Spirit is

the guarantee, foundation, unity, medium, structure, morality, content, diversity and devotion of the Christian life of the person and the community redeemed by Jesus Christ. Let us follow these through in turn.

Guarantee

At 2 Cor 1.21, Paul, after speaking of God establishing us, writer and readers alike, in Christ, adds that God has put his seal upon us by giving us his Spirit in our hearts as a guarantee. The idea reappears at Eph 1.13f, where Paul refers to those who have heard the Gospel of salvation and believed in Jesus Christ, as being sealed with the promised Holy Spirit, who is the guarantee of their inheritance until they actually receive it as a possession (cf. 2 Cor 5.5). But the guarantee is expressed in other indirect ways; for example, 1 Cor 6.11, 'you were sanctified, you were washed, you were justified in the name of the Lord Jesus Christ and in the Spirit of God'; 1 Cor 2.10, 'what God has prepared for those that love him, he has revealed through his Spirit. For the Spirit searches everything, even the depths of God.' Accordingly, as the passage indicates (vv. 11–13), because of the gift of the Spirit to believers and because of the unique relationship in which the Spirit stands to God, they are given to comprehend the thoughts of God. (We see here the source of Barth's notion of the Holy Spirit being God's guarantee that revelation will be revelation; cf. Eph 3.5; 2 Tim 1.14; Rom 9.1; 1 Thess 1.5f; 2 Thess 2.13; 1 Jn 3.24.)

Foundation

At Mk 14.36, Jesus is recorded as having gone to Gethsemane and as praying the words, 'Abba, Father, all things are possible to thee; remove this cup from me; yet not what I will, but what thou wilt.' This special address of Jesus to the Father, 'Abba' – 'Daddy', as has been said – appears at two significant points in the Epistles, where, through the efficacy of the Holy Spirit, believers

are endowed with adoptive sonship, though the emphasis is slightly different in the two cases. In Rom 8.14, we are told that those who are led by the Spirit of God are sons of God, and also that the Spirit is corroborative of this fact; while at Gal 4.6, the emphasis is that, because we are sons, God has sent his Spirit into our hearts to cry 'Abba, Father'. In the first passage there is the notion also that this sonship carries with it participation in the sufferings of Christ (cf. 1 Pet 4.14). This whole life in the Spirit, then, which we are examining, rests upon the foundation of the adoptive sonship which is ours through receiving Christ, and it is the Spirit who enables us to declare the relationship through calling God 'Abba', and who is testimony to this fact.

Unity

The classical passage stating the unity of the Spirit which holds the whole life of the Church in one comes at Eph 4.3–16. Paul, the prisoner, is pleading with his converts to lead the Christian life to which they have been called in complete loving harmony and in steadfast intention to maintain the unity of the Spirit in the bond of peace. Such unity of the Spirit within which the Christian life in the Spirit is to be led is an analogue of the unity of Christ, the unity of faith, of baptism, the unity of the God and Father of us all. It is also the paradigm for the diversity of gifts that exist within the Church – apostles, prophets, evangelists, pastors, teachers – for the building up of the body of Christ, until we reach the full measure which Christ intended for us. But the cadre within which that whole concept of how the Christian life is constructed and of the analogues through which it is to be interpreted is stated from the start: it is the unity of the Holy Spirit.

Medium

I have used this term to describe how the Christian life is lived – 'in the Spirit' (Rom 7.6). Paul describes it as 'walking in the

Spirit' (Rom 8.4, Gal 5.16–25). The latter is a very full account of where the Christian life is lived, and how. We walk in the Spirit; when we encounter desires of the flesh, they are opposed by the Spirit. The works of the flesh are extensively listed and identified, as are also the works of the Spirit (to which we shall return). But here is not separation of the Spirit from Christ. Those who belong to Christ are those who are assisted by the Spirit in the war against the flesh and have been able to crucify it. We live by the Spirit; we walk in the Spirit; and such being the location of our redeemed life and the medium in which it is lived, there is no place for self-conceit, provocation of others, or mutual envy. Another figure appears at Gal 6.8, where we are told to sow to the Spirit, thereby to reap eternal life.

Structure

At 1 Cor 3.9, Paul describes the Corinthians as 'God's building', and forthwith embarks upon a lengthy account of the way in which the building has been constructed – upon Jesus as the foundation, with other materials being added and being tested in the Day of Judgement. Then he claims, at v. 16, that they are not just a building but God's temple, in which God's Spirit dwells. The imagery has now changed from that of the Spirit being the ambience in which we live and walk, to one of, you might even say, the Spirit being the atmosphere which pervades the temple which God has created for his indwelling. So the temple is holy and the Spirit within it is also holy. At Eph 2.22, Paul returns to the same imagery. At vv. 19ff, he pictures this time the Ephesians as being built upon the foundation of the apostles and prophets with Christ the chief cornerstone, the whole structure being firmly co-ordinated and growing into a temple, into which the readers are incorporated, and once again the Holy Spirit indwells this temple. In both cases the image is that of a structure within which the Christians live their life, but it is a structure filled with the Spirit of God, and so both contrary to anything defiant of God and supportive of obedience to God.

Morality

Now the discussion is carried forward from general principles to detail, as Paul uses the doctrine of the Spirit to define, and even itemise, the responsibilities of the redeemed person committed to live the full Christian life. In Romans 7 and 8, after a protracted analysis of the relation of the person living the new life in Christ to the obligations of the law, and the classical statement concerning our dying to the law through the body of Christ (7.4ff), he affirms that now we serve not under the old code but 'in the new life of the Spirit'. At 8.2, he even speaks of 'the law of the Spirit of life in Christ Jesus'. When we live according to the Spirit, we set our minds on the things of the Spirit (8.5). The Spirit has come, therefore, to fill the vacuum created when the law's just requirement was met in full by Jesus Christ. These general principles and wide-ranging sentiments are earthed in some very matter-of-fact counsels. At Eph 4.30, after some very straight talking and what we would now call direct counselling, such as, 'let every one speak truth to his neighbour' (v. 25); 'be angry and sin not, let not the sun go down on your anger' (v. 26); 'let no evil come out of your mouths' (v. 29), he instructs them not to 'grieve the Holy Spirit of God in whom you were sealed in the day of your redemption'. Anyone who is tempted to suggest that the new life according to the mind of the Spirit has any element of permissiveness about it has not opened, let alone read, the Epistles of the Apostle Paul. There is no encouragement here to 'love God and do what you like'. And there is still more to come in Ephesians 4, while at 5.18 his command is unequivocal: 'do not get drunk with wine, for that is debauchery'; rather, 'be filled with the Spirit'. Yet, at Rom 14.17, he puts such directives in their true context with the words, 'the Kingdom of God does not mean food and drink, but righteousness and peace and joy in the Holy Spirit'.

Content

So far, in speaking of the new morality which the new life in the Spirit involves, we have mentioned only the negatives. In fact,

Paul gave it a very full positive content, at two points particularly. First, at Gal 5.22, there are recorded as 'the fruits of the Spirit' love, joy, peace, patience, kindness, goodness, gentleness, faithfulness, self-control. I suppose that nowadays we would say these are the guidelines to be followed in the living of life by the Spirit and according to the law of the Spirit. Paul has already left us in no doubt about what has been excluded (vv. 19f) – immorality, impurity, licentiousness, idolatry, sorcery, enmity, strife, jealousy, anger, selfishness, dissension, party spirit, envy, drunkenness, carousing and the like. A further list is given at 2 Cor 6.4–8, when he is giving the grounds upon which he wishes to authenticate his ministry to his readers and says,

> As servants of God we commend ourselves in every way: through great endurance, in afflictions, hardships, calamities, beatings, imprisonments, tumults, labours, watching, hunger; by purity of knowledge, forbearance, kindness, the Holy Spirit, genuine love, truthful speech, and the power of God; with the weapons of righteousness, for the right hand and the left; in honour and dishonour, in ill-repute and good repute ...

and so on. It gives content to the life in the Spirit by saying in effect: This is what life in the Spirit looks like; this is the sacrifice which has to be made; this is the level of integrity that we have to seek to achieve. In a sense it is content by shape. It sets the good as prior to the right, lifting morality from the level of code-keeping to that of aiming at a form and style and shape of life to be lived far beyond the range of *human* possibility, and made possible only because it is lived in the Spirit.

Diversity

In addition to the fruits of the Spirit, Paul also treats at length what he calls the 'gifts of the Spirit' (1 Cor 12.4–11), which are: the utterance of wisdom, the utterance of knowledge, faith, gifts of healing, working of miracles, prophecy, ability to distinguish

between spirits, tongues, and interpretation of tongues. (A comparable list is repeated at the end of the same chapter, vv. 28–30: apostles, prophets, teachers, workers of miracles, healers, helpers, administrators, speakers in tongues, those who interpret tongues.) Despite this vast range and variety, these gifts are from the same Spirit. Further, they are manifestations of the same Spirit, and so close is the relationship of the Spirit to God in Paul's thought that he can add that it is the same God who inspires them in everyone. But the diversity is held in unity by another circumstance, namely, that the gifts are all given 'for the common good' (v. 7), and not for any private indulgence or for any exhibition of personal power. He employs the image of one body (vv. 12f), which is one and yet has many members, saying that through our baptism by the Spirit we are all incorporated in one body, Jesus Christ, and – a curious single occurrence of this idea – all were made to drink of one Spirit. The image of one body runs from v. 24 to v. 27, and the purpose is to demonstrate the need of each for all, the interlocking of each with all and the care that each must have for the other. But for our purpose, it is the Holy Spirit who has introduced us into this unity and continues to inspire us in this diversity in unity.

Because of the mention of tongues and of interpretation twice in the lists of agents and activities sustained in unity by the Holy Spirit, and of the long-term importance of this subject, let us consider for a short time a later passage (1 Cor 14.1–19) which is connected with the above, concerning tongues and interpretation. Paul makes the following points with unmistakable clarity:

(i) Love must be the chief aim of the Christian believer.

(ii) Seek fervently the spiritual gifts, especially prophecy. He proceeds to demonstrate the superiority of prophecy over tongues.

(iii) He who speaks with tongues speaks to God, and edifies himself, for no one can understand him, even though he is uttering mysteries in the Spirit. On the contrary, the person who prophesies speaks to men for their encouragement and their upbuilding. Speaking with tongues is like playing an instrument without notes. Paul seems to have in mind here the actual

language of foreigners (v. 11) when speaking of tongues, and not just non-sense noises, though indeed the result may be the same if the hearer does not understand the language or has no interpreter.

(iv) So, concludes Paul, if you are going to continue with tongues, then pray for the power to interpret. Otherwise, those who listen will be prevented from joining in prayer, singing or thanksgiving. Paul's comments are sufficiently clear. Speaking with tongues is an incomplete activity; it has to be supplemented by interpretation, which in this context seems to mean 'translation'. From this account of tongues, admittedly as one of the many diverse gifts of the Spirit to the members of the body of Christ, we cannot but conclude that in Pauline times it was not in any sense an invariable concomitant of discipleship or of renewed life in Christ. In fact, it is patently assigned a standing inferior to prophecy in Paul's assessment of the gifts of the Spirit.

Devotion

At Eph 6.17f a further role of the Spirit is mentioned. The Christian warrior has to take the sword of the Spirit which is the word of God, a very nice association of the Spirit with all the promises of God in Scripture and with all the mighty deeds of God in the past. He has to pray at all times in the Spirit, so that the two poles of his devotional activity – prayer and scripture reading – are sustained by the Holy Spirit. At Rom 8.26f, the role of the Spirit is taken one stage farther: we do not know how to pray, so the Holy Spirit helps us; and indeed, he intercedes for the saints as God has willed that he should do. At the point where our weaknesses begin to inhibit our endeavour, the Spirit takes up our case and prays the prayer which we so grossly fail to achieve. By this same Holy Spirit, the believer makes his confession, 'Jesus is Lord' (1 Cor 12.3).

To conclude this Pauline section: we observe that the Spirit is present across the whole range of the disciples' life – from their baptism to all the minutiae of daily morality, in the exercise of the

gift given by the Holy Spirit. But the Holy Spirit is the Spirit of God, and his work in the life of the believer is conditioned by his prior relationship with Christ, crucified, risen and exalted. The Holy Spirit is his assurance in the company of all the members of the body of Christ that as they have been crucified with Christ, so also will they be raised with him.

THE GOSPEL ACCORDING TO JOHN

We come now to consider how the nature and the works of the Holy Spirit are presented in the Gospel associated with the name of John; and in doing so, we remember that this teaching is much later than the subject-matter found in the New Testament documents which we have just been considering.

First of all, we have the story of the visit of Nicodemus by night to Jesus, who told him that he must be born again. In reply to the query of the mystified Nicodemus about the possibility of such an event happening to a grown man, Jesus three times (Jn 3.5, 6, 8) refers to being born again of the Spirit as the condition of entering the Kingdom. Here we have a clear indication that the Spirit is the agent through whom anyone hoping, as we would say, to be a Christian must be so radically renewed that the only way to describe this experience is to say that he must be born again.

In chapter 7, we have John's report of Jesus' teaching in Jerusalem during the Feast of Tabernacles, in which he says that 'If any man thirst, let him come to me and drink' (v. 37), and goes on to assure his hearers that from anyone who believes in him will flow streams of living water – a metaphor for 'blessings'. The author follows (v. 39) with the explanation that while Jesus said so and was referring to the gift of the Spirit, that gift would not be available until Jesus was glorified. Here we have the lead into the later references to the Holy Spirit in which John tells us in greater detail what the Spirit will do when Jesus sends him.

We come now (14.15–17) to the central teaching of John on the Spirit. Jesus has been assuring his disciples that if they believe

in him they will do even greater works than he has done, because he is going to his Father. So, too, if they love him, they will keep his commandments. But when he is gone, they will not be left on their own, for Jesus will entreat the Father to send them the Paraclete to be their companion for ever. Jesus names him also as the Spirit of truth. He will be unknown by the world but known to the disciples, for he will dwell in them and be with them. 'Paraclete' appears in this anglicised form following Jerome, who did not attempt to translate the Greek word and used the term 'Paracletus'. The original Greek word means, variously: one called to our aid; an advocate; a protector; an intercessor; even a consoler, in the sense of one who gives courage to the depressed and the discouraged. (See below, pp. 267–270, 276.)

A further point is added at v. 26, where we are told that this same Paraclete will teach the disciples all things (cf. the 'Spirit of truth'), and will call to remembrance all that Jesus had told them. Here, then, we note the quite specific role that the Spirit is going to play in ensuring the integrity of the tradition concerning Jesus Christ. At vv. 18 and 28, Jesus speaks of going away and coming again to his disciples; but we are not informed whether he is referring specifically to his own returning or leading us to understand that the Paraclete will come in his place. We note that he does not say so, and is explicit about his own coming to them. I do not think that the problem, if so it be, can be solved in terms of the texts in chapter 14, whereas those in chapter 16 are quite definite.

At Jn 16.7, Jesus says that it is to the advantage of the disciples that he goes away, for otherwise the Paraclete would not come to them; whereas, by leaving them, he will be in a position to send him to them. It is almost as if an *alter ego* is to come only when Jesus is gone. John is here so precise that we cannot omit this emphasis from a biblical account of the Spirit's relation to Jesus. The Holy Spirit whom Jesus will send is to have certain definite functions: he will demonstrate the sin of the world, which is its failure to believe in Jesus Christ (16.9); he will vindicate the perfect justice of the cause of Christ, and will declare that the death of Christ is the condemnation of 'the ruler of this world',

Satan (vv. 10f); he will guide them into all truth, being himself instructed what to say, and will predict the future (v. 13); and, above all, he will glorify Christ by making known to them the truth about him (v. 14).

Our last reference occurs at Jn 20.22f. It is the evening of the first Easter Day and Jesus has come to his disciples through closed doors. In the middle of his address to them, he says to them 'Receive the Holy Spirit'; and follows that gift with yet another, the authority to forgive sins and to refuse to forgive them. The sceptical might be moved to say that here we have the beginnings of that tendency in the history of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit to remove the Spirit from the mass of believers and to concentrate him in the hands of the clergy, those to whom the power of the keys will now belong, the power to forgive and to retain sins. Without going as far as such scepticism, we can see a new association for the Spirit, which shows his will to direct us outside of ourselves to those with whom we live, not simply being comforted ourselves in our sense of loss through the departure of Jesus, or being assured that, when in the hands of our accusers, we will always be specially told what to say. The Spirit now begins to acquire a liturgical role, as if in an established Church.

From John's Gospel, therefore, we can discern fairly clear functions which the Spirit performs in regenerating the new believer: comforting, consoling, defending, protecting the disciples who are aware of the loneliness created by Jesus leaving them; convicting the world of sin and judgement; vindicating the righteousness of Jesus; preserving for them the truth of the tradition concerning Jesus and glorifying him by leading disciples into the truth about Jesus Christ; and, finally, imparting to them the power to forgive and to retain sins. In all of these functions we are left in no doubt that the Spirit is sent to us by a Christ who has himself withdrawn, and who has indeed had to withdraw in order that the Spirit may come and fulfil all the several functions integral to Christian living.

In this Gospel Jesus often speaks of his unity with the Father, of his coming from the Father and going to him, of his Father's loving him and his loving the Father; and I used the term *alter*

Christus for the Holy Spirit, but we must be very careful with its usage. At 15.26, the Spirit whom Jesus will send 'proceeds from the Father' and certainly plays a different role in the economy of salvation from that played by Jesus. The phrase *alter Christus* is meant to denote the fact that the Spirit will take the place of Jesus when he has gone, and will keep his message and his teachings fresh.

The chief point which I take away from this evidence is that, as Jesus was present in the world as an identifiable person, and an often misunderstood person, so the Holy Spirit has that same degree of independence, liable to misrepresentation but performing actions which are definable in the terms indicated by John. There is nothing vague or shadowy here; rather are we in the presence of the whole power of God operating in a third way, completing the work of the Son as the Son had perfected the work of creation.

Having ended this, at times, detailed and, admittedly, always fairly selective review of the treatment of the subject of the Holy Spirit in the Old and New Testaments, we have now to return to our generating question, namely, do the differences between the early Church and the modern Church on the subject of the Holy Spirit amount to betrayal by the latter of an essential feature of the life and faith of the former? Standing back somewhat from the detail, we notice a number of features of the place of the Holy Spirit in the life and faith of the early Church which do not appear with the same obviousness, if at all, in the Church of today. Reviewing those, we begin to see why the question of betrayal is sometimes raised.

For example, in the New Testament Church there was a sense of the widespread presence of the Holy Spirit throughout the Church, as if, almost in physical terms, he were the ambience in which they lived. But this sense of his presence was not an awareness of some vague mystical aura with rather nondescript characteristics; it was, on the contrary, a sense of the immediacy of a person who had a quite definite nature to be understood from his activities in the life of the Church and its members. Indeed, he

had a very perceptible and unique role to play in relation to the other parts of the faith which Christians held. He had an epistemological role to play in bringing men and women to the point of believing in, and knowing, God. His function in the order of salvation, in the opening of the hearts of men and women to the Good News and in fulfilling in them the redemptive work of Christ, formed an essential part of the proclamation of that Gospel of salvation. When Christians had to live out their faith in the moral arena, then the Holy Spirit was recognised as carrying out an enabling ethical role. Accordingly, the Holy Spirit was understood in the early Church to be involved in the entirety of Christian existence, both in the Church and individually, from its very beginnings to its ultimate fulfilment. What is more, individual Christians and the gathered churches as communities lived in the constant expectation that the Holy Spirit would be involved in these ways we have mentioned, and palpably so; and he was a constant point of reference for all of their decisions, actions and public utterances, so much so that they would not take a step without the assurance of his guidance and his presence.

This ubiquitous presence of the Holy Spirit in the life and faith of the early Church and its members imparted a definable character to the whole Church which I find to be missing from the Church of today. Further, it was so integral to the very nature of the Church and of Christianity as the New Testament understood it, that to lose that centrality of the Spirit and to abandon it as if it were a product of first- and second-century cultural conditioning would be, if proved, to commit a treason which could become endemic to modern Christianity. Certainly, we have become so inured to the absence of that sense of the ubiquitous presence of the Holy Spirit that we no longer live in expectation of his involvement in the detail of our lives. When we wonder at the increase of the secular spirit in our time, then, instead of laying the blame at the door of the successes of scientism in the past 150 years or the pervasiveness of Marxist sociology, outlasting as it does the demise of its most powerful expression, we ought to be examining the danger of our own

vacating of the realm of the Holy Spirit. Matthew (13.43ff) tells of the vulnerability of the person from whom one unclean spirit has been driven to the return not of one but of seven others who join him to occupy the person's life. How much vaster will be the emptiness of the soul and the society from which the infinite Spirit of God has been driven, and how much greater will be the scale of the invasion of the spirits inimical to the living God. Such a conception is in no way a false representation of the secular world in which we live, or of the danger of the trivialising of the dimensions of life in the Spirit as Paul understood it.

4

THE TRINITY AND THE CLASSICAL TRINITARIAN MOULD

If the charge of 'betrayal' which we considered at the beginning of our study were to be substantiated, it would require of us much more than a feeling generated by a review of the Spirit in the Scriptures such as we have just completed. More would be necessary than an emotional reaction to the prevalent place of the Spirit in worship and preaching and in the inspiration of decisions and statements in the New Testament Church. Yet, what seem like very formalised presentations of the Spirit in the modern Church, so different from the biblical views, are so deeply rooted in the Church's attitudes that it would appear that their origins are not simply within the twentieth century, but do indeed stretch back to the early centuries of the Church's existence, origins which we shall now be considering. Certain elements in the thought of the modern Church and in the contemporary philosophy absorbed by the Church have led to fresh expressions of such attitudes. These, too, shall be examined. We shall then be looking first at certain key figures in the history of the Church's doctrine whose theology of the Spirit has been cast in the trinitarian mould.

But before beginning such a trawl, allow me to make an admission of the absence in this presentation so far of any analysis of the nature of 'betrayal', which is a part of our subject. So far it has been largely regarded as a reactive term. The omission of such analysis might just lead to premature assessments of the history and validity of the traditionally stated doctrine of the Holy Spirit. In a preliminary way, then, to make good the omission, we may say that 'betrayal' has two components, the one positive and the

other negative; or the one acceptance and the other rejection or, at best, distortion. So what we shall be looking for will be those elements in the formalisation of the biblical understanding of the Spirit which may be regarded as affirmative of these biblical insights, and those which might be thought to have produced difficulties in the way of genuine experience of the Spirit. The balance between those two sets of considerations will yield the answer to the question of 'betrayal'.

One remarkable aspect of the history of the Church's thought about its faith, which has been largely taken for granted, is the extent to which its doctrine has been achieved through the formalisation of the accounts of God and his activities recorded in the Scriptures. Such accounts come to us in fairly simple forms, and much has recently been made of the 'narrative' character of the records. Yet even when such recognition is given, a considerable gulf remains between such simplicities and the sophistication of creeds and dogmatic treatises. The defences of such sophistication are well-known – we have all used them. It has been calculated to adapt contemporary culture to the purpose of making the faith more comprehensible to the contemporary generation; or it has employed the tokens and symbols of the culture to answer the criticisms of those same contemporaries. But the question has never been satisfactorily answered as to whether the mutation from simple statement to sophisticated doctrine has enhanced or diminished the Church's understanding of who God is and how he acts. The method now being proposed to map out and answer that question as it affects the understanding of the Holy Spirit is to apply the notion of 'betrayal' as a kind of catalyst, in the expectation that the mutation has been ambivalent.

The formalisation of the Church's understanding of the Spirit occurred at an early point of the Church's history, from the third century onwards, and it emerged at two points, closely related to one another. The first took place through the involvement of the Spirit with the doctrine of the Trinity, which had rather specific consequences for pneumatology. The second appeared in the attempts to distinguish the Spirit from the other persons of the Trinity. Let us now consider these two points in detail.

THE TRINITY

As has been observed, so much that concerns the whole of the Trinity affects what we say of the Spirit in particular, that it will perhaps forward our purpose if we begin with a summary of the main elements of the doctrine of the Trinity, which we have designated the 'mould' for so many other accounts of the Spirit. By so doing we shall also provide ourselves with a glossary of the terms which have played so important a part in the alternative accounts of the Spirit. As a beginning to that summary, it may be helpful to have before us the variety of usage applied to the basic concepts – Godhead and persons.

THE USE OF WORDS

The original words for the nature of being of Godhead – essence (*essentia* or *ousia*) and substance (*substantia*) are straightforward enough. On the contrary, the originals for 'person' underwent considerable revision. Of the adoption of the word *persona* by the Latins, Augustine said that they did so 'since they could not discover any more suitable method to describe that which they could understand without words' (*De Trinitate*, V.10). The Greeks seemed to have difficulty in establishing the most acceptable term for the object designated by the Latin *persona*, which is not quite equivalent to 'person' or 'personality' in our sense of the words. The exact translation (at least of one of its senses), namely, *prosopon*, means 'a mask', 'an aspect'. Since, however, the word had been employed by the Sabellians in their unacceptable view of the Trinity – that the same one person, God, is Father, Son and Holy Spirit, as it were in sequence, showing one aspect when creating, another aspect when redeeming, and a third when sanctifying, these external aspects reflecting no eternal distinctions immanent in the Godhead – it was rejected. So the Greeks chose *hypostasis*, which was by no means initially a simple or obvious choice; for *hypostasis* itself has two connotations – the one, strictly etymological and signifying 'substance' and so

apparently equivalent to *substantia* or *ousia*, eventually fell out of use in trinitarian theology; and the other has traditionally been translated as 'person'. In the history of trinitarianism, *persona* was equated with *tropos hyparxeos*, and with the Latin *subsistentia in divina essentia*.

THE THREE SETS OF RELATIONSHIPS

Exposition of the doctrine may best take the form of describing and examining the three sets of relationships which it affirms, namely,

(i) the relations between the Godhead and the persons;

(ii) the relations which obtain among the persons; and

(iii) the relations between the Trinity as a whole and the world of nature and persons.

Between the Godhead and the persons

The relations between the Godhead and the persons may be considered from one or other of two points of departure, according to whether we begin with the Godhead and think of the Godhead as existing in three persons; or we begin with the three persons and think of them as existing ('subsisting' is the more usual word) in the Godhead. If we take the first, we think of God existing in three persons or modes of being. He is God three times over – Father, Son and Holy Spirit – and is not to be thought of other than as threefold. Though in danger of being charged with 'modalism', a view which emphasises the unity of God over his triunity and regards his unity as substantial and his triunity as adjectival, Karl Barth decided to use the German equivalent of *tropos hyparxeos*, namely, *Seinwesen*, mode of being, in preference to the term 'person', despite its misleading associations in history and psychology.

Looking at the second point of departure for the description of the relations of the persons to the Godhead, theologians, as was

indicated in our glossary, have thought of the three persons as susbsisting in the Godhead and sharing in the fullness of Deity. It was a form of statement popular with the Reformers, appearing, for example, in Beza, who wrote of Trinity as 'a relation in God, whereby in the Divine and single essence there subsist three persons, truly and actually distinguishable from each other by their modes of existence, namely, Father, Son and Holy Spirit, which single persons are the same one true God' (cf. Calvin, *Institutio* I.13.6).

Among the persons

The relations which obtain among the persons may be examined under the headings of the equality of the persons and the distinctness of the persons. The equality of the persons in the Trinity is stated in the following formal terms. First, the three persons are equal to one another in so far as each has the same nature, essence, substance of God as have the other two. They are *homoousioi* – of the same, identical essence, and much is made of the difference between such co-essentiality and the manner in which the members of the human species share a common humanity – the difference between ontological identity and specific sameness. Secondly, the three persons are equal, each to the other two, in works, dignity and honour, for each possesses the essential attributes of Deity, each subsisting in the divine essence. They are equal in power and glory. They are equally infinite, eternal, uncreated and omnipotent. 'There is nothing prior or posterior; nothing greater or less; but all three persons are co-eternal and co-equal to themselves' (The Athanasian Creed). Thirdly, the three are equal to each other, in so far as each of them exists in the other two. When, therefore, we assert the three-in-oneness of God, we are asserting not only that they are one in virtue of subsisting in one divine essence; we are asserting that they are one among themselves. Even in distinction, there is community participation of each person not only in the shared essence, but also in the two other modes of existence. The name

given to this interpenetration of each of the persons into the other two is *emperichoresis*, Latin *circumincessio*. The biblical connection with, and usual justification for, this idea is the text, 'The Father is in me, and I am in the Father' (Jn 10.38c). There seem to be two elements in this doctrine. On the one hand, each person is thought of as permeating and conditioning the other two completely and perfectly, so that we can say the Father is in the Son and the Son is in the Father; wherever the Father is, there is the Son; and, *mutatis mutandis*, for the Holy Spirit. On the other hand, it is an expression of the fact that, since the Godhead is one, and the essence of the Godhead is common to all three, the persons have a common intelligence, a common will, a common efficiency and power. They are not three gods, with separate intelligences, wills and powers. There are other Latin translations which should be mentioned, for they have a slightly different shade of meaning. They are: *circuminsessio*, *inexistentia*, *immanentia*, *inhabitatio* – all of which suggest an eternal togetherness, dwelling together, existing or abiding in each other – a somewhat static concept compared with the original Greek form, suggestive of a dynamic movement among the three modes, an outgoing of each into the others, a perpetual sequence.

So far, we have been discussing the equality of the persons, and the various forms in which it has been expressed. We come now to the accounts of the elements involved in the *distinctness* of the persons. A person of the Trinity is, as we saw, a mode of existence of the divine essence, but the three are distinguished by properties specific to each one. As it turns out, these 'properties' are definitionally linked to the names of the persons; and in two cases the personal properties are abstract attributes devised from the name of the person concerned, and so, in effect, add nothing to what is implicit in the name. For example, the Father is so characterised in relation to the Son, and his distinguishing property is said to be *paternitas*. The Father, sometimes described as the First Person in the Trinity in the order of subsistence, the *ordo subsistendi*, within the Godhead, is thus said to be *fons totius divinitatis*, existing from all eternity and owing his existence to none, though his being as *fons* implies no priority in time, no

ontological priority or superiority in nature, to the other two persons. As Father, in a spiritual and ineffable manner, he begets the Son from all eternity, in his express image. By the same logic, the personal priority of the Son is *filiatio*. The case of the Spirit is somewhat different, in that his distinguishing characteristic is *processio*, derived not from his name but from the manner of his being, which is distinct from that of the Son – and thereby hangs a tale of considerable controversy. On the one hand, the relation of the Father (and the Son, if we accept the 'western' view) is described by saying that the Father (and the Son) *send forth* the Holy Spirit ('breathes' is another description used, for example, by Basil), so that in the threefoldness of their relations they comprise the full essence of the Godhead, and the Spirit, with Father and Son, is *auto-theos*, truly God. On the other hand, if we view the relationship more from the side of the Holy Spirit than from that of the Father and the Son, we should then say that, in virtue of the relation of 'proceeding' from Father (and from Son), the place of the Spirit is recognised within the unimpaired essence which is the Godhead of Father, Son and Holy Spirit. This 'breathing' or 'sending' of the Spirit is not to be confused with the sending down of the Spirit at Pentecost, just as the eternal begetting of the Son is not the incarnation.

These intra-trinitarian relational properties of the persons, which are described in more dynamic terms as *opera ad intra Trinitatis*, are said to be *divisa*, which is to be construed not as 'entirely and ontologically separable from one another', but rather as 'clearly distinguishable from one another' in the terms above described. These personal properties, it is added, are not communicable. None of these intra-trinitarian acts or operations or personal properties of any one of the three persons can be attributed to either of the other two. To do so would be to destroy all difference within the Godhead and commit us to an undifferentiated unity – a problem the magnitude of which is not always appreciated by those who wish to abandon the biblical names for the persons. Allegiance to the notion of incommunicability has, however, to be held firmly alongside the doctrine of *emperichoresis* – the view that the persons interpenetrate, or dwell

in, each other, and they do so without losing their identity. Accordingly, we must not think of the distinctions between the persons as being only creations of the mind, as devices invented by the human imagination for the description of an otherwise inconceivable Absolute Unity or Parmenidean One. Nor are they simply human categories, lying on the human side of the God–humankind relationship, or even an 'accommodation' (in Calvin's terms) or concession by God to the weakness or the sinfulness of our understanding of him. They are apprehended by us as they truly are, only because they have been revealed to us as ontologically grounded in the nature of God.

The Trinity and the world

Mention of the *opera ad intra Trinitatis* takes us conversely to the *opera ad extra Trinitatis*, which refer to the activities of the Trinity in relation to the whole of the created order, nature, humankind and all the universes – in creation, redemption and sanctification. In each case, these tend ultimately to one common end, and they have a common source in the divine power. So while each of the three persons co-operates in the work, yet the work of creation is personally attributed to the Father, and, similarly, the work of redemption to the Son, and that of sanctification to the Spirit. These *opera ad extra* are said to be *indivisa*, in the sense that in them the whole Godhead is present and operative. So while in any given *opus ad extra* only one person may be named, the reference is not to that person *personaliter* – not, that is, to the person *qua* person, but to the person *essentialiter*, that is, as essentially God.

This apparently scholastic element of the doctrine of the Trinity – an impression in no way diminished by the introduction of the Latin tags – has turned out to be of tremendous importance in some modern accounts of the Holy Spirit, though it has always been central to the doctrine of the incarnation. Because of that later importance, we may add the comments which have been traditionally introduced to meet the rather

obvious difficulty, namely, if the whole Godhead is present and acts in each of these *opera ad extra Trinitatis*, how does it come about that each work is associated with one of the persons rather than with either of the other two? Three answers are commonly given.

First, recalling the notion of the order of subsistence of the persons in the Godhead, theologians have argued that it is 'appropriate' to expect a similar order in the operations associated with the persons *ad extra*, that is, in their relations to the world, the universe and humankind, an *ordo agendi*. Now, according to the order of subsistence, the Father is unbegotten and uncreated, therefore such works as creation and election, which are effected *ex nihilo*, are especially assigned to the Father; while such works as redemption and sanctification, which are of a more relational and dependent nature, may be assigned to the Son who is begotten, and to the Spirit who is 'breathed' or sent forth.

Secondly, special works, the specific *opera ad extra Trinitatis*, are attributed to individual persons *terminative*, terminatively, that is, in the final stages. Thus the creation of the world is the work of the whole Trinity, with the fiat of the Father, the creation being 'by the Word' and the Spirit as a brooding presence, but it terminates or has its completion through the Father. In the case of the incarnation, it is a work common to the whole of the Trinity, having its source in the will of the Father, with the Holy Spirit appearing at the conception, and through the life, death and resurrection of Jesus Christ, but in its goal and ultimate issue it is the work of the Son. The presence of God in believers, in the Church, in history and in the world is the work of the entire Trinity, but in its implementation it is fulfilled by the Spirit.

Thirdly, this part of the doctrine of the Trinity has never in its history been easy to express, and it is not difficult, by caricature and misrepresentation, to entangle it in contradictions. But the justification for it and its main thrust is that it affirms unambiguously, on the one hand, that in any part of the works of God *ad extra* we do not have only a part of God, since we think of him as threefold, but rather the whole of the Godhead in the world or

with us; and, on the other hand, that there is genuine connection between God as he is 'in himself' in his threefoldness, and God as he is in the world, where we meet him.

THE LONG-TERM LEGACY OF THE TRINITARIAN FORMALISATION

The positive legacy

The most substantial consequence of the formalisation of what the Scriptures had said about the Father, the Son and the Holy Spirit into the doctrine of the Trinity which we have been examining, was the securing of the deity of the Son and the Holy Spirit as inalienable items of the Christian faith. Strenuous wrangles lasted on into the sixth century, and thereafter intermittently throughout the history of the Church, reviving with a recovered ferocity in our time, and though dressed perhaps in changed guises, addressing issues very similar to those of old. Yet, despite these wrangles, there was a sense in which the deity of the Holy Spirit, established as early as the formalisation of the doctrine of the Trinity, was never abandoned; or, if questioned, was never seriously at risk. What remained unclear was how that deity was expressed in the work of the Spirit, or how the Spirit was related to the Godhead.

A second invaluable consequence of the formalisation of the doctrine of the Trinity was the securing of the Spirit, as far as he is essentially God, as equal with and to the other two persons. Once stated and inevitably questioned, it survived, perhaps supremely because to demote the Spirit was seen as tantamount to a diminution of the Godhead. Yet the method of defending this equality of the Spirit, especially with the Son, was not always satisfactory, involving as it did, and as we have previously observed, arguments analogical to those employed to defend the deity of Jesus Christ. The result was a failure once again to realise the true nature of the Spirit's relation to the Godhead and to the world and humankind.

The legacy of controversy

But allowing for the insights into the person of the Holy Spirit yielded by 'the positive legacy', we would be less than honest not to agree that the simplicity of that recognition conceals quite a vast measure of controversy, once we embark upon interpreting the central terms. Understanding the nature of the Spirit is part of that process – a fact which obliges us to remain with the continuing examination of pneumatology within the mould of the doctrine of the Trinity. This examination will make its departure from the point at which we ended what I presented as the traditional account of the doctrine of the Trinity, now focusing upon the further formalisation of the understanding of the Spirit in the thought of the Greek Fathers. The presentation will take place against a continuing impression that, despite the metaphysical sophistication, there is a sensitivity to the ways in which God through his Spirit works in the world which at its heart stands close to the scriptural account. So much is this so that we have to be careful in our all too frequent negative statements that the doctrine of the Trinity and, by implication, of the Spirit is not to be found in the Scriptures. Agreed, the sophistication of the past few pages is not 'to be read off' the Scriptures, but the threefoldness of Father, Son and Holy Spirit is plainly there. There is no question of these three being three gods – the writers of the Gospels, the Acts and the Epistles were too totally Jewish to entertain such a possibility.

PNEUMATOLOGY IN THE CLASSICAL TRINITARIAN MOULD

It is difficult to over-emphasise the importance of the contribution of the Greek Fathers to the theology of the Holy Spirit, dominating as it did the thought of Augustine and Thomas, Calvin and the Reformers, and extending that influence right down to the present time. They imposed a pattern upon subsequent theology of the Holy Spirit and prescribed the kinds

of questions which were asked concerning the Spirit, his nature and his works, as well as concerning his relations to the other two persons in the Trinity.

It can fairly be said that the Greek Fathers themselves were singlemindedly concerned with the refutation of the views of those who affirmed that the Holy Spirit was a creature. Oddly enough, it was not until Gregory of Nazianzus (*Or.* 31.10; 34.11) that the definite statement was made that the Spirit is consubstantial with the Father and the Son, and that he is God. Now the fact that both Athanasius and Basil could write full treatises on the subject of the Spirit without coming to that point cannot pass unnoticed. These positions are indeed there in their thought, but always and only by implication: they took the greatest of pains to prove that the Holy Spirit is not a creature. That single concentration upon what we would call the deity of the Holy Spirit ordained for them the style of their thought; and we turn now to analyse the configuration of their presentation. Despite the idiosyncrasy of approach of the different Greek Fathers, it is amazing how uniform the configuration is which they follow, defined as it is by the following methodological principles.

THE PRINCIPLE OF LOGICAL IMPLICATION, OR THE THEOLOGICAL OR DEDUCTIVE PRINCIPLE

According to this principle, the facts that the Holy Spirit is Creator and not creature, and that the Spirit is proper to God (Athanasius, *Ep.* 4) are to be deduced from the unity of *energeiai* (or *energeia*) of the Godhead, which in its turn is to be deduced from the unity of the Godhead (or Triad), the latter being the supreme and first principle of the Greek Fathers. The burden of this argument is that since the Holy Spirit is so indissolubly united with the Father and the Son in the Divine Activity, his own divine standing is guaranteed. This argument is so pervasive of Greek patristic thought that it will repay analysis of its configuration. Let us ask the following five questions:

(i) What is the evidence for the claim that the premise of the whole deduction is the unity of the Godhead?

(ii) What is the nature of the Divine Activity or *energeia(i)* which plays so important a part in the second stage of the deduction?

(iii) What is the nature of the unity of this Divine Activity?

(iv) What is the nature of the inference from the unity of operation of the Divine Activity to the affirmation of what later generations were to call the 'deity' of the Holy Spirit?

(v) What is the validity of this inference as a means of establishing what the Greek Fathers were aiming at, in seeking to refute the Tropici, the Pneumatomachoi and the Macedonians?

The unity of the Godhead

A number of interesting answers come to the first question. For example, Athanasius, in his letters to Serapion (*Ad Ser.*), says quite explicitly at 1.14, 'The holy and blessed Triad is one and indivisible in itself'; and again at 1.17, 'The whole Triad is one God'. He then goes on to use the terms 'one' and 'indivisible' equivalently, saying, at 1.28, that the faith of the Catholic Church, which has been from the beginning, which the Lord gave, the Apostles preached, and the Fathers kept, is that 'there is a Triad, holy and complete, and all-creative, consistent, indivisible, and one in its activity' (the latter being a deduction from the unity of the Triad – a matter to which we shall be returning); and at 1.32, 'the teaching of the Catholic Church is that the Triad is holy and indivisible'. Basil, in *De Spiritu Sancto* (chapter 18) speaks of preserving the monarchia, in confessing three *hypostaseis*, illustrating his point by saying that even if we speak of Father, Son and Holy Spirit, we do not imply that there are three gods. For both Athanasius and Basil, the distinctions between Father, Son and Holy Spirit are laid down in Scripture or, as they would say, 'would conform to Scripture' (Athanasius, 1.33, and Basil, chapter 9); but it is central and primary to the tradition of the Church's faith that the nature of God as Triad falls within the

unity of God, the Triad being 'one and indivisible'. So I cannot agree with S. L. Prestige (*God in Patristic Thought*, SPCK, London, 1964, p. 243) when he alleges that the Cappadocians accepted 'objective triplicity' as the basis of their thought, and that 'identity of divine *ousia*' was for them second in importance. A number of difficulties beset this contention. For example, it would seem that 'identity of *ousia*' concerned them greatly, in the case of the Son against the Arians, and in the case of the Holy Spirit against the Pneumatomachoi. Also, the phrase 'objective triplicity' is somewhat of a blunt instrument to use in describing the fact that the three Persons are to be distinguished and have distinguishable roles both *ad intra Trinitatis* and *ad extra*. This understanding of the position of the Greek Fathers amounts to an attempt to place them at the opposite end of a spectrum to the Sabellians.

The Divine Activity

Now when we proceed with the argument to consider the *energeiai*, we have at the outset to observe that the reference is not to the intra-trinitarian activity of the Father who begets the Son, or the Son who with the Father sends forth the Spirit. The Greek Fathers have a lot to say on that subject, but at the present point of the argument their concern is with the *opera Trinitatis ad extra*. Classically, such works have been regarded as involving the whole Godhead, and the Greek Fathers hold to this principle. In their account of the subject, remembering their intention to establish the status of the Holy Spirit, they always present the material with an eye to showing the indispensability of the Holy Spirit in such *opera ad extra*. At *Ad Ser.* 1.31, Athanasius draws attention to the part which the Holy Spirit plays in the incarnation of the Word (cf. 1.19); the Son who is incarnate is the Radiance of the Light which is the Father, so that the whole Triad of the Godhead is present. At 1.30 the same emphasis had occurred in relation to the sacrament of baptism, an illustration which the Greek Fathers greatly favoured. In these situations associated with sanctification,

the Son is always present with the Spirit, and the place of the Father is conserved in such a saying as 'The Son joins us to the Father through the Spirit who is in him, so making us partakers in the divine nature' (*Ad Ser.* 1.24). As regards creation, we do not have a selection of texts demonstrating the presence of all the members of the Triad in the creation occasions, so much as the sustained and oft-repeated arguments that in the fundamental qualitative difference between the Creator and the creature, the Holy Spirit is to be found with the Father and the Son, who even on the views of the Tropici is the creator Word.

Basil, on the other hand, does make the point clearly (*De Spiritu Sancto*, chapter 15): 'The Holy Spirit is inseparable from the Father and the Son in the creation of perceptible objects, in the dispensation of human affairs and in the judgement to come.' In relation to baptism, he takes account of texts in which the reference may not be to the whole Triad, but he argues that in such cases no one would really wish to hold that baptism was in the name of only one member of the Triad (ibid., chapter 12). At chapter 37 he gives the clearest statement of the theorem, *opera ad extra sunt indivisa*, 'The Holy Spirit is inseparable and wholly incapable of being parted from the Father and the Son ... in every operation.'

So, in answer to the question concerning the nature of the Divine Operation on which this part of the argument turns, we can say that it consists of the whole Godhead acting in relation to the created order, in the several *opera* of the Three, which are nevertheless *indivisa*, that is, inseparable from one another.

The unity of the Divine Activity

There are two major elements in the answer to the question: What is the nature of the unity of the Divine *energeiai* (that is, Operations or Activities)?

Having observed how insistent the Greek Fathers were upon the notion that there can be no separation of the Holy Spirit from the Father and the Son in all these operations of the Godhead, we

might be tempted to think that, in answer to our next question, that is, about the nature of the unity of the Divine Operation, they will reply that it is monolithic and simplex.

On the contrary, we have to say that for them a major characteristic of the Divine Operation is that it is not undifferentiated. The *opera ad extra Trinitatis* are distinguishable but not separable in the sense that the Son or the Spirit could act in redemption or sanctification without either of the other two being in some way present. In fact, great care is taken to specify the place occupied by, and the role played within, the operation of the unitary Triad, of each of the three persons. Referring to the togetherness of the three in baptism, Athanasius (*Ad Ser.* 1.31), in speaking of the activity of the Triad as one, goes on to say that what is given in that Divine Operation comes from one God, there being no gift which is not actuated through the Word in the Spirit, thus reflecting exactly what he had said at 1.28, 'the Father does all things through the Word in the Holy Spirit'. Basil has a somewhat more sophisticated account to give us: 'God works the differences of the operations, and the Lord the diversities of administration, but all the while the Holy Spirit is present of his own free will, dispensing distribution of gifts.' Gregory of Nyssa (*On the Holy Spirit: Against the Followers of Macedonius*) follows Athanasius in using the illustration of baptism, 'This life-giving grace, after starting from that source, the Father, as from a spring pouring forth abundant life, through the Only-begotten, who is the true life, by the operation of the Holy Spirit.'

Taking these accounts of the matter, we can say that while they are agreed that the unity of the Divine Operation is not undifferentiated, nevertheless they do not give us an agreed account of the components of the differentiation, or of the nature of the components. For that reason, several attempts have been made to say what they are.

For example, it has been suggested that they are three activities of God which occur in different relationships, but that view has to be rejected on two grounds: first, that it violates the principle that wherever God acts, Father, Son and Holy Spirit are present; and secondly, it contravenes a theorem held by the Greek Fathers

that since an activity is an accident, the divine triplicity cannot be described in terms of their being activities (i.e., accidents) of the Godhead. (Gregory of Nazianzus, *Fifth Theological Oration*, chapter vi, had refuted the suggestion that the Holy Spirit was an accident of the Godhead, by employing the same metaphysical/theological theorem.)

Nor is it satisfactory to propose that the triplicity constitutes a paradigm to which the Godhead conforms every time he acts, though from time to time patristic exegesis leaves the impression that the Fathers impose a rather rigid structure of interpretation upon some of their selected scriptural texts, by inserting the two others when reference is made to any one of the three. Fortunately, such mechanically-operated paradigmatic exegesis is the exception rather than the rule.

The answer to the previous account is to note that when the Godhead acts as a unity, the three are each associated with the Divine Operation in a different way; for example, the Holy Spirit is related to the incarnation in a quite different manner from the Word, as Father, Son and Holy Spirit are differently associated with the baptism of Jesus.

Another way of putting the matter is to say that each of the three performs different functions or roles within the unity of the Divine Operation which are quite specific and appropriate to each of the three. In making that statement we must accept three conditions to which it is subject: first, that the account of these functions or roles is not thought to constitute a definition of the Father, the Son or the Holy Spirit – otherwise we would be violating Gregory of Nazianzus' theorem; secondly, no one of the three performs his own function or role in the Divine Operation solo – he is 'assisted' in it by each of the other two, who play their own contributing parts; and thirdly, exactly how each of the other two 'assists' in the function or role of the third is to be further specified when we come to the other principles which the Greek Fathers followed in describing the Holy Spirit in particular.

It may be necessary to add a footnote to what we have been saying about the care which the Greek Fathers show in distinguishing (while not separating) the roles which the three play

within the Divine Operation. It is that, while they are very precise in their definition of the place of Son and Holy Spirit in incarnation as well as in the many passages which they examine, they certainly do not relate the Father to creation in quite the same way. In fact, they appear more often to speak of 'God' rather than 'Father', as at Athanasius (*Ad Ser.* 1.19), 'When we are commanded to receive the Holy Spirit, we receive God abiding in us, and when God is in us his Son also abides with us' (cf. the already quoted *Ad Ser.* 1.28).

The second comment to be made on the nature of the unity of the *energeiai* of the Godhead is the affirmation that their unity is derivative, being an implication of the unity of the divine *ousia.* So fundamental and ultimate is the commitment of the Greek Fathers to the logical priority of the unity of the Godhead, even in their acknowledgement of the threefoldness of this unity, that I should like, somewhat diffidently, to call in question a statement made by Shapland in his excellent commentary on *The Letters of St Athanasius.* On the text *Ad Ser.* 1.19, he holds that the argument is from unity of *energeia* (that is, of the Activity of God) to unity of *ousia* (that is, of the Persons of the Godhead). On the contrary, the logic of the argument seems to me to run from the unity of the Godhead to unity of the Activity (or *energeiai*) of God to the identity of *ousia*, that is, of Father, Son and Holy Spirit.

The nature of the inference

We turn now to our fourth question: what is the nature of the inference from the unity of Activity (of the *energeiai*, that is) of the Godhead to the conclusion which a later generation would call 'the deity of the Holy Spirit'. We have already mentioned the major point of departure in this argument, the theorem about the unity of the Godhead – 'the Triad is one' – but there are other elements in the argument. For example, none of the opponents of the Greek Fathers in these discussions appears to have denied the deity of the Father or the Son, or the oneness of their nature, so

that they could therefore be regarded as binitarians, and their commitment is amply used by all of the Fathers in their argument. So the conclusion to which the Fathers are working is the identity of essence of the Holy Spirit with the Father and the Son – a goal to which they proceed with caution. We recall that it was not until 1.27 of the *Ad Ser.* that Athanasius uses the word *homoousios*, repeating it in the Third Epistle. Athanasius never calls the Holy Spirit '*theos*'. Basil, on the other hand, thinks that the deity of the Holy Spirit is to be established by showing that he is *homotimos* (worthy of equal glory and honour) with the Father and the Son (*De Spiritu Sancto*, 19, 23, 24). Let us now try to trace the configuration of this particular argument. It would seem to be as follows.

When the Divine Activity is examined, whether we consider it in its total unity from creation to Last Judgement, or in the several *energeiai* associated with one or other of the three persons, there appear to be certain *energeiai* which are not associable with either the Father or the Son, though they are to be related to them. There is no controversy between the Greek Fathers and their opponents over the existence of such *energeiai*, but there is over the interpretation of them.

There is not much controversy over the next stage of the argument, either. The Greek Fathers affirm that these *energeiai* are to be associated more particularly with the Holy Spirit than with the Father or the Son, on the basis of the evidence: first, of many scriptural texts which they all frequently cite; secondly, of the baptismal formula which is submitted by them not just as a text in a controversy, but as the foundation of the whole new life into which Christians are initiated at baptism, and the means whereby they participate in the divine life as regenerated beings; thirdly, of the character of sanctification, the process by which the Christian grows in grace through the indwelling of God; and fourthly, of the nature of revelation, a divine activity in which the creature comes to know and be known of his or her Creator.

Here comes the controversy, for the Fathers now go on to affirm that these *energeiai* are such as cannot be fulfilled by any less than God. Only God can effect the kinds of things which are

associated with the Holy Spirit. At *Ad Ser.* 1.23, Athanasius mentions many such activities, as attributed to the Holy Spirit: he quickens, he renews, he anoints, he instructs in all things and, at 24, he makes men divine. Basil, at *De Spiritu Sancto* 26, says that the Holy Spirit 'perfects rational beings', having earlier, at 19, referred to the Spirit's operations as 'for majesty ineffable, for numbers innumerable'.

In carrying out these *energeiai* associated with him, the Holy Spirit does so in a very special way, namely, that of bringing to an effectual conclusion the work which God has begun in creation and redemption. To reject the Holy Spirit and to depreciate the quality of his activities is to call in question all that God has been previously doing and to attempt to frustrate his purposes. That is the hard core of the statement of Gregory of Nyssa (*On the Holy Spirit*): 'To profane the Holy Spirit is to profane the Trinity as a whole', which is more than just a pious utterance that the honour of the whole Godhead is contained in all its parts and persons.

Further, the Fathers make a lot of the point that the 'person' carrying out these *energeiai* is not only doing what only God can do, but has the attributes which are properly assigned to God. The character of the 'person' matches the quality of his operations. Says Basil: 'He is Spirit as only God is Spirit; holy as the Father is holy; good as the Father is good . . . he bears the names in common with the Father and the Son' (*De Spiritu Sancto*, 19).

It is almost as if we have returned now to the premise of the whole argument, namely, that the Triad is one and indivisible, with a fresh understanding of how it is to be interpreted. What was not clear earlier was that the Greek Fathers are saying that we cannot divide the Triad into persons that have certain attributes and one that has others. To call the Holy Spirit a creature and to suggest that the Godhead can consist of a mixture of Creator and creature is to make that very mistake.

So the way has been laid for the conclusion which Athanasius states at 1.27 of *Ad Ser*: 'The Spirit is one in essence with God'; and Basil, when he says that the Spirit is due equal glory with Father and Son; and Gregory of Nazianzus, who held that the Spirit is consubstantial with the Father and the Son.

The validity of the inference

What, then, shall we say about the validity, and perhaps also the value and importance, of this argument?

First, we must note at once that it is an *argumentum ad homines*, directed against opponents who share many beliefs with the Greek Fathers, for example, about the being of God the Father and the deity of the Son, as well as about many of the attributes of God and the authority of Scripture for the determining of doctrinal points. I think, also, that we could extend the community of belief to include the first step of the argument, namely, 'The Triad is holy and indivisible', which is said to be part of the tradition of the Catholic Church.

While it seems at times as if the Fathers were simply quoting Scripture to counter Scripture quoted by their opponents, it would be fairer, even in cases to which such a charge might seem to apply, to state the matter differently. They are drawing upon what the Scripture has to say in these passages about the *energeiai* of the Godhead as a whole and of the Holy Spirit in relation to the other two persons; about how the world was created; how God visited his people throughout the vicissitudes of their history; what happened at the incarnation and throughout the earthly life of Jesus; how the life of the Christian disciple is initiated and sustained; and what will happen at the Last Judgement. The great turning-points of their arguments are not metaphysical principles or logical concepts, but the Christian understanding of baptism and liturgy, creation, incarnation, salvation, sanctification and eschatology. It draws out the fullest implications of the situations in which Christians find themselves in relation to God; and it finds the interpretation of these situations in Scripture, as the completion in their lives of the mighty working of God from before the foundation of the world. So, as the argument progresses, it unfolds the conditions which must obtain, particularly as regards the whole being and nature of God in his threefold-ness, and as regards the character of the Holy Spirit in particular, if the initiation and the maintenance of the Christian life and belief in such terms are to be possible and

actual. The argument, of which we make use elsewhere (pp. 144f), is a form of the transcendental deduction (favoured by Kant, obviously for another purpose) – the elucidation of the conditions which provide for the occurrence of the Christian existence, as it takes its beginning in baptism.

We must note the limited character of the conclusion which the argument seeks to establish, namely, identity of essence or nature of the Holy Spirit with the Father and the Son. This is the first principle, as I have called it, in their presentation. There is no account taken, in this part of the discussion, of the procession of the Holy Spirit from the Father or of the part which the Son plays in such a procession – that is to come later in the examination. The presentation deals with the *opera Trinitatis ad extra*, and so leaves us wondering whether the Greek Fathers are offering us an economic trinitarianism and no more. Two points are relevant here: first, it would only be a form of economic trinitarianism if they were saying that all that we can affirm of the Godhead is what can be said of the *energeiai* of the Triad, or its persons. In fact, there is much still to come which does not derive from the *energeiai*, so that the Fathers may escape the immediate charge, if so it be. We do not deny, however, that there is a problem in this area, namely, how any theologian moves from the *opera ad extra* to the *opera ad intra*. Secondly, there is positive evidence for holding that the Greek Fathers would reject economic trinitarianism. There was mentioned earlier a dictum of Gregory of Nazianzus that an activity, being an accident, cannot be the basis of definition and differentiation of the persons of the Triad. Therefore, it would be logically impossible for the Fathers to contemplate any trinitarianism which sought to base the differences between the persons on a differentiation of their *energeiai*, as economic trinitarianism attempts to do. On the other hand, their own Greek understanding of the way in which the phenomenal points beyond itself to the real, the indistinct particularisation of the Forms to their essential reality in the heavens, will encourage them to regard the *energeiai* as clues to the nature of the Godhead. As Gregory of Nyssa put it, 'By what we know we can form conjectures about things above us' (*On the Trinity and*

the Godhead of the Holy Spirit, included in *Letters of Basil* 189, 'To Eustathius').

It would be wrong to leave this analysis of the first principle of Greek patristic thought concerning the Holy Spirit without drawing attention to an ambiguity. Let us put the problem in the form of a question. Are we affirming what we would call the deity of the Holy Spirit because the Holy Spirit is the third inalienable component in every *energeia* of the Triad? On the other hand, is his deity to be based upon the fact that there are certain divine operations for which the Holy Spirit is responsible in a very special way, allowing always that the other two, Father and Son, are always present?

Basil presents both positions in *De Spiritu Sancto*, the first at 15, where he says, 'In every operation the Spirit is closely conjoined with the Father and the Son. In creation the Father is the original cause of all things made; the Son is the creative cause; and the Spirit is the perfecting cause'; and the second at 9, where the Spirit is said, among other things, to inspire virtue, perfect all things, supply life, originate sanctification, supply illumination to every faculty in search of truth and to fill all things with his power. It appears that when the Greek Fathers are drawing their illustrative material from the Scriptures, they tend towards the second emphasis which regards the Spirit as initiating *energeiai*, and having what could be said to be a degree of independence and a capacity for specific original operations. On the other hand, when they are drawing upon their own more theological roots, as, for example, in their enunciation of the formula, 'The Holy Triad is one and indivisible', we find that the activity of the Holy Spirit is incorporated with the *energeiai* of the unitary Triad and appears there as a component within it. My projection is that as we move forward into a more theological and less scriptural treatment of the subject of the deity of the Holy Spirit, we shall find the former position beginning to assume greater dominance. The consequence for later theology will be seen to be of tremendous importance.

THE ONTOLOGICAL OR CONCEPTUAL PRINCIPLE, OR THE PRINCIPLE OF DEFINITION

This principle occurs sufficiently in several of the Greek Fathers to be justifiably considered as fundamental to their case for the deity of the Holy Spirit. It may be stated as follows: knowledge of any one of the persons of the Triad is at the same time knowledge of the other two, because of what was later to be called 'the co-inherence' of each in the other two. For this reason, I have chosen to call this principle 'ontological' rather than what might seem to be more obvious, namely, 'epistemological', because it is the co-inherence ontologically of each in the other two which makes possible the knowing of the other two from the knowing of one. The conception of one properly gives us the conception of the other two; or alternatively, the definition of one leads immediately to the other two – always, of course, because of each being in the others.

It is interesting to see how, despite the variety of ways in which the Fathers state the principle, they display unanimity in accepting it. Athanasius (*Ad Ser.* 1.14) says, 'When mention is made of the Father, there is included also the Word and the Spirit who is in the Word. If the Son is named, the Father is in the Word, and the Spirit is not outside the Word.' Basil repeats that same theme, (*De Spiritu Sancto* 18), 'The Father is in the Son and the Son is in the Father ... the Holy Spirit is conjoined to the Father through the Son'; but Basil then gives another very interesting account of the matter in *Ep.* 38:

> He who has conceived of the Father and conceived of him apart by himself has at the same time mentally accepted the Son also; who lays hold of the Son does not mentally dismember the Spirit from the Son, but in due sequence forms within himself the faith which is a blending of the three ... Just as he who grasps one end of a chain pulls with it the other end also to himself, so he who draws the Holy Spirit draws Father and Son along with it. So, if he lays hold of the Son, he draws Father and Spirit, so likewise if he holds the Father he draws the Son and the Spirit.

Gregory of Nyssa (*On the Holy Spirit*) puts it quite succinctly, 'When you have grasped the notion of the Son, have you not admitted therein that of the Holy Spirit also?'

Commentary on this second principle and the argument which it embodies will proceed along the following lines.

It will be noted at the outset that this particular argument will be thought to have considerable force when used against opponents who were prepared to recognise the deity of the Father and the Son but were refusing to do so for the Holy Spirit. For the Greek Fathers are here saying not only that you cannot know the Father and the Son without knowing the Holy Spirit but, further, that God would not really be God without the Holy Spirit.

There are, therefore, two things that this principle does *not* mean. First, a simple semantic point is not intended, namely, that since Father and Son are correlatives, we cannot know what 'Son' means without understanding what 'Father' means, or 'Father' without knowing the meaning of 'Son/Daughter'. In any case, neither of these constructions would explain how we reach the Holy Spirit. Secondly, in these passages the Greek Fathers are not setting up any logico-theological subtleties, such as suggesting that if we truly apprehend the Holy Spirit, then we apprehend both his personal properties and the fact that he shares a divine nature with the other two persons, and so to apprehend the Holy Spirit is in that act to apprehend the Father and the Son.

Perhaps it will be possible now to state the situation more positively and without loss of content or precision. The opponents of the Holy Spirit had admitted that the activities of God the Creator or of God the Redeemer were such as to introduce them to knowledge of one God who was both Creator and Redeemer, Father and Son. The Greek Fathers are then saying in response that awareness of the activities of God the Sanctifier is such as to draw us to the point of knowing the God who is Father, Son and Holy Spirit. Basil has said at *De Spiritu Sancto* 47, 'the way of true knowledge lies from one Spirit through one Son to one Father'. In fact he could have made an amendment to that statement which would have been more in line with the general tenor of Greek patristic thought, by saying that 'the way

of true salvation lies from one Spirit through one Son to one Father'. But Basil did also say, ' The Holy Spirit is the place of sanctification' or 'of them that are sanctified'. Then, when we find ourselves in that place, we are aware of who it is that has created us and who it is that has redeemed us, and on that foundation, and through our being inserted into it by the action of the Holy Spirit in our baptism, we know how we have come to be in the place of them that are sanctified. The Holy Spirit completes a process that has been going on for a very long time, longer than time itself, for it began in the very heart of God. We for our part enter that process at the point of the action of Holy Spirit, but to participate fully in what is going on at that point, we have to be introduced to the whole process, so that we know whose we are in creation and whose by redemption. Equally, the creative and redemptive processes are incomplete – nullified, you might say – if they are not finally earthed in the initiation of men and women into these processes, and maintained within them through the activity of the Holy Spirit. Seen against this background, Basil's image of the chain is most appropriate, for each part of that creative, redemptive and sanctifying process is both involved and conjoined with each of the others, and draws each of the others into both the understanding and, still more importantly, the fulfilment of itself.

Athanasius made a statement at *Ad Ser.* 1.20, 'The Son is in the Spirit and the Father is in the Son', which adds force to what we have been saying and provides further comment on this second principle. When we are enlightened by the Spirit and led by him on that way that leads to Christ and the Father, or when the Spirit initiates us into that salvation which Christ has achieved for us and so brings us to the fulfilment of God's purpose in creation, the Spirit does not lead us out beyond himself or point us to some Being who is away beyond himself. On the contrary, he unveils the glory and the reality of the only-begotten within himself; and so, within the Son, we are brought to know the love of the Father. We can see here the origins of the concept of *emperichoresis*, the interpenetration of Father, Son and Holy Spirit, which can now be featured not as a logical mystery, but as a compendious

account of what happens to us when the Spirit takes that first step of initiating us into the Christian life in baptism; he sets us in a position to know the Son and the Father, for each is already involved in that original initiation and all that follows from it as its sequel.

What the Greek Fathers were saying in refutation of the views of the Tropici and Pneumatomachoi generally was that their views amounted not just to a misunderstanding of the nature of the Holy Spirit and to a depreciation of his status, but to what was much more serious – a total failure to understand the Godhead, the ways in which God works in creation, redemption and sanctification, and the implications of baptism and regeneration. It was the whole nature of God which was at stake in the controversy between the Greek Fathers and the opponents of the full doctrine of the Holy Spirit, as it had been in the controversy earlier between Athanasius and the Arians. That fact explains why they threw so much weight into the struggle, searching the Scriptures relentlessly for documentation to support their case and finally invoking the tradition of the Church reaching back to the Apostles themselves.

THE ANALOGICAL OR CORRELATIVE PRINCIPLE, OR THE PRINCIPLE OF PROPORTIONALITY

Athanasius, at *Ad Ser.* 1.21, provides us with the classical statement of the principle: 'The Spirit bears the same relation to the Son as the Son to the Father'; and at 1.25, adds a sophistication of the same principle: 'It must be that the Spirit, who is said to be from God, is in essence proper to the Son, as the Son, because he is of the Father, is proper to his essence.' At 1.26, he has been saying that the Spirit is the image of the Son as the Son is the image of the Father; at 1.31, that the Spirit is one with the Son as the Son is one with the Father, and as we noted earlier, he had said, at 1.14, that the Spirit is in the Son as the Son is in the Father. Basil, at *De Spiritu Sancto* 43, tells us that the relation of the Spirit to the Son is the same as that of the Son to the

Father; and he continues, 'If the Spirit is co-ordinate with the Son and the Son with the Father, it is obvious that the Spirit is also co-ordinate with the Father'. Gregory of Nyssa issues his own version of this principle: 'With what shall the Father be glorified but with the true glory of the Son, and with what shall the Son be glorified but with the majesty of the Spirit?' The intra-trinitarian situation is then reflected in the understanding which faith has of God's being. Faith completes the circle and glorifies the Son by means of the Spirit and the Father by means of the Son, showing how faith's worship of God follows the pattern of God's own inner being.

In seeking to elucidate this third principle, let us ask three questions concerning it, and suggest appropriate answers. First, is this principle compatible with the first two principles which we have enunciated above? Secondly, are there any indications that the Greek Fathers were themselves aware of a possible incompatibility? Thirdly, what purposes could the principle be said to serve?

Incompatibility

There is a *prima facie* case for charging that there is incompatibility between this third principle and the other two. It will be recalled that on the first principle, which argued to identity of the *ousia* of the Holy Spirit with that of the Father and the Son from the unity of the Divine Activity or Operation (*energeiai*), much emphasis was laid on the way in which this unity of operation was maintained in and through diversity of role and function among the three persons of the Triad. The unity was said to be not undifferentiated, and it depended not so much on what the persons had in common as upon their uniqueness. We seemed therefore to be saying at the crucial points of the argument that unity in differentiation was possible only because the Spirit does not bear the same relation to the Son as the Son does to the Father. Another way of putting the matter is to say that in the first principle, and the argument which it sustains, the unity of

operation referred to consists of one single set of relations involving Father and Son and Holy Spirit in a special complexity; and we conclude that it is a false abstraction from that unity to break them up and then to establish comparisons between them.

A similar conclusion emerges in relation to the second principle. The Spirit unveils the Son within himself to the sanctified sinner, and the Son unveils the Father within himself, all in the unity of self-manifestation, which depends for its clarity upon differentiation of relation. Alternatively, if we wish to think, as we did already, in terms not of intellectual enlightenment but of salvation, then we have to say that when the redeemed person is initiated into the faith and receives the salvation offered in Christ through the action of the Spirit, he receives the fulfilment of the Creator's purpose for him. But these are relations which are not interchangeable. The Spirit executes a function in relation to the redemption and sanctification of the human soul which would be stultified if he bore the same relation to the Son as the Son bears to the Father.

At the first count, then, there seems to be incompatibility between the third principle and the first two.

Awareness of incompatibility

It would appear that the Greek Fathers were not unaware of this incompatibility, nor were they allowed by their opponents to forget it or minimise it. At *Ad Ser.* 1.15, Athanasius states the case succinctly:

> If the Spirit is not a creature but proceeds from the Father, then he also is a Son, and a brother to the Word. If so, how is the Son the 'only-begotten'? Again, if we think of the Spirit as being of the Son, then is the Father the Spirit's grandfather?'

(It was an argument that was to recur in classical theology down the centuries, and it demonstrates the breakdown of human

language when it is employed too literally in describing the mysteries of the Godhead.) Athanasius' answers to this problem are interesting. He says (*Ad Ser.* 1.15, 16), in a *tu quoque* reply, that his opponents believe in the Father, yet all fathers are sons as well as fathers; does the Father then have a grandfather and other ancestors? To his credit he adds at once that this kind of talk is impious and proceeds to make two points in serious response: first, that in begetting the Son the Father does not impart himself to the Son, but rather his whole image and radiance. The Son is not a part of the Father. Secondly, the name of the Spirit is given to him in Scripture, and no mention is made of his being a brother of the Son, or son of the Son. That fact defines the situation for the Christian and for traditional theology. It does remain that the third principle has created a degree of embarrassment for the Greek Fathers, and so we have to continue our search for a way out of the difficulty.

Basil counters the possible abuse of the principle in three ways. First, he says at 18 (46) of the *De Spiritu Sancto* that the Holy Spirit is 'of God' in the sense of proceeding, not by generation like the Son, but as breath of his mouth. Here Basil seems almost to be going back to the etymological sources of the word 'Spirit' as 'breath'; but his purpose is to avoid the kind of confusion which induced the opponents of the orthodox doctrine of the Holy Spirit to taunt the Greek Fathers with talk of brothers and grandfathers in the doctrine of the Trinity. Secondly, we may next draw out a point made earlier by Basil, 'If the Spirit is co-ordinate with the Son, and the Son with the Father, then it is obvious that the Spirit also is co-ordinate with the Father'. Such a plain statement makes impossible the kind of false deduction drawn by their opponents in using the proportionality principle. Basil has yet a third, more subtle, way of indicating difference in the relation of the Spirit to the Son compared with that of the Son to the Father. He uses the middle voice for the latter relation, 'The Father reflects himself in the Son as in a mirror', and the active voice for the former, 'The Spirit reveals the Son', making the truth concerning the Son to shine from himself (that is, the Son).

Purpose

Perhaps we have been pressing the principle too hard on detail, and should rather be examining its purpose. To that we now turn.

It would seem that the principle would be of immense tactical value when employed against those who accepted the deity of the Son but denied that of the Holy Spirit. If it could be shown that in virtue of the role which he performs within the Divine Operation in creating the world and humanity, in redeeming human beings and offering them sanctification, the Holy Spirit would be seen to stand in a special relation to the Son; and if, further, it can be shown that this is the same relation which obtains between Father and Son; then the deity of the Holy Spirit has been defended against the opponents of the doctrine. The purpose of the principle is then apologetic, and if it serves that purpose we should not press it unduly on minor points of consistency.

We could, however, take a different tack, and say that there is a great deal of evidence for saying that there were several relations obtaining between the Father and the Son and between the Son and the Spirit, as well as between the Father and the Spirit. When they affirmed what I have called the proportionality principle, they were drawing attention to only one of those relationships, the one which is particularly important in the refutation of those who deny the deity of the Holy Spirit, the relation of identity of *ousia* or essence or nature. The third principle is another way of saying that the work of creation begun by God and executed by God is fulfilled by God in the end-term, that perfection of the process which the Church has from the beginning called the Holy Spirit. It is therefore just as essential to their whole case as the former two.

INTRA-TRINITARIAN RELATIONSHIPS: THE QUESTION OF THE FILIOQUE

Keeping these three principles in mind, we turn now to a question which has always been of interest to patristic scholars, namely, the procession of the Spirit – whether from the Father

and the Son, from the Son alone, from the Father through the Son, or in some other way. The theological map which such issues suggest can only be filled in with historical placings. For example, deriving from Origen there was a form of subordinationism which, affirming that all things come through the Logos, included the Spirit as first in rank of those things which come into existence from the Father through the Son. As is well-known, the Antiochene school represented by Theodore of Mopsuestia and Theodoret rejected both the double procession (the classical *Filioque* position that the Holy Spirit proceeds from the Father and the Son) and also the view that the Holy Spirit proceeds from the Father through the Son, as expressed by Cyril and denounced as 'blasphemous' by Theodoret. But it is too readily assumed by Shapland in regard to Athanasius, by Prestige in relation to the Cappadocians, and to some extent by Benoit Pruche in relation to Basil, that most of the Greek Fathers inherited the Origenist subordinationist position, and that their trinitarian theology is best understood on that assumption.

Now it cannot be denied that there are to be found in the patristic writings texts which could at least be considered in evidence of a case for saying that the Greek Fathers did subscribe to the Origenist subordinationist tradition. For example, Gregory of Nyssa (*Adversus Macedonium* 12) says that 'The Spirit proceeds out of the Father and receives from the Son'; and at 2, 10 and 24, he says, 'The Spirit is out of God and is of Christ'. Epiphanius shows something of that same tendency, in holding that 'The Spirit proceeds from the Father and receives from the Son and is out of the same substance of the Father and the Son'. These passages all show a certain dependence of the Spirit upon the Son; but the phrase 'through the Son' does not seem to appear. It was Cyril and later writers who canonised the formula 'from the Father through the Son'. Oddly enough, the word 'through' did appear, but not in a form which would have yielded the phrase 'from the Father through the Son'. In *De Spiritu Sancto* 18 (46), a chapter in explicit refutation of the view that the Holy Spirit is to be sub-numerated to the Father and to the Son, Basil writes, 'The natural goodness and the inherent holiness and royal dignity

extend from the Father through the Only-begotten to the Spirit'. It is very close to the Antiochene formula and yet falls short of it, and it is in any case a solitary occurrence.

If, then, we set on different sides of the map the two positions of the *Filioque* or the double procession *and* the Cyrillian formula, 'out of Father through the Son', we can see that there is ambivalence in the attitude of the Greek Fathers to the two formulae. To these positions we have to add to the map the view of Gregory of Nyssa, 'The Spirit proceeds from the Father *only*'.

On the one hand, we can see that there will be a certain attraction in the notion that the Holy Spirit proceeds from the Father as well as from the Son. Had not Basil at *De Spiritu Sancto* 43 said, 'The Spirit is co-ordinate with the Son, as the Son is co-ordinate with the Father'? For thereby the same status is accorded to the Spirit as the opponents of the Spirit had acknowledged to the Son. Such an argument for the deity of the Spirit would obviously be very strong, and quite devastating against the opponents of the Spirit. Why, then, did not the Fathers grasp at this account of the matter, as a strong weapon of attack? Two reasons suggest themselves. First, the biblical evidence for such a procession, particularly of the Spirit from the Father, is not extensive, the only clear possibility – our Lord's promise that he will ask the Father to send the Comforter – not being an *opus ad intra* and not referring to 'proceeding' but to 'sending'. Secondly, the Greek Fathers do not have a great deal to say concerning the direct relation of the Spirit to the Father, and there are not enough occurrences of such statements to justify a doctrinal affirmation that the Spirit proceeds from the Father as from the Son.

On the other hand, we can see that the opposite alternative does not commend itself unreservedly to the Greek Fathers, that the Holy Spirit proceeds from the Father through the Son. The possibility of subordinationism implicit in such phrasing and deriving, as we noted, from Origen, was the very thing which they were out to counter in the opinions of the Tropici and Pneumatomachoi. Basil for similar reasons endeavours to establish the right of the Holy Spirit to be regarded as *homotimos* (worthy of like glory) with

the Father and the Son, and he would not be disposed to use language which might compromise the status of the Holy Spirit. Yet, as we read through the Greek Fathers we cannot escape the strong impression that the Holy Spirit stands in a very special relationship to the Son, and that this relationship controls the relations which the Spirit bears to the Father. Now the many arguments and scriptural quotations which they bring to their case show that the special relationship which exists with the Son does not prejudice the participation of the Spirit in the full essential being of the Godhead; more, it is the means whereby the divine status of the Holy Spirit is both defined and defended. As the three principles which we enunciated above show, the patristic conception of how the three persons of the Godhead are related to one another is complex. One way of stating the matter is, as has often been suggested, to say that the Holy Spirit proceeds from the Father through the Son, but it is one which is most infrequently used; it contains possibilities of misunderstanding which the Greek Fathers would suspect; but above all, it is only one way of describing a subject for which several others more representative of their views exist. Taken by itself, as if it were the whole truth, it becomes less than the truth.

To sum up: what I am saying is that in the matter of the relation of the Holy Spirit to the Father and the Son, the Greek Fathers occupy the middle field, between saying that the Spirit proceeds from the Father and the Son, and saying that he proceeds from the Father through the Son; and that to try to describe this relationship purely in terms of 'proceeding' is to oversimplify a relationship which for them is a complex – or, more accurately, a very rich – relationship. Their aim could be said to be to conserve that part of the truth which each contains, without falling into the error implicit in both.

RESIDUAL CONSIDERATIONS

The Greek Fathers' treatment of the Holy Spirit brings out what may well prove to be a problem endemic in the whole doctrine.

On the one hand, they have shown very lucidly the involvement of the Holy Spirit in the whole activity of God, in creating, redeeming, sanctifying and providing for the world and all humanity. In fact, at times we may feel that they carry the trinitarian paradigm to extremes, and affirm a threefoldness of divine operation where scriptural text and honest interpretation would suggest that only one person of the Trinity was present. In the case of Athanasius, this tendency has a particularised form, in that he very frequently goes out of his way to 'demonstrate' that whenever the Holy Spirit is referred to in Scripture, there the Word is also and always present (e.g., *Ad Ser.* 1.31). We have what could be called a 'bonding' of the Holy Spirit to the Son which is not wholly due to devotion to the principle, 'The holy Triad is one and indivisible'. On the other hand, we have an acknowledgement that the Holy Spirit is a person in his own right – Athanasius had stated his case earlier in the letter (1.6) – a person who acts in certain ways which are appropriate to his divine being and in character with the whole Godhead, but which form the kind of 'independence' which we accept so naturally when we encounter it in the incarnation. There is a good deal of evidence to show that the writers of the New Testament presented the Holy Spirit in these terms, though the former were not absent either. But we have to recognise two facts: first, there is the possibility, if not the actuality, of conflict between these two approaches to the Holy Spirit. Secondly, there is a lot of evidence for saying that it is the first view which has on the whole triumphed in the history of Reformed theology; and it has been reinforced in this century by the strong Christocentric character which recent theology has acquired. The question we have to ask is whether we are being compelled in our time to look afresh at that other strange work of God which is his work in the Holy Spirit.

5

JEAN CALVIN AND THE TRINITARIAN MOULD

TRINITARIAN HYPOSTATIC MODEL/ CHRISTOLOGICAL PATTERN

In selecting Calvin as the first example of the Reformed treatment of the Holy Spirit, I do not propose to provide a comprehensive account of all that he has to say about the subject. He stands foursquare in the traditional understanding of the doctrine of the Trinity and its components, as outlined above; and, besides, he himself would be positioned close to the Greek Fathers such as Athanasius, Gregory of Nazianzus and Cyril of Jerusalem, as well as to the frequently-quoted Augustine from the Latin Fathers.

So to set Calvin's account of the Holy Spirit, as he does, within his understanding of the doctrine of the Trinity, let us begin with his presentation in the *Institutio* (I.13), where he makes it plain that for him the doctrine of the Trinity is the only true account of the God who makes himself known to us in Scripture. 'Say that there is a Trinity of persons in one Divine essence, you will only express in one word what the Scriptures say' (I.13.5). According to 'the doctrine of Scripture', 'while [God] proclaims his unity, he distinctly sets it before us as existing in three persons' (I.13.2). So if we wish to say that, for Calvin, the doctrine of the Trinity is rooted in the self-revelation or self-manifestation of God, we have to remember that for him such self-revelation or self-manifestation takes place through the Scriptures. Having made his declaration of intent, he is immediately faced with the long-standing problem of the existence, in the doctrine, of words that are not scriptural. Admitting that the scattering about of 'foreign terms'

may create 'the seed-beds of brawls and dissensions', make men 'tired of quarrels about words', and cause charity to melt away 'amid hateful strife', Calvin offers two grounds of damage-limitation. On the one hand, the proposed new terms must at all times be subordinated to 'Scriptural truth', which is the unerring standard of all our thinking and speaking about God. On the other hand, these terms, which might be described as 'novelties', notably 'Trinity' and 'Person', have only come to be used by the Church when impelled by the strongest necessity. Such necessity was created by 'slippery snakes', who could only be 'pursued, caught and held' when, through clarity of language, 'no indirect subterfuges' or 'ambiguity of expression' could provide a hiding-place for them (I.13.4). The objects of this robust *odium theologicum* are, of course, Arius and his kind, and Sabellius and his. However, in regard to the term 'Person' he does not go altogether on the defensive, in that, as he understands Heb 1.3, there is a *hypostasis* of the Father which is reflected in the Son, and equally, a *hypostasis* of the Son which is distinct from the Father. Calvin adds, 'The same is true of the Holy Spirit' (I.13.2). The subject of his fuller treatment of the terms 'essence' and 'persons' will be developed in the next section.

THE NATURE OF 'PERSON'

The particular form of pneumatology which Calvin developed out of his reading of the doctrine of the Trinity we dubbed, it will be recalled, 'trinitarian hypostatic model/christological pattern' (see Chapter 2). This description indicates two important contributions which Calvin made to the ongoing understanding of both the nature and the work of the Spirit, in the context of his being with the Father and the Son in the Godhead. The first to be considered is his view of the nature of 'person', and of the relations of the 'persons' to the Godhead, that is, of *hypostaseis* to *ousia*, and of the 'persons' to one another; the second being his extended discussion of the *opera ad extra* appropriated to the Holy Spirit. We shall follow that order in our exposition. In the

account given earlier of the doctrine of the Trinity, it was noted that the relations of the persons to the Godhead might be, indeed have been, read in two directions, depending upon the point of departure – either from the Godhead and regarding the persons as being 'modes of existence' of the Godhead; or from the persons and regarding the persons as subsisting in the divine essence. Calvin makes his preference clear when he says, 'it plainly appears that the three persons in whom God is alone known subsist in the Divine essence' (I.13.16).

Fundamental to Calvin's position is his claim for the divinity of the Holy Spirit, which he bases on a variety of evidence derived almost entirely from the Scriptures, but also on the analogy of the case for the deity of Christ, which he has just rehearsed in the earlier paragraphs of the *Institutio* I.13. In speaking of the Spirit, the Scriptures do not forbear to name him 'God', and Calvin, while citing traditional passages to this effect, himself declines to use certain verses from the Psalms and Isaiah which other writers have in his judgement misapplied to the Holy Spirit. He relies considerably upon the role which the Spirit is recorded as playing in the economy of salvation – a role which only a person who 'dwells hypostatically in God'(I.13.14) could fulfil – as indication of his divinity. The examination of this aspect of his case is part of the wider discussion of the *opera ad extra* appropriated to the Spirit, to which we shall duly be proceeding. Suffice it to say at present that here we have an example of the contribution of the *opera ad extra Trinitatis* to the formulation of the *opera ad intra* – the topic to be raised again in our time by Karl Rahner.

Given the divinity of the Holy Spirit, Calvin is confronted with the question of how the Holy Spirit is related to the other two persons who also subsist in the Godhead, the Father and the Son. Recalling his entire agreement with the words of Gregory of Nazianzus (*Sermo de Sacro Baptis.*), 'I cannot think of the unity without being irradiated by the Trinity: I cannot distinguish between the Trinity without being carried up to the unity', he insists that the terms Father, Son and Holy Spirit indicate a genuine distinction within the Godhead, but never a division. However, with the mention of 'Father' and 'Son', the question of

relation and therefore of order immediately comes into focus. 'Personal subsistences carry an order with them' (I.13.20). His response is that there is an order within the Godhead, of Father–Son–Holy Spirit, but it is an *ordo subsistendi* and not an *ordo essendi.* The Father, who is Father of the Son, obviously has priority within that relationship and, since the Spirit is Spirit of both and 'from both', he is third in the order of subsistence.

The reference here is to the notion of the *principium* of the Father, which has led to criticism of Calvin, particularly by Leonard Hodgson (in *The Doctrine of the Trinity,* Nisbet, London, 1944, being the Croall Lectures, pp. 171ff). The reason for Hodgson's criticism springs from the thesis of this book, which, like so many books published during World War II, has not received the attention it deserves, but has now become very relevant to the recent studies of the Trinity. He maintains that traditionally the concept of unity accepted by those who speak and write about the Trinity is what he calls 'mathematical unity', the criterion of which is absence of multiplicity, a concept which yields what is commonly regarded as the paradox of the Trinity, the One who is Three and the Three who are One. Over against this misunderstanding of the nature of unity, he opposes the notion which as an *ad hoc* measure he calls 'organic unity', unity which, as we rise in the order of being, is completely compatible with ever-increasing internal complexity or multiplicity. 'Approximation to the ideal of mathematical unity is measured by a scale of degrees of absence of multiplicity; but approximation to the ideal of organic unity is measured by a scale of intensity of unifying power' (op. cit., p. 94). Therefore, he concludes, 'the act of faith required for acceptance of the Trinity is faith ... that the Divine unity is a dynamic unity actively unifying in the one Divine life the lives of the three Divine persons', the unity of 'the Blessed Trinity' perfectly unifying a rich and wide diversity of content (op. cit., p. 95).

Hodgson saw the formulation of the doctrine of the Trinity contained in the so-called Athanasian Creed, the *Quicunque vult,* as the Church's final answer to the subordinationism at issue in the monarchian controversies of the third and fourth centuries.

Subordinationism regarded the Father as being the essential God and the other two persons as acquiring their divinity from him. Such subordinationism Hodgson held to be a device employed to secure the unity of the Godhead by locating it primarily in one of the persons and deriving the others from him, the unity thus secured being of the mathematical kind already defined. Whereas, for Hodgson, as we have seen in his exposition of 'organic unity', the unity of the Godhead is of a highly complex and yet uniquely integrated kind – each of the persons sharing in the ultimate unity, while yet remaining differentiated and distinguishable from one another.

Hodgson, however, finds traces of this fourth-century subordinationism in Calvinism, in Calvin's affirmation of the *simplex Dei unitas*, or the *simplex essentiae unitas*, which Calvin regards as secured by the *principium* of the Father within the Godhead. The criticism is itself far from *simplex*, but in fairness to Calvin it is important to answer it. For example, it has always seemed to me, since I first read Hodgson, that the notion of unity in his arithmetical or mathematical sense has a meaning other than that of total simplicity, absence of any internal relationships, the unicellular amoeba being a proximate instance. The other meaning, unacknowledged by Hodgson, has the negative purpose of denying multiplicity. It could be argued that Hodgson has confused multiplicity with complexity. For example, in the Old Testament, Deut 6.4, 'Hear ... the Lord our God is one Lord', a statement made in the face of the neighbouring religions in which were to be found what Paul so much later was to call 'gods many and lords many' (1 Cor 8.5), was both an affirmation of the oneness of God and a denial of the multiplicity of gods. So, in the passages where Calvin affirms the unity of God, he is fending off those misinterpreters of the doctrine of the Trinity who regard the acceptance of the deity of Father, Son and Holy Spirit as a commitment to tritheism. Such terms as *simplex* or *perfectissima* are applied to the unity of God for the purpose of emphasis. In any case, there are many occasions on which Calvin, by his repeated language about the involvement of Trinity in unity and of unity in Trinity, openly subscribes to the very notion

of the true nature of unity which Hodgson himself has so lauded.

What, then, is to be said about the other components in Hodgson's claim that Calvin, like the fourth century subordinationists, uses the notion of the *principium* of the Father, with its implication of the demoting of the Son and the Spirit, to secure the unity of the Godhead? Three considerations rebut the charge. First, as we have seen, for Calvin the unity of the Godhead consists of the participation of Father, Son and Holy Spirit in the divine essence, and in their inner coherence and coinherence within the Godhead. As Hodgson has admitted, the kind of unity which Calvin finds in the Trinity is an example *par excellence* of unity of the complex variety which Hodgson favours. Secondly, Calvin is quite explicit in his affirmations, again oft repeated, that when the term *principium* is used of the Father in relation to the Son and the Spirit, the Son is thought of as coming from the Father in respect solely of his subsistence, and the Holy Spirit as the Spirit of both Father and Son as coming from both, again in respect of his subsistence. Thus in no sense is the Father to be thought of as deifying the Son in this process, or as being the *essentiator* of the deity of the Son. It is hard to see what place any kind of subordinationism could have in such an understanding of the Godhead and the relations to one another of the persons subsisting within it. Another way in which Calvin makes the same point is to say that the Son has his divinity *ex se ipso*, and therefore is one with the Father in sharing the *principium* with him. 'The Son regarded as God, and without reference to person, is also of himself [*ex se*]; though we also say that, regarded as Son, he is of the Father' (*Institutio* I.13.25). Curiously, in the light of his meticulous use of terms, Calvin adds, 'Thus, [the Son's] essence is without beginning, but his person has its beginning in God', which surely should be 'but his person [*qua* subsistence] has its beginning in the Father'. Thirdly, I wonder if it may be appropriate to take what Professor A. E. Taylor used to call 'a short way' with Hodgson's criticisms of Calvin on the score of his use of the notion of the *principium*. It would be to say that the notion comes not from the theology of Calvin but from the

Scriptures which speak of Father, Son and Holy Spirit, and which therefore, *ex vi terminorum*, already imply some priority of the Father over the Son and, as the Scriptures tell the story, also over the Spirit. I should have thought that it is the biblical order of Father–Son–Spirit which Calvin seeks to sustain with his notion of *ordo subsistendi*, without yielding an inch on the affirmation of the shared essential Deity of all three Persons.

Reference has been made to the intra-trinitarian relationship of the Father and Son to the Spirit, and to Calvin's view that the Spirit is of the Father and of the Son and proceeds from the Father and the Son. On different occasions (e.g., ibid. I.13.17, 18, 20) Calvin covers this point, which has been a continuing source of controversy between the Western and the Eastern Churches, and makes his case so consistently, if also somewhat briefly, with the rest of his analysis of the intra-trinitarian relations that it would be a misrepresentation of his position to suggest that the procession of the Spirit is to be described in any other way. In fact, there is no evidence to suggest that the 'Eastern' way is a genuine alternative, given the texts. However, Calvin's brevity on this point I find reflected in the reduced account which he gives of the Spirit by comparison with the very full exposition of the deity and person of the Son. Since our interest here is in the pneumatology of Calvin, we may dwell on the subject. For example, since he clearly believes that the three persons subsist in, and share in, the unity of the single divine essence, then we would expect that those characteristics mentioned in relation to that essence would be attributable to all three. I am thinking of one or two references in particular which appear frequently in *Institutio* I.13, such as the affirmation that Father and Son exist *ex se*, or have self-existence or, to adopt a coinage, *exseitas*, which I prefer to *aseitas*, a concept applicable with a different connotation in other theologians, notably Anselm. Calvin has applied the notion liberally to the status of the Father and the Son as implicit in their deity; but since the Spirit is also a sharer in that deity, he too must be said to 'exist from himself'. This fact is implicit in Calvin's statement that the eternity of the Father is also the eternity of the Son and the Spirit

(ibid. I.13.18), and in the expression that, as regards the essence of both the Son and the Spirit, they are, like the Father, unbegotten. When considering, however, the relation of the Father to the Son as *persons* (i.e., as subsistences), then, according to Calvin, the language changes and the Father is said to be 'unbegotten' and the Son 'begotten'.

There is one aspect of Calvin's account of the nature of person when taken in relation to the essence of the Godhead which has rarely been noted, but which is of importance for our own later studies (see below, pp. 207f), in a more modern context, of varied ways of describing the Spirit. At *Institutio* I.13.19 he writes, 'in each *hypostasis* the whole nature is understood, the only difference being that each has his own subsistence'. He adds, however, that 'the whole Father is in the Son, and the whole Son is in the Father', which reaffirms the doctrine of the *emperichoresis*, the mutual interpenetration of the Father and the Son; but Calvin does not complete the account of the matter by including the part of the Holy Spirit in the process. In fact, we have here once again that feature of Calvin's handling of the place of the Holy Spirit within the Trinity which seemed to appear in his failure to include the Holy Spirit in his description of the Persons in the Trinity as being each *ex se ipso*, namely, the greater emphasis which he lays upon the Person of the Son throughout *Institutio* I.13, than upon the Person of the Holy Spirit. Granted that the implication seems to be there that an analogical account could be given of the Holy Spirit, the omission still seems strange, for the balance is not restored when he returns to the account of the Holy Spirit in *Institutio* III, for there his interest lies more in the 'work' of the Holy Spirit than in his 'person'.

That enigma aside, my main attention for the present is directed to the sentence quoted above from I.13.19, about the whole nature or essence of the Godhead being understood in each *hypostasis*, the difference between them lying in their subsistence. Now, two considerations lead me to dwell on this account of the *hypostaseis* in the Godhead. The first was originally prompted by the quotation from Augustine which immediately follows in Calvin's text and which, though he does not appear aware of the

fact, is at odds with his view of what exactly the *hypostasis* is. Says Augustine, 'by those names [sc. Father, Son and Holy Spirit] is meant the relation which they mutually bear to each other, and not the very substance by which they are one'. My understanding of the earlier statement of Calvin's about the persons is that each person is of the very essence of Godhead, but distinguishable from the other two by the relations in which he stands to them. Returning to Augustine, we have to say that it is inadequate to speak of the Father, the Son and the Holy Spirit solely as names for the relations they bear to one another, as if any account of the persons could be complete without affirming the substance which they all share. The difference between what Augustine said and Calvin's position as I have read it is in no way simply semantic. Calvin's statement is absolutely required if we are to sustain an account of the incarnation, for example, which affirms that the whole essence of Godhead in the person of the Son is present in Jesus Christ and not simply a certain relationship between the Father and the Son, as we would be saying if we thought of the Son exclusively as a relation to the Father. This point of difference between these two authorities in the doctrine of the Trinity will also be important for us when we come to consider the nature and full dimensions of the activity of the Spirit in the world, history, nature and humanity.

The second consideration which enlivened my interest in the quotation from Calvin which we have been examining above in relation to Augustine was a long-lasting uneasiness which I had had over the claim that the three trinitarian persons were definable – 'definable' as distinct from 'distinguishable' – in terms of certain 'personal properties', namely, *paternitas, filiatio* and *processio*, terms which we have already mentioned. These properties on closer examination prove to be in fact abstract nouns formed from the relations of the persons to one another, as Augustine said, and are frequently called 'relational properties'. My uneasiness derives from a logical principle which I learned from the Scottish/Australian philosopher, John Anderson, many years ago, that an entity is not definable solely in terms of the relations in which it stands to other entities. Augustine's account

of the person falls foul of that principle, whereas Calvin's does not, because the reference to the substance or essence of the Godhead, which the persons share, forms the positive core of the definition, the distinguishing relations coming in to serve as the differentiations.

CALVIN'S CHRISTOLOGICAL PATTERN

The form of pneumatology which we ascribed to Calvin was called 'trinitarian hypostatic model/christological pattern'. The first half of this designation will by now have been shown fully to have justified itself. In the course of one of the most concise and clear accounts of the doctrine of the Trinity in the history of that subject, Calvin integrates his view of the Spirit with his whole presentation of the Trinity, and in that process offers an account of the 'person' within the Trinity which we indicated would prove most helpful later in our discussions of some contemporary forms of pneumatology. The call now is to examine the second half of the above designation, namely, 'christological pattern', which Calvin amplifies in *Institutio* III.1, having given early indications of his intentions in I.13. By way of explanation of the designation, two reasons might be given.

First, to a certain extent Calvin's treatment of the person of the Holy Spirit within the trinitarian model follows roughly the analogy of that given to the person of the Son, emphasis being laid upon their sharing in the essential divinity of the Godhead, and upon the witness of the Scriptures to their sharing in that divinity. In this respect, Calvin does not differ greatly as regards method from, say, Athanasius, whose account of the Spirit in his letters *Ad Serapion* follows very much the lines of his christology in the *De Incarnatione.*

Secondly, however, Calvin unfolds a pattern with a very specifically christological emphasis which, I believe, has exerted considerable influence upon subsequent Reformed theology. The pattern he follows spells out in detail the all-important part which the Holy Spirit plays in bringing to fulfilment the Father's will for

the salvation of the world and all humanity, effected through the redeeming death of the Son. It is through 'the secret efficacy of the Spirit' that we enjoy Christ and all his blessings. 'If the shedding of the sacred blood of Christ' is not to prove in vain, 'our souls must be washed in it by the secret cleansing of the Holy Spirit'(*Institutio* III.1.1). The many different ways in which the Spirit accomplishes this work Calvin calls 'the ministry of the Spirit' (ibid. III.1.4). Let us look now at some of the detail of that ministry, through which 'the Holy Spirit is the bond by which Christ effectually binds us to himself' (ibid. III.1.1).

Calvin begins by filling out the picture with the detailed descriptions given to the Spirit in his initiating and effecting of our salvation. For example, he is the Spirit of adoption, because he assures us that we are received by God the Father in the only-begotten Son, and so are empowered ourselves to call him 'Abba', our Father also. Thereafter follows a string of images. The Spirit is 'water', because by his 'secret irrigation' we bear the fruits of righteousness, and since through him we recover fullness of life – with a swift change of imagery – he is named as 'oil' and 'unction'. But because he destroys vices within us and, at the same time and by the same means, kindles within us love for God and integrity of action, he bears the title of 'fire'. 'Fountain' he is, too, since from him flow all God's blessings, and 'the hand of God', for he pours divine life into us, and enables us to bring forth the fruits of God's grace. Employing a most unusual expression, Calvin eventually says that 'until our minds are intent on the Spirit, Christ is in a manner unemployed' (ibid. III.1.3).

Faith

On the human side, Calvin affirms that it is by means of *faith* that we embrace these redeeming benefits of our Saviour and the hope of our eternal inheritance, but this faith is 'the principal work' of the Spirit. He it is that brings us by faith to the light of the Gospel (ibid. III.1.4) and ensures that we 'become the Sons of God'.

> We shall now have a full definition of faith if we say that it is a full and firm knowledge of the divine favour toward us, founded on a truth of a free promise in Christ, and revealed to our minds, and sealed on our hearts, by the Holy Spirit. (ibid. III.2.7)

This inspiring and controlling role which the Spirit plays in relation to faith, as the means whereby the believer ultimately enters into the salvation which the Father has willed through the Son from before the foundation of the world, has to be kept firmly in mind, particularly in two perspectives. The first is the short one, where Calvin discusses for a whole chapter (III.2) the nature of faith, its peculiar properties as well as the misinterpretations to which it has been exposed in the history of the Church, and we might be forgiven for thinking that Calvin has lost sight of his main objective. Not so. Although for considerable stretches he is dealing with specific aspects of the nature of faith and seems to refer to the Spirit only from time to time, nevertheless the importance of the Spirit for the whole discussion is supreme for Calvin. It is as if a bracket were placed around the chapter (III.2), including all that is said in it within the embrace of the Spirit. With that caution in mind let us consider some of the points he does make about faith, to 'enable us to apprehend its knowledge and power' (III.2.1).

Since faith consists essentially in true knowledge of God and Christ and, more particularly, of receiving Christ as offered by the Father, that end can be achieved only through the guidance of the Gospel, in the context of the Old Testament, yielding as it does the riches of redeeming grace. The connection between faith and the Word is ultimate. While faith may include understanding, at the same time far transcending it, yet because we so often have to walk by faith and not by sight, Calvin holds that the awareness which we have in faith is more akin to certainty than to discernment. He takes up the same theme in the next paragraph (III.2.15), when he affirms that this awareness of God is 'firm and sure', carrying with it 'a feeling of full assurance'. While what Calvin is here declaring may savour of over-confidence and be

totally lacking in the spirit of 'I believe; help thou mine unbelief', nevertheless, what he is advocating is the acknowledgement of the facts of the abundance and limitlessness of God's mercy and of the goodness of his offer to us of salvation. There is no room for anything other than confidence in the faith which has access to such love; and anything less would be to surrender to anxious doubt. If I may be allowed a personal interpolation here, I have to say that I find a healthy robustness in Calvin's stand, especially dwelling as we do in a generation which has almost made a virtue of doubt and has indeed left few of the cardinal points of Christian doctrine unexposed to the erosion and at times outright dismissal which is the heritage of such doubt. We have become well-nigh too diffident to believe, and it might be that here is evidence of what happens when we fail to give a place to the Spirit in our contemporary church life and so allow him to be the inspiration of faith which is the premise of Calvin's whole account of faith.

But in speaking so much of faith as knowledge, certainty, confidence and awareness, we may have drifted into an excessively intellectualised account of Calvin's view of faith. Indeed, Calvin himself seems to sense as much, for he takes his argument one step beyond what he has been saying with so much fervour, in order to make clear that 'the next thing necessary is, that what the mind has imbibed be transferred into the heart' (ibid. III.2.36). This transfer is effected through the Spirit who, having illuminated the mind in the first place, now even more powerfully confirms all the offers and promises of God in the heart. It is at this point that Calvin introduces the word 'seal' – 'the hearts of believers are stamped with the Spirit as with a seal' (ibid.) – the seal which confirms all the offers of salvation contained in the Gospel. It is the term which has become closely associated with the work of the Holy Spirit as he brings to fulfilment in the hearts of believers what began in creation and incarnation, and seals the whole process by his presence within them.

Reference was made above to the longer perspective within which we have to regard Calvin's affirmation that 'faith' is 'the principal work' of the Holy Spirit. Quite beyond misunderstand-

ing, one would have thought, in *Institutio* III.11 Calvin, in treating at length of a subject central to Reformed theology, namely, justification by faith, explains how it comes about. 'Justification' is that reconciliation with God which Christ achieved for us by his incarnation, death and resurrection, and which results in our acceptance by God, our sins having been forgiven. At one point Calvin even says that Christ, in justifying us, imparts to us a righteousness which is not ours but his. Faith is that act of ours in which we lay hold of the benefits of Christ and embrace his righteousness as ours. Some unsympathetic subsequent commentators on this theme have argued that Calvin effectively turns faith into a work, a factor that we contribute to our salvation, and so falls under his own condemnation of the theme of justification by works. Little could be farther from the truth, and the misrepresentation arises only, as is so often the case with Calvin, through neglect of his text. At III.2.35, he says quite explicitly,

> Here by designating faith the *work* of God, and by distinguishing it by way of epithet, and appropriately calling it by his good pleasure, he [i.e., Paul, 2 Thess 1.2] declares it is not of man's nature; while at 1 Cor 2.4, he openly says that faith stands 'not in the wisdom of man but in the power of God'.

Sacraments

There are two further elements in Calvin's account of the work of the Spirit which deserve mention – one, the place of the Holy Spirit in the sacraments; the other, the relation of the Holy Spirit to the Scriptures. As regards the sacraments, he argues firmly that Christ himself is the matter or the substance of the sacraments, and he it is that is offered to us in them (*Institutio* IV.14.16). But the penetration of our Lord into the hearts and affections of his people is made possible only by the accompaniment of the Holy Spirit in the celebration of the sacraments (ibid. IV.14.9). The

sacraments have no efficacy of themselves and by themselves are 'empty and frivolous'. Nor do they contain in themselves any secret energy by means of which they endow the recipients with the Holy Spirit or with heavenly graces. The order of events and of importance is clear: it is the Spirit who, in the context of the sacraments, opens the way for the acceptance of Christ by those who receive the sacraments.

Calvin then emphasises several times over that it is the work of the Holy Spirit, in facilitating the entry of Christ into our hearts, 'to commence, maintain, cherish, and establish faith'. Though on scarcely more than two occasions in this chapter (IV.14) does he say that without faith the sacraments are unavailing, while even acknowledging that for centuries the error has been believed that the sacraments of themselves confer grace; he nowhere states positively that faith is the condition, on the human side, of receiving the sacraments and, therefore, Christ. In fact, he holds to the view that it is the Spirit who energises the faith that receives Christ and all the benefits of the salvation which he offers, thereby raising the much-discussed question of whether those who lack faith through not receiving the Spirit can be regarded as guilty of their failure to believe.

One aspect of Calvin's view of the efficacy of the sacraments, which is widely associated with his name, follows from the above-mentioned statement that it is Christ who is the matter of the sacraments and is offered to us in the sacraments. He points out that an identical offer is made to human hearts both in the written word of God and in the preaching of the Gospel. It is wrong to affirm that there is any difference between what is offered in the Word written or preached and what is offered in the sacraments. As he himself says at *Institutio* IV.14.17, 'the office of the sacrament differs not from the word of God; and this is to hold forth and offer Christ to us, and, in him, the treasures of heavenly grace'. The sacrament has no inherent efficacy to confer the gifts of the Holy Spirit upon us; rather is it the function of the Holy Spirit to prepare our hearts for the entry of the redeeming, renewing Saviour. It is obvious at once that it is a short step to the implication of this view that the sacraments are

not necessary to salvation. Two varying consequences have followed from this implication.

The first is one which was warmly received in certain Protestant circles, that unbaptised infants are rescued from some ambivalent status in limbo. The interest in unbaptised children took a new twist in the Church of Scotland from the 1995 General Assembly onwards, when it was proposed, but referred for consideration, that unbaptised children should be admitted to Holy Communion. This proposal represented an unexpected step beyond the decision of a previous General Assembly to admit baptised children to the Holy Table. The proponents of the 1995 proposal failed to observe that the earlier decision to admit baptised children to the Table was based upon the words in the sacrament of baptism that by virtue of baptism the child 'has now been accepted and welcomed into the one, holy, catholic, and apostolic Church'. The logic implicit in that affirmation, that it was not right to refuse the sacrament of Holy Communion to one who was an acknowledged member of the Church, was not applicable to the unbaptised child. Nor, in more pragmatic terms, was it obvious why parents or guardians who were anxious to bring the child to Holy Communion could not in the first place bring the child for baptism. Two quite strange further arguments were offered for the admission of the unbaptised child to communion. The one was emotional, introduced with the rhetorical questions, 'The Table is the Lord's. Who are we to bar anyone, particularly the helpless, from sharing in the promised benefits of Christ? How can the celebrant attach conditions, such as demanding prior baptism, to the offer of the sacrament to the child, when the Gospel itself offers unconditioned grace?'. The rhetoric had forgotten Calvin's warning that the sacraments do not dispense a special grace that is not available in other ways. The other strange argument provided in 1995 was that the persons bringing the unbaptised child for communion would be strongly enjoined to bring the child to be baptised at the earliest convenient time after the child had received the sacrament of Holy Communion. Not only was it altogether rather improbable that guardians or parents who had not troubled to have the child baptised prior to communion would be moved to

do so when they had achieved their objective of communion for the unbaptised child, but there is a residual unresolved problem should they in fact refrain from doing so. What was in effect a condition of the dispensing of the communion (namely, bring the child to be baptised) has been ignored, and the status, maybe even the validity, of the celebration has to be called in question. Indeed, so tangled has this web become, that the case for firm and definite church order begins to be more urgent than it has been for centuries. This collapse of church order, practice and procedure is but a sign of times in which the theology of marriage and sexuality, as well as Christian ethics, have been dangerously eroded by the antinomianism and the secularism of a generation which has apparently lost its way.

There has been a further consequence, in the history of Reformed theology, of Calvin's theorems that the identical offer is made to the believer in the sacraments and in the written and preached word of the Gospel, namely, Christ himself, and that, consequently, the sacraments are not necessary to salvation. It is clear now why historically Calvin had to make this stand: in his experience the unreformed Church was offering the sacrament without the word or its interpretation, in the expectation that the action of the priest unrelated to the faith of the recipient would convey the intended grace to the latter. To counter such error Calvin had to assure his followers that Christ and his redeeming grace were offered in the written and preached words to hearts made receptive by the Holy Spirit just as assuredly as he and they might ever be offered in the sacrament.

The question concerned Robert Bruce in his communion sermons in St Giles, Edinburgh, in 1591, when asking the question whether there could be said to be any difference in the receiving of Christ through the written and preached word and through the sacrament of the Lord's Supper. His reply was that 'he got a better grip on Christ in the sacrament nor [than] he did in the written or preached word'. Why this should be so is partly explained in Reformed theology by the fact that the visual reality of the broken bread and the poured out wine exerts an immediacy of impact upon the human soul which is not achieved by the

verbalised expression of the 'treasures of God's grace' mediated in the sermon. It would seem that Bruce is close to the truth of the matter: the presence of Christ to the believer in the sacrament is real in the profoundest sense of the term, and not just symbolically or metonymously, as Calvin himself might want to say. So now that we find ourselves in another theological climate, it is possible to deal with our subject in terms less black and white than those favoured by Calvin.

The subject is best covered if we say that the word, written or preached, and the sacrament, through the agency of the Holy Spirit enabling the faith of the believer, complement, interpret and fulfil each other to a degree where we have to say that one without the other is incomplete. The word, written and preached, through the Spirit, provides and fills-in the context in which the realities conveyed to the faithful in the sacrament have significance and from which they derive their significance. On the other hand, in Bruce's terms, in the sacrament these realities come home to us with a very special power and directness, and without them our faith is to that extent impoverished. In a sense, word and sacrament are delivered to us in the Gospel as a single package, and it is the Holy Spirit who thus holds word and sacrament together, for he through both creates the faith which, when he brings believers to him, enables them to be received by the living Christ. To remove part of that package, under whatsoever pressures, is to that extent to diminish its efficacy by reducing the access which the Spirit may have to our hearts, to the upbuilding of our faith, and to the receiving of Christ. Where, however, we have to be careful not to take a false step is the point at which we try to cast these arrangements in tablets of stone. We are speaking of the mercies of the living God, the benefits of our Saviour, and the limitless action of the Spirit and we dare not forget that these mercies and benefits are in his hand, and that the Saviour is not to be restrained even by the command he has given in the words of institution or by the mouth of prophet or evangelist. There is a place in the heart and the purposes of God for the uncovenanted mercies, which are but part of his unbounded love for all his creatures.

The Scriptures

It remains to consider the relation of the Holy Spirit to the Scriptures, and in particular to their authority, as Calvin understands this subject. The following are among the most important aspects of his treatment of the subject.

First of all there might appear to be some ambiguity in Calvin's answer to the question, whence derives the authority of the Scriptures. For example, the authority which the Scriptures have is to be assigned to the fact that they are believed to have come from heaven, and that when we read or hear them read, it is 'as if God had been heard giving utterance to them' (*Institutio* I.7.1), a view repeated in varying forms, such as, 'the Scriptures are from God' (ibid. I.7.5), or 'the Scripture exhibits clear evidence of its being spoken by God' (I.7.4). Now, surprisingly, the relation of the Holy Spirit to the authority of Scriptures is not mentioned here, but the adjustment is soon made, for Calvin once or twice in this chapter (I.7). introduces the phrase famously associated with his name: even though the Scriptures be God's words, they do not achieve credibility until the believer is convinced through the 'inward (or secret) testimony of the Holy Spirit'. So it is that even though it was through the instrumentality of men, through the mouths of prophets, that the message of the Gospel came to form the Scriptures, nevertheless they acquire accreditation through the penetration of the hearts of believers by the Holy Spirit who bears his testimony to them.

So, it might seem, Calvin is offering two accounts of the source of the authority of the Scriptures – the one, when he says that 'they are believed to have come from heaven as directly as if God had been heard giving utterance to them'; the other, when the Holy Spirit bears testimony to their truth within the hearts and faith of believers. Do these two views contradict each other, or is there some way of reconciling them? *Prima facie*, they do seem to be incompatible, in that on the one hand the authority of the Scriptures is said to reside in the manner of their creation, namely, being uttered by God; and on the other their authority depends upon their confirmation by the Holy Spirit in the hearts

of those reading them. In fact, there is no contradiction, as has been already adumbrated. The two accounts tell of a sequence which first records how the Scriptures came to be and to have gained such high standing; and then proceeds to tell how the message of the Scriptures is brought home to believers, to their salvation. Another way of stating the matter is to say that the first account defines the grounds for objective status, and the other describes the means of subjective confirmation and appropriation. This distinction, which Calvin himself does not draw out in *Institutio* I.7 but which is patently there, as we have just seen, turns out to be of considerable importance in considering how Calvin's thought has hardened into Calvinism.

Before pursuing that rather loaded comment, let me turn to a problem which Calvin has, perhaps justifiably, been charged with failing to solve – namely, the problem of the Canon. In Calvin's eyes, it is unthinkable that the Canon, which contains the whole truth of the Gospel and of God's great purposes for his people, should depend for its final definition and determination upon the judgement of the Church, upon 'the precarious authority lent to it by the goodwill of men'. Hence his emphatic declaration that the Scriptures have issued from the mouth of God himself, and it is upon the Scriptures that the foundation of the Church and its authority rest – and not vice versa. At that point the spectre of the Canon appears, for Calvin must follow whither his logic is now leading him, and say that when the Church does come to pronounce on the Canon (gives it 'the stamp of her authority'), it is but acknowledging and giving unreserved assent to the authentic truth of God as it is presented to it. In other words, this Canon which the Church accepts has been preselected and so defined through the utterance of God, who thus determines both the contents and the limits of the Holy Scriptures. It is hard to defend Calvin's *ipsissima verba* at this point, for there is no doubt that examination of the history of the forming of the Canon yields considerable evidence of the processes of very human decision-making in the Church, which have not changed much in a thousand years. However, for Calvin the situation is not totally irretrievable, for it is well within his range

of ideas to concede that even the councils of the Church and the hearts of 'the profane men', as he might on occasion call them, of whom the councils were composed, were not impervious to the penetration of the Holy Spirit. If so, the decisions to which they moved, however deviously and indirectly, yet finally rightly, represented the mind of God, Father, Son and Holy Spirit. As to the charge that such a view will trivialise the work of the Holy Spirit by attributing to him the inspiration of material which must have derived from the author of the book or the agent in the story, a response is possible along the following lines. Either we may consider the presence of the Holy Spirit in the process of the Scriptures being written as not dissimilar to his presence in the life, deeds and words of a believer, and recognise that his 'inspiration' cannot be thought to extend to all the trivia of the person's existence, nor therefore to all the minutiae of the events recorded in the Scriptures. Or we may build on Calvin's own reference to 'the instrumentality of men' (*Institutio* I.7.5), and comprise within the human component in the production of the Scriptures elements which are peripheral to the divine communications but are nonetheless necessary in order to provide an ambience for them.

We return now to a subject which has been thought to derive from Calvin, has certainly embodied itself centrally in Calvinism, and has persisted to this day to produce some of the most bitter divisions, not just between denominations of the Christian Church, but often within them. I refer to the belief that the Scriptures are verbally infallible, a belief thought to rest, partially at least, on Calvin's stated views (see above, p. 127) that God is their author and he has himself uttered them. What I wish to argue is that the premises of this deduction do not justify the conclusion which is thought to follow from it. Let me recapitulate two preliminary points already mentioned. One is that Calvin's claim that the Scriptures are uttered by God appears in the context of his rejection of any suggestion that the Scriptures owe their authority to the Church, and the claim has to be understood in that context. The other preliminary point is that Calvin rather qualifies what he has to say about the Scriptures being believed to

have come from heaven, 'as directly as if God had been heard having uttered them' (ibid. I.7.1). A good case could be made for saying that this quotation is not about the authentication of Scriptures with the claim that God uttered them, but rather about the immediacy, the directness with which the believers apprehend and appropriate the word from God and the Word of God, just as if God himself were speaking to them. It is a classical example of what Professor John Baillie used to call 'mediated immediacy' as applied to our knowledge of God, knowledge which has an immediate impact upon us, despite or because of the means through which it is effected in us. It is an altogether accurate account of what happens to all of us in our daily reading of the Scriptures, that through the reading of a psalm, a prophecy, a gospel or an epistle, we are made aware of the immediacy of God's address to us. In fact, I would be prepared to extend the interpretation of these words in I.7.1 to the other statements in Calvin about the Scriptures coming from the mouth of God (e.g., I.7.5, where the words 'as if' intrude themselves again).

Such reflections take us to the issue of Calvin and the Calvinists in the matter of the inspiration, authority and literal infallibility of the Scriptures, all too often presented as residing in the Scriptures *per se*. The error, from the point of view of what Calvin actually says, is the omission of all reference to the Holy Spirit, or, if he is referred to, his role is misunderstood. There seems to be no place in Calvin's scheme of things for the Scriptures operating by themselves. They are part of what I earlier called, perhaps with a little irreverence, but nonetheless truthfully, 'a package', or, with more sophistication, 'a constellation', consisting of God, the Holy Spirit, Jesus Christ, the Scriptures and the believers. God, with the salvation, sanctification and guidance of his people firmly part of his purpose for them, sends his Spirit to dwell within them, opening their hearts to the Scriptures, preparing them in faith to receive Christ himself and all his promises. Indeed, Calvin seems to think more of the preaching of the Word than of the reading of it as the means which the Spirit uses to bring believers to Christ; but the structure of the constellation is in no way changed, nor would it

be if we were to include in it, as Calvin so often did, the administration of the sacraments.

Mention of the sacraments takes us to the next stage of our discussion of the Calvin*ist* understanding of the authority and inspiration of Scripture. Calvin strongly inveighed against the unreformed view of the sacraments as having a virtue, a grace residing in themselves. It was only as they were received in faith, activated in the hearts of believers by the Holy Spirit, that Christ communicated himself to them. 'Christ does not otherwise dwell in us than through his Spirit, nor in any other way communicates himself to us than through the same Spirit', so says Calvin in 'Summary of Doctrine concerning the Ministry of the Word and the Sacraments' (in *Calvin: Theological Treatises*, ed. J. K. S. Reid, SCM Press, London, 1954, p. 172). I propose to argue analogically from the sacraments to the Scriptures. We begin with the acknowledged fact that the Scriptures are the only records 'in which God has been pleased to consign his truth to perpetual remembrance' (ibid. I.7.1). But – on the pattern of the sacraments – this truth remains unknown and unassimilated until the Holy Spirit quickens the faith, enlightens the mind, and warms the hearts of believers to embrace the truth of the Gospel and so to be brought into union and communion with Christ. The fulfilment of God's purpose as expressed and contained in the gift to us of the Scriptures is not in any sense native to, or isolated within, the Scriptures themselves. It happens within the whole complex of Spirit, Son, faith, union and communion, as well as the Scriptures. To extricate the Scriptures, and to invest them with independent attributes such as inerrancy, is to commit the Whiteheadian fallacy of misplaced concreteness, that is, the fallacy of abstracting a component of a complex and treating it as if it were the whole or had meaning out of relation to the whole. The true function of the Holy Spirit, then, in relation to Scripture (in addition to what we recognised earlier in connection with the Canon, the inspiration of the writers of the several books) is to lead believers – and non-believers – beyond prophets and apostles to Christ, and not simply to induce in them a belief in the verbal infallibility of Scripture. To be exact, the role of the Holy Spirit is not so much to bear testimony *to*

Scripture as *through* Scripture interpreted by faith, and lead to the living Christ. This Word of God which is the Gospel becomes effectual only by the testimony of the Holy Spirit; this faith engendered by the Holy Spirit becomes effectual within the context of the Church's participation in the same Holy Spirit, so that Church, faith, Scripture and the Holy Spirit are not to be put asunder in false isolation from one another, nor are they to be played off against one another.

Indeed, it is possible to go one step farther and say that the witness of the Holy Spirit *to* the authority or even the truth of Scripture could not be long sustained if the witness to the living Christ *through* Scripture were no longer effectual. It is the latter which is the prior condition of the former, and not vice versa. Over the centuries men and women have been led by the Holy Spirit through the Scriptures to an experience of the living Word and, in short, to salvation; and it is that fact which authenticates the Scriptures, not a dictum about their being dictated by the Holy Spirit. If ever that experience and that salvation did not happen in that context, supremely through the indwelling of the Spirit, then no amount of emphasis upon the dictation theory, or upon any other theory about how the inerrancy of Scripture arose, could *per se* create that encounter with the living Lord or bring that salvation to pass.

Therefore, as I see it, and as I have hinted already, the literal inerrancy theory of Scripture has much in common with the unreformed *ex opere operato* theory of the sacraments. In the Reformed view of the sacrament of the Lord's Supper, the bread and wine are received in faith as the body and blood of our Lord, faith created by the Holy Spirit who in the sacrament unites the believers in union and communion with Christ. But in the unreformed view the bread and wine are isolated from the rest of the situation, and invested independently with characteristics that properly belong to the whole event. The safeguard against such an isolation is already included in the liturgy, in the prayer,

> Send down your Holy Spirit to bless us, that the bread which we break may be for us the communion of the body

> of Christ, and the cup of blessing which we bless the communion of the blood of Christ; that we, receiving them, by faith may be made partakers of his body and blood, with all his benefits, to nourish us and help us to grow in grace, to the glory of your most holy name.

There is just no possibility here of the bread and wine having any power of procuring access to 'the benefits of Christ' outside of the circle which is created by the Holy Spirit who himself gives the faith which receives the benefits.

The irony of the theory of the literal inerrancy of Scriptures is that those who condemn any move to separate the bread and wine from faith and from the Holy Spirit who structures the whole situation of the Lord's Supper show no reluctance to claim a not dissimilar dissociation of the Scriptures from the circle created by the Holy Spirit, himself inspiring the faith of the believers who receive the truth of Scripture, and through the Scriptures leading them to union and communion with Jesus Christ. It would not be too far-fetched to put a similar construction on both cases. On the one hand, in the case of the sacrament of Holy Communion, we have the objective realities of the bread and wine given an unique status in the liturgy of the Church through our Lord's words of institution, and we may include in that objective setting the words recited in the liturgy. But it is only when there is faith in the believers and the Holy Spirit is effectively and effectually present that the sacrament fulfils the purpose for which it was instituted. On the other hand, in the case of the Scriptures, they have achieved what I have called objective status through the recognition of them in the Canon and its implication that it is through them that men and women hear the words of the Gospel and the invitation to salvation. But again, it is only as the Spirit quickens the faith of believers and leads them to Christ that objective reality becomes an inward and subjective realisation that they truly merit the title of the 'Word of God'. It is then that the Scriptures are 'authenticated', and their true authority is recognised only in the part that they play within the circle created by the Holy Spirit.

6

KARL BARTH AND THE TRINITARIAN MOULD

TRINITARIAN HYPOSTATIC (MODAL) MODEL/ CHRISTOLOGICAL–REVELATIONAL PATTERN

Two introductory statements have to be made to the fuller account of what Barth has to say on the Holy Spirit. The first is an explanation of the combined designation of this model as hypostatic (modal). Barth has declared his allegiance to the doctrine of the Triune God, none more loyally or comprehensively, though his account of it and of its source in the concept of revelation turns out, as might be expected, to be somewhat idiosyncratic. The trinitarian understanding of God to be found in Scripture is not of an impersonal power or spirit, but truly of a Person 'i.e., as an I existing in and for itself with a thought and will proper to it', and in these terms meets us in revelation as God thrice over, Father, Son and Holy Spirit (*The Doctrine of the Word of God*, ET by G. T. Thomson, T. & T. Clark, Edinburgh, 1936, p. 412). But then he goes on, rather surprisingly, to reject the concept of 'person' as the hermeneutical principle for the foundation of the doctrine of the Trinity, and to affirm that he will not use the term 'person' in his deployment of the nature and role of the members of the Trinity. Indeed, 'the man who wishes to keep it [the concept of person] throughout will scarcely find another valid argument to put alongside the undoubtedly honourable position it holds by hoary ecclesiastical and scientific usage, save that he has not a better one to put in its place' (ibid.). Having made his protest, and having supported it with evidence that some theologians who have used the term 'person' for the members of the Trinity, have been involved in Tritheism, Barth

surpisingly declares a preference for the notion 'mode of being'. Having avoided the Scylla of Tritheism, he now seems to be veering towards the Charybdis of Modalism. So, to keep the record straight, he says that by the use of this concept, he will mean 'the same thing as should be expressed by "Person"'. In fairness to Barth, it has to be said that as his presentation unfolds he does hold to that intention, and anyone charging him with Modalism would be relying on the evidence of a single phrase rather than on his total treatment of the Persons of the Trinity, as well as ignoring Barth's own statement that the doctrine of the Trinity is 'the denial of Modalism' (ibid., p. 438). Wisely, commonsense prevails, and we find him using the term 'person' as a 'practical abbreviation'.

The second introductory statement is more concerned with material content than with semantics, in so far as it draws attention to the way in which the concept of 'revelation' dominates both the general and the specific in all of Barth's account of the Trinity and of the persons in the Trinity. For example, he openly affirms that 'we come to the doctrine of the Trinity by no other way than by [the] analysis of the concept of revelation' (ibid., p. 358). The relationship is in fact reciprocal, for not only is the doctrine of the Trinity the interpretation of revelation, but revelation is the ground of the doctrine of the Trinity, while this reciprocity is rooted in the fact that the revelation attested to in the Scriptures, that is, to the self-revealing God, is understood solely in trinitarian terms. Again, in a proposition which is perhaps more difficult to understand, he argues that the statement, 'God reveals himself as Lord' is 'the root of the doctrine of the Trinity' (ibid., p. 353). Without repeating what I have said elsewhere (*The Shape of Christology*, SCM Press, London, 1966, pp. 156ff), may I briefly sum up, for our present purpose, that for Barth biblical revelation in general, and the revelation of God effected in the incarnation in particular, constitute the starting-point, the hermeneutic ambience and the normative control of all that he has to say about the doctrine of the Trinity. Nowhere shall we discover this theorem to be more true than in his account of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit to

which we now turn, with the quotation of his chapter heading (*The Doctrine of the Word of God*, p. 512):

> The one God reveals Himself to us according to Scripture as the Redeemer, i.e., as the Lord who sets us free. As such He is the Holy Spirit, by receiving whom we become the children of God, because, as the Spirit of the love of God the Father and God the Son, He is so previously in himself.

GOD AS THE REDEEMER

With the above programmatic statement before us, let us see how Barth leads us into the work of the Holy Spirit – the work, first, as distinct from his person. Given that men and women do in fact make the declaration 'Jesus is the Lord', how is it that they come to make such a statement? Confronted with Jesus 'in hard objectivity' in a world full of ambivalences as well as demi-gods, divine ideas and supermen, how is it that they can believe in the Father through the Son and the Son through the Father? Viewed from God's side, despite the long story of *Heilsgeschichte*, from creation through to the Cross and the resurrection, will the whole process fail at the very point where it was intended to fulfil its purpose? Will revelation turn out finally to be revelation? Barth's answer to these questions and several others in similar rhetorical vein – and there is but one answer – is that 'manifestation' must be added to the givenness of revelation 'as something special'. That manifestation and that something special is what Scripture speaks of as the Holy Spirit, and Barth then gives us (ibid., pp. 515ff) a comprehensive analysis of how this manifestation is effected, and what are the consequences which it entails. Thus, in a statement which will prove to be of significance for later accounts of the Spirit, Barth (ibid., pp. 515f) describes the Holy Spirit as

> God Himself, in so far as he is able, in an inconceivably real way, without being less God, to be present to the creature, and in virtue of this presence to realise the relation of the

> creature towards Himself, and in virtue of this relation to Himself to vouchsafe life to the creature.

A number of points are here being made. First is the fact that in his presence with his creature, it is the whole of God that is present, and not some part of his being, if that were possible, and certainly not that 'divine spark' within us as the Spirit used to be termed in some simplified (meaning 'falsified') theologies of former years, adapting the ideas of ancient Stoics. Barth is obviously here holding firmly to the deity of the Spirit. 'The Spirit is not, and does not become, identical with ourselves ... He remains Himself the Lord' (ibid., p. 519). Our interest in Barth's construction will take us into further development of the varieties of relationship into which God will move in executing the manifestation which is required to complete the whole process of revelation (see below, pp. 181ff).

So Barth can continue by restating what he has just said, in affirming that the God who is thus present with his creatures is not simply God from above, in the famous phrase *senkrecht von oben*, but also God from within and God from beneath. It is a case of God from above meeting God from below, and it is the Holy Spirit within the hearts and lives of men and women who prepares and enables them to receive the revelation. Alternatively stated: if the incarnation, death and resurrection of Jesus Christ constitute the objective side of revelation – what happened out there – then the Holy Spirit is the subjective side of the event of revelation, the presence of the revealed God happening within men and women. But it would be so easy to misconstrue Barth at this point and argue that, as he presents his case, he seems to be locating the Spirit already in men and women before the revelation takes place, awaiting, as it were, the arrival of the God from above.

Three comments on this interpretation are possible, the first more or less in agreement, the other two regarding it as a misconstruction of what Barth intends. The first finds no difficulty in accepting the suggestion that the Holy Spirit goes ahead of revelation and redemption, 'preparing the way of the Lord', but con-

templates this role of the Spirit as but part of his outgoing into the world, not just among unbelievers who may become believers, but also among those who never will, to whom belong the uncovenanted mercies of God. We shall return to this interpretation at a much later point in our study (see below, pp. 282f). The second comment prefers to interpret Barth as confining the role of the Spirit to more conventional terms. It sees Barth's purpose here as being very careful to make clear that the readiness and preparedness of men and women to receive revelation is in no circumstances a native ability of theirs, a position which is very much in line with his accounts elsewhere of the lostness of fallen humanity, whose *imago Dei* has to be renewed by God in Christ before knowledge of God becomes a possibility. The third comment equally rejects the idea of the Spirit acting out of relation to redemption and draws attention to Barth's mention of biblical texts where the Holy Spirit is spoken of as making a 'descent' (Acts 2.2; 10.44; 11.15) and as being a gift to the disciples from the Father, made at the request of the Son (Jn 14.16, 26) as well as being a gift sent to them by the Son himself (Jn 15.26). This presence of God within and from below is described in other terms. For example, God's presence in this way – it is clear now why Barth finds it useful to speak of a person of the Trinity as a mode of God's existence – is his guarantee that revelation will turn out to be revelation and will not be nullified at the last fence, and that the salvation of the people for whom Christ lived, died and was raised again will be accomplished. But not only does God make us sure of him, by ensuring that we participate in revelation, he also makes himself sure of us, by being so closely present to us that we do not, through folly or sin, falter in our response to his gracious offer, and so slip from his grasp.

Perhaps a word of caution becomes necessary at this point. Given that the Holy Spirit is, as we have just seen, so integrally involved in the process of revelation, making complete the work of Christ, and, further (a point that remains to be dealt with later), that the Spirit is the Spirit both of the Father and of the Son, two dangers have to be avoided. On the one hand, it is necessary to make clear that the Spirit is not to be identified with

the Son, with the Word of God. Not only has the Spirit a clearly distinguishable role to play in the event of revelation and its fulfilment, but without recognition of that role, we return to the questions Barth was asking at the beginning of this section, concerning the possibility that revelation might not reach its goal. In support of this distinction between the Spirit and the Son, Barth advances a view which certainly achieves that end, but commits him to an apparently unnecessarily narrow view of the work of the Spirit. He supposes that 'there is a Holy Spirit only after the death and resurrection of Jesus Christ' (ibid., p. 517), and the reason for this assertion lies in Barth's insistence that the Holy Spirit is God himself completing subjectively in the hearts of his people what he had initiated objectively 'from before the foundation of the world', namely, his whole plan of salvation and revelation. Barth, however, is scholar enough to admit the existence of contrary New Testament texts, where references to Spirit-inspired events occur prior to the crucifixion, and allows that 'backward-striking rays of the glory of the Risen One' produce 'retrospective illumination', certainly not just upon the miracles which Jesus wrought, but also upon his entire life (ibid., p. 518). Even such a concession falls short, in my judgement, on two counts. The first is that it places a question mark against all the references to the Holy Spirit, or the Spirit of God, which occur throughout the Old Testament (above, pp. 40ff), where we saw the Spirit to be already involved in the salvific purposes of God. These may be comprehended within the 'retrospective illumination' which Barth applied to the New Testament references. The second area of Spirit-related occasions mentioned in the Old Testament, and indeed by extension beyond, and affected by Barth's confining the action of the Holy Spirit to post-resurrection occurrence, comprises those which do not have a clear connection with God's salvific purposes – the arts and crafts, as well as all imaginative, creative achievements. Barth, with all the weight of his authority and the persuasiveness of his scholarship, here reinforces what has been an element in Reformed theology from the sixteenth century, the defining of the role and work of the Spirit exclusively in direct association with the person and

work of Jesus Christ. While in no way willing to diminish that association, I should like to find a place in any final account of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit for those human creative activities which are mentioned, albeit infrequently, in the Old Testament.

There now follows a consequence which carries great importance both for the individuals with whom God is present in his Spirit and for the Church. 'The Spirit is the great, the only possibility in virtue of which men can so speak of Christ, that their language becomes testimony, therefore that the revelation of God in Christ becomes actual anew by their speaking' (ibid., p. 520). So the revelation that is given to individual people is not intended for their private delectation or solely for their subjective salvation. On the contrary, it constitutes 'the qualification, equipment and call' (ibid., p. 522) to speak out to the world the great and wonderful deeds of God, in and through the life, death and resurrection of his Son. In a word, the Spirit is the medium through which the Gospel is made available to every generation of human beings down through the ages. Returning now to the programmatic statement which he made concerning the essence of the work of the Spirit, and to what is in fact the content of the testimony which the Spirit empowers and instructs believers to proclaim, Barth emphasises the two major elements in it. The first is that the Spirit makes men and women free to be addressed by revelation and to embrace the salvation at its heart, 'free' because in themselves they are powerless and totally incapacitated to receive it. In a few paragraphs Barth provides the foundation principles for what was later to be 'Liberation Theology', and through his associating it closely with the work and inspiration of the Holy Spirit, anticipates the influence which the doctrine of the Holy Spirit was to have upon its devotees. The other element selected for comment by Barth from the witness of the Holy Spirit to Scripture is that it is through the Spirit that we become the children of God, belonging to God as children of the Father, and are so empowered to call him *Abba*, Father.

It is necessary at this point to step back somewhat in order, on the one hand, to appreciate what Barth has been doing so far and thereby, on the other hand, to anticipate what is now his way

forward. In short, he has been rehearsing in detail all that is involved in that *opus ad extra Trinitatis* which has traditionally been appropriated to the Holy Spirit, and which can be extrapolated when that *opus* is defined as fulfilling God's purposes in initiating the process of revelation in Jesus Christ. In Barth's judgement, what he has been setting forth represents what the New Testament has to say about the operation of the Holy Spirit. So effective had been this operation by the Holy Spirit, so successful in bringing God's will to fruition in the manner described, that the young Church made its classic confession '*Iesous Kurios*', 'Jesus is Lord'. That this confession should have been achieved has one single source. It was not because the men and women of that day had some hidden faculty of perception native to themselves, or because they wakened up one day to a truth which was before their eyes all along and been unobserved. Rather, the faith, the *pistis*, which made the declaration was the work of one specific mode of God's existence, namely, the Holy Spirit. So this presence of the Spirit in the witness to Jesus by the Church, which in itself was an example of the Spirit's role in securing the manifestation of the revelation in Jesus, taken together with the many different occasions in the New Testament where the work of the Spirit is described, constitutes for Barth the ground for the affirmation of the essential divinity of the Holy Spirit, a mode of God's existence, in essential unity with the Father and the Son. Barth believes it to be so because what the Holy Spirit effects on those several biblical occasions, from his presence with Jesus or the outpouring at Pentecost to the inspiration of the lowliest believer, could only be achieved by one who was in himself, and not by adoption or by any process of emergence, truly God, in unity of being with the Father and the Son.

So we are brought in due time to ...

THE ETERNAL SPIRIT

It has always been a subject of interest to historians of doctrine that the definition of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit emerged so

late in the thought of the Church compared to the articulation of christology. For my own part, as I have already said, I have tended to regard this circumstance as a function of the early absence within pneumatology of the controversies which led to canonical views of the person of Christ. Barth offers another reason for the lateness of authenticated accounts of the person of the Holy Spirit. He locates the problem for pneumatology in human beings themselves, who can understand that the initiation of revelation has to come from the Revealer who is by definition outside humanity itself; and likewise also the Revelation, the Incarnate Lord, is never likely to be confused with humanity. But when they come to the acceptance of that revelation, to the Revealedness, to an event which is so personal and inward to man, part of his subjectivity, then there comes resistance from human beings to any suggestion that the acceptance, the faith required to accept, is not of themselves. Consequently, a doctrine which affirms that even the acceptance of revelation, like the decision of God to reveal himself and of the Son to be the bearer of that revelation, is not the work of human beings, but wholly and utterly the work of God, God in the third mode of his being, God a third time over, does not find ready acceptance by human beings in their self-pride.

> The dogma of the Spirit means the knowledge, that in every respect man can only be present at God's revelation, as a servant is present at his master's action, i.e., following, obeying, imitating, serving; and that this relation is in no wise and at no time reversed. (Ibid., pp. 536f)

In a sentence Barth takes his stance in opposition to all Pelagians, synergists, and what he comprehensively calls 'modern Protestantism in its entirety'. So this work of the Spirit, which Barth has so often emphasised as the one who completes the revelation process, is not to be regarded as the activity whereby he achieves divinity. He works this work of 'manifestation' of the revelation in the Son subjectively in the hearts and lives of men and women, work which we might call 'God's work', because he is God antecedently to revelation and in himself.

METHOD

By way of introduction to our exploration of what Barth has to say on 'the Eternal Spirit', I should like to consider two matters which are of great importance to that study, the one concerned with method and the other with substantial influence. The subject of method is connected with his understanding of the relation of the immanent Trinity to the economic Trinity, which exercised him many years before it became the topical controversy which it is today. Barth came out unambiguously with his declarations that the former is the confirmation, underlining and, materially, the indispensable major premise of the latter, and that 'one [has] to abide by the distinction and unity of the modes of existence in God, as they meet us, according to the testimony of Scripture, in the reality of God in his revelation' (ibid., p. 548).

There are two elements in Barth's argument here, the one explicit, the other implicit. The explicit argument is as follows: Let us assume that there is some hiatus between God as he is in his revelation and God as he is antecedently in himself, the case for such a possible hiatus resting upon grounds of pious conviction of the ultimate mysteriousness of God, which is thought to be far beyond human understanding. Then there is the danger that somewhere behind the God of revelation there might stand 'another reality of God', whose character was different from, or even contradictory to, that which has been revealed in the person and work of Jesus Christ through the Holy Spirit. On the contrary, Barth maintains, the reality of the God whom we encounter and by whom we are accepted through his action in revelation, is the reality of God as he exists 'in the depths of eternity' (ibid.).

The second, what I called the implicit, element in Barth's argument for the relation of the 'immanent Trinity' to the 'economic Trinity' is contained in a phrase he used which was quoted above, namely, that the former is 'the major premise' of the latter. His meaning is not altogether pellucid, but what he intends is that the statements which are comprised within the account of the economic Trinity are true if, and only if, the

statements comprising the immanent Trinity are true in the first place. Put another way: a right understanding of the elements of the doctrine of the economic Trinity, especially as it relates to the activity of the God who is Father, Son and Holy Spirit as recorded in Scripture, commits us to the component elements of the doctrine of the immanent Trinity. A caveat must here be made against the suggestion that for Barth the immanent Trinity is a divine, identical image of the economic Trinity, if for no other reason than that the former is eternal in nature as are the relations within it, while the latter is deep-set in time and temporal occasions and relations. On the other hand, it would be wrong to try to maintain that the logical movement from the economic to the immanent Trinity conforms to any one of the acknowledged forms of logical reasoning, inductive, deductive or analogical, though there is, I am sure, a fair amount of all three at work, though none is dominant.

The nearest form of logical activity that comes to mind, as I have argued elsewhere, is the method adopted by Kant in his epistemological analysis of our perception of the external world, which involves what he calls 'transcendental deduction'. Given that we perceive the external world as we do, with events occurring in time and in a variety of spatial relationships to one another, he describes what he considers to be the conditions of the possibility of such events, and he sets out in his own terminology the components of these conditions: the intuitions of space and time, the conceptual categories of the relationships, and the ideas of reason. The events that we perceive are as they are because they conform to these conditions set out in Kant's analysis, which, it has to be said, can only be made on the basis of the events as perceived. The analogy is at best rough and ready and at worst misleading, and, if so, should be discarded; but before doing so, we should realise that it represents the form of analysis appropriate to the sort of argument that we employ in character-assessment, by observing the ways in which people act overtly, using what is fashionably called 'body-language', and speak and make signs. Barth's unambiguous commitment, then, to the relationship which we have indicated between the imma-

nent and the economic Trinity, being a form of this 'transcendental deduction', should prescribe what he will say about the Holy Spirit *ad intra* and define his attitude to several of the traditional questions surrounding the place of the Holy Spirit in the Trinity.

THE INFLUENCE OF AUGUSTINE

The second matter for discussion prior to the actual consideration of Barth's treatment of 'The Eternal Spirit' is the subject of the substantial influence of Augustine upon his presentation. To that subject we now proceed. Two themes occur prominently in Augustine's *De Trinitate*, particularly in Book XV, the matter of the attribution of the concept of love specifically to the Spirit, and the affirmation of the *Filioque* in the Nicene Creed. Because of both Barth's interest in Augustine and the immense influence of Augustine's trinitarian theory and, by implication, his account of the Holy Spirit upon Protestant thought on this matter, it will be interesting to determine how far Barth's own views compare with Augustine's. Taking up the first of these two themes – the application of the attribution of love to the Holy Spirit – it was given what turned out to be its classic formulation by Augustine in the statements: 'The Holy Spirit is the communion of Godhead, the mutual affection and love of Father and Son' (*De Fid. et Symb.* 9.19) and 'Scripture teaches us that he [the Holy Spirit] is the Spirit neither of the Father alone nor of the Son alone, but of both; his being suggests to us that mutual charity whereby the Father and the Son love one another' (*De Trinitate* XV.27/xvii; cf. also 31, 37). Augustine, after acknowledging that the Scriptures do not say, 'The Holy Spirit is charity' (*De Trin.* XV.27/xvii) but rather that 'God is charity', follows a number of lines to demonstrate the truth of what 'the Scriptures do not say'. For example, using the psychological modes of memory, understanding or wisdom, and charity, the human mental image so much favoured throughout the entire work, Augustine holds that, while they all apply to the whole Godhead, they may yet be

appropriated to one or other of the persons, memory to the Father, wisdom to the Son (cf. 1 Cor 1.24) and charity to the Spirit. The propriety of such application in the case of the Spirit can be amply demonstrated, according to Augustine, from biblical sources, particularly 1 John 4.7ff and Paul, Rom 5.5, where the Spirit is said to be the medium of the presence of the love of God in the hearts of believers, love both to God and to neighbour; or the means whereby, through that love kindled within them by the Spirit, they are enabled to dwell in God. This association of the Spirit with love in the economy of salvation is translated into his characterisation within the Trinity, in the very briefest of statements, scarcely to be called 'arguments', at XV.37. If the charity which marks the relationship of the Father to the Son and the Son to the Father (as threaded through the text of John 14 and 15, which strangely Augustine does not employ in his presentation, though he clearly is presupposing the substance of these passages as they relate to the mutual love of Father and Son) is evidence of the communion of the Father and the Son, then it is appropriate that the Holy Spirit, who is the Spirit of both, and who in addition is the source of the love which effects the indwelling of believers in God himself, should be that charity. So we come by indirections to the famous definition that 'The Holy Spirit is the eternal love wherewith the Father loves the Son and the Son the Father'.

Let me make four comments on this presentation. First, it appears to lean heavily upon the doctrine of appropriations operating, as it were, in reverse. Normally, according to this doctrine, works of the Trinity *ad intra* are to be taken as paradigms for works *ad extra* which are similar to the actions of the persons within the Godhead. Augustine could be said to be arguing in reverse; the works *ad extra* are the clue to the works *ad intra*. Stated in these terms, however, the line of argument is beginning to look rather like the suggestion that the economic Trinity is the basis of understanding the immanent Trinity. If we accept such an interpretation of Augustine's method, then we are on stronger ground than we would be if relying upon the doctrine of appropriations, even in reverse; and further, we are suggesting a

whole new way of interpreting what the traditional doctrine of appropriations has been attempting.

Secondly, I was encouraged to see that Augustine used the word 'communion' as the key to the description of the mutual loving relation between the Father and the Son, instead of resorting to Platonist or Aristotelian categories, and further, that in equating the charity involved in that communion with the Holy Spirit, he clearly defined the character of the Spirit within the Trinity. Here I have to defend Augustine, for he is sometimes charged with hypostatising a relationship (in this case, love) and regarding the *hypostasis* thus achieved as a genuine trinitarian person. The movement of his thought, on the contrary, is quite different, and 'equation' is the operative word. He finds in Scripture the mutual love of Father and Son, as documented above, and on the other hand has fully described the work of the Spirit *ad extra* in enabling believers to dwell in the love of God; he then identifies the Spirit, as known in his work with believers, with the love which is internal to the Godhead, is itself eternal, and bonds Father and Son together.

Thirdly, much has been written critically, often in the form of doctoral theses, concerning the nature of the love of which we have been speaking, as if it were more akin to the love spoken of by Plato and his school. Such an account, again, I believe to be caricature, and is not borne out by reference to the biblical texts mentioned in Book XV of the *De Trinitate* as well as in the *Seventh Homily* on 1 John. Clearly, the love which Augustine has in mind in his discussions in *De Trin.* XV is God's love for all humanity which moved him to send forth his only-begotten Son into the world that we might live, the love with which he first loved us and sent his Son to be the propitiation for our sins. It is this love which lies at the heart of his arguments about the relation of the Holy Spirit, on the one hand, to those who through him come to dwell in God and, on the other hand, to the Father and the Son within the Trinity.

Fourthly, while it certainly is the case that Augustine uses his tripartite psychology to introduce the association of the Holy Spirit with the third mode of consciousness, namely, charity

(subsumed under volition), it is hard to see that the introduction seriously affects his subsequent discussion, any more than associating the Son with the second mode, understanding or wisdom, distorts his christological reflections. The only awkwardness of the use of the tripartite psychology arises in the case of the first person, the Father, who is associated with memory (e.g., at *De Trin.* XV.12), where there is not so much distortion in the account of the work of the Father as a certain infelicity. Here we open up the question of the use of this kind of psychology by Augustine and, more precisely, the question of its dominance or otherwise in his account of the works both *ad extra* and *ad intra* of the persons in the Trinity. But as regards the matter in hand, my own judgement is that, having used the psychology in order to start up his trinitarian views, he very soon discards it, and certainly does not allow it precedence over his biblical sources and influences. In fact, there is a passage in *De Trin.* XV.45 in which Augustine acknowledges that having thought he had found in man an image of the Trinity, and having tried to make the likeness more readily apprehensible by presenting it in 'temporal succession', he had in effect to abandon the image on two scores. One was that 'our human way of thinking cannot fit [match] the three entities [the three modes of consciousness] in one human person to the three divine persons'. The other was that temporal succession was inapplicable to the begetting of the Son by the Father and to the proceeding of the Spirit from Father and Son. This acknowledgement, to my mind, settles the question of whether Augustine was ultimately dominated by his psychological model in his trinitarian thinking.

We turn next to the other matter in Augustine's thought of importance for our study of Barth, which is closely connected with our most recent enquiry, namely, the *Filioque*, the procession of the Holy Spirit from the Father and the Son. This doctrine of the double procession, which was introduced into the Nicene Creed, is defended by Augustine with a fairly limited range of arguments. For example, he quotes scriptural references to 'the Spirit of the Father' and to 'the Spirit of the Son', adding that there are many other texts of Scripture to prove that the Holy

Spirit who exists within the Trinity is the Spirit of both Father and Son. Even so, there is somewhat of a logical gap between the statement that the Spirit is Spirit of both Father and Son and the affirmation of the double procession. He attempts to bridge the gap with two further considerations.

The first occurs as a combination of two texts: Jn 15.26, where Jesus promises that he will send to the disciples 'from the Father, even the Spirit of truth, which proceedeth from the Father', which is – understandably – an indication that the Spirit proceeds from the Father; and Jn 20.22, when after the resurrection and in the evening of that same day, Jesus calls upon the disciples, assembled behind closed doors, to 'receive the Holy Spirit', which Augustine takes as a clear assertion that the Spirit proceeds from the Son. So, when these two points are taken together, the double procession of the Spirit seems to be scripturally validated – though in honesty it has to be admitted that there is a conceptual shift from *opera ad extra* to *opera ad intra Trinitatis* without apparent awareness of the shift on Augustine's part. The second relevant consideration is somewhat more complex and more theological, as against 'scriptural'. Augustine contends that when the Father begets the only-begotten Son, he imparts to him the common gift, which is the procession of the Holy Spirit from the Son also – adding, paradoxically, that indeed the Son had never existed without this gift (ibid., XV.29, 47, 48). The latter qualification is Augustine's way of ensuring that, as the begetting of the Son by the Father is an eternal generation, so the procession of the Spirit from the Father and the Son is equally eternal, and in no way to be regarded as temporal (cf. ibid., XV.45, as mentioned above, p. 148). John Burnaby, who translates, selects and comments from time to time upon detail in the SCM publication, *Augustine: Later Works* (SCM Press, London, 1954), which includes Books VIII to XV of the *De Trinitate*, remarks in a footnote on p. 158 that, in the light of Augustine's views of the procession of the Spirit as a gift of the Father in begetting the Son, Augustine does not really differ from the Eastern doctrine of the procession of the Spirit from the Father through the Son. This suggestion I find difficult to accept,

for a number of reasons. For example, Augustine explicitly distanced himself from the single procession of the Spirit, and he would continue to do so if the Eastern position were clouded by the phrase 'through the Son'. Also, he returns on several occasions to what he considers to be genuine arguments from Scripture for the double procession. Moreover, the sentence which Burnaby uses (op. cit., pp. 158f), even when repeated (on pp. 175, 177), does not represent a majority view and must be interpreted in the light of Augustine's quite extensive and repeated other teaching on the nature of the procession of the Spirit. Still, what does the sentence mean, and how does it integrate with the rest of Augustine's teaching on the procession of the Spirit? For Augustine, the Father, in begetting the Son, does not impart to him his essential divine being but rather the elements which constitute his personal being, that is, his relations to the other persons in the Godhead, what is traditionally called his 'personal properties'. Among these are relational properties, which in the case of the Son include the fact that from him, as from the Father, the Spirit proceeds. I do not see here any concession to the Eastern position.

There is, however, one other view of the Spirit which throws a rather different light on the subject of procession. In *De Trin.* XV.31–36, Augustine expands on the theme that the Holy Spirit is 'the gift of God', and the introduction to these paragraphs had contained this same idea, but in reverse, and the Holy Spirit is said (*Augustine: Later Works*, p. 160) to proceed from God, who is Father, Son and Holy Spirit. It is maybe a *hapax legomenon*, as far as Augustine is concerned, and too much store should not be laid by it, but it would be an interesting thought if it could be set alongside Professor Tom Torrance's interpretation of Calvin: 'for Calvin the procession of the Holy Spirit must be thought of as from the whole spiritual Being of God the Father which the Holy Spirit has in common with the Father and the Son' (*Trinitarian Perspectives*, T. & T. Clark, Edinburgh, 1994, p. 35). Professor Torrance aims, through this interpretation of Calvin, to demonstrate similarity with the thought of Gregory of Nazianzus, and so to build a bridge between East and West on the subject of the

procession of the Holy Spirit. It would be an interesting thought, maybe no more, if Augustine were found to stand alongside Gregory of Nazianzus and Calvin, on the subject of the procession of the Spirit!

After our excursus into Augustinian pneumatology, we return to Barth, I trust, with sharpened perception of the background of Barth's thought. By comparison with Augustine's, Barth's separate treatment of the two themes examined in Augustine – the relation of the Holy Spirit to the concept of love and the affirmation of the *Filioque* clause in the Creed – is much less sharply defined; so much so that Barth seems to find it impossible to deal with the one without involving the other at crucial points in his argument. But there is a question of method facing us right at the start. Barth seems to begin by declaring afresh his allegiance to the virtual identity of the immanent Trinity and the economic Trinity – that what God is in revelation, he is antecedently in himself. Applied to the Holy Spirit, as we have already noted (above, p. 141), this theorem is illustrated in the following way. Since the Holy Spirit brings to completion the work of revelation and reconciliation effected through the Son, in obedience to the Father – a work, like the whole revelation and reconciliation process, proper only to God – therefore the Spirit, as far as the *opus ad extra Trinitatis* is concerned, shares in the fullness of divine essence. What is true *ad extra* is equally true *ad intra*. This argument is the core of his demonstration of the divinity of the Holy Spirit, and it conforms to the norm that the immanent Trinity is not different from the economic Trinity.

But when Barth then moves on to describe the relationship of the Father to the Son in terms of love and of the Holy Spirit, he seems at some points to be employing a purely intra-trinitarian argument (e.g., pp. 537f, 552ff), with less emphasis laid upon the *opera ad extra Trinitatis* as the basis for argument concerning the Spirit. For example, in the first of the above references, he affirms, without prior build-up, that the specific feature of the mode of existence of the Spirit consists in his being 'the common factor' between the mode of existence of the Father and the mode of existence of the Son; or, as he continues, he is the communion,

the community-ness, of the Father and the Son – 'the act in which the Father is the Father of the Son, and the Son is the Son of the Father, the Word of the Speaker'. Barth adds later (p. 538) that the 'common being and operation of the Father and the Son alongside the Father and the Son separately' is the special mode of divine existence, which is the Spirit. I cannot resist mentioning in parenthesis that Barth seems to be making a very nice point here, which will prove to be relevant later to the discussion of the 'double procession' so-called, in so far as he is saying that the Holy Spirit is not a *tertium quid* which follows from the Father and the Son, but is present from the beginning within the Father–Son relationship. The reason for this out-of-place comment very soon appears. Immediately after the above, on the same page (p. 538), the notion of 'love' – so far omitted – does emerge in a strange and unannounced way, to have a dominant part in the continuing discussion when, in further demonstration of the divinity of the Holy Spirit, he describes this common being and act of Father and Son, 'this act of his God-being as Father and Son', as an act of 'reciprocal love' which can effect nothing which is less than God himself. Implied is the conclusion that, as the reciprocated love of Father and Son is eternal and divine, so is the Holy Spirit, who now by definition is that communion and love antecedently in himself and in his own right divine. Barth reaffirms (pp. 552ff) this main theme in his summary of his position: 'Father from eternity, God brings forth his Son from eternity; and being the Son from eternity, he comes forth from the Father', and in this reciprocal process, God affirms himself a third time over, the Holy Spirit as the love which unites himself in one. Barth calls in the biblical text, 'God is love' (1 Jn 4.8) in expansion of his theme, to add that, since God is love and that love is the love in which God 'posits' himself as Father and Son, that love which goes forth out of God is the Spirit.

At this point we might be beginning to fear that we are drifting away somewhat from the previously argued principle that revelation is the starting-point for intra-trinitarian reflections, towards a dangerously aprioristic manipulation of rational concepts. But not so; for, returning to the immanent/economic distinction,

Barth says that the Spirit is God the Holy Spirit in revelation, because he is so, and on that basis, antecedently in himself.

Going on now to Barth's supporting arguments for the *Filioque* clause in the Western form of the Nicene Creed, we find that the case he presents has positive and negative components. For example, having already established that the Spirit is the love or the communion between the Father and the Son, he claims that the *Filioque* clause is the expression of the knowledge of that relationship. As regards the *ad extra* trinitarian event of revelation, there is no possibility of its being accepted by human beings as if they were ready and able to do so. It is the work of the Holy Spirit *ad extra* to empower human beings to receive the revelation from the Father of himself in the Word, and just as necessarily from the Son, from Jesus Christ, who reveals the Father (p. 549). Accordingly, as God is antecedently in himself what he is in revelation, so in eternity the Spirit must be said to proceed from the Father and the Son. Barth also makes the much simpler point that the Scriptures refer on a number of occasions to the Spirit as being the Spirit of the Father as well as the Spirit of the Son. In a classic piece of Barthian logic, he takes the *Filioque* case yet farther. From the following protaseis: 1, if God reveals himself to us through his only-begotten Son; and 2, if God's only-begotten Son is no less and no other than the Father; and 3, if God's self-revelation is at least the revelation also of his Love; and 4, if revelation would not be revelation without the gift of the Spirit, to ensure that human beings are God's children; then the apodosis follows: the Spirit is directly the Spirit of the Son, as of the Father. The Son is involved in this process, not just as an intermediary between the Father and the gift of the Spirit, but immediately and together with the Father. What is true of the event of revelation is true of the relation of Father, Son and Spirit antecedently in eternity. *Ergo*, the Spirit, who is the Spirit of love, is the gift of Father and Son, and so proceeds from both Father and Son.

Barth takes a farther and, in the history of the subject, an unusual step in refusing to characterise the procession of the Spirit as from the Father *and* the Son, as a double procession from

the Father and from the Son in the form of two single processions. On the contrary, he says that the phrase *ex Patre Filioque* denotes a common origin from-the-Father-and-the-Son, and requires to be distinguished from the relations of the Father and the Son to one another, the one bringing forth and the other being brought forth – relations which are not common but reciprocal. What Father and Son have in common, what exists between them is the third mode of God's being, Love who is the Holy Spirit. 'Thus the one God-being of the Father and of the Son is, or the Father and Son in their one God-being, are the origin of the Holy Spirit' (p. 557).

We mentioned that Barth offered both positive and negative arguments for supporting Western theology in its affirmation of the *Filioque*; and we look now at his negative arguments, which are, as might be expected, mainly criticisms of the Eastern rejection of the doctrine. Straightforwardly, he charges the Eastern theologians of unjustifiably isolating one text (Jn 15.26) which affirms the procession of the Spirit from the Father but not giving an equal weight to the many other texts which speak of the Spirit as the Spirit of the Son. He pleads for mutual supplementation of biblical texts in the construction of a theology claimed to rest on the basis of Scripture. Barth now (pp. 549ff) introduces the negative argument in an interesting, fresh and not altogether easy to understand form, which is certainly worth teasing out because of what emerges from it about the further work *ad extra* of the Holy Spirit. From his by this time oft-asserted view of the Holy Spirit as the communion, the love, between the Father and the Son, Barth concludes that this relationship is the 'ground and confirmation' of the communion between God and human beings which is effected by the Spirit in the event of revelation; through this same communion in revelation, the mystery of the eternal love in God himself becomes knowable. However, if the *Filioque* is denied, as in the Eastern Church, these positions are nullified. If the Spirit is the Spirit of the Son only in revelation, and not antecedently in the Godhead from all eternity, then this communion of God and human beings, of which Barth has been speaking, is gravely impaired to the point of lacking 'objective ground and

content', while revelation itself loses meaning. It is so – and here the expositor has to fill in the logic, rather like the child completing the outline of a figure, given only a series of dots – because if the Spirit is not the Spirit of the Son within the Godhead, then that love which he is as the communion between Father and Son will be missing. Therefore the communion between God and human beings, however widely acknowledged in the temporal scene, will have no ultimate ground in the being of God himself, and will yield no actual revelation of the content of God's being. Other difficulties appear; for example, this communion between God and human beings just mentioned will turn out to be a relation between Creator and creature, and with the omission of the Son–Spirit relationship and of the mediatorial role which the Son would play in revelation and reconciliation, it would be open to interpretation as a form of immediate, unmediated 'mystical union' of the creature with God the Father. So the theme determining Barth's attitude to the Eastern denial of the *Filioque* is that the communion between God and human beings which is effected in the event of revelation is grounded in eternity in the love and communion between the Father and the Son which is the Holy Spirit.

THE HOLY SPIRIT IN THE CHRISTIAN CHURCH AND IN CHRISTIAN LOVE; AND BAPTISM WITH THE HOLY SPIRIT

Having laid out the basic structure of Barth's pneumatology, we shall, before leaving him, consider selected different ways in which he eventually employs it in the extension of his theology, particularly in his understanding of the Church and Christian love, and the foundation of the Christian life. Let us take them in turn.

THE HOLY SPIRIT AND THE CHURCH

From a low-key description of the Church as 'a human, earthly–historical construct' historically involving human actions, Barth

swiftly identifies it as 'the Christian Church' for two reasons. The first is that God is at work in it by his Holy Spirit, who is the quickening power of the risen Lord Jesus Christ; and the second reason is that the human activity which takes place in the Church is occasioned and fashioned by God (*Church Dogmatics*, IV/2, ET, T. & T. Clark, Edinburgh, 1958, p. 616). So when the question of the visibility of the true Church is raised, the answer is that it is only endowed with visibility through the victory of the Holy Spirit over the sinfulness of human action and volition. The work of the Holy Spirit in the Church is goal-oriented towards the upbuilding of the community and the revelation of the sanctification of the whole of humanity and of human life which has taken place in Jesus Christ. The notion of the community of the Church Barth now redraws in terms of the credal *communio sanctorum*, the many men and women who are quickened by the power and action of the Holy Spirit and live and act in communion with the Holy Spirit and so in conjunction with one another. But as members of the human race acting within the course of human history, they are still part of the *communio peccatorum*. Nevertheless, since they still live and act in the communion of the one Holy Spirit, they remain also the *communio sanctorum*, 'a provisional representation of the new humanity in the midst of the old' (ibid., p. 642). Barth never loses, however, his christocentricism or the bond which we have seen he maintains between the work of the Spirit and the work of Jesus Christ. For he defines the being of the Spirit, even in this work of upbuilding the Church, as 'the self-attestation of Jesus' and, as such, the Spirit causes the community of the *sancti* to grow, both in numbers and in depth of faith, into the true Church in the world. Thus by his self-attestation through the power of the Spirit, Jesus, who would otherwise be remote in 'absolute transcendence' in heaven at the right hand of the Father, is still at work in earthly history and in the community of the Church as it operates in the world. Barth can even speak of two aspects or forms of existence of Jesus Christ after the resurrection – the one in heaven and on the throne, 'in the height and distance, and hiddenness of God' (ibid., p. 653); the other

earthly–historical, with sinners now in the community which is his body. These two forms, there and here, are but one. He adds immediately that the Holy Spirit is subject to this dual description as the sanctifying power from on high, and the indwelling power who moves within history, exposed to all its ambiguities, whether ecclesiastical or theological. Moreover, the nexus between the Spirit and Jesus is close. That has to be said because, as Barth expands upon the place of Jesus in the Christian community, imparting himself to them, being present with them, disclosing to them his unity with them and so on, we are tempted to wonder whether the place of the Holy Spirit has been ignored or is denied by implication. Not so. Each time, as Barth spins out his comprehensive accounts of the closeness of Jesus to the community which is the Church, he is careful to say – sometimes only in a phrase – that it is all happening 'in the power of the Spirit'. It is a very thoroughgoing Christ-centred pneumatology, but it is beyond doubt a pneumatology.

THE HOLY SPIRIT AND CHRISTIAN LOVE

Having dealt with the place of the Holy Spirit in the upbuilding of the Church, Barth now turns to consider the Holy Spirit as the quickening power in which Jesus Christ embraces the sinful human beings within the community which is his Body, and enables them freely to obey God and to love others. Christians have heard in the Gospel that God has reconciled the world and all humanity to himself in Jesus Christ and that this fact is true in a very special way for them, and it will find shape in the form and character of their lives. They will live in the knowledge that they belong to Christ and that they have a part in that reconciliation effected in Christ. It remains then for Christians in faith to receive Christ and reconciliation and all that God gives them in Christ. But the reception does not end there, for as Christ himself has, in the exercise of his kingly office, come among us as a servant, so the men and women who receive the promised forgiveness of their sins are also bound, as the form of their

sanctification, to obedience, work and service (ibid., p. 729). This end is achieved through the quickening power of the Holy Spirit, who not only confronts the new man and woman with the demand for the reality of conversion and discipleship, but 'calls and transposes' them into it. On the one hand, then, their existence consists totally in the reception of Christ in faith and of their sanctification in him – what Barth calls the first act in this process. On the other hand, the quickening power of the Holy Spirit is also present in the 'second act', which is the act of 'total giving, offering and surrender, corresponding to this receiving' (ibid., p. 730). The name for such self-giving is love, and while it stands in contrast to the faith of reception, the two acts are indivisible though distinguishable elements in the Christian life. As in Jesus Christ humiliation and exaltation are but two components of a single divine action, so in the Christian life justification and sanctification are but two distinguishable though simultaneous components of one single divine action effected by Christ through the Spirit.

This love, this self-giving, which is at the centre of Christian discipleship and obedience to God, and which is present in sinful humanity through the quickening power of the Spirit, has its ultimate foundation in the being and nature of God. Barth draws now upon that theology of love within the Trinity with which we are familiar: '"God is" and "God loves" are synonymous' (ibid., p. 755). The Triune God is in essence love. The Father loves the Son and the Son the Father, and the love and communion which exists between them and unites them is the Holy Spirit. That love, which God is in himself from all eternity, is the basis of God's love for us.

Characterising God's love as 'electing', in that God freely gives himself to this sinful man or woman for their own sake even when there is nothing in them to love or they are actively hostile to God, and as 'purifying', grace and judgement working together, Barth climaxes his analysis of love as 'creative'. God does not love us simply to be loved in return; he sets us free to model our love upon his. That freedom, like the election and the purifying also, is effected through the Holy Spirit. Indeed, the

Spirit is the power through which human action reflects the love of God and is at once the work of God's love and the work of the Spirit. But, it has to be said at once, Christian love is not therefore to be regarded as a kind of extension of God's love, which is poured into the human action, as it were, through a channel. The Holy Spirit is not some overweaning control which reduces the human element to servitude. Rather is it the work of the Holy Spirit to liberate human beings for Christian love which issues in actions which are uniquely and peculiarly their own, and not those of some particle of God's love or of some puppet of his. The evidence quoted for this securing of the freedom of the Christian individual as an independent and responsible subject is the 'weak and puny' character, the 'littleness and frailty' of the loving actions which he or she achieves (ibid., p. 785). The point is of tremendous importance and relevance to many of the ethical and theological issues often raised against Barth's theology, for example, in regard to the doctrine of predestination as well as to that of grace and freedom. The second caveat with which Barth seeks to safeguard a right understanding of Christian love is that, in responding to God's love and acting in love towards our fellows, we must not think that an attitude, a disposition, an emotion or a thought will suffice. On the contrary, God showed his love in action, the suffering of crucifixion; therefore the response of Christian love must be action, action by the whole and not just part of the person, action which is overt and external and not simply internal. The essence of such love is self-impartation, for it is better to give than to receive, and it is grounded in the love of God and elicited in response to that love through the work of the Holy Spirit. Before Barth goes on to give his wholly distinctive exegesis of Paul's 'Hymn of Love' in 1 Corinthians 13 to complete his study of 'The Holy Spirit and Christian Love' (ibid., IV/2, pp. 826ff), he reaffirms his central stance (p. 825) that as the Holy Spirit is the quickening power undergirding, energising, directing and realising the whole scope of the Christian life as devoted to loving both God and its neighbour, so he commensurately equips the Christian with the freedom, the ability and the motivation to achieve its God-given goals.

BAPTISM WITH THE HOLY SPIRIT

Another important feature of Barth's treatment of the Holy Spirit, and one which has present-day relevance not just for the charismatic movements which give it a central place in their theology and liturgy, is his account of 'baptism with the Holy Spirit'(see *Church Dogmatics*, IV/4, ET, T. & T. Clark, Edinburgh, 1969, pp. 1–40). Whereas in the previous section we were looking at the part which the Holy Spirit plays in the Christian life of love in response to God, in the present section we are to examine what we might call the prior aspect of the Christian existence, namely, the faithfulness in human beings which accepts the faithfulness of God revealed in Jesus Christ. The blunt question which Barth puts is: how does a man become a Christian? and his equally blunt answer is: baptism by the Holy Spirit. In order to answer his question, Barth has to affirm the importance of two presuppositions: first, the resurrection of Jesus Christ was God's manifestation that his power of salvation was at work in human history, conquering sin and death, and that the salvation history, consummated in God's vindication of his Son, was universally available. That triumph, which happened in the temporal and spatial history of Jesus Christ, in fact showed itself in its totality to be history present for all time to come and for all time past as well. 'In his resurrection his perfected history began to come to light both intensively and extensively in the world, in all other history' (ibid., p. 24). The second presupposition relevant to baptism with the Holy Spirit is that there is present in the lives of those people who have been addressed in the resurrection of Jesus Christ and, responding, have found their salvation history enfolded in his salvation history from birth to resurrection and ascension, a power who is the Holy Spirit. This power, while liberating them from their unfaithfulness to God, their blindness, deafness and lack of comprehension of God's revelation and so transforming them from being enemies of God to being his friends, enables them to give this power the central place in all their willing and acting. Once again Barth is careful to make plain that the work of the Spirit does not result in the annihilation or even the reduction of the human spirit or mind or

will or wisdom to what was called earlier 'puppet' status, and he is fond of quoting Rom 8.16 which speaks of 'the Spirit bearing witness with our spirit' that we are children of God, who may call God '*Abba*, Father'. Under the guidance of the Spirit, such persons are introduced to the salvation history of Jesus and made aware that it is theirs also, and that they are challenged by the promise that they must now arise and act and live as Christians liberated by the Spirit. So, writes Barth, 'The one act of God' [involving as it does two factors] 'is the disclosure of his history to all men in the resurrection of Jesus Christ and the opening of specific men for his history in the work of the Holy Spirit', the response to this two-fold act of God requiring from the Christian 'confession of the Lord who rose again from the dead and who is thus the living Lord and ... confession of his Holy Spirit' (ibid., p. 30).

Attending now to the subject of this section, 'Baptism with the Holy Spirit', we find that Barth has anticipated any protests we may have had in mind over the 'exegetical liberty' of using a concept for which there is little textual evidence in the New Testament, as it occurs only at Mk 1.8 par.; 1 Cor 12.13; and Jn 1.33. This use he justifies on the ground that it does full justice to the action of God in preparing men and women for the living of the Christian life in its completeness. Baptism with the Spirit is the forgiving, cleansing and reorienting of those who are called to be Christians through the inward working of the Holy Spirit, who thus makes them free, willing, able, equipped and ready for the entire scope of their transformed existence. In a word, this baptism constitutes the beginning of the Christian life, and as such it is found to evince the following distinctive characteristics.

A call to Jesus

The Christian life begins when the living Jesus Christ authenticates himself and imparts himself, through the action of the Holy Spirit, in his powerful Word, to actual men and women here and now in the course of history. This Word which goes forth from Jesus, even though the call may come to them within the commu-

nity of the Church and the Church may have an important share in the call, is also a call directly to Jesus. As such it constitutes the divine change in their lives, the baptism with the Spirit, which is the beginning of their Christian life. This change at once creates both the possibility of, and the demand for, a corresponding response, the decision to receive the Word of Jesus Christ, again in the power of the Spirit. That decision, which is their decision to be Christians, in its turn will lead to a request to the community of the Church for water-baptism. Barth here is quite emphatic: it is Christ, baptising with the Spirit, who makes them Christian, not the water-baptism or even their own decision. Perhaps more emphatically: when the whole life, death and resurrection of Jesus Christ enter the history of the lives of men and women here and now, what is imparted to them is not insights, capacities, demands and responsibilities but, in the first instance, Jesus Christ himself. So Jesus attests himself to be the guarantor both of God's faithfulness to them and of their faithfulness to God (ibid., p. 33) in baptising them with the Spirit.

The actualising of salvation

Baptism with the Spirit as a form of grace actualises in the lives of men and women, to whom Jesus Christ so imparts himself through the Spirit, the entire range of salvation accomplished by him – justification, sanctification and vocation to the service of God and neighbour. In this respect, baptism with the Spirit completely eclipses water-baptism, to which terms like 'image', 'symbol', 'indicator', 'offer' and 'opportunity' may be applied. For the former, Barth claims that it is 'divinely effective', 'divinely causative' and 'divinely creative', clothing the new creatures with the garment of Christ, renewing them inwardly in the heart, giving them new birth in the community of the Church, saving them from the death from which, by his death, he saved them. It is the language, not of figures, tropes, metaphors and even analogy, but of realism, literalism and actuality. Since this transformation into the Christian life is genuine, as God's work,

real and perfect, those who have been so baptised with the Spirit are now liberated and energised to respond effectively to the demands which God will lay upon them.

Gratitude and obedience

The first and immediate demand arising from this baptism is gratitude – unconditional and unstinted. But the obedience of heart and conscience and will, from which such gratitude springs, is made possible through the enabling and invasive grace of Jesus Christ through the baptism of the Spirit. The free decision which such gratitude requires is part of the independence which the free God creates for those radically changed by such baptism. Barth makes such, to some extent defensive, claims on two fronts. On the one hand, he rejects the idea, which we have encountered before, that the transforming, penetrative grace of Christ in the baptism with the Spirit makes the will of these changed persons part of the will of God, cogs in God's operation. Rather does God expect of such changed persons that they will, with a new-found autonomy before him and no longer in bondage to sin, exercise their new self-determination, and to that end God encourages them. On the other hand, such changed people will not imagine that they now possess a freedom which emanates from themselves and co-exists with the freedom imparted to them in the baptism with the Spirit, or that courses of action are open to them alternative and parallel to those for which they are empowered, and to which they are invited and ordered, by God (ibid., p. 36). Rather, those persons are claimed by and committed to their Lord and Master, Jesus Christ, so that the only decision open to them is a decision for obedience – and it is a decision which is free, involving genuine walking with the Spirit.

Fellowship

If what has been said of baptism with the Spirit so far seems to have been couched in unduly individualistic and private terms, a

correction of direction now appears. Baptism with the Spirit, as the beginning of the Christian life, is also the introduction to the life of a distinctive 'fellow-humanity'. Persons so baptised become the brothers and sisters, companions and fellows of those from many varying backgrounds and cultures whom Jesus Christ has in like manner changed, and whose joys and sorrows, strength and weakness they are called to share. They are by this baptism received into the fellowship of the Church, as the gathering of those who are 'engaged in doing the will of God as his people'. But this reception is not to be confused with water-baptism, which is admission to membership of the Church as a group of religious people, though that event will no doubt follow and even be expected by the community. When it does, then the baptism with the Spirit may express itself in the pouring down upon these changed people of charismata which, when variously distributed among them, will enable them either to serve the community in a specific way or to share in its total ministry.

It is impossible to pass beyond this section of Barth's exposition of the range of responsibility of persons baptised with the Holy Spirit, without voicing protest at the limitation of the range of such responsibility to those who have themselves experienced the baptism. What is missing is the evangelical obligation laid upon those to whom Jesus Christ has attested himself, and to whom he has imparted himself through the Holy Spirit, to share the Good News with those who have not yet reached that point – the obligation classically encapsulated in Jn 1.41, 'Andrew first finds his own brother, Simon Peter, and says to him, We have found ... the Christ.'

Growth and renewal

Baptism with the Spirit is the beginning of the Christian life, but it is only the beginning. It has to move forward; it has to grow; and such movement and such growth occur only through the continuing actions of the Holy Spirit. When they occur they are always of the same nature – radical, converting. Baptism by water

– by those who have themselves known baptism with the Holy Spirit – outwardly attests the baptism with the Holy Spirit and 'brings to light the once-for-all-ness of the event, and is not then to be repeated' (ibid., p. 39). On the other hand, Barth rather obscurely remarks, baptism with the Holy Spirit, though happening 'once for all times' and therefore on several occasions, has the character of repetition of the beginning of the new life.

This matter of the repetition or the non-repetition of baptism has proved to be a subject of so much controversy that it will be useful to hear what Barth has to say about it when he returns to it later in the same volume (pp. 150ff). There he is dealing with the theme of 'baptism with water' which is said to originate in a command (Mt 28.19) from Jesus to both the persons who have received the baptism with the Holy Spirit and are converted to the new life in Christ, and to the Christian community who are themselves disciples of Christ. The response to this command is obedience to it, on the part of the community to fulfil the will of Christ, and on the part of the candidates for water-baptism to decide through the Holy Spirit to take the first public step on the way of the Christian life. 'The first step on this way is Christian baptism. Here the Christian community extends its hand to a man. Here a man stretches out his own hand to the community'. Barth then adds that this being the first step, which is the precursor and the paradigm which all subsequent steps must follow, it 'cannot be repeated'. The whole Christian way then, in all its multi-dimensional aspects, is but the extrapolation of that initial obedience in the freedom created by the Holy Spirit. Stated in these terms, Barth's case for the non-repetition of water-baptism does make sense. The objection, however, usually brought against such a case is that failure to stay steadily on the Christian way of obedience to Christ is a not infrequent phenomenon of Christian discipleship, and such lapses would seem to require fresh, totally new beginnings, and if they are serious enough, second and further baptisms. The reply to such an objection is two-fold: first, the mention of 'further baptisms' gives the whole case away, for since such repetition is logically and theologically possible, it begins to reduce baptism *ad absurdum*,

which increasingly loses significance. Secondly, according to Barth's previously argued view, baptism with the Holy Spirit and baptism with water are closely connected, the latter being the overt and public expression of the baptisands' response in faith to the conversion and transformation of their lives to Christ through the power of the Spirit. This change represents God's declaration of his faithfulness to those baptised with the Spirit and, even though the baptised may subsequently prove unfaithful to him, God will never be unfaithful to them. They are embraced within the covenant for evermore. The water-baptism is the first public step into the long Christian way in discipleship to which the baptised of the Spirit are called by God. Thereafter, no other can be the first step; as such it is unrepeatable, and so also must be the water-baptism which accompanies it.

What, then, of Barth's acknowledgement that baptism with the Spirit is 'an event which takes place once for all times and therefore on several occasions' (ibid., p. 39)? Barth is not so self-contradictory as might at first appear. On the one hand, he has affirmed that baptism with the Spirit takes place once 'for all times', and that statement is to be understood in the sense of my explanation in the previous paragraph. On the other hand, while standing by that view, he goes on to consider the occasions on which the event central to baptism with the Spirit will, in fact, take place to ensure that the new life engendered by Christ through the Spirit will continue and grow. These repetitions of the beginning of the new life in the Spirit which Barth contemplates are two-fold. First, as the Holy Spirit was a main player in the beginning of that new life, it is unthinkable that he will desert the new beginner. Instead, he has to hand a whole armoury of forms, 'fruits of the Spirit', which discipleship may take through the inspiration of the Spirit – 'love, joy, peace, long-suffering, gentleness, goodness, faith, meekness, temperance' (Gal 5.22f). But this discipleship has to be renewed daily – 'a constant stretching after new possibilities, a never-resting striding in the light of the divine invitation and command which constantly encounter him afresh' (idem). Secondly, the Christian life, however abundantly it turns out that it bears these fruits of the

Spirit, is in this life only *in via*; what it enjoys and achieves here is no more than a foretaste, an earnest, of the perfection which is yet to be when Christ comes in his glory. Then, in the words of Paul, 'we shall all be changed' (1 Cor 15.51), and we shall see him 'face to face'. Until that final goal is reached, the Holy Spirit will sustain the pilgrims of God with the body and blood of their Lord. But between now and then, these pilgrims will seek and receive 'daily renewal'.

So, to return to the question of the seeming self-contradiction in Barth on the subject of the repetition or non-repetition of baptism with the Spirit, what I think he is saying, and it does seem valid, is as follows. Baptism with the Spirit contains two main components. The first is God's declaration to humanity that he has accomplished their salvation in the history of Jesus Christ, and that in this event he has affirmed his faithfulness to his children. That declaration, once made, stands for evermore and is never in need of repetition. The other component in baptism with the Spirit rests on that declared faithfulness of God in Jesus Christ, who through the power of the Spirit has borne witness to these events and imparted himself to specific men and women in history; and through this self-authentication and self-impartation has radically transformed them. But this radically transformed life which is theirs in Christ is nurtured in growth and development though the ever-renewed and ever-repeated gift and gifts of the Spirit. That renewal is with justification called repetition of the baptism with the Spirit, and those who receive it live in a daily renewal to which they can never grow tired of subjecting themselves (ibid., p. 40).

IMPORTANT FEATURES OF BARTH'S PNEUMATOLOGY

We have in the by-going commented upon a number of aspects of Barth's pneumatology which have been of tremendous importance for the subject generally, but which, had we delayed to develop them, would have somewhat distorted the

continuity of the exposition. I propose to return to some of these now.

BARTH AND AUGUSTINE

Barth's adoption of Augustine's account of the Holy Spirit as 'the eternal love wherewith the Father loves the Son and the Son the Father' turns out to be the central theme of his treatment both of the Spirit and of the Trinity as a whole. Avoiding as far as possible repetition of what has been said in the main exposition, I should like to make the following comments on this element in Barth's pneumatology.

First, let me grasp the nettle of the objection which has been made for a very long time against both Augustine and Barth, namely, that it is not credible that a relation should be a person, and that both of them have accordingly committed the logical fallacy of hypostatising a relationship, that is, of converting a relation into a person. Two answers occur to me. The first comes from common parlance, where we seem to find no problem in speaking of certain persons as our 'relations', and we certainly do not think that in so calling them we have constituted them as 'persons', for they are so in their own right. Equally, the whole burden of the theology of the Spirit in Augustine and Barth is that the Spirit is of the Godhead *ex se* from eternity, and is not constituted divine by being designated 'love'. Also, to pursue the human analogy, maybe *cum periculo*, there are families where for the parents a child is not only the immediate expression of their love for one another but also the continuing actualisation of that love; in a word, the relation which is their love is personalised, and is a person.

Secondly, this objection to both Augustine and Barth does not survive consideration of the manner in which they both build towards their views of the persons in the Godhead and their relations to one another from a very extensive review of the biblical foundations of the doctrine of the Godhead. They do not construct their views of the Godhead by beginning with an

account of intra-trinitarian relationships. In the Scriptures the Spirit is already appearing as active in his own divine right, so that whatever is said of him falls within that premise, even characterising him as the love of the Son for the Father and of the Father for the Son.

THE PROCESSION OF THE SPIRIT

Given the description offered by Barth of the procession of the Spirit from the Father and the Son, or more exactly, from-the-Father-and-the-Son, it is plain to see why the Eastern form of the procession of the Spirit, from the Father alone or through the Son, is unacceptable to Barth. The Eastern form not only excludes the Spirit from the immediately close relation to the Father ensured for him in Barth's account of his procession, but fails to register that the love which is essential to the relation of the Father and the Son is the self-same love which is the personal being of the Spirit. Two consequences follow from Barth's position.

First, when we go on to look at the *opera ad extra* associated with the different persons of the Godhead, we shall expect that those activities of God associated with his love will be appropriated to the Spirit. Barth shows how convincingly that can be done in his fragmentary finish of Vol. IV of his *Church Dogmatics*. As the Spirit so works in the world, he is fulfilling that personal being which he had had from all eternity.

Secondly, Barth's adoption of Augustine's view of the Spirit as the reciprocal love of Father and Son within the Godhead is of great importance for an interpretation of the nature of personhood which is felt to be relevant to the doctrine of the persons in the Trinity. Stemming from writers such as Martin Buber and John McMurray, the theorem has been widely supported that the notion of person is not properly equated to 'individual', self-contained and self-sufficient, but is to be regarded rather as 'person-in-relation'. When used in the exposition of the notion of 'person' in the doctrine of the Trinity, considerable importance is

then going to be given to the relations which are said to obtain among the persons. In the classical acount of these relations, we find such notions as *paternitas, filiatio* and *processio*, which were observed in an earlier stage of our study to be no more than relational attributes conceptualised, in two cases at least, from the names of the persons concerned. Barth, therefore, by his use of Augustine's notion of the Holy Spirit as the reciprocal love of the Father and the Son, thus involves all three persons in the love which is at the heart of the Godhead and acknowledges thereby the quite determinative and controlling role which the intrinsic nature of God will play in the whole of his theology. Thereby, he achieves six ends.

First, he saves the catalogue of the relations of the persons to one another in the Godhead from being a formal logical recitation, with little possibility within it of extension into further exposition.

Secondly, instead, he indicates that within the Godhead it is not sufficient to speak of persons-in-relation without at the same time saying that this relation is 'love'.

Thirdly, he interprets the Johannine affirmation that 'God is love', not simply as an attribute but as a relationship at the very heart of the Godhead, as the bond that holds Father, Son and Spirit together in the closest way.

Fourthly, sometimes when the theme of the love of God is related to the doctrine of creation, it has been suggested that God was obliged to create the world and its creaturely inhabitants so that he might have some persons to love, and so fulfil his own being. Such a suggestion is regarded as contradicting the view that God creates the world and all that is therein solely *ex gratia* and solely of his own freewill, without compulsion from any quarter, even from within. Barth's account of the relations holding among the persons in the Godhead and of the essential position held there by love makes it plain that God has within his own being subjects of love and stands in no need of external fulfilment.

Fifthly, when we move out of intra-trinitarian theology to the examination of the relationship of God to his creatures, and speak of his love, then we are seeking in these God–nature/God–

humanity relationships the reflection of that love which has existed from all eternity in the heart of God's being.

Sixthly, more particularly, however, the 'match' as it may be called between the *opera ad extra* of the Holy Spirit and the place of the Holy Spirit *ad intra* within the Godhead will never be far from our minds as we go on to examine the wealth of forms taken by the works of the Spirit in the world, in humankind and in history. For by tracing these we shall also be filling out our understanding of the nature of God as he is in and for himself.

7

RELATIONAL PNEUMATOLOGY

DEFINITIONAL DYNAMIC MODEL: RELATIONAL PATTERNS

We remain within the magnetic field of the classical Trinity-based account of the Holy Spirit, and consider a model which is 'dynamic', that is, it does justice to the way in which the Spirit is operative in the world. This provides a variety of shorthand descriptions of the Holy Spirit which if taken in context may act as definitions of the Spirit in terms of his actions in the world and among persons, but, strictly, by themselves they are incomplete as definitions. Keeping them in context can be achieved if we follow the distinction between the *opera ad intra* and the *opera ad extra Trinitatis*, and affirm that this model is the compendious term for the *opera ad extra*, the term *opera* being the link with the term 'dynamic'. So whatever is said under this model or its group of patterns has to be taken in the context of what we have been describing as the place of the Holy Spirit within the Trinity, and has to be seen as part of the extension *ad extra* of a doctrine of an immanent Trinity, in other words, as a further charting of the economic Trinity.

We take as the point of departure a quotation already made from Barth (*The Doctrine of the Word of God*, T. & T. Clark, Edinburgh, 1936, I, pp. 515f) which runs, 'The Holy Spirit ... is God himself, in so far as he is able, in an inconceivably real way, without being less God, to be present to the creature, and in virtue of this presence, to vouchsafe life to the creature.' This statement could be reinforced by one from Calvin (*Institutio* I.13.19), that 'in each *hypostasis* the whole nature of God is

understood', to which we might add, 'whether in *opera ad intra* or *opera ad extra*', though our interest now is particularly in the latter. So what we shall explore are the several forms or patterns in which God the Holy Spirit can be seen to be 'present to the creature'.

The Holy Spirit is God himself relating himself to the specific details of human existence within the natural process and world history

'The Holy Spirit', says Hendrikus Berkhof (*The Doctrine of the Holy Spirit*, John Knox Press, Richmond, 1964, p. 116), 'is the personal God himself in relation to us.' The Holy Spirit is the point of impact of God with some precise point of a person's life, within an occasion in nature and/or some event in history; and since we must not over-emphasise the immediacy and what appears to be the once-for-allness of the occasion as described, we add that this impact may be a presence with the person over some time, and within the natural process and human history over a period. In creation God the Creator achieves an end which is universal (he creates the whole universe and all that is therein) and in his redemptive, revelational and salvific activity in the Word made flesh, he works a work which is for the benefit of the entire mass of humankind and for the cosmic order. In the Holy Spirit, however, God relates himself to the intricacies of this person's sin and salvation, and his or her responsibilities to God and neighbour, as they occur within the created natural order and in human history.

These two sides of God's work or interest as we might call it, the universal and the particularised, are obviously not unrelated; in fact, in so far as God does both, there can be no separation. But they are distinguishable, and this model uses the distinction to its advantage. On the one hand, God stands in a general relationship to the totality of created existence as its originator, its sustainer and universal provider; as the One, too, who effected the salvation by which human beings in general, as distinct from Tom or Dick or Mary Jane in particular, are offered redemption

from the evil and the evils which have made them beings of self-contradictory impulses and set them at variance with their Creator. On the other hand, this same God relates himself in an utterly loving, utterly humbling and utterly disturbing way to every jot and tittle of each person's existence. His care, his oversight, his will, his demands particularise themselves in the most precise fashion, and make themselves relevant to the multiplicities and idiosyncrasies of his or her being, so that they, as persons, become aware that it is particularly their redemption which is God's ultimate aim, and not that of the whole human race or all humankind everywhere and in all times.

When we recall what was said earlier about the activity of the Holy Spirit as described in the Old Testament and the New Testament, we can detect something of this same difference in the way that God acts there. The God who is the Creator of the ends of the earth, who stretches forth the heavens as a curtain, nevertheless has regard to the particularities of the existence and destiny of David and Elijah, Samuel and the rest. So when we come to the New Testament, we can detect, among the many differences between it and the Old Testament, a heightened awareness of the many points at which God relates himself to the details of the lives of the men and women mentioned in it. Some would want to say that this heightened awareness is due to the fact that in and through the life, death and resurrection of Jesus Christ, God relates himself to the sins and salvation, the hopes and the ultimate destiny of individual men and women in a profounder, more challenging, and eventually more eternally determinative way than was the case under the Old Testament. Nevertheless, the New Testament never loses sight of the universality, the comprehensiveness of the redemptive offer, enshrined in the New Testament right from the cosmic dimension of the enfleshing of the Word in the opening lines of John's Gospel to the paeans of triumph accompanying the ascension and reverberating through every celebration of the eucharist thereafter. So, in the New Testament, too, the two modes of the Holy Spirit, the one with a universalist range, the other, particularist, are both present.

Here we may take the opportunity to return, with an alternative if also complementary account, to a subject much discussed in pneumatology, the sin of the blasphemy against the Holy Spirit (cf. above, pp. 52f), mentioned at Mt 12.31f, and Lk 12.10 (where comparison is made with the lesser sin of speaking a word against the Son of Man) and Mk 3.29 (where this comparison is not drawn specifically, though it might be thought to be included in the universal of 'all sins and blasphemies of the sons of men'). On the face of it, there is no reason why one blasphemy (against the Holy Ghost) should be worse than another which also involves God (against the Son of Man); and modern theology with its christocentric emphasis would perhaps want to place the heinousness in the reverse order. We know, too, that the Fathers distinguished the sin of the heathen, or the pre-converts, against the Son of Man, from the sin of the converted, the baptised, against the Holy Spirit; which makes sense but not totally convincing sense. According to the construction of the Holy Spirit now being followed under the present model/pattern, the sin against the Holy Spirit will be understood, not as being against one *hypostasis* of the Trinity acting on his own; nor as against one inaccurately isolated participant in the baptismal rite ('inaccurately' because the invocation at baptism includes all three of the persons of the Trinity); but against God's own particularising of himself, his precious offering of salvation to one person at one time in a style which does not permit of misunderstanding. Another person might speak a blasphemy against the Son of Man, not knowing the significance of the revelation or the incarnation or the atonement achieved by it; he or she might be forgiven, as Christ prayed, 'Father, forgive them for they know not what they do' (Lk 23.24). In that case, the person is unaware of the heinousness of the sin; whereas in the other case, the whole point is that the unmistakable offer has been made by the God who in his Spirit has come very close; and that offer has been rejected. The distinction thus drawn between the two cases is of tremendous importance in pastoral situations, where the vexed question is put to a minister or a psychiatrist by people wondering whether they have somehow or other unwittingly committed the unforgivable. In strict biblical terms, it is impossible to commit the

sin against the Holy Spirit unwittingly. The blasphemy is such that it might be committed at the first encounter or after conversion, a point which differentiates our view here from the patristic interpretation mentioned above.

Two further points about this model/pattern, the first concerning the form in which it is stated. The Holy Spirit is not said to be the *relation* of God to the minutiae of human existence within its natural and historical occurrence. To adopt that view would be to revert to the hypostatising or personalising of a relationship, a logical understanding of the nature of a trinitarian person which we have already firmly eschewed. The distinction between entering into a relationship and the relationship itself is a fine one, but it has to be held, since it is fundamental to what we are saying about the nature of the Trinity and the persons within the Godhead. The one involves activity begun, sustained and repeated; the other is that which eventuates once the activity has taken place. The verbal form of the description preserves the dynamic character of the Holy Spirit; the nominal form contains a past passive meaning which transfers the emphasis from God (*God's* relating) to the result of that relating, viz., a relationship in which he becomes a *relatum*.

The second concluding point is that by using this definitional dynamic model/relational pattern, we settle the question of whether the Holy Spirit is a power, a principle, an instrument or a person. We do so by refusing to say that God may be separated from that relating to the minutiae of the lives of men and women in nature and history, which is the Holy Spirit. In addition we are relieved of the problem which exercised the Greek Fathers extensively, viz., whether the Holy Spirit is divine; we are affirming that to ask that question is to ask the redundant question of whether God is divine. So far, then, this description may have been leaning over too far in affirming overmuch the unity of God in this *opus ad extra*, but it leaves a window for looking further at what this activity of God, this relating which is designated the Holy Spirit, might mean in terms of person and personality (as distinct from power, principle or instrument) and of God's threefold being.

The Holy Spirit is God's involving himself in human volition and action, thought and feeling, as they occur in natural and historical process

God who is from eternity to eternity *a se* and *ex se*, independent, self-existent and self-sufficient, becomes of his own free will and entirely *ex gratia* enmeshed in the very world which he has created and through Christ has redeemed, and which in so many ways seems to be so unsuitable for his indwelling. If he is afflicted in all their afflictions, he is afflicted from within their lives and not just from the outside. If he nerves the human will to greater effort, he does so from within the complexity of human motivation, and not as an intrusive, quasi-mechanical impulse, or even as *gratia infusa* given to top up the human endeavour. If he leads the human mind to deeper insights and wider vision, he acts in and through the processes of human ratiocination. When he works miracles, he does so not as an alien irrupting into an order which forms a totally enclosed system and breaking laws that hold therein; but in accordance with fundamental principles of the universe which he has himself created and is still creating. It is this dynamic implicating by God of himself in ordinary human existence, in the veriest details of thinking, feeling and willing, in situations which we would be tempted to dismiss at a first regard as beyond the interest of almighty God, that is intended as the Holy Spirit.

It will be observed that this second pattern of the definitional dynamic model has moved quite a distance beyond the first, and is not just an alternative to it. In so doing it becomes vulnerable to attack in ways that the first was not. It seeks to show *how* God relates himself to the specific, by indicating that he does not remain external to that to which he is related, but becomes internally related to it. God alters, you might say 'recreates', any person or situation to which he relates himself, by becoming actually involved with them. Of course, when God does become so implicated through the Holy Spirit, there are no characteristics empirically observable (that is, by unbelievers) by which his dynamic presence may be detected. Such occasions are always

open to the naturalistic interpretations which any psychologist, physiologist or physicist may choose to impose upon them. That is what I mean by speaking of the 'vulnerability' of God's presence through his Spirit in the ordinariness of human life, thinking and action. He is not safe from the misinterpretation which will not stop short of denial or falsification.

It might be felt that in our description of this pattern of the definitional dynamic model, we have ignored two problems of considerable importance in any Protestant anthropology: one, the problem of the locus of the Spirit's abiding in the human person; and two, the problem of the *imago Dei.* Let us delay a little to consider them.

We have spoken of God's involving himself in human volition, action, thought and feeling; but the shorthand form would be to say that the Holy Spirit is God's becoming involved in the human spirit. Now, as George S. Hendry (*The Holy Spirit in Christian Theology,* Westminster, Philadelphia, 1956) has so amply illustrated, the human spirit has been given a poor rating in the history of Protestant theology. The human spirit had been so corrupted by sin that it could not communicate or have fellowship with God; how, then, could it ever be thought to be a fit dwelling-place for the Holy Spirit? On the other hand, when we reflect upon what the concept of the human spirit connotes in the history of human thought and culture, we begin to realise that a zero value was being assigned not just to human moral striving and endeavours to know God, but to the whole range of spiritual activities such as expressions of creative ability and scientific vision, as well as the aspirations, ideals and values of ordinary people. Given the clear diversity, even opposition, of these two ways of thinking of the human spirit, we have to face without fear or favour the questions of whether there remains a place for the human spirit in a Christian anthropology, or whether it is only recoverable within a Christian soteriology; and taking the other tack, whether the theology which so demotes and denigrates the human spirit is any longer credible. Hendry (op. cit.) makes a strong case for retention of the concept of the human spirit on three grounds. First, on *philosophical grounds,* for it is the essential

humanum. It is, as Scheler says, the source of man's capacity 'to elevate himself as a living being and, as it were, from a centre beyond the spatio-temporal world, to make everything, including himself, an object of knowledge'; or G. F. Thomas, the 'capacity for self-transcendence'; or Reinhold Neibuhr, who held that spirit is one component in the human being which enables him or her to stand outside of nature, of the world and themselves, even though they are part of nature. Secondly, on *exegetical* grounds, in Bultmannian terms, it is the index of human self-transcendence, which may be directed to God but may also lead to an encounter with nothingness, and it relates to God when it receives the Spirit of God. Thirdly, on *theological* grounds, the created spirit of man is the subject of the address of the gracious God incarnate in Jesus Christ, who accommodates to our condition.

Perhaps the time has come to issue a warning, a recognition of the difficulties created by being, on the one hand, too precise in the definition of such concepts as spirit, soul, self, person; and on the other hand, of using them with a certain carelessness, as if they were interchangeable. These difficulties move into a second dimension as we realise that we operate within three constraining sets of circumstances. First, within the theological context, we are bounded by control from biblical terms which, as we have seen for ourselves in reviewing the biblical material, do not offer us a homogeneous or coordinate psychology – the teaching of Genesis 1 cannot be unthinkingly married to that of Acts or Romans on the Spirit. Next, coming as we have from the examination of the influence of Nicene trinitarianism and patristic theology upon all theological thought right up to the present day, we recognise at once that that corpus of thought, in particular as it relates to the Holy Spirit, remains a potent force to be counted with in any restatement of doctrine. Thirdly, we are aware of constraints imposed on us by the history of the culture within which we stand, which has done a great deal of work, particularly on the person and, even more recently, upon the spirit. While our chief danger is that we should impose modern categories and nuances upon biblical material, fear of that danger ought not to immobilise us without honestly facing the question of how and even

whether they can be related to each other. That is the question we have to answer if we are to communicate the ancient biblical, historical–traditional faith to our cultural contemporaries. It is a subject to which we shall return to examine not so much in general terms as in the context of the interpretation of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit.

In discussing the locus in the human person of the divine involvement which we have designated the Holy Spirit, we have been in effect discussing a subject frequently known under another name, that of the *imago Dei*, the image of God in men and women. The latter discussion runs along lines similar to those followed in our earlier reflection on the human spirit. The Protestant scholastic theologians reduced to a sheer minimum the relic of the *imago* left in humankind as the result of the fall, and the position they held has been reinforced, even if differently interpreted, by Karl Barth. But it is possible to construe the problem, and with it the disagreements it has generated, as being one of definition. On the one hand, we may equate the *imago Dei* (understood as comprising reasoning, ethical judgement and responsibility, sociability and self-transcendence) with the *humanum*; and then we have to say that the fall, however much it may distort human values and reasoning, does not totally dehumanise humans, reducing them to mice or stones. On the other hand, the *imago Dei* may be defined as the point of contact in human nature which God re-establishes with himself under the economy of salvation, the point of contact having been lost at the fall – the famous *Anknüpfungspunkt*, subject of the Barth–Brunner controversies of the thirties. The history of theology contains both traditions and neither succeeds in refuting the other, chiefly, in my judgement, because of the difference in definition. It is a conflict of non-meeting combatants, whereas the Barth–Brunner controversy was real because they were arguing on the same grounds, or – to change the figure – were playing on the same pitch.

The Holy Spirit is God identifying himself with human thoughts, feelings and actions, the natural occasions referred to above

The third pattern of the definitional dynamic model could be said to be a strong form of the second. Identification as a religio-ethical and a theological concept, though it had been in usage at least from the time of John McLeod Campbell, was given a special contemporary boost initially through the writing of J. G. Davies: 'God identifies himself with the poor and the outcast' (*Christians, Politics and Violent Revolution*, SCM Press, London, 1975, p. 128). So this term has now become prevalent in the description, not only of the specific targeting required of Christian love and responsibility, but also of God's own carefully directed concern and care. The theme, with both its human and its divine reference, has dominated ecumenical action to a degree unmatched by any of its other themes, and none in the field of what used to be termed 'life and work' has been even remotely as productive of comparable visible results. Perhaps it may help to have in front of us a definition of 'identification' which I proposed once in another connection.

> Identification is a process of self-exteriorisation in which the agents involved project themselves into the condition or situation of other persons. In the process, the agents do not become the other persons; they are not absorbed into the situation, nor do they develop the condition.

To identify with an alcoholic or a drug-addict does not entail becoming either of these. Nor does the identification require the reproduction, in the identifier, of the precise feelings of those with whom she or he identifies. Nevertheless, the identifier in the process of identification extends the situation into which she or he is self-projected, feeling more deeply, if somewhat differently, about it than does the other, understanding more clearly the truth of the situation and of the condition and what caused them, and even moved volitionally to act more effectively to secure its amelioration.

But there is a danger that the concept is coming to be confined to the understanding of the religio-ethical responsibility of the Christian towards the underprivileged and the marginalised. To avoid purely ethicising the concept, though not to exclude it altogether, I wish to make three points.

First, its primal use is in relation to the incarnation:

> The Sinless One in that quite unique act of self-transcendence passes over from being on one side, to identify himself with the wholly other, the unloving and the ungodly, who are the negation of his love and righteousness. The identification was in evidence at the beginning and at the end of Christ's public ministry upon earth. (*The Shape of Soteriology*, T. & T. Clark, Edinburgh, 1992, pp. 107f)

This description of the events of Christ's mission, ministry and work in terms of the category of identification provides and remains the norm for the entire theological use of the category.

This interpretation elicits an aspect of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit that we might otherwise have neglected. It is the perception that the medium of the identification of Jesus Christ in the events of the incarnation that we have mentioned is the Holy Spirit. It is through the power and presence of the Holy Spirit with Christ, that his identification with the whole of humankind in his incarnation, with the poor in their distress, and with sinners in his crucifixion, is effected. Here is an illustration of the concept of the *emperichoresis*, which is so often confined to the intra-trinitarian relationships of the persons of the Godhead, operating in the field of *opera ad extra* of the Spirit and the Word.

Accordingly, when, in the context of our two previous points, we say that the Holy Spirit is God himself identifying himself with his creatures and his creation, we recognise that the definition of 'identification' given above is being employed *eminenter*, that is, in its perfect form. The self-exteriorisation involved is that of the whole God, who dwells with his people, without limit of space or time. Nor is there any compromise of his integrity created by this identification. As the Word was made

flesh, to be bone of our bone, without sin or sinning, so the God who identifies with us where and as we are, does so without impoverishment of, or detriment to, his perfect goodness, mercy and love.

The Holy Spirit is God relating his people to one another in fellowship and communion

We come now to a rather more complex notion of the Holy Spirit, though it is still within the definitional dynamic model, as 'person-to-person' pattern. There was a saying among the Greek Fathers that the Holy Spirit is the place of sanctification. *Now* that view is being adapted to the present purpose of saying that the Holy Spirit is the *place* of God's uniting his people in fellowship with one another. We shall have more to say later about the Holy Spirit and the Church, which is where that communion is institutionalised, but our present interest is in what Paul was referring to in his letter to the Ephesians (2.22), where he said that they were built in communion with one another ('together') as a dwelling-place for God in the Spirit, and when at 2 Cor 13.14 he used the classical description, 'the communion of the Holy Spirit'. This phrase is grammatically an interesting one, and if analysed has quite a few reflections to offer on the pattern that develops out of this model. For example, the phrase may be taken in three ways: first, it may mean communion with the Holy Spirit, though that rather minimal interpretation does not bring out the notion of community-ness which we are considering, and which is intended by the phrase. It must be added, however, that this first meaning has to be regarded as involved in each of the other two to which we now proceed. So, secondly, 'the communion of the Holy Spirit' may mean that communion of the Christians in Corinth one with another which the Holy Spirit has created and which he maintains. This communion then becomes the sphere within which they will live their lives, the support for them in all the trials which daily living in that city will entail, and the norm of the behaviour which will

be expected of them in their new dedication to Christ. But there remains the third sense which we have already glimpsed, namely, that the communion which exists among the Christians *is* the Holy Spirit. 'The communion of the Holy Spirit' thus understood becomes an alternative statement of the view that the Holy Spirit is God himself identifying himself with us in all phases of our existence. The phrase as employed in the trinitarian benediction, 'The grace of our Lord Jesus Christ, the love of God and the communion of the Holy Spirit, be with you all', acquires a significance additional to the senses which it has under the first two interpretations above, both of which are, of course, valid. The content of the blessing, if we may reverently so name it, is the incorporation of the people in the communion which is the Spirit himself.

If we think in horizontal and vertical images, we may say that in this pattern of the dynamic model, the Holy Spirit is presented as God himself uniting his people in communion with one another (horizontally) in and through uniting them with himself through his identification with them (vertically). But both the horizontal and the vertical aspects of the communion of God with ourselves and of ourselves with one another are themselves ontologically grounded upon that communion which is the Holy Spirit. This pattern can then be expanded in a number of variations. For example, it can be used, as it was by Paul, as the basis upon which he condemned the revival of the old-established separations between the Jews and the Gentiles. It can be formed into a message of hope, of the kind of world of which the Christian speaks, a world in which class, racial, religious, ethical, cultural, economic, political and all social barriers are broken down, not by some alchemy of human progress or manipulation of energies or motivation, but sheerly by the power of the Holy Spirit, God himself identifying with both sides of these divisions and so neutralising the walls of partition. Nearer home, the model can be extrapolated into a pattern to be used when we come to speak of the Church as an institution, and of the relationship of the Holy Spirit to the members of the institution, through sacraments, ministry, worship, preaching and so on. In that

connection the Holy Spirit is to be seen as the condition of the existence of the institution, the means of its continuance and the ultimate goal of its fulfilment.

The Holy Spirit is God himself preparing us beforehand for the creative, redemptive and sanctifying relationship with himself, which is his purpose for us in Jesus Christ

A fifth pattern of the definitional dynamic model picks up some of the elements of the earlier patterns but considers them important enough for independent treatment, and nomination as the pattern of 'spiritual preparation'. Building on themes expressed in Rom 9.23, which speaks of 'vessels of mercy, which [God] hath prepared beforehand for glory', and in Eph 2.10, 'for we are his workmanship, created in Christ Jesus for good works, which God prepared beforehand that we should walk in them', we reach the summary that 'we are his workmanship, which God has prepared beforehand for the reality of Christian existence'. Here the thought is not exactly that of which Barth, as we saw, made so much, God from beneath meeting God from above, though it is similar to that conception. The response of the human heart to God, the thanksgiving of the whole community of believing people in response to the lovingkindness of God, the continuing discipleship of Christians – all are due to the prevenient presence of the Holy Spirit in the hearts of one and all, enabling in each case the appropriate response. I should like now to look at two aspects of this pattern.

If we think of this pattern in soteriological terms, the Holy Spirit is then conceived of as going ahead of the offer of redemption, and preparing the person for the acceptance of that offer. So, whereas in some theologies the work of the Holy Spirit is thought to follow upon the acceptance of Christ or at least to be contemporaneous with it, in the form which we are considering, the Holy Spirit goes ahead of Christ, preparing the way for acceptance, breaking down within the heart, will and mind of the person the barriers which prevent acceptance of the Gospel. Consequently,

the Holy Spirit may be understood as being present with the unredeemed, even if we add that they are *so far* unredeemed. It might possibly be argued that the Holy Spirit is prevenient only in those cases where the persons concerned finally come to salvation; but is equally arguable that there is a work of the Holy Spirit which takes him abroad among the nations of the world to 'prepare the way of the Lord'. It is this possibility of a wide-ranging role of the Spirit which induces some theologians to regard him as present in the 'other faiths' (cf. below, pp. 288f). The case against such a view, in my opinion, is twofold: first, it amounts to an interpretation of 'other faiths' which they would themselves reject, on the ground of an implicit degree of paternalism and patronisation. The 'other faiths', I am inclined to think, prefer to regard themselves as self-complete, and self-fulfilled, and not to depend on some other faith to provide for them the consummation of their own principles. Secondly, for me it is too tidy, too facile a solution to a long-standing problem, to suggest that there is such an organic relation between the Christian faith and others, as if it were their fine flowering. Christian apologists have in the past tended too much to regard Judaism as an incomplete, because uncompleted, faith – the language and logic of promise and fulfilment have fostered that analysis. Yet it is not surprising that Jews reject it. *A fortiori*, adoption of the idea of continuity between other faiths and Christianity, in cases where the vast conceptual agreement which exists between Christianity and Judaism is totally absent or minimally present, must be even more inappropriate. One possible way to avoid the thrust of these two difficulties is to say that, while we as Christians might believe that the Holy Spirit is present in 'other faiths', we have to allow that the members of these faiths will wish to describe the spiritual presence which is an essential element in the subject of their belief is not to be identified as 'the Holy Spirit', as understood by Christians. At that point I find a form of agnosticism not unattractive and not unholy; for while we have received the revelation and salvation offered to us by God in Christ, and have come to realise the role which the Holy Spirit plays in that economy, it is not ours to define, beyond that range, where God and his Spirit may work in the bounty of his uncove-

nanted mercies, remembering also the words of Our Lord, 'Other sheep I have, which are not of this fold' (Jn10.16).

On the other hand, we may interpret the present pattern in epistemological rather than soteriological terms, and follow it into a subject which has produced much controversy in the present century, the question whether knowledge of God is universal or not. The controversy was, of course, sharpened over fifty years ago when Barth and Brunner locked horns over their disagreements, but it has appeared in the programmes of most college theological societies ever since. The form of the controversy in which we are interested here is rather different from the usual argument about whether the *imago Dei* was destroyed at the fall, or whether it remained as a deformed relic. Our interest, while it is still epistemological, is directed more to the part played by the Holy Spirit in the knowledge of God. Along the lines of the pattern we are considering, the Holy Spirit is abroad in the minds of men and women, preparing them beforehand to come to know God. This preparative presence of the Holy Spirit may take two forms. First, it may be just that, a 'presence', which is less of an articulate formulation taking the form of propositions, than a general disposition which opens the mind to the activity of God and leads to volitional and affective responses. Secondly, the preparatory prepresence of the Holy Spirit may be fully articulate, concerned with breaking down intellectual defences which impede avowal of faith. The question then arises as it did before, whether the Holy Spirit is a preparatory presence only in the case of those who come subsequently to know God, or whether he is present across the world, indwelling the minds and hearts of all men and women, a process which does not always necessarily result in their adoption of faith. As human persons – more, as creatures of this kind of God – it is their right, God-given, to refuse.

To pursue that question is to find ourselves, after the briefest of steps, reaching the source of the subject of predestination. For example, if we are saying that the response to God's self-revelation in Jesus Christ is dependent upon the prior presence of the Spirit, who enables and eventually sustains that response, then logic would seem to require us to add that those who do not

respond are not favoured with the presence of the Spirit. In the now classical terms, we are admitting that God has elected to endow some with the Spirit, thus ensuring their appropriation of the revelation and by the same token their participation in the salvation offered in Christ; and, on the other hand, God has elected not to endow others with the Spirit who would enable acceptance. If that logic with its predestinationist conclusions seems to us to be unduly rigorous and draconian, then we may adopt an alternative tack, and argue that the Spirit is offered to both those who acknowledge and appropriate the revelation and the salvation offered in Christ, and to those who subsequently do not, so that both groups may fairly be in a position to apprehend the dimension of the offer made to them and the seriousness of both accepting and rejecting it. At that point, some acknowledge and accept the revelation, and some do not. But we have to advance beyond that point and recognise that surely the person who accepts Christ does not do so of his or her own ability, but only through the Spirit – in which case we are back to the old predestinationist position.

Let us consider whether this impasse is the last word on our problem, by widening its terms of reference, and examine it as a sub-set of the problem of the relation of the Holy Spirit to human freedom. We have effectively set out two approaches to the problem, the one holding that the sovereignty of the Spirit is supreme and irresistible – all is of God and nothing is of the human spirit, which is in any case too sinful to accept God's goodness; the other, that it is wrong to eliminate human responsibility and freedom, because the dehumanising of persons, even if the results are the highest and the best for them, is too high a price to pay, and persons are open and free themselves to decide on acceptance or rejection of God's offer.

A third way, between these two positions, has been located and commented upon. It comes from the Fourth Tridentine Canon on Justification:

> If someone says that man's freewill, moved and evoked by God, in no way does so co-operate by its assent with the

> evoking and calling God, so that it enables and prepares itself to obtain the grace of justification, and that this freewill cannot, if it wills, disagree, but as something unanimated cannot do anything but behave merely passively, he be anathema. (Quoted by Berkhof, *The Doctrine of the Holy Spirit*, John Knox Press, Richmond, 1964, p. 70)

Such a view, because of the use of the word 'co-operate', implies synergism, and as such has also met with considerable criticism. Exception is taken to the suggestion that God and human persons are collaborators, working together as equals, which it is thought does less than justice to 'the infinite qualitative difference' between Creator and creature, between the righteous God and sinful persons. Besides, it presupposes a rather optimistic view of human nature, implying that it is free to make the choice for or against the Holy Spirit.

Berkhof himself (op. cit., pp. 71f) suggests two possible ways out of this problem, while rejecting all three of the positions indicated above. The first he draws from Calvin, who regarded freedom of the will and responsibility as of minor importance, what Berkhof calls 'a psychological statement'. On the level of personal confession, the agent will acknowledge before God not his or her freedom but his or her wrongful use of it to defy God. So when we praise God, it will be because God by his sovereign grace 'has saved us against our own free-will from our evil free-will' (p. 71). 'When we seek our starting-point in this sovereign grace, we discover that this grace does not push away man's freedom, but confirms, evokes and sanctifies it . . . We do not co-operate with God on the same level, but we operate through him, and under him' (p. 72). But even with such sophistications, I fear that Berkhof has not really solved our problem. He seems to be speaking about not one but two sets of problems, distinguishable even if not unrelated. The one is the problem of what the critics of Calvinism call its psychological determinism, resulting from its view of the radical fallenness of human nature. The other is the question of how, at the level of personal confession, the believer both acknowledges the enabling, confirming and sanctifying

power of the Holy Spirit, and is aware of the responsibility to respond to that power affirmatively. It is *that* problem which the three positions mentioned earlier were examining, and Berkhof simply states it for us again without resolving it.

The second statement Berkhof gives, by way of a quotation from the Canons of Dort, fares scarcely better, and in fact looks very like a simple statement in the Calvinistic tradition.

> [God] moves and strengthens the will in such a way that, as a good tree, it can bear fruits of good works ... So the will now being renewed is not only carried and moved by God, but, moved by God, it works itself. That is why we rightly say man, by the grace which he has received, believes and converts. (III/IV. 11.1)

While one may complain about Berkhof's failure to find a satisfactory solution to the problem of grace and freedom, or personal responsibility and the indwelling of the Spirit, perhaps we have to add that that is because there is no solution which is rationally coherent. At both the psychological and the confessional levels, we have the two truths – 'the evil we would not that we do; the good we would, we do not' – *and* we accept the responsibility for that culpability and do not blame Adam or the environment or our genes. At the confessional level we acknowledge the Spirit who renews and recreates, but we accept also the responsibility to make that response as gladsome and as instant as can be. But at both levels we hold to both parts of what has classically been called a paradox, because either by itself is in each case a half-truth, nor can either be reduced to, or absorbed into, the other, nor can either be neglected, if we wish to have the whole truth.

The Holy Spirit is God the Creator himself setting us in a right and responsible relation to the animal and natural order

Moving still within the sphere of the patterns of the definitional dynamic model of the relational sort, let us draw attention to a

further description of the Holy Spirit which very significantly illustrates it, but which was not likely to appear in theology prior to the latter part of this century. It is noticeable that most accounts of the Holy Spirit give ample consideration to believers being in right relationships both with God and their neighbours, but they seem to ignore altogether the relation of humankind to the whole world of nature in which God has set them, the world of animals, flora and fauna, mineral, mountain, plain, river, lake, ocean, rain, cloud, sunshine and air. The fact that in theology this emphasis has rarely if ever been made, except perhaps by such rare souls as St Francis, lends credence to the view that it is a quite special insight of this generation; but when it has been acknowledged in our time it has usually been confined to the discipline of Christian ethics, and particularly to the doctrine of stewardship. The point now being made is that this responsibility may well be related to our doctrine of the Holy Spirit, who would then be seen as sensitising his people to their place within the natural world, which is composed of fellow-creatures both animate and inanimate. He makes them aware of the violation which has been committed, enlightening them on ways to make good the ravages of past generations, preventing them from perpetrating their own forms of destruction and pollution, and above all enabling them to achieve these insights.

Three reasons might be given for the failure of previous theology to relate the Holy Spirit to people's awareness of nature as a sphere of responsibility, apart from the hoary and perhaps rather unfair explanation which lays the blame at the door of the Calvinistic doctrine of the *dominium* given by God to humankind in the beginning of creation, over all the other creatures of the world, or of the *order* to populate all the earth. I have regarded the theological attribution of ecological destruction to Calvin as 'perhaps unfair' because, while scholastic Calvinism may have emphasised the idea of *dominium*, notice has also to be taken of the doctrine of the *imago*, which at Gen 1.26 is combined with the idea of the *dominium*, with the implication that the dominion of human beings within nature has to be understood in terms of the nature of the God in whose image they are made – a God,

that is, who cares for the whole of nature and his creatures with love and providence. Then follows a doctrine of the stewardship of human beings over nature which negates all human freedom for the spoliation of nature. Avoiding the false inducement to blame Calvin and his followers for the ravages of the natural world of our day – actually, they are equally excessive in non-Christian countries – I would like to suggest three other reasons. The first of these is the close connection between the Holy Spirit and Christ, which has long been a feature of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit and which on the whole has tended to tie the Holy Spirit to the *opus ad extra* of fulfilling the purpose of salvation in human terms, and not also in terms of the rest of the created order. In fact, the concept of the cosmic Christ and the cosmic dimension of the salvation which he effected ought to have led to a role for the Holy Spirit in bringing the cosmic salvation to its consummation. The second consideration which I would like to mention complements what I have just said. Though the Western Church has always affirmed the procession of the Holy Spirit from the Father and the Son, it has in effect adopted a very Greek view of this procession, relating the Spirit to the Son, and through the Son to the Father. On occasion, the procession of the Spirit from the Father was even adopted as a device, however laudable, for establishing the deity of the Holy Spirit. Other implications of this part of the doctrine were never followed, particularly that which we are now considering, the relating of humankind in a responsible manner to the world which God has created. The Holy Spirit has responsibilities to God the Creator as well as to God the Redeemer, and when that connection is forgotten, we arrive at the kind of destruction which our generation is now at least beginning to combat. My third explanation of the absence until recently of a theological concern about ecology goes back to what might be regarded as a failure to unwrap fully the concept of *creatio continua*, which is given at least lip-service in most textbook accounts of creation. What is normally said of the concept is that it enshrines the fact that God did not, after the initial act of creation, leave the universe and his creatures in it to their own devices, but maintained his relationship with them

through the process of continuous creation. Now when we recall the place assigned to the Holy Spirit in the initial act of the creation, we are led to look for a similar place for him in the continuing process of creation. If we employ Baumgartel's account of the Holy Spirit as 'the active principle which proceeds from God and gives life to the physical world' and also (as we added above, p. 40) to his human creatures, we see how it is applicable not just to the original act of creation, but to God's continuing creativity through the whole history of the universe. From this position, it is easy to see the relevance of defining the Holy Spirit according to the pattern of the present dynamic model. The Holy Spirit is God himself setting us in a right and responsible relation to the natural order in its full extensity, and in that action incorporates us in his activity. To pollute or despoil creation is to work against him, as assuredly as we do when we go our own defiant way and reject his sanctifying Spirit in our relations with one another. As so often happens in theology, we notice that this pattern of the Holy Spirit's activity in the process of *creatio continua* is paralleled in another theological system which regards the natural order as sacramental, bearing in, with and under itself the presence of God. My preference for the interpretation in terms of the Holy Spirit springs from my desire to maintain the relation between God and his creation, rather than to take the risk of allowing nature to appear to appropriate the capacity to arouse in us a sense of the presence of God.

The Holy Spirit is also the means by which the categories of personality and spirit are made applicable to God

Before we leave this particular constellation of relational patterns of the definitional dynamic model, let me draw attention to yet another description of the Holy Spirit, which it induces and which has not been frequently noted. This affirmation can be made in the light of the facts that the Holy Spirit is God's relating himself to the detail of human, historical and natural process and existence, God's involving himself in and identifying himself

with, human thought, feeling and will. So far in this study we have given thought to the propriety of ascribing the notion of spirit to men and women, and have spoken of the persons and their lives to whom God through his Spirit has been related; but we seem to have taken for granted the application to God of the concepts or categories of personality or spirit. In this present reference, it should be said, we are thinking of God as Spirit and not of God the Holy Spirit. But first, let me deal with God and personality.

When personality was first applied to God (as distinct from one of the members of the Trinity), which some regard as one of Paley's less well-known contributions to the course of theology, it was soon thought to be heresy, the heresy of unitarianism, on the ground that it was affirming uni-personality in God rather than the three persons of Nicaea. But in this century, with the widespread popularity of the I–Thou metaphysic of Martin Buber, himself a Jew, and the construction of so much theology involving personalised terms such as encounter, address, imperative, command, obedience, faith as trust, there has grown up, and been comprehensively adopted across the denominations, the application of the notion of personality to God, as understood in this wholly modern sense. Now in that modern context, we are coming to recognise that awareness of personality only emerges when the self comes to appreciate the boundaries laid down for it by another self, when it realises that beyond itself there is another self making challenging demands and marginalising the freedom which the self can enjoy, but also finds in that other self sources of assistance, inspiration, friendship and love. So God is for every self that omnipresent personality, at every point of human existence confronting human persons with the imperatives of his will and his commandments, at every point offering the almighty succour of his Gospel. The boundaries at which we meet other human selves are broken lines of division and of limited duration; they are fractured by our own excesses and by our own inordinate demands; they are even on occasion erased by the selfishness which tries to absorb others into itself, or so extends itself as to identify its own wishes as those of the other self. But the

boundaries at which we meet *the* personality are unbroken and they extend from time into eternity. We may spend our time pretending that these boundaries are not there, as Jonah did; and as he did also, we may spend our time running away from them. But we flee from them only to encounter them at some other point in time or space, and we forget them only to be reminded all too soon of their continued existence. It is precisely in terms such as these that we described the Holy Spirit, as relating himself to the infinite detail of the lives of men and women, making his offers with precise relevance to the intimacy of their lives, and presenting his challenge and his demands with disarming directness relating to them exactly where they are. Hence the logic of our definitional statement emerges, on the ground that those characteristics which we have in mind when we ascribe personality to God, or even to the Godhead, are effected by the work of the Holy Spirit. What I have in mind can be illustrated from christology and soteriology: the redemption of humankind is effected through the death of Christ on Calvary, and so there is a primary sense in which we speak of him as our redeemer. Yet that term is also applied to God; but in so using it we are aware that this redemption ascribed to God is that very redemption wrought through the death of Christ. Returning to our theme. then, we may by analogy hold that the personality of God is implemented, realised, consummated in the work of the Holy Spirit.

If, however, we were to define personality in terms of the boundaries and limitations which self sets for self, we must at the same time define spirit in terms of the self's ability to transcend such boundaries and limitations – to transcend and not to obliterate or deny their existence. It is of the essence of spiritual reality that it can have what I can only call 'togetherness', which is impossible for material reality – togetherness which paradoxically can only be described in such spatial metaphors as 'getting inside another's mind', or 'projecting oneself into another's situation', or 'standing in another person's shoes', and which is nevertheless the antithesis of everything that is spatial, extended and exclusive. We have spoken of the Holy Spirit as God involving himself in, and identifying himself with, the eccentricity and the idiosyncrasy

of every person's life; and so, once again, the Holy Spirit is the effective medium whereby God is named Supreme Spirit, the One who alone can overtop the barriers that the self constructs to keep even those that it loves at bay, who shares in the anxieties, the fears, the hopes, the dreams of that self as no other can, and who brings to that person the salvation which is his purpose for him or her.

Two final comments may be made concerning the formulation of this pattern of the relational, dynamic model. First, there has been an ongoing discussion right from the earliest days of patristic theology about the distinction between the phrases 'God as Spirit' and 'God the Holy Spirit', and how the two could be related to one another and reconciled with one another. It has been suggested, for example, that in the Old Testament we meet God as Spirit, and in the New Testament, after Christ has come, we receive God the Holy Spirit; or again, that God as Spirit fulfils a role in relation to creation and to creatures, whereas the Holy Spirit performs a redemptive role in bringing men and women to Christ. It has to be admitted that exegetically there is considerable difficulty in sustaining a completely biblical basis for any rigid distinction. But a distinction is possible according to the above presentation, for we are proposing that if we think of the Holy Spirit as effecting through his *opera ad extra* those activities and relationships which we have described, then we provide content to, and yield understanding of, the nature of a God whom we also call 'Spirit'.

My second comment relates to the implication of the account of the Holy Spirit we have been giving latterly for our judgement of the nature of God as triune. The implication is as follows. Some of the attributes of God, which have been traditionally ascribed to God, in particular as Person and as Spirit, in a somewhat deistic way, can be properly affirmed only in a trinitarian context. It is only when we describe the role of the Holy Spirit within the triune God that we can rightly understand the nature of God as Spirit, and how that God expresses himself as Spirit. In much the same way, it is our understanding of the redemptive work of Jesus Christ, the Son of the Father, that

enables us to speak truthfully of God as Redeemer. At that point we catch a glimpse of an earlier theme – the relation of the *opera ad extra* to the *opera ad intra Trinitatis*; and we are perhaps now going a little farther, and saying that it is the *opera ad extra* that are the clue to the proper understanding of God as he is in and for himself; and indeed, that is what we mean by 'revelation'.

The Holy Spirit as the Go-between God

Another pattern of the dynamic model appears in a modern treatment of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit by John V. Taylor in his *The Go-Between God* (SCM Press, London, 1972). While, in accordance with our taxonomic scheme, it is properly entitled *Trinitarian Model/Relational Emperichoretic Pattern*, I propose to treat it in this section because it is a unique – and original – combination of several of the patterns which have already appeared above, and contributes also certain additional insights related to them.

Taylor begins from the description of a variety of situations with which we are all familiar, and to that extent he begins 'from below' and not 'from above'. These are situations in which our recognition and perception are heightened, and our minds and lives transformed (op. cit., p. 16); and asks the question, 'What is the force that is responsible for my seeing in a way in which I had not seen before? A landscape, a person, an idea comes to life as never before, and becomes a presence to which I give myself up ... I recognise, I respond, I fall in love, I worship – yet it was not I who took the first step.' He first characterises this presence in general terms, as an anonymous third party who mediates as go-between (hence the title of the book) between ourselves and the other subject, establishing the communication that has arisen. But this invisible go-between is not to be externalised as if it were a bridge, but is, on the contrary, active within us and known by Christians as the Holy Spirit.

This last point Taylor develops in a most interesting way, when he uses the distinction between the immanent God of whose

presence we are made aware, and the Spirit who makes us aware; 'between that aspect of God which I can feel and know and that aspect which makes me feel and know' (op. cit., p. 43). He adds that it is possible for us to know God as the other whose pervading presence surrounds us in nature and indwells us; whereas it is not possible to be directly aware of the Holy Spirit, for he it is through whom we know. Taylor switches language when he says that the communion between God and ourselves which the Spirit creates may be described as a form of 'co-inherence', another translation of the Greek *emperichoresis* which we met when considering the way in which the persons within the Trinity interpenetrate one another. The classical biblical example, though in relation to Jesus Christ and his disciples, appears in Jn 17.23. Once again Taylor says that while we may have communion with God, it is not right to hold that we have communion with the Spirit, 'for he *is* communion', which, it will be recalled, was one of the possible interpretations of the third phrase in the benediction, 'the communion of the Holy Spirit'. So, he adds, prayer *to* the Holy Spirit is virtually unknown in the New Testament, the practice there being rather prayer *in* the Holy Spirit.

This excursus is fascinating on a number of counts. For example, while his reason for choosing to refer to the immanent God and the Spirit who makes us aware of God as 'two aspects of God' – namely, because he does not wish to be speaking of 'two Gods' – is honestly given, it is perhaps not so wisely chosen. He is in fact speaking on the one hand of the Godhead, or of God who is both transcendent and immanent, and on the other of one of the persons of the Godhead, namely, the Holy Spirit. The use of the term 'aspect' would, if developed, lead to some form of sabellianism.

The introduction of the notion of 'go-between' with its echoes of *emperichoresis* is particularly felicitous for two reasons. First, it applies intra-trinitarian language to extra-trinitarian *opera*, and illustrates how productive such language can be, though often written off as being no longer relevant, let alone comprehensible. Secondly, it also sums up the relational and dynamic qualities of

the different patterns in the model we are investigating, and so serves to integrate the several patterns which we have discovered this model to have.

Taylor introduces a quite novel concept into a subject which has exercised philosophers of religion for centuries, the subject of the nature of our knowledge of God. The history of the matter is all too familiar. Knowledge of God has been on occasion construed logically as a form of inference, analogical or inductive; or as a form of our knowledge of other selves, a view based on Martin Buber's *I and Thou* and certainly doing justice to the distinctively personal qualities of the Godhead; or in terms of what John Baillie used to call 'mediated immediacy', God being known 'in, with and under' entities and persons other than God; or even as some immediately intuitive second sight. What Taylor is saying is that, however we interpret our knowledge in the terms just indicated, we have to make a prior assumption that the Holy Spirit has quickened our awareness of the presence of God, and further, has made possible such awareness. How, then, we define this condition of the possibility is a rare epistemological problem, for we cannot externalise it or objectify it. It is subjectively lived through or, if the language is permissible, known through. It does have certain characteristics. It is singularly selective, 'going between', on the one hand, our minds, feelings and wills, and, on the other hand, God wherever he is said to be 'known', focussed upon in the midst of the many persons and things with which he might be confused. It also has other than cognitive components, both affective and conative, for it conveys to us the saving offer which that God makes to us, and creates the responses which that God elicits from us.

It is not my intention to rehearse the entirety of Taylor's presentation or to attempt to do justice to the use which he makes of his 'go-between' theme in expounding the person and work of Christ and the relation of the Holy Spirit to Jesus. I should like, however, to draw attention to his placing of the Holy Spirit in Jesus' use of parables, and in 'the explosive force of symbols and metaphors' (op. cit., p. 72). He illustrates this force by recalling Koestler's concept of 'bisociation' (*The Act of Creation*, Pan,

London, 1964), in which an artist or a poet in a flash of inspiration perceives a connection between two normally unassociated entities. Wordsworth's 'I wandered lonely as a cloud', or the much quoted 'No man is an island' are examples that come readily to mind. But it was an integral element in the parables of Jesus, where the bisociation was not only singularly apt, a fact observed in hindsight, but also commonplace and ordinary in the subjects from which Jesus drew the human and earthly side of the bisociation. Taylor, in outlining the background from which Jesus' parabolic teaching springs, especially in the prophets such as Isaiah and Jeremiah, on one occasion uses the term 'imagination' to describe this activity, and later the phrase 'the Spirit of creativity'. This same bisociative activity, characterised as creative imagination, is accountable as the presence of the Holy Spirit in Jesus Christ, and it is integral to his teaching by parable. But the Holy Spirit has to be recognised as present in two ways. On the one hand, as we have just noted, Jesus, 'filled with the Spirit', and in the Spirit, discerned the connections which came to embody quite the major part of his teaching, such as the parable of the lost sheep, the lost coin and the lost son, portraying the unremitting loving-kindness of God. Perhaps the best example of this expression of Jesus' creative imagination, though it cannot strictly be called a 'parable', is to be found in the words Jesus spoke at the Last Supper, 'This is my body which is broken for you', and, 'This cup is the new testament in my blood', a bisociation which will last as long as the Church exists and Christ's disciples obey his command to 'do this in remembrance of me'.

On the other hand, the Spirit is present in the hearts and minds of those who have the flash of insight, and perceive the connection and discern the meaning of what Jesus was saying. It is the presence of the Holy Spirit in this process of perception which makes me question the way in which Taylor describes the process, when he says (op. cit., p. 72), 'once the link has been made, more and more people find it so obvious that is hard to remember there was a time when it was not a commonplace'. The link never comes to be 'commonplace', nor does it at any time become self-evident. In fact, it is the presence or absence of the

link which is the differential between a Christian and a secular view of the world and nature, humankind and history. That circumstance is particularly true if we return to the subject of the Lord's Supper. It is the peculiar character of this vision which is the clue to the theology of the eucharist. Seeing bread and wine in the bisociated relationship with his body and blood which Jesus imaginatively created 'on that night on which he was betrayed', dare never be thought to be 'commonplace' or self-evident or self-induced. That prayer in the service of Holy Communion known from time immemorial as the *epiklesis* expresses this point with total clarity (cf. below, pp. 256ff, 273f).

Before leaving Taylor, we must take account of a rather exceptional extension of the relational model which is our present subject. Taylor takes as his starting-point for this relational pattern statements from a whole variety of scientists with a common theme. It is that, not only in the world of biological organisms, but also down to molecules and particles, there is mediation both between the individuals and between the individuals and the whole which they constitute. This mediation takes three forms. First, there is 'awareness' or 'consciousness' or 'response' of, or to, the others, while the organism as a whole 'beckons' them upwards to an unfulfilled reality. This language would all sound unacceptably anthropomorphic, were it not independently used by a whole series of scientists, such as C. H. Waddington, Charles Birch, Sewell Wright, Alister Hardy and Heisenberg, among several others. Secondly, concerning 'the blind non-purposive hit-and-miss of natural selection' (p. 32), Taylor elicits another characteristic of the relational pattern from the writings of the above scientists, namely, the capacity for choice which appears in the individual's decision to act out of character to meet some change of circumstances. When such a change is copied by other members of the species, something like a group mind may seem to appear, and a new generation will be exhibiting new behavioural patterns. Thirdly, again in the context of evolutionary theory, Taylor notes that cruelty and ruthlessness are not the last word in that process. The principle of 'Each for himself, and de'il tak' the hin'most ' is not a universal law even in

nature, where citeable instances occur of self-sacrificial action on the part of animals, frequently on behalf of their young.

Taylor wisely does not attempt a natural theology of the Spirit to be derived from such scientific phenomena. But he does argue that, given the understanding from which he has set out, it is possible to interpret the relations between individuals in terms of a 'Go-Between God', the Spirit confronting individuals with one another, and, between the individuals and the system or the organism, as this same Spirit beckoning them to a higher reality or a fuller system (p. 31). In fact Charles Birch makes just that statement (*Nature and God*, SCM Press, London, 1965, p. 94). Taylor's actual method emerges when, in relation to the element of self-sacrifice observed in the animal kingdom despite the cruelty acknowledged in the evolutionary process, he argues that the self-oblation by the Word in the life, death and resurrection of Jesus Christ enables us to detect another law at work in the universe and its processes at all levels (p. 34). That, I would say, is a minimal interpretation by Taylor, that these three characteristics of the activity of the Go-Between God, Holy Spirit – mutual awareness of individuals, choice involving achievement of potential, and sacrifice – provide us as Christians with analogies or models for the interpreting and better understanding of the natural order. But, on the other hand, this minimal view does less than justice to Taylor's position, which is that the Holy Spirit is in fact acting in 'the saga of cosmic evolution' in exactly the ways outlined by Taylor, and in line with the analyses of the non-theistic scientists.

The immediate objection to this latter view is that it savours too much of the transference to the natural order of our understanding of how the Holy Spirit has been observed to operate in our relations to one another and in our relations to himself. If we take the objection seriously, then we are faced with a choice between an analogical and a literal reading of the construction which Taylor is offering, and I do think that both are present in his account (cf. foot of p. 31 with second paragraph on p. 33). There is a third possibility, which brings out an aspect of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit which so far has not appeared.

It is that, yes, the Holy Spirit is present in the different ways in the natural order as described so eloquently and with such comprehensive scientific documentation by Taylor, but his presence there is in a *kenotic* form. We have heard a great deal in christology of the *kenosis* of the Word, the Eternal Son of God, when he became incarnate. The nature of this *kenosis* was described classically by the Apostle Paul in Phil 2.5–8, the Word accommodating himself to the form of existence of the human order into which he was entering. It is not inappropriate to regard the presence of the Spirit, operating in the ways itemised by Taylor, as emptying himself to accommodate to the conditions of the natural order and process which he was affecting. As Jesus could be regarded in purely human terms, and his presence among humankind misunderstood, so could the presence of the Spirit be interpreted purely naturalistically. How, then, does such a presentation differ from a natural theology argument for the activity of the Holy Spirit in nature? It differs in this respect, that Taylor is not saying that the presence of the Holy Spirit in nature may be deduced logically from a scientific account of how the elements in nature are related to each other or to the system in which they exist. Rather does he hold that Christians who have come to know how God works in them through the incarnation and the Holy Spirit can with hindsight detect a similarity of patterns in the behaviour of individuals in the natural order, as outlined by Birch, Teilhard, Waddington, Heisenberg and the rest mentioned by him. Such a presentation lends a new dimension to our understanding of nature, and a fresh approach to the 'sacramental view' of nature, and of what happens within it.

The definitional substantive model

What has gradually been coming to light in the elaboration of these different relational patterns of the dynamic model of the Holy Spirit is that we have almost, if not actually, evolved another model, namely, a *definitional substantive model*, which images the Spirit as acting in the world as 'an autonomous substance'. This

phrase appears in Hendrikus Berkhof, *The Doctrine of the Holy Spirit* (John Knox Press, Richmond, 1964), where he enunciates three positions which depart from traditional doctrine. The first two are stated in the following terms:

> it is no use to maintain ... any longer [the confused and confusing phrase 'the three persons of the Trinity'], especially since this formula from the very beginning has functioned not as a power of unity but as a source of confusion ... We have even more reason to say farewell to the person-concept in pneumatology. (op. cit., p. 115)

His own option is to describe the Holy Spirit as 'predicate to the substance God, and to the substance God who is by nature a living, acting God' who 'becomes a life-giving Spirit in creation'. The supreme act of the Spirit is God incarnate, and the Spirit of God is the Spirit of Christ, and after Christ's exaltation, the Holy Spirit is the exalted Christ. We would be diverted from our immediate purpose if we were to consider further the complications which Berkhof creates for himself and his readers by his attempt at rewriting the doctrine of the Trinity and of the Holy Spirit. But his rejection of the notions of the three persons in the Trinity and of person as an autonomous substance does very much concern us. For, while retaining the traditional trinitarian threefoldness of God, we have in our present dynamic model come close to conferring autonomy upon the Spirit, operating in the several ways defined, and, allowing for Berkhof's either-or – either personhood or autonomous substance, but not both – we have to ask whether we have fallen foul of his disjunction. As it happens, Berkhof himself does not entirely honour this disjunction, for he describes the role of the Spirit in God's creation, in the incarnation and in the leading of the sinner by the Spirit to Christ, in terms which resemble somewhat those which we have ourselves used above, which do accept a degree, a considerable degree, of autonomy in the Spirit. That being so, must we then abandon the person-concept from our pneumatology, as Berkhof insists? To answer this question, let us turn first for guidance to

christology and to the way in which it speaks about the incarnation.

No one within the truly Christian tradition has attempted to deny that Jesus Christ was a whole personality, possessed of all the autonomy that was possible within the limitations of humanity and compatible with obedient creatureliness. In fact, to deny this kind of personal existence to Jesus Christ was to incur the charge of docetism, of believing that Jesus only seemed to be human as the Word incarnate. Jesus appeared in the Gospels as a complete personality. He prayed to God; he hungered; he thirsted; he preached; he mixed with all sorts and conditions of men and women; he suffered; he died; he was raised again. There is no other way in which we can think of him than as personality, the kind of person that both Christians and many unbelievers regard as the noblest in history, not some hypostatic shadow of reality, and certainly not a predicate of a substantial reality, even if that reality is God. Before we added that this personality is an autonomous substance, we would qualify the assertion by saying that such autonomy had to be contained within a constant devotion to doing the will of God the Father.

So, to return to the possible alternative naming for the definitional dynamic model with its various patterns as '*definitional substantive model*': in the light of the analogy of the incarnation, we would judge it a permissible description for this pneumatological classification. Stated in such terms, the description would be pressing for the same rejection of docetism in relation to the Holy Spirit and for the same kind of recognition for the Holy Spirit as is given to Christ in the incarnation: that we see the Holy Spirit operating in the world today with the autonomy, qualified in the manner just noted, which theology has always conceded to Jesus Christ and to God the Creator. With this model in mind, we would look with suspicion on any suggestion that the Holy Spirit is the extension of the incarnation, or even that he is equivalent without remainder to the exalted Christ. Of course, the Holy Spirit is affected in all that he does by the facts that the Word was incarnate, that Jesus Christ died for the sins of the whole world, that the whole creation groans

waiting for the redemption of the sons and daughters of God and, including all, by the fact that God is this kind of God. But then, equally, the mission of Jesus was affected, even conditioned, by the facts that creation had somehow gone awry and that the Father had sent him forth to restore the whole creation. But such commissioning – one might say, all-conditioning – circumstances in no way trivialised the autonomy and the integrity of the person or personality of Jesus Christ.

Whatever assessment we give to the pentecostalist and charismatic movements – and that is a matter which we have yet to consider – there surely is one message that they have for us: that somehow our theology of the Holy Spirit has almost reached a point where it is actually threatening to stifle the activity of the Holy Spirit in our midst. The inhibiting element in this theology is that which is too timid to assign or, more accurately, to recognise the personality of the Spirit and the autonomy and freedom which go with it. Paradoxically, the christocentricism which for half a century has dictated much of this narrow pneumatology – though we must confess that it entered into a heritage which was centuries old – has itself suffered thereby. For what I am calling an autonomous Spirit is, figuratively, given a wider range than a Spirit presented as an extension of the incarnation, or confined solely to the earthing and completion of the work of redemption. The sense that the Gospel of John leaves with us is of a person (in our modern sense and not solely in a hypostatic sense) who, Jesus promises, will come to us; what the Book of Acts leaves is the impression of a person who commands, dictates his judgements, and has independence – always, of course within the all-inclusive purposes of God.

Maybe at this point the objection could be made that indeed Christ is enough, sufficient for life and salvation both here and hereafter, and we do but reaffirm that fact if we were to say that the Holy Spirit is the extension of the incarnation and identifiable with the exalted Christ. That might be acceptable, were it not that God himself has provided us with the gift of the Holy Spirit, who plays his own specific role within the economy of salvation, who daily shapes the lives of the redeemed and of God's Church,

and who traces the path of God's activity in nature and in history, while never at any time abandoning the world to its own resources and devices. I sometimes wonder whether even Barth's view of the Spirit, which to begin with is so christologically and christocentrically conditioned, is not eventually obliged to surrender its cherished principle. For example, if we think of revelation as objectively grounded in Jesus Christ and of God approaching us, as was often said, *senkrecht von oben*, then we have, in order to keep the pattern right, to say that the Holy Spirit acts on his own *from below*, as he comes from our side to meet God's revelation in Jesus Christ. An autonomous, substantival model would lead to that kind of pattern appearing across the whole life of the Christian and of the Church, and even more widely, across history and nature.

Perhaps we ought now to refer retrospectively to Calvin's contribution to the understanding of *hypostasis* (see above, pp. 116f), for it is particularly relevant to the present argument. He maintained, it will be recalled, at *Institutio* I.13.19, that the whole essence of the Godhead is to be understood as residing in each *hypostasis*, the difference between each and the others lying in the subsistence, that is, in the manner in which they subsist in the Godhead. He rejected the idea that 'Father', 'Son' and 'Holy Spirit' are only names for the relations that obtain among the persons of the Godhead. In effect, therefore, each person is fully God, and his relation to the other persons, what Calvin calls his subsistence in the Godhead, sets the form which his *opera*, both *ad intra* and *ad extra*, take. That point, I think, was made fairly comprehensively in the above description of the patterns which the definitional dynamic model of the Spirit takes. As was previously noted (see above, p. 203), however, such a view, which affirms the reality of the presence of the Godhead in each of the persons, when they act *ad extra*, does not preclude, as has just been mentioned, the possibility of that presence being subject to a *kenosis*, as has often been argued in christology in the wake of Paul. One advantage which christology has over pneumatology is that there is a word to designate the *opus ad extra* of the Word of God, namely, incarnation or *ensarkosis*. Since the Spirit is

recognised as having an *opus ad extra* appropriate to himself, a term to describe such an activity and form of existence would be helpful. It certainly would prevent suggestions such as that the Spirit is a predicate of God, or an extension of the incarnation. The kind of term I have in mind is some such neologisms as *empneumatosis*, or 'inspiriting', the Holy Spirit informing the spirit, heart, mind and will of human beings, with whom he is thus in touch as never before. In doing so, he remains the Eternal Spirit, nor does he rob the person in whom he thus dwells of his or her integrity or selfhood.

While, therefore, we have been claiming for the Spirit a form of personality, which seems beyond dispute in the case of the incarnation of the second person of the Trinity (and we could make similar claims for God the Creator), we can no longer pretend that we have not thereby created serious implications for the traditional understanding of the doctrine of the Trinity. In short we seem to have adopted a social theory of the Trinity. There are two ways of handling these implications.

First, the charge of tritheism could be met head-on with honesty, and the suggestion could be accepted that *hypostasis* or *persona* is to be translated as 'personality' in the full modern psychological sense of a substantival and autonomous being. The Trinity may then be construed as being in itself a community, a *societas*. There is undoubtedly renewed interest in this position, created on the one hand by the loss of popularity, some would say the obsolescence, of the Aristotelian metaphysic, which is basic to traditional trinitarian expression; and on the other hand, by the widespread adoption of the personalist philosophy of Brown, Buber and MacMurray. The view of the Trinity which results has much to commend it. For example, it locates within the Godhead that community-ness which is the basis of human existence. When combined with the Augustinian notion of the Holy Spirit as the eternal love wherewith the Father loves the Son and the Son the Father, there is then located within the Godhead that very love which externalises itself in creation, redemption and sanctification. Love is then not simply an attribute of God, though it is that; but it is that because it is of the very essence of

God, lying at the heart of the Godhead. But even having gone so far, we have to acknowledge a residual doubt about whether we are truly speaking of tritheism, when we consider that these three persons, Father, Son and Holy Spirit, are so identical of nature and purpose that the ordinary bounds of mutual exclusiveness are inapplicable to them. In fact the concept of *emperichoresis*, the mutual interpenetration of the persons, makes it difficult to conceive of them as independent and separate realities.

The second way of handling the implications of a possible substantival model of the Spirit for the doctrine of the Trinity is to argue that, while the traditional account of the *hypostaseis*/*personae* is still applicable to the three in the intra-trinitarian situation, it cannot be applied to the three as they appear in the *opera ad extra*, which do present themselves as three separate and independent personalities. The unquestionable case in this matter is, as we noted above, the person of Jesus Christ, who on any but a docetic christology is regarded as a whole and complete person, a personality as understood today. We made a similar case for the Holy Spirit, while the references in many psalms and in Isaiah bear out the appropriateness of ascribing the concept equally to the Creator. On such an account, we might appear to be saying that when an *opus ad extra* is effected, a change takes place in the Godhead. Yet orthodoxy has never flinched from acknowledging that that is exactly what happens after the incarnation takes place, and it is borne out when, after the ascension of Jesus Christ, the second person of the Trinity retains his human nature. So there seems to be no final theological objection to allowing that when an *opus ad extra* takes place, the person who acts *terminative* is a person, as we nowadays understand that term.

Once these two ways of dealing with the problem of recognising the degree of autonomous substantiality that the persons express in their *opera ad extra* have been considered, how do we answer the charge of tritheism? I would rebut it forcefully on the ground that nowhere in Scripture or tradition is the suggestion ever made that the Christian God is in reality three gods. Therefore, however we extend our descriptions of how God is and of how he works, we have to remain within the parameters of

the unity of God. If, in unravelling that unity, we encounter activities of Father, Son and Holy Spirit, we have then to confess that such threefoldness is the form which the unity of God takes. In any case, the essence of the Godhead in which the persons subsist is one and their participation in that unity, as the Fathers demonstrated repeatedly in case anyone misunderstood, was not of particulars in a universal, or parts of a whole of which they each had a different share. That fact is true both of the immanent Trinity and of the economic Trinity, argued for most in relation to the first but equally applicable to the latter. The quality of the love which bonds the three together, taken along with the process of *emperichoresis*, transcends that mutual exclusiveness which is present in human loving and which cannot finally be eliminated from the relationship. While, then, such mutuality in the Godhead may be an inspiration for human loving and sociality, it cannot as a consequence be equated with human sociality or fellowship. Such an equation would imply that Trinity is tritheism, which, as we have said, is unacceptable.

8

THE CHURCH, THE SPIRIT AND THE POLARITIES

DYNAMIC MODEL WITH ECCLESIASTICAL/ POLARITIES PATTERN

There is universal agreement in Christian theology that one of the most important dynamic manifestations of the Holy Spirit is the *opus ad extra* appropriated to him in relation to the Church, a term which we must at present interpret on a wide spectrum. But unfortunately or otherwise – it is too soon to tell – the agreement seems to end with that statement, and gives way to a series of polarities which we must forthwith explore. Before going into detail, however, let me explain the use of the term 'polarity' to describe the different situations, by distinguishing between a polarity and a contradiction. In the case of the latter, the two sides or options affirm the opposite or the negative, each of the other. They are mutually exclusive and it is logically impossible for any entity to be both at the same time. Theology has many such opposites – infinite and finite, all-righteous and sinful, elect and damned, forgiving and unforgiving, and so on. In the case of the polarity, while the pure forms of the two members of the antithesis seem to be opposed and negative to one another, in fact they form the foci of what in magnetics would constitute a 'field'. So within this field will appear members who veer more to the one pole than the other, showing characteristics which favour one pole somewhat more than the other but not exclusively so. What we are led to expect, therefore, is perhaps to begin from apparent diametric opposition, only to find later that there are other possibilities which fall between the poles but are not totally divergent from either.

THE LOCATION OF THE SPIRIT WITHIN THE CHURCH

The first polarity relates to the location from which the Spirit operates in his dynamic action upon the Church: is he indigenous to the Church, or is he *gegenuber* (over against) the Church? This polarity is frequently employed to distinguish between Roman Catholic and Reformed ecclesiologies; but with the Roman Church in some of its sectors, if not officially, moving in a more liberal direction, and with Catholic sympathisers in the Reformed Churches being very active, it is no longer wise to absolutise the distinction. With that caveat in our minds, however, we can still accept the distinction as a working basis, even though those whom it distinguishes are no longer all where we once knew we could find them. Let us look, then, at the components of the polarity in turn, taking particular note of their origins and variant forms of definition, and looking towards a possible fielding of the polarity.

The Catholic pole derives first of all from a conviction which was first formulated by Augustine, 'What the soul is for the body of a man, that is the Holy Spirit for the Body of Christ, which is the Church; what the soul works in all the members of one body, that the Spirit works in the whole of the Church.' Since this position was implicit in a papal statement of 1897 (Pope Leo XIII), and reaffirmed in another in 1943 (Pope Pius XII), it will repay examination.

To begin with in this description, it may appear that the Spirit and the Church are initially being regarded as two separate and independent entities – which would be somewhat in line with Christ's promise to send a Comforter, who would be the Holy Spirit, after he had gone. Nevertheless, once Church and Spirit have come together on the analogy of body and soul, which are the two elements in a unitary whole, then they would seem to have become dependent upon each other. In a word, the Holy Spirit has been indigenised, and this will be his new form of substantival existence of which we were speaking in the last chapter. The phrase 'natural possession' has on occasion been used for this new position in which the Holy Spirit now finds

himself in relation to the Church. The word 'natural' in this connection is highly ambiguous. It is meant to mean 'belonging to the nature or essence of' and, in this sense, what would be intended would be that the Spirit is of the essential being of the Church. But the word could be taken as the opposite of 'supernatural', with the suggestion that the Spirit had been 'naturalised', that is, given an earthly existence in the Church. But the term 'possession' does seem inappropriate as applied to the relation of the Church to the Spirit. Besides, such a construction does not fit the analogy; the body does not possess the soul, nor the Church the Spirit. At best, this analysis would suggest that the Church and the Spirit are more like partners, with the Spirit, if we speak this way, in control.

In the first instance, then, the Holy Spirit would be regarded as the senior partner, in that he, by virtue of his being and nature, creates this very special soul–body relation which is the Christian Church. Here we are admittedly in an area of theological controversy. For, on the one hand, it is the body of Christ which is the body referred to in this case and which gives the unity of the two – Church and Spirit – its special character. On the other hand, the quotation from Augustine leaves us in very little doubt that it is the Spirit who makes the human membership the body of Christ and, thus, the Church. Certainly it is he who sanctifies and purifies that body. He it is who validates what that body does. So, since the Spirit is invisible, and the membership which is the body of Christ is visible, there is a strong presumption in favour of the integrity of whatever the Church does, or of what is done in the name of the Church.

Within this framework, the gifts of the Spirit, or the grace of God, can only be made available to men and women within the body of Christ, and only through the hierarchy set up by Christ to be his true successors and heirs after his exaltation. There seems to be a little confusion here, in that clearly, as we have noted, Christ elects his own successors by saying, at Jn 20.21, 'As the Father hath sent me, so send I you'; whereas Berkhof (op. cit., p. 56) suggests that 'In Roman Catholic theology, the Spirit is mainly the creator of the Church as a sacramental and hierarchi-

cal reality'. So the grace offered by the Church may be for some doubly mediated: first, through the sacraments, and secondly, through the hierarchy who are solely competent to dispense sacramental grace. G. S. Hendry (*The Holy Spirit in Christian Theology*, p. 58) can then say that the Holy Spirit 'is personally present and divinely active in all the members' of the mystical body of Christ, 'but in the inferior members he acts also through the ministry of the higher members' (cf. Berkhof, op. cit., p. 44).

The Reformed position provides us with the other pole, and while at times it seems to be a negative pole, in fact it is based upon strong positive arguments and exegesis. First, the Spirit whom the Church confesses to be Lord retains his lordship in relation to the whole Church, its hierarchy and members alike. He is the *gegenuber* who, as the true successor of Christ, the Comforter whom he has sent, the *alter Christus*, can never be indigenised or naturalised in the Church. Secondly, the Church is the instrument of the Spirit and not vice versa, used by him to recall to men and women who Christ was and what he did, to empower them to proclaim the kerygma, to hand on the accepted teaching (the didache), and to witness a true confession before the world (Hendry, op. cit., p. 64). Thirdly, we have therefore a triadic situation – Christ, the Spirit and the Church; and the work of the Spirit is to direct the Church and its members, through the Bible and preaching, through the sacraments and prayer, through the whole ministry of the Church, towards Christ. On this view there is no question placed against the reality of the Spirit's presence with the Church; he is, as the Lord and Giver of life, the new life which the believer will find in turning to Christ within the fellowship of the Church.

Clearly there are components in both of these polar positions which are never going to be reconciled. They constitute the poles of the field, and they are such as: the indigenous and the *gegenuber* character of the Holy Spirit; the role of the hierarchy in relation to the other members of the Church; the relation of the Spirit to Christ. Yet since, as we observed earlier, there is no complete unanimity in either tradition, members of the one selecting elements from the other to correct or amplify their own

at different points; and since there is still not a little caricature in the account which each gives of the other side (see Y. Congar as quoted by G. S. Hendry, op. cit., p. 66); perhaps it is best not to attempt an overall integration of the different elements we have mentioned. Rather shall we allow them to stand. Then they can be used to plot the location of different thinkers of both traditions in this complex and diversely influenced field.

THE EXPRESSION OF THE HOLY SPIRIT

Another polarity, which to some extent develops from the first, but is important enough to be regarded separately, concerns the expression of the Holy Spirit – through a community, or through an institution? through what Louis Leuba calls 'event or institution'? On the one hand, there is the thought of a group which has been constituted in its community-ness by the vertical descent of the Holy Spirit upon it, uniting the members one with another by his presence among them, directing them in their activity in the world and sustaining them in their worship of God. In this context the freedom of the Spirit is fully affirmed, and the structures of the community are not defined with finality or inflexibility or, necessarily, with exclusiveness; and there is great openness to change, to redrawing of lines and recategorising of ministry. On the other hand, there is the concept of an institution with a very specific shape, with an internal structure which is not readily changeable because it is believed to be laid down by the Spirit himself. A gulf is fixed between clergy and laity, and the gulf so far has not been readily, if ever, passed. In regard to this polarity, I wish to say that if it is to be held to in its rigidity, it is false for the following reasons.

It is doubtful if those who are sympathetic to the notion of the Church as an institution have ever thought that they had so captured the Spirit within their own power and disposition that they could dictate to him what they thought he should tell them to do. Even in the Catholic-type institution there has always been an awareness that the Holy Spirit was of God, and that therefore

he could never be a possession of the Church or the hierarchy. So in this light we have to place a correction against the position of that name as it appeared in our previous polarity. What we still do not surrender is that the position is vulnerable to that danger, and has been thus misunderstood not just by the Ian Paisleys of this world, but also by less perceptive lay persons.

On the other hand, it is very unusual to find any community, vertically inspired, which does not operate with a community and with forms of hierarchical structure, even if in some cases they may be very minimal, the Quakers forming the limiting case. Now, the recognition of such structures must not be taken as a necessary evil of a fallen world in which they are intended to obviate chaos and anarchy, nor yet as mythological features of a demonic character which have entered from an alien world to curb the social excesses of sinful men and women. Nor are they to be regarded as sociological patterns and practices which arise as soon as people form themselves into groups for some esoteric purpose, and so of importance as data for students of sociology of religion. On the contrary, they are the stuff of the theology of the Church, the ministry and the sacraments.

Full documentation for that view can readily be obtained from a consideration of the many occasions on which, in the New Testament, the work of the Holy Spirit is implicated in one or other of the components or practices of the institution (cf. Berkhof, op. cit., pp. 51f):

(i) The place of the Holy Spirit in baptism is recognised in, e.g., 'For by one Spirit we are all baptised into one body' (1 Cor 12.13; 1 Cor 6.11; Acts 2.38; Col 2.12; Eph 4.5).

(ii) Through the laying on of hands, the Holy Spirit is conveyed to new converts (Acts 8.17), 'Then they laid their hands upon them and they received the Holy Spirit' (cf. 2 Tim 1.6).

(iii) The Holy Spirit is involved also in Holy Communion, 'For we are all made to drink of one Spirit' (1 Cor 12.13). Notice has previously been taken of the importance of the *epiklesis* in the liturgy of the Holy Communion.

(iv) The Holy Spirit has also a close relationship with the proclamation of the kerygma, as at Gal 3.5, 'Does he who

supplies the Spirit do so by works . . . or by hearing of faith?'(cf. 1 Pet 1.12).

(v) The Spirit is also related to discipline within the Church and with the authority of the clergy. In Acts 5.1–11, the sin of Ananias and Sapphira is stated to be a sin against the Holy Spirit, and their punishment accords therewith; while in Jn 20.22f we read, 'Receive the Holy Spirit. If you forgive the sins of any, they are forgiven. If you retain the sins of any, they are retained.'

(vi) The deep involvement of the Spirit with the ministry is stated at 1 Cor 1.21f.

(vii) Perhaps the most telling of all are 1 Cor 12.4–11, 28–30, and Eph 4.11f, where we find all the offices and operations of the institution related to the Holy Spirit, and regarded as his gifts.

THE HOLY SPIRIT'S PLACE OF INDWELLING AND ABIDING

Another polarity which arises, this time more in the Reformed camp than anywhere else, is that of the group or the individual as the prior place of indwelling and abiding of the Holy Spirit. There is a lot of evidence for regarding the latter, the individual, as the starting-point of the Spirit's action. Gal 5.22 contains, as we observed in our review of the biblical account of the actions of the Spirit (see above, pp. 60ff), a recital of the fruits of the Spirit which, while they all carry trans-personal implications, are all predominantly individual personal virtues. This same emphasis is inherent in many denominationalist loyalties, in forms of Scottish and American Presbyterianism, in Methodism and Quakerism. It was the ethos which gave us the 'Protestant ethic', and it has a long history of dedicated personalities to its credit. But the dangers are there also. Berkhof (op. cit., p. 67) speaks of the work of the Holy Spirit being 'conceived of in an introverted, emotional and individualistic way', which is negatively critical only by implication of failure to construe the ethic in a social, political, national and international way. A great deal has been written about the trans-personal dimension of Christian ethics – and no

one brought up on a diet of the ethical thought of Reinhold Niebuhr could ever think otherwise – yet, when we look at the list of the gifts of the Spirit as Paul gives it, we do begin to realise that perhaps New Testament Christians did not conceive of their responsibilities in the wider and more complex context which we have come to accept in our time. The ethic of the young Church was very much what Ernst Troeltsch was to call a 'sect-ethic'. In our time, however, those who see the individual as the prior abiding-place of the Holy Spirit are not unwilling to recognise that he also abides in the group, but as a consequence of his presence with each of the individuals.

On the other hand, it is not difficult to amass evidence for saying that the group has priority in claims to the presence of the Spirit. We think of Jesus promising that the Spirit will be sent to the disciples as a group; of chapter 2 of the Book of Acts, where we read that they were all of one accord in one place when the Spirit came upon them; as well as of the many other occasions in Acts where the Spirit was associated with the group. When he did seem to present himself to one person, that person was always related to a group. But in the contemporary situation, Prorestants are coming increasingly to speak of 'the Church' as having responsibilities that are not simply agglomerations of the duties of individual Christians; and for the fulfilment of these responsibilities, they are seeking the guidance of the Spirit in the faith that he works as assuredly through the group as he has been proved to do through the individual. What the Reformed still seem to lack are the structures through which we may most effectively seek that guidance and, having received it, to implement it, by the power of that same Spirit. Within the Reformed Church and that Church's liturgy, the Holy Spirit is still too often confined to one prayer, if even that; whereas by rights he should be acknowledged to be the context within which the whole liturgy takes place, and the foundation of everything that the Church does, inside the walls and outside.

I should, therefore, like to make two points concerning this polarity. First, under no circumstances dare we allow this polarity to fragment into two separate fields. The poles are part of a single

field, which requires both poles for its definition. The Spirit makes both the individual and the group (the Church) the places of his abiding, and he indwells neither to the neglect of the other. If denominational loyalty or some other theological persuasion inclines us to one pole rather than the other, we must always acknowledge and react to the draw of the other. Both are absolutely necessary.

Secondly, whether we emphasise the group as the place of the Spirit because our sympathies lie there anyway, or because of an ingrained antipathy to individualism, we have to remind ourselves that we still have to create within the group as a whole the expectation of possession by the Spirit and the empowering to do his will, which the New Testament so often requires of the individual. Not many contemporary churches exhibit such group expectation; and those that do to any great extent constitute a special phenomenon to which we shall soon be turning our attention. It is correct, too, to ask questions about the relation of the Holy Spirit to the structures of the institution, the forms of hierarchy and the ordinances of the Church, and how he can be reconciled with such formalism, who is himself all freedom. But it would be wrong to think that that is the only question that we ought to be asking. Indeed, to be even asking such a question is perhaps to be looking too much at the mote in our brother's eye and failing to notice the beam in our own: worrying how the Spirit can break his way into the Church's central administration or the Church's statutory committees, when the real problem is how the Holy Spirit can be the life-giver, the power of our own congregations and – hardest of all – the sanctifier of our own lives.

SPEAKING WITH TONGUES AND BAPTISM WITH THE SPIRIT

Our next polarity is one created by the subjects of the phenomenon of 'speaking with tongues' and its relation to the gift of the Holy Spirit, and of the meaning of the concept of 'baptism in/

with/by the Holy Spirit'. This polarity occurs in a first-order form and a second-order form, the former to be found in the Scriptures themselves, the second arising through the use of these Scriptures by different branches of the several Pentecostalist and neo-Pentecostalist movements, on the one hand, and by traditional established church theologians. Let us deal with the two forms as outlined.

We have already considered accounts of the activity of the Holy Spirit in the life of the Church and of Christians in the review of the biblical evidence (see above, pp. 53–55), but in the present context we examine the controversial aspects of this evidence which have proved to be important in Pentecostalist churches. These aspects assume a polar character if, for example, we consider the views of Luke and Paul. Walter J. Hollenweger, *The Pentecostals* (SCM Press, London, 1972), one of the most comprehensive and sympathetic treatments of the subject of our time, on pp. 336ff concludes with a truly polar view when he argues that 'we cannot, on the basis of the text of the New Testament, refute Paul with Luke, nor Luke with Paul'. He reaches this point after presenting the thesis that, in cases recorded by Luke, one can be a Christian without receiving the Holy Spirit, the Spirit being subsequent to salvation. That this subsequent gift has been given is apparent in certain signs, particularly speaking with tongues. He quotes the experiences of Cornelius (Acts 10.14) and of the people at Ephesus (Acts 19.6). He adds, comprehensively, that 'the reception of the Spirit here in Acts 19. 2–6 means nothing other than' that the Holy Spirit came to them and they spoke with tongues. Further, because of this sequence which separates the gift of the Spirit from salvation itself in the thought of Luke, believers pray to receive the Holy Spirit.

On the other hand, in the writing of Paul, the order is reversed. Faith and prayer are subsequent to the gift of the Spirit. Paul, on a number of occasions takes notice of the phenomenon of speaking with tongues, and he allows that he himself has the gift. But not only does he play down the practice, indicating its dangers if there is no one present to interpret what is being said,

he has many more expansive things to say about about the other *charismata* of the Spirit, as we have noted (see above, pp. 61ff), some of which are not the least extraordinary in nature. 'For Paul, the Spirit is not something additional to faith' (Hollenweger, op. cit., p. 338).

Hollenweger settles, as I said, for a polarity solution, refusing to accept any attempt, by textual–critical or theological methods, to 'harmonise' the two positions. His reason for doing so is that we live today in a missionary situation which is very similar to that which confronted both Luke and Paul. We need both. Paul's presentation is 'more theological, more precise, but less concrete' (ibid, p. 341), while 'Luke separates into temporal succession things that belong together' (ibid.) and are more readily assimilable by those who are inexpert at dialectical thought.

Hollenweger's introduction of the relevance of the Luke–Paul polarity in the matter of conversion, the Spirit and speaking with tongues takes us immediately into what I called the second-order level of this polarity. For it is at once obvious that these matters are not concerned simply with academic textual–critical comparison. They form the very stuff of discussions within the Pentecostal churches, as well as between these churches and the traditional mainstream churches. So a brief introductory account of the origin and emergence of these fast-growing churches will take us into the second-order phase.

A tentative date has been put to the beginning of the Pentecostal movement in America, of 1 January 1901, the day on which Agnes Ozman asked that hands be laid on her at Charles F. Parham's Bible College in Topeka, Kansas; and she received the Holy Ghost and began to speak in tongues. The most notable happenings in that early period took place at Azusa Street Chapel in Los Angeles, California. Meantime, the beginnings of the Pentecostalist movement had appeared in South Africa, Russia and Bulgaria, and it was already flourishing in Brazil, where it continued to do so, reaching a membership of four million by the middle of this century. On the other hand, neo-Pentecostalism as it has been called, in distinction from the general charismatic movement, is normally dated in the second half of the twentieth

century from 3 April 1963, when Dennis Bennett, the rector of St Mark's Episcopal Church in Van Nuys, California, after having received the gift of tongues, announced to his congregation what he hoped the Holy Spirit-baptism, which some seventy of his congregation had experienced, would do for his parish. He was asked to resign. That occasion marked the beginning of the appearance, in mainstream denominations, of the phenomena associated heretofore with the Pentecostal denominations.

It is not our intention here to rehearse the relations between Pentecostalists and neo-Pentecostalists, or between them, on the one hand, and the traditional forms of Protestantism and Roman Catholicism on the other. (The classic on this subject, as has been mentioned, is Walter J. Hollenweger, *The Pentecostals*; but there are several treatments of individual issues, such as E. Jested, *The Holy Spirit in Today's Church*; A. A. Hoekema, *Holy Spirit Baptism*; *New Heaven? New Earth?* Templegate, n.p., 1977, which has essays by Simon Tugwell, Peter Hocken, George Every, et al.; P. Damboriena, *Tongues as of Fire*; and a longer work by F. D. Bruner, *A Theology of the Holy Spirit*, Eerdmans, Grand Rapids, 1970.) Our purpose is to examine what I have called above 'the second-order level' of polarities involved in the understanding of the relations which are believed to obtain between the gift of the Spirit and speaking with tongues, and between conversion or salvation and the gift or baptism of the Spirit.

Turning then to these matters, we recall (see above, pp. 220f) the way in which Hollenweger first portrays the issue as one between Luke and Paul, and resolves it with his theory of harmonising the disagreement, more or less what we have called a polarity/field concept. Let us now deploy in greater detail what we offered in the earlier discussion of the New Testament teaching on the Holy Spirit (see above, pp. 55f, 58ff, 66f), and with a reference differently pointed in order to relate it to the modern issues. Those who fall within the category of Pentecostalist churches or who hold views similar to them (for example, the Assemblies of God or the Holiness movement) advance a two-stage way of salvation. The first is conversion, being born again or saved; and the second, sanctification, a second blessing, or

baptism of the Spirit. Some churches went on to add a third stage such as acceptance of the authority of the apostles of the Apostolic Church, the American 'Latter Rain movement' requiring its believers to undergo the experience of 'ascension'; while a further group mentions a fourth stage, a 'final shattering', which is a total redemption from the believer's religious or sanctified ego, said to be a rare experience.

The variety of options is immense, as a reading of Hollenweger (op. cit.) clearly demonstrates, so that any comments made on the Pentecostalist churches or those which do not actually bear the name but are clearly like-minded on most of the main tenets, have to be qualified and not universalised. So we shall take a fairly standard case, where it is affirmed that those who have been converted and have received Christ as their Saviour, at a subsequent time receive the baptism of the Spirit and speak with tongues. Those who favour this position tend to draw primarily upon the original Pentecost experience of the first Christians, who, apparently already believers, were filled with the Holy Spirit and began to speak with tongues, which, as we noted before, was a case of *xenolalia* rather than of *glossolalia* (Acts 2.1–4). Acts 10.44ff, however, another instance of speaking with tongues, does not quite fit that pattern in so far as the Holy Spirit fell on Peter's listeners and they spoke with tongues. If conversion occurred, it was more likely to be associated with the baptism with water which followed and would have presupposed some confession of Jesus Christ. The subsequence principle does not apply, and the gift of the Spirit cannot be considered a 'second blessing'. In a third case, Acts 19.1–6, it is clear that the 'disciples' in Ephesus to whom Paul was speaking had, not committed themselves to Christ, they had experienced only John's baptism to repentance; nor had they heard of the Holy Spirit. Being baptised by Peter and having his hands laid on them, they received the Holy Spirit and spoke with tongues. Here the sequence of events is rather involved, but the gift of the Spirit and the speaking with tongues come at the end, possibly (though it is not so stated) after a confession of Jesus Christ and conversion made before the baptism. But it would be wrong to suggest that the sequence is

extended; rather, the events are elements in a single comprehensive happening, so that it is wrong to say that the demands of a sequence implied by the phrase 'a second blessing' have been met. Baptism and the gift of the Spirit are in immediate relation to one another.

Those in the traditional mainstream churches resist this Pentecostalist account at two main points, rejecting the statements that speaking with tongues is a sign which accompanies the baptism with the Spirit, and that baptism with the Spirit is a second blessing given only to some. It is noted that when, at Acts 2.41ff, the baptism and the conversion of the three thousand are recorded, no mention is made of their speaking with tongues, though according to the previous v. 38 they were promised the gift of the Holy Spirit. Further, there are nine occasions in Acts where reference is made to people being full of or filled with the Holy Spirit, but not to their speaking with tongues (4.8; 4.31; 6.3, 5; 7.55; 9.17; 11.24; 13.9; 13.52); and twenty-one occasions where people came to be believers in the word of salvation, but did not speak with tongues. Tongues appear elsewhere in the New Testament as a gift, chiefly in 1 Corinthians chapters 12–14, especially ch. 14. Here no connection can be established which allows tongues to be evidence of Spirit-baptism or fullness of Spirit. Firm conclusions are drawn from this evidence – for example, that the evidence does not supply grounds for holding that speaking with tongues is the only sign that the believer has received the baptism of the Spirit, or that there is such an event as a second blessing which confirms the believer's conversion and comes some time after the conversion. On the positive side, three further points would be made: the first, that while the term 'Spirit-baptism' is very rarely used in the New Testament, it is a not inappropriate description of the event of conversion in a believer's life, doing justice to the role of the Spirit in the beginning of the salvation process. The second point is that while it is artificial to set up stages of this process, nevertheless it is wise to accept the spirit of that idea and recognise that salvation is an ongoing process, supported throughout by the Holy Spirit; and thirdly, that undoubtedly speaking with tongues is a recognisable

phenomenon in the New Testament, which has been so magnificently magnified and practised in the twentieth century that we dare not commit the folly of down-rating or, even worse, ridiculing it simply because the biblical evidence does not sustain such magnification or widespread practice.

So, if the biblical evidence is so compelling against the Pentecostal beliefs and practices regarding speaking with tongues and Spirit-baptism, we are pressed to ask why it is that speaking with tongues is nevertheless still given a pre-eminent place in contemporary Pentecostalism. Some traditional answers are given by Pentecostalists themselves, e.g., that it imparts to Christians that freedom which allows them to speak to and praise God with an abandon and self-surrender which is impossible with ordinary speech. The point is also made that many who are inarticulate in ordinary day-to-day affairs find through tongues an avenue for self-expression which is not vulnerable to the judgemental strictures of their fellows. Larry Christenson is quoted by E. Jestad (*The Holy Spirit in Today's Church*, p. 88) as saying,

> A prayer with the mind comes upward from the heart, and must then pass through a maze of linguistic, theological, rational. emotional and personal checkpoints before it is released upward ... An utterance in tongues comes upward from the depths, but instead of being channeled through the mind, it by-passes the mind and flows directly to God in a stream of the Spirit-prompted prayer, praise and thanksgiving'.

Kilian McDonnell emphasises the part which prayer plays in the Pentecostal movement and that there lies the attraction for many who become involved in it, showing that it is as a gift of prayer that the gift of tongues is important in the movement. Peter Hocken (in *New Heaven? New Earth?* pp. 22ff) begins by observing that while many neo-Pentecostalists seek to relate the list of nine *charismata pneumatika* to be found at Rom 12.6–8 and 1 Pet 4.10f to attempts to classify the *charismata*, he would in fact prefer to make a strong case for distinguishing the so-called

charismata pneumatika, on the basis of the 'particular level or zone of the human that they activate and engage'.

What is remarkable in Pentecostalism is not the appearance of certain pneumatic phenomena or the opening up of the pneumatic dimension in particular believers, but 'the organisation, embodiment, and expectation of all these gifts within the life of Christian communities, whereas they had for centuries been encountered only spasmodically. It amounts to the reactivation, in the Christian community, of levels and capacities in the human spirit which had long lain dormant'. Religion had become almost an intellectual, propositionalised affair, but Christians from the Third World were now encountering in Christianity the penetration by the Holy Spirit of activities already evident in worship and communication. So these levels in the human *pneuma* at which tongues appear are those same levels from which devil worship emanates and at which demon-possession takes place. So Spirit-baptism, as understood in Pentecostalism, may be construed as the introduction of the believer into the pneumatic dimension; while the Holy Spirit imparts also the *charismata* which are appropriate to the functioning of the *pneuma*. So, then, it is not right to categorise the *charismata* and to say that there is only one way to the depths of men and women; nor to say that Pentecostalism involves the rediscovery of *charismata* in general. Rather, it makes us aware of the entirety of the Christian life as a gift of the Spirit, and of certain areas within it which have been ignored for long years as being the sphere of *charismata*.

It would be wrong to leave the discussion without a recognition of the almost equally important place assigned by the Pentecostalists to *prophecy*. Prophecy is an utterance of the Word of God with precise relevance to a given situation, produced under the direct influence of the Holy Spirit. Pentecostalists add little, therefore, to the accepted theology of proclamation, but they have shown that ordinary believers, simply through their empowering by the Holy Spirit, receive a word from the Lord and give it expression. The challenge which occurs in the area of preaching can be matched also in the place given to the body in worship, the mind–body dichotomy being overcome at these

deeper levels – hand-clapping; arms upstretched in prayer; the laying-on of hands; the relation of religion and healing; creativity in liturgy which combines leadership with opportunity for congregational initiative; a new emphasis on discernment as an objective test prior to doctrinal orthodoxy, objectivity which obviously includes doctrinal elements, but which is subjecting them to discernment. This discernment which is so important is the determination of what God is doing here and now, of what the Word of God truly is for this specific situation, of where the Spirit is leading us, of what God is telling us about Christ, the Spirit, the world and ourselves. It is small wonder, then, that when the movement is described in these terms, members of all denominations are finding themselves drawn into dual membership of Pentecostalism and of a mainstream denomination.

This final comment introduces us to the question of how the concept of polarity is to be applied to the differences between the Pentecostalist churches and the mainstream denominations. It is clear that while there may have been a degree of antagonism to begin with, there has been in recent decades, perhaps through the good offices of the World Council of Churches, a very considerable increase in mutual understanding and goodwill. The two poles have, however, remained as still defining the field, and we would expect that to be the case and to continue, for there are believers who are at home only in one or other forms of worship and liturgy, of dogmatic conviction and self-expression, and would not wish to be anywhere else. But at the same time, as we have just noted, members from one part of the field are increasingly worshipping in churches of the other pole, though that is perhaps more true of mainstream members than of Pentecostalists. What, however, has to be kept under careful scrutiny is the random, unthought-out and gratuitous mixing of the two traditions, without reference to the choice of the members of the congregation, resulting often in considerable embarrassment and not a little confusion. The Pentecostalist service has a whole theological underpinning which gives meaning to whatever goes on overtly and explicitly. The overt behaviour cannot be snatched from its natural *Sitz-im-Leben* and

inserted into a service with a different ethos without resultant unsatisfactoriness. Such a view is not intended to preclude services of a mixed form, but it is a suggestion that the middle field, accessible to both poles or foci, is to be plotted with care and consideration and, like holy matrimony, 'not to be entered upon lightly, or unadvisedly, or without due attention to the ends for which it was ordained'. It is for me significant that our presently active and very creative young liturgiologists – and I doubt if the Church has ever been served by a better, shrewder or more competent group than it is blessed to have today – have not yet offered us draft services which include elements from both the established and the Pentecostalist traditions. It would be advisable for them to do so soon, for otherwise dangerously spontaneous and unskilfully-handled DIY attempts will overtake us unawares on any Sunday.

But it would be wrong to conclude that the interaction of the two poles, as I have called them, in the field created by traditional mainstream churches and Pentecostalist churches can be described only in terms of liturgical actions. I have just referred to the theological underpinning to Pentecostalist services, and I was thinking then of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit which is the most important element in that Church's thinking. We have yet to draw up our conclusions from this wide-ranging review of that doctrine in different theological traditions; but already it has often appeared that the traditional mainstream theology favoured by these churches has been far from articulate in respect of this doctrine, and that such articulation will be necessary if a proper place is to be given to him in the life of the Church. Then the expressions of our devotion to the Spirit and, comprehensively, the lives we live in daily communion with him will be reflections of our understanding of the Spirit.

Let us turn now to a rather subtle and balanced, if unintentional, use of this polarity principle by J. D. G. Dunn, *Baptism in the Holy Spirit* (SCM Press, London, 1970, ch. xix, pp. 224ff), which puts the subject in an interesting modern setting by relating it to the stances towards baptism and the Spirit adopted by the traditional denominations. On the one hand, the Roman

Catholics, who came to emphasise the role of the Church and water-baptism, developed towards this position as the Spirit receded as a subject of experience and became the property of the Church. The gift of the Spirit came to be tied to the ritual of water-baptism, which could be regulated as faith and the Spirit could not. On the other hand, as Dunn presents his analysis, Protestantism shifted the emphasis from the sacerdotalism and sacramentalism of Catholic doctrine to an emphasis upon preaching and personal faith, looking for authority in the Bible as the seat of authority. The Spirit did not, however, increase accordingly, but was in effect subordinated to the Bible. The infallibility which the Catholics had found in the Church and the sacraments, the Protestants found in the Bible. Now the Pentecostalists have reacted sharply to both of these positions, 'the mechanical sacramentalism of extreme Catholicism' and 'the dead biblicist orthodoxy of extreme Protestantism' (op. cit., p. 225), and have concentrated upon the *experience* of the Spirit. They are right on two counts. First, there was in the New Testament Church a lively sense of the reality and the power of the Spirit in the life of the Church and of individual Christians, so much so that one could not fully become a Christian without knowing that reality and that power, and one became a Christian by receiving the Spirit. Secondly, it is equally true that in the majority of congregations of the mainstream churches in Scotland, that experience is obsolete; and should it occur, inside them or outside, all too often elaborate attempts are made to interpret it as mystical or subjective or psychologically abnormal.

Dunn has to admit, however, that what is in itself a most laudable attempt to revive a New Testament understanding of what it means to become and to be a Christian, has itself fallen into error. On the one hand, the Pentecostalists have sided with the Catholics in separating Spirit-baptism from what Dunn calls 'conversion–initiation' (water-baptism), by holding that the gift of the Spirit is a subsequent experience, which he believes is a departure from New Testament practice and thought, where the gift of the Spirit (Spirit-baptism) is the central element within conversion–initiation. On the other hand, the Pentecostalists

have, according to Dunn, made the Protestant error of separating faith from water-baptism. Conversion takes place when the person in whom the Spirit has engendered faith receives Jesus Christ; and such a person has become a Christian before the water-baptism, which then becomes a witness to an already existing faith and commitment. In the New Testament, faith is neither prior to baptism, which then becomes a symbol, nor posterior to baptism, which then becomes an instrument of divine power, operating without the knowledge of the baptisand. 'Water-baptism is the expression of the faith to which God gives the Spirit' (op. cit., p. 227). Water-baptism is the preparation for Spirit-baptism, and the means by which the believer reaches out to receive the latter. Dunn rounds off his presentation with these epigrams (p. 228): 'Faith demands baptism as its expression. Baptism demands faith for its validity. The gift of the Spirit presupposes faith as its condition. Faith is shown to be genuine only by the gift of the Spirit.'

Dunn's presentation, as I said to begin with, is an interesting illustration of the way in which the polarity pattern may be used in the exposition of different statements of the complicated interrelations of Spirit-baptism, water-baptism, conversion and faith. Not only does he polarise Protestant and Catholic positions, but he introduces a third pole in the field, the Pentecostalists, who polarise with the other two. The author works out his positions with a mastery of textual detail which is quite formidable, and presses towards his theorems, and to a critique of contemporary Christian denominations, with an almost relentless logic. Yet, with considerable diffidence, I wonder whether Dunn has disregarded the distinction between what I earlier called a 'first order' treatment of these subjects and a 'second order' treatment of them. The former includes the detailed study of the relevant texts, and here, for my own part, I do not find the tidy sequence of events in the Spirit, baptism, conversion, faith situations and sequences which Dunn claims; and so it is difficult to establish an absolute norm. For, example, there do seem to be occasions (such as in Acts 19.1–7) when baptism was administered without clear record of conversion to faith in Jesus Christ,

and the gift of the Spirit followed; while at Acts 10.44ff the gift of the Spirit takes place without record of conversion and 'upon all who heard the word'. So although Dunn's argumentation is meticulous, I feel that his method is almost statistical, in that he arrives at his epigrams by accepting a majority of cases as his norm. That method would be absolutely fair and unexceptionable if adopted at the 'second order' level, where determination is being sought for procedure, practice and expectation in a present-day denomination.

THE HOLY SPIRIT IN THE CHURCH, NEW TESTAMENT AND MODERN

Since it was a comparison of the sense of the presence of the Holy Spirit in the life of the modern Church with the articulate relation of the New Testament Church with the Spirit which was part-motivation of this study, it would be valuable to pause to make some assessment of the importance of that comparison. There is a sense in which the very vitality of the whole Pentecostalist movement, in all its different forms, is a direct challenge to the thinking of the mainstream churches. Some of these churches have met the challenge by endeavouring to incorporate Pentecostalist liturgical forms and practices without modification or adaptation, and I shall be reflecting later upon the hybrid results. But we may now consider certain other significant points from the comparison.

First, even discounting the clapping and the physical activity present in most Pentecostalist worship, we cannot fail to be struck by the liveliness and vibrancy of the entire service. These characteristics are, moreover, communicable from worshipper to worshipper, which some would claim is itself evidence of the presence of the Spirit; nor are they to be discounted on grounds of emotion or, worse, mass-hysteria. So the challenge at this point to mainstream churches, as I see it, is to discover how to capture and to translate that sense of the presence of the Holy Spirit, for he is there available in all worship, into forms, practices and

experiences which are assimilable by the mass of mainstream worshippers.

Secondly, one of the most important initial steps towards the enlivening of our sense of the presence of the Spirit is the creation of a feeling of expectancy that such things can happen and are going to happen. Even where we have references to the Holy Spirit in our prayers, they tend to be glossed over or simply taken for granted as pious appendages, nods to convention which do not touch the heart or move the soul. J. V. Taylor once made the point that we do not pray to the Holy Spirit, but rather do we pray *through* the Holy Spirit. His intention was sound, for the Spirit is our Advocate as Jesus himself taught. But surely there is also the need for prayer *for* the gift of the Spirit, that he may be present throughout what we do in worship. At that point, the thought arises that prayer *to* the Holy Spirit, that he may fulfil the promise of his presence, will complete the sequence and the circle.

There is perhaps also a signal from the Pentecostalists concerning the relevance to preaching of their use of the term 'prophecy'. One mark of their kind of 'prophecy' is its spontaneity, which in their case is equivalent to a high level of dependence upon the inspiration of the Spirit. By comparison, preaching in mainstream churches must appear as contrived and formalised. Even though we respond with the defence that we trust the Holy Spirit has been at work already in the preparation of the sermon, there must still be an expectation that the spark of the Spirit will enliven the actual delivery of the sermon itself. The danger which many of us incur is that we exhaust ourselves – 'spiritually' you might say – in the preparation of the text and do not prepare ourselves with equal vigour and prayer for the actual presentation.

We shall be discussing later (see below pp. 248ff) the question of the place of the Holy Spirit in infant baptism, and shall concern ourselves for the present with the place of the Spirit in adult baptism and in confirmation. In both of these rites, I would plead for an increased emphasis upon the place of the Holy Spirit in each. For example, while in the order for adult baptism in *The Book of Common Order of the Church of Scotland* (1994) there is

(pp. 95–109) frequent reference to the Holy Spirit, for example, in relation to the baptism of Jesus, in the invocation of the blessing of the water, and the petition that the baptisand be 'born anew of water and the Holy Spirit', what I missed was a prayer for the actual *gift* of the Holy Spirit to the baptisand. Now it may be that the theology back of this order does not hold to a firm connection between baptism and the gift of the Spirit, who will create new possibilities of faith and service for the person baptised, and regards the Spirit more as an instrument or a function in the rite, as is suggested by the phrases, '*by* water and the Holy Spirit' (p. 98), or 'being born anew *of* water and the Holy Spirit' (p. 101). I am not saying or expecting that there is an inherent *ex opere operato* connection between the sprinkling of the water and the descent of the Spirit. What I am contending, however, is that, given all the attendant variables, including the faith of the person being baptised, the supportive faith and acceptance of the congregation, the invocation of the Trinity, the appropriate Scriptures being read, and the interpretative introductory preamble and prayers, there is implicit in such baptism the promise, expectation and the reality, whether at the time or later, of the actual gift of the Holy Spirit. The analogy with the sacrament of the Lord's Supper I find singularly appropriate, even though I would not press the analogy too far. In the Lord's Supper we have no hesitation in saying that when we in faith receive the bread and wine, Jesus Christ himself is really present; and, further, the spiritual nourishment which we then receive is not momentary and immediately evanescent, for we believe that it is lasting and sustaining. In a not dissimilar way, the gift of the Holy Spirit which, I claim, should be regarded as a very significant present element in the sacrament of adult baptism, is a gift that is likely to play an all-important part in the new life which has begun, in the newborn service of Christ.

When we turn to the order for confirmation in *The Book of Common Order of the Church of Scotland*, already referred to, it is interesting to read that the candidate for confirmation is told, *inter alia*, that he or she has come 'to receive the strengthening of the Holy Spirit', and later there is a prayer that the candidates be

sent forth by God 'in the power of the Holy Spirit'. The phrase 'our experience of your Holy Spirit' in one of the prayers is also a clue to the understanding of the role that the Spirit is expected to play in and through the confirmation which is the subject of the rite. In this respect, the confirmation order does seem to go beyond the adult baptism order in the acknowledgement of the place of the Spirit in the rite, and the adult baptism order does not seem therefore to be quite correct.

9

CONCLUSIONS

We began this study by addressing two issues. The first was whether the differences which exist between the Church of today and the Church of New Testament times were sufficiently enormous to amount to a betrayal of the Gospel and rejection of the fundamental insights which our Lord bequeathed to his first disciples and the community of the early Church. When we examined a selection of representative areas in which major changes had taken place over the centuries in the life, structure, administration and ethos of the Church, we reached the following interim conclusion: namely, that while these changes were on the whole major and far-reaching, they amounted more to the development of positions, ideas and values inherent in the origin of the Church than to the abrogation or the denial of them.

This conclusion was, as I have said, 'interim' because there was not included in the review our second question, namely, whether the doctrine of the Holy Spirit held the kind of central place in the thought of the Church today which it clearly did in New Testament times, or, more concretely, whether the Holy Spirit can be said to play as central and as important a part in the life of the Church and of individual Christians today as he palpably did in New Testament times. Any diminution in the stature and status of the Spirit in that respect would indeed have justified the charge of betrayal on the part of the present-day Church. To that second issue, then, there seemed to be no easy answer, chiefly because the subject-matter which might have facilitated such a response was indeed very heterogeneous. So, since there proved to be no short cut, the only way home was the taxonomic analysis of different accounts of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit, spanning centuries,

cultures and denominational variations, and the exposition of certain representatives of the different classes of these accounts. With that historical study completed, what is to be our answer then to the question of whether, in the matter of the Spirit, we have drifted away from the Church's origins and inspiration? By way of response, let us now sift out the emergent results of that enquiry, and thereafter, by way of conclusion to our study and in the light of it, advance a description of the position in our lives, in our theological thought and in the Church of our day which the Holy Spirit might be expected to hold.

SCRIPTURE AND TRADITION

Perhaps the most obvious, if not totally unexpected, fact which appears out of the examination is the way in which the twin partners of Scripture and tradition succeeded in dominating the development and formulation of the doctrine of the Spirit in the changing ambience of time and culture. But they have done so in rather different ways. On the one hand, Scripture, by virtue of its priority as the ultimate source, carries status as being, for all denominations, 'the Word of God', however the phrase is interpreted. Certain consequences follow. For example, it becomes a court of appeal in any subsequent disagreements on the nature or work of the Spirit, and so constitutes a norm or criterion of truth in the matter. Also, because the Spirit is so often described in Scripture as part of the regular inspiration and daily lives of Christians, it provides an audio-visual of how Christians might well live if they are to adopt the pattern of the New Testament. Such would no doubt be the justification for the stance adopted by the Pentecostalists and their sympathisers in this and earlier generations. The criterial character of Scripture is in constant evidence throughout the history of the doctrine of the Spirit.

Tradition, on the other hand, has achieved its dominance in the history of the doctrine in rather different ways. First, it claims a share, but only a share and by association, in the primacy of

Scripture; and it does so by setting itself up as the interpreter of Scripture, and, in some denominations, as the sole interpreter of Scripture, and therefore as the guardian of Scripture.

Secondly, tradition would hold that it is *a*, and even for some, *the*, development of Scripture, as if Scripture in itself were incomplete in some way and required the assistance of tradition to be complete and fulfilled.

Thirdly, in so doing, and whether we hold to the development theory or not, tradition, in the process of interpreting Scripture, introduces into doctrine terms which come from outside Scripture. These terms are culture-based, and though philosophically and logically derivable, nevertheless in the process are themselves changed, and at the same time subtly change the form of the subject described. The doctrine of the Holy Spirit is subject to this treatment, with all other doctrines of the Church which hold to scriptural origins. In the case of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit, however, the extra-scriptural terms are mainly those which it shares with the doctrine of the Trinity, and it has not nearly so many as the doctrine of the person of Jesus Christ, largely because the latter has to itself the entirety of the Chalcedonian Creed, not to mention the army of alternatives which heretics proliferated before and after the year 451. Even so, the adaptation of the terms shared by the Spirit and the other two members of the Trinity to meet the descriptions of the Spirit entails the disentangling and translation of items peculiar to the Spirit and not appropriate to the other two members.

Fourthly, what has not always been recognised with regard to the credal forms and terminology of the doctrinal statements concerning the Spirit (as well as the Son and the Father) is the wealth of varied accounts which they have generated. I am thinking initially of the original terms *hypostasis* and *physis*, which as soon as they are translated into Latin acquire fresh nuances, and when they finally appear in English, with the passage of time and the historical fluctuations of philosophy, open vistas of understanding unimaginable in the fourth or later centuries of patristic theology. This circumstance gives the lie to suggestions that credal formulae and terms restrict and smother theological

thought. For it has not been so in the history of theology. In fact, to use another figure, they have generated new possibilities of indigenised understanding, while controlling within recognisable parameters the flights of imagination so inspired. It is in this capacity both to inspire and to control theological thought that the true genius of credal statement resides.

So what I find remarkable, as we review these impressions derived from the study of the doctrine of the Holy Spirit, is the extent to which Scripture and tradition between them have dominated the interpretation of the nature and the activity of the Spirit throughout the ongoing life and thought of the Church. There is both a richness and a versatility in that interpretation which goes a long way to disproving any suggestion that the Church has lapsed, at least intellectually, from its allegiance to the Spirit. Whence, then, arose that uneasiness which grew on me, as I prepared through sustained and continuous reading of the Scriptures, that there was something amiss in the almost grudging acknowledgement which the contemporary Church was giving to the Holy Spirit, an uneasiness heightened by the visible expressions by Pentecostalists of their commitment to the Spirit? Were the choices totally and mutually exclusive? Had it to be either the very overt affirmation of the Spirit found in so many of the young and vigorous churches, mainly in other continents; or, on the contrary, the staid and reserved but altogether flat adherence to the few terse lines in the third article of the Nicene Creed? As a consequence of the examination of the detail and the variety of what has emerged in this study, I am convinced that our choices are not so limited, and that there is in fact a third way, which remains to be spelt out if this claim is to be made good, and which, if made good, puts all talk of betrayal of the Spirit of the Church entirely out of court. So, as evidence of this view, I propose to round up our earlier descriptions of the penetration by the Spirit of every aspect of our life and thought, our worship and discipleship, as well as our earlier definitions of the all-important if sometimes neglected role which the doctrine has to play in our theology. Then, I trust, it will be unthinkable that we should ever again have to argue the case *for* his continuing presence in our

lives, in the Church, in the world and in history, or *against* the charge that we have lost contact with the Spirit or betrayed him. So to our task, and it is a joyous one.

THE SPIRIT IN THE TRINITY

I propose to begin with the doctrinal significance, in the first instance for the understanding of the doctrine of God the Triune, of the rediscovered interest in the Holy Spirit. This significance takes several forms.

In the past, the very designation of the Spirit as the third member of the Godhead has had several consequences. For example, the presentation of his nature and works has all too often followed the analogy of christology, so that the Spirit comes to be regarded as an *alter Christus*. Or, again, the work of the Spirit appears to be prescribed by the person and work of Christ, or even by the work of creation. Now, there is no denying that these accounts of the Spirit are faithful to Scripture and tradition – the Spirit fulfils each of these roles. My quarrel with them is that by themselves they misrepresent the full measure of both the nature and the work or works of the Spirit and the high degree of penetration which the Spirit has achieved into the work of the other two persons. So it is not simply that we cannot state the doctrines of creation or of the person and work of Christ without a reference to the Spirit, but, more importantly, that creation, incarnation and redemption would not have been finally effected without the presence of the Spirit throughout. In short, the doctrine of the *emperichoresis*, the interpenetration of the persons of the Trinity among themselves, describes the relations which obtain *intra Trinitatem*, but also *ad extra*, in their interrelations in their activities in the created world. When, therefore, we are considering how God works in the world, in the lives of men and women and in the life of the Church, and how these considerations throw light upon the nature of God himself, we have to be sure to take full account of the place of the Spirit in all these situations.

Pursuing the matter of the *emperichoresis* farther, I have to

admit that I have always regarded this item of trinitarian doctrine to rest upon John's Gospel, 17.21. There Jesus prays that his disciples and those who in the future come to believe because of their witness, will have the unity which he and the Father share, 'thou Father art in me, and I in thee'. The concept of the *emperichoresis* between Father and Son implicit in this text is then applied by extension to the Spirit in his relations to the Father and the Son. But what the study of the doctrine of the Spirit yields is that the application of the concept of *emperichoresis* to the Spirit, so far from being a logical extension from another doctrine, is central to the understanding of the being and work of the Spirit in the economy of creation, salvation and redemption.

This claim leads us on to the question, then, of pneumatology from above or pneumatology from below, which may be construed as the question of the relation of the *ordo cognoscendi*, the order of our knowledge, to the *ordo essendi*, the order of being. If we begin from the Johannine text and extend it to include the Spirit, then we have to say that the latter has priority. But if, as we have been saying, it is within the economy of creation, salvation and redemption, as we are gathered into it and experience it, that we learn first of the Spirit in his intimate relationship to the Father and the Son, then the *ordo cognoscendi* does seem to have priority. On the other hand, the claims that we so make for the Spirit are logically sustainable only because in the first place the Spirit has these emperichoretic relations to Father and Son from eternity to eternity, or, as is said, in and for God himself. As we put it at an earlier stage, the fact that the Spirit bears the emperichoretic relation to the Father and the Son in the created world presupposes, for its validity and its very being, the anterior existence of the relation among the three Persons from eternity to eternity. So we have to conclude that the dichotomy between pneumatology from above and pneumatology from below is a false one; they are co-implicatives in so far as each presupposes the other and conditions the other. The same conclusion, I feel, would apply equally, and for much the same reasons, to the greatly exaggerated opposition of 'christology from below' and

'christology from above' – though, of course, that is another question.

THE SPIRIT, CHRISTOLOGY AND SOTERIOLOGY

The second doctrinal consequence of the lively interest in the Holy Spirit relates to christology and soteriology, the association of the former being more with Scripture and the latter more with tradition.

The emphasis upon the Spirit in the gospel story of Jesus as we have it in the Scripture has served to correct an all-too-simplified, and therefore inaccurate, account of that story. The 'historical Jesus' is a subject little heard of today, though so far as it ever appears, it is thought to be equivalent to a purely human Jesus, whose transcendent associations can be ignored without falsification of the biblical story, a foundation upon which theological interpretations of later ages can be and have been imposed. Yet the Scripture itself will not allow us to mutilate the story in that way, showing us that the Spirit is essential to the biblical account of the 'historical Jesus', the Jesus that we know from the historical records. The Spirit was involved with his birth, centrally, as we argued; at his baptism with its public acknowledgement of his divine role and relationship; at his conscious and explicit acceptance of his messianic role; and in his resurrection in which the Spirit vindicated his status as the Son of God with power, after the humiliation and rejection of Calvary. There is, I find, a considerable sensitivity within Scripture in its account of the presence of the Spirit with Jesus. On the one hand, he is said to be present at these singularly significant points of the life and death of Jesus, classical cases of what Paul Tillich used to call *kairoi*, so much so that the acknowledgement of the presence of the Spirit is fundamental to any accurate account of the person of Christ. On the other hand, Scripture does not at any point speak of Jesus being 'filled with the Holy Spirit'.

Two consequences follow. The first is that there would seem to be a clear appreciation of the difference between Jesus, Son of

God, and the Holy Spirit, which was part of the incipient trinitarianism evident in Scripture and the ultimate justification for the doctrine. The second is that we have here a genuine ground for the rejection of the theory that what we have in Jesus is the incarnation of the Spirit. This idea is not as far-fetched as it may at first appear. A criticism was once made of D. M. Baillie's christology (*God Was in Christ*, Faber & Faber, London, 1948), that by using as the clue to the two natures in the person of Christ, the paradox of grace in ordinary believers, he was advocating the theory that the deity of Christ consisted of the presence of the Spirit *eminenter* in him. Jesus might then be regarded as the incarnation of the third person of the Trinity rather than the second. It was an interpretation of Donald's christology which his brother John outspokenly rebutted, claiming that the difference between the presence of the Spirit in ordinary believers, as described in the paradox of grace, and in Jesus, constituted such a difference in degree as to be a difference in kind. So he could affirm that 'God was in Christ' in a different way from that in which, through his Spirit, he is 'in believers', and that it is the task of christology to begin from that distinction and to clarify it.

When we turn to the role attributed to the Holy Spirit in soteriology, two contrary circumstances appear. On the one hand, we find that in the models derived from Scripture or independently crafted, no clear place is in fact assigned to the Spirit. In the case of such models as ransom, redemption, salvation, reconciliation, atonement, propitiation, expiation and so on, or satisfaction, example or liberation, the theories all seem to be capable of full exposition without reference to the Holy Spirit. Why that should be so is due, I believe, to the objective character of the soteriological statements, as distinct from the subjective process of appropriation of the objective events, as we shall now observe. So, on the other hand, the Holy Spirit is intimately and inseparably involved at the point where what has been achieved 'out there' by Jesus Christ on Calvary, described as it has been in the immense range of possible models, is brought home to believers, and salvation is theirs.

Accordingly, two comments are relevant. The first is that no account of the doctrine of the atonement is complete unless it lays a proper emphasis upon the part which the Holy Spirit plays in the effective completion of the salvation process in the terms we have indicated above; and it is an error of omission which much too many accounts of the atonement commit. The second comment is that this role which the Spirit plays in the fulfilment of the work of Christ is in no sense an afterthought requiring to be implemented after the event of the death of Christ, to obviate God's purpose being nullified through the sinfulness of humankind. On the contrary, it was an integral part of that divine design which centred around 'the Lamb that was slain before the foundation of the world'.

THE SPIRIT AND SANCTIFICATION

We have, then, from time to time throughout our review of the being and work of the Spirit, drawn attention to the many ways in which the Spirit 'seals' the work of Christ, making sure that God's purpose in sending his Son into the world does not go amiss. The comprehensive word which theology has traditionally used for the continuation of that work of the Spirit beyond the time of conversion of the believer, in an ongoing way throughout his or her life, is 'sanctification'. It has not, however, been thought to be a popular word in Reformed theology particularly, nor has it always received the extensive and intensive presentation accorded to the concept of 'justification'. This situation was due partly to Protestants having found in the latter the all-sufficient assurance of redemption in the efficacy of the death of the Redeemer, but partly also to fear of the equation of sanctification with the doctrine of works with its suggestion that we may achieve through them, and unaided, something of our own salvation. Yet it would be inaccurate to suggest that any neglect or minimalising of the part of sanctification in the spiritual life of the Christian was endemic to Reformed theology. Quite the reverse, as we see from two quotations from a work much

admired by Karl Barth, namely, Heinrich Heppe, *Reformierte Dogmatik* (originally 1861, revised and edited by Ernst Bizer, 1934, and translated by G. T. Thomson, 1950):

> The elect are called not only to redemption from the curse of sins, but also to the serious purpose of the sanctification of their hearts, since those who have found in Christ the atonement for the guilt of their sins ought also to rise with Christ to a new, holy life. Therefore no one can be confident of the forgiveness of his sins, who does not apply himself to sanctification. (ET, p. 566)

> And God so effects man's sanctification, that in the first instance He fills his understanding with the light of His truth, thence He hallows man's will and inclination, next lays hold of man's bodily life, and makes it serviceable by the power of His Spirit, and so also drives man, thus sanctified in all his organs by the direct inworking of the Holy Spirit, to holy action also. (p. 568)

I propose to use these texts as a starting-point for a discussion of the concept of sanctification.

First, I find very acceptable the emphasis laid on what might be called the continuity between redemption as the objective act in which God in Christ accomplishes the salvation of believers, and sanctification as the process in which God, through the indwelling of his Spirit, brings to pass the realisation in their lives of the full intention of that redemptive act. Further, that redemptive act does not yield its harvest of forgiveness of sins for the sinner unless he or she has begun upon the process of sanctification. That process consists not simply of the gradual perfecting of the believer, but its character as such is moulded by the fact that it is a growth and rise into Christ. This character of the process must be determinative of what we say about sanctification, rarely losing sight of its foundation and its goal in Christ.

Our quotations also bring out the comprehensive penetration by the Spirit of the whole being of the redeemed person in effecting his or her sanctification. The intelligence of the believers

is enlightened so that they are aware of the dimensions both of their own unworthiness and of the infinitude of God's redemptive mercy, to the point of expressing repentance for the experienced guilt. This acknowledgement of the awareness necessary for this process may have accounted for the charge of intellectualism so often brought against the Reformed presentation, but two replies are possible. The first is that an element of 'seeing' or of self-understanding is surely an important first stage in the process of coming to oneself, from which all repentance and sanctification spring. Secondly, the analysis of the effect of the indwelling of the Holy Spirit in sanctification immediately goes on to the other points at which the Spirit is present to, and indwells, the novitiate believer; his will and inclination, which I would take to include his emotions, the Spirit hallows, we are told; he 'lays hold of his bodily life' and makes him subservient to the power and will of the Spirit. The whole person, body, soul and spirit, is the place of dwelling of the Spirit in the believers who have known the redemption of Christ. Thus presented, sanctification would appear to be a unilaterally divine action, the Spirit acting upon passive subjects, and a theology which is reputed to lay total and exclusive emphasis upon the transcendence of God might be thought to have no place for human endeavour. But that would be quite unfair, as we shall now see. Besides, ever since Burns' caricature of the theology – and the ethics, or lack of it – in 'Holy Willie's Prayer' which assumes that it can have salvation without sanctification, such an assumption has been discredited.

Within two pages of the statement on p. 568 (op. cit.) concerning 'the direct inworking of the Holy Spirit' in the redeemed, we find (in Heppe, above-mentioned) his own reflection: 'Subjectively considered the nature of justification is man's effort, lasting his whole life, to live in thought, word and action solely according to God's good pleasure and for his glory', which is amplified in a statement from J. H. Heidegger, writing around 1700:

> Sanctification involves continual praxis and action. This exercise consists in the faithful attending to themselves,

> applying all care and zeal to doing things that belong to godliness and receding from all evil and so by God's grace contracting the habit, enduing the custom (and becoming apt and fit therein) of thinking, speaking and doing the things that are best, most glorious for God and most useful for their neighbour.

There could not be any more outspoken affirmations of the role which individual believers are expected to play in the working out of their sanctification, or, as Paul would have said, 'working out their own salvation' (Phil 2.12).

The manner in which this 'working out' is effected has traditionally in the Reformed faith been by Scripture reading and prayer based upon it, by the sacraments duly observed and all the ordinances of the Church, by membership of the community of the faithful and the fulfilment of responsibilities within it, by the acknowledgement of the Christ-given obligations to the poor and the distressed and the duties of citizenship, as well as by the application of Scripture to the whole detail of daily existence. In a word, sanctification is about the whole of life, life in the Spirit, life of growth into Christ. So sanctification, when thus understood, may be sustained by resources from all forms of the Christian faith, and the call to those who are in earnest in their self-discipline towards the goal that is in Christ is not to lay aside anything that leads in that direction. But supremely it will be the Scriptures which will be the primary source and inspiration.

The reference, however, to Paul's letter to the Philippians (2.12) was incomplete, for the next verse says, 'for it is God that worketh in you both to will and to do of his good pleasure'. These two verses (Phil 2.11f) encapsulate a theological problem which has lasted unsolved from that day to this, but which nevertheless has never been discarded because of any apparent inherent illogicality. It is the simple assertion that we are enjoined to contribute every ounce of our energy to the fulfilment of our salvation in the perfecting of the process of sanctification, while at the same time being informed that it is God through his Spirit that works within us to bring about that end. Paul introduces the

same notion at 1 Cor 15.10, where, as we mentioned above, he expressed what Donald Baillie called the 'paradox of grace', 'I laboured ... yet not I, but the grace of God which was with me'. It is the same recognition of the simultaneity of the stoutest effort on Paul's part and the energising presence of God in all his labours for him. So in the history of the subject, Augustine's *da quod jubes*, 'give what thou dost command', as the essence of the Christian ethic, translates without remainder into Emil Brunner's 'God's command is gift and demand'. The theme is universally acknowledged, but what is not so often accepted is that there is no way round the apparent contradiction, no dissolution of the paradox. Nor is it an option to select one or other part of the paradox, and regard it as the whole truth; for then we misrepresent the situation which only the paradox describes, and veer towards a form of predestinationism or pelagianism.

There are, I believe, only two points at which we are able to come to terms with the paradox. The first is the recognition which comes to us when, having lived through some situation which requires of us a concentrated output of effort on our part, success begins to overtake us, that it was by the power of the indwelling Spirit of God that we did succeed. Both arms of the paradox are held together as constituting the truth. The second point of enlightenment comes when in prayer we seek the strength of God's Spirit to enable us to obey some command of God's, and at the same time recognise that the answer to that prayer is no release for us from the obligation to put the most strenuous effort into the resultant action.

It is not unusual to describe some of the situations of which we have been thinking, in terms of 'grace'. A rather rough-and-ready distinction is sometimes drawn between the Catholic view, which regards grace as a supernatural force or habit poured, 'infused', into the human soul, and the Protestant thought of the Spirit as being poured out upon, or as indwelling, those who are being sanctified (cf. Acts 2.17, 33). It would be both unfair and inaccurate to try to freeze the distinction in this way, for, as we have seen above, Heidegger has referred to sanctification as enduing believers with the habit of doing what is well-pleasing in

God's sight, while Catholic theologians speak of grace as the gift of God's Spirit to his people. My fear is rather for those of both sides who carelessly speak of grace as if it were a substance (even though 'supernatural'), a power which, though it may originate from God or the Spirit, is appropriated by the believers, thus physically supplementing or sanctifying their natural powers. The paradigm example is the way in which the grace is thought to reside in the sacraments, once the formal requirements have been met, and is conveyed to the believers and appropriated in the reception of the sacraments. The position for which I would argue is that first we firmly state that the logically primary use of the term 'grace' is its reference to God's mercy, forgiveness and loving-kindness towards undeserving sinners. Then, when we go on to speak of God through his Spirit imparting grace to his people, we regard that grace as never gaining an independent status for itself, separate from the Spirit. In short, to say that the believers have received the gift of grace would rightly be taken as an alternative way of saying that the Spirit indwells them. Then there is never any likelihood of grace becoming the *proprium* of human beings. Certainly, it might be simpler to think that the Spirit communicates grace to believers and in doing so remains external to them and self-contained; or that grace is a little part of the Spirit released to us out of his bounty. On the contrary, the mystery of sanctification is that the Spirit wholly indwells believers – a mystery as strange and as wonderful as the indwelling of the Eternal Word in a man that was called Jesus.

THE SPIRIT AND THE SACRAMENTS

The sacramental role of the Holy Spirit now concerns us, in the wake of the discussion of the nature of grace, and I propose to include the study of the place given to the Spirit in the liturgies of the sacraments, so that our subject will be the *sacramental/liturgical* role of the Spirit. We shall be confining ourselves to the sacraments of infant baptism and Holy Communion.

The primary place in any such study must surely be given to

the recall of the presence of the Holy Spirit at the baptism of Our Lord in the Jordan (Mk 1.9–11; Mt 3.13–17; Lk 3.21f; Jn 1.31–34). The whole event was essentially the confirmation by God the Father of the person and mission of Jesus of Nazareth as the Son of God. The presence of the Spirit was the response of the Father to Jesus' action of self-dedication and total commitment to service to God and to all humankind, and the assurance that this same Spirit would be, through his indwelling, the power by whom Jesus' mission as Messiah would come to be accomplished. To register the full significance of 'the whole event', it is necessary to go back to the passage immediately preceding the descent of the Spirit and the dove, vv. 13–15 of Matthew 3. There we read of John the Baptist's reaction to Jesus' self-presentation to him to be baptised, with the question of John to Jesus: 'I need to be baptised by you, and do you come to me?' followed by Jesus' response: 'Let it be so now; for thus it is fitting for us to fulfil all righteousness'. These verses have always constituted a problem in interpretation for commentators, for the obvious reason that, given that John's rite of baptism was 'for repentance', which by definition was applicable only to those who had sins of which they had to repent, then Jesus the sinless one had no cause to be baptised.

Two considerations seem to me to hold the key to the matter. First, the core of the incarnation was that the Son of God should identify himself with his sinful brothers and sisters at the point of their farthest separation from God the Father. That point was their involvement in sin. Such identification was not a token adoption of this sin, a readiness to be regarded as if (*als ob*) he had assumed the sin, but had not really done so. It was genuine identification, and credit is done to the completeness of that identification by affirming that it was sinful human nature that Jesus took. This interpretation yields enormous support to McLeod Campbell's thesis in *The Nature of Atonement* that vicarious repentance is the clue to a proper understanding of the atonement achieved for sinners by Christ in his life, death and resurrection. Secondly, we have thereby found the clue to the interpretation of Jesus' reply to John's diffidence over baptising

him. If the purpose of the incarnation was, perhaps among others though none more important, the redemption of humankind, the recovery of that righteousness which had been lost, then the first step to that end was the unequivocal self-identification by Jesus with sinners where they were and are. Only so could righteousness, God's will for the achieving of righteousness, be fulfilled.

This reading of the event of the baptism of Jesus carries two implications. First, if it be true, then the event of the baptism of Jesus must be regarded as the foundation of the whole sacrament, both in its ritual celebration and in the exposition of the detail that composes it. It is in virtue of what happened and what was declared at the Jordan that baptism, any baptism, is celebrated and indeed is possible. The nature of God's righteousness, which in the person of Jesus was identifed with sinners, makes it possible for all sinners thereafter to know the forgiveness which God offers in Christ; and so forgiveness cannot be subtly eliminated from the occasion, maybe because we no longer believe in original sin, or because we cannot see how forgiveness has anything to do with babies. Nor dare we try in theory to eliminate the Spirit from subsequent celebrations, for he is the confirming and energising power at the heart of the sacrament. If we then follow the understanding of the place and the promise of the Holy Spirit in the baptism of Jesus already proposed, we will observe that the Spirit, in addition to setting the seal upon the person and the mission of Jesus, was God's assurance that that same Spirit would be with him throughout the fulfilment of the divine purpose. In the same way, the Spirit is present in the celebration of the sacrament to affirm the reality of God's forgiveness, which is not tied to the space-time point of the original celebration but is for ever and a day. By his presence, too, the Spirit assures all there present that he will in times to come – in childhood, adulthood, age and death – be the continuing mediator of these benefits secured in Christ by the mercy and love of God. Since, too, when we take in what Paul says about baptism, especially at Rom 6.3 about our being baptised into the death of Christ, we go farther and say that the Spirit grafts the newly baptised into Christ, and

therefore also into the fellowship of the believers who are themselves sustained by the Spirit. So the sacrament is, like its foundation, a complex unity, and it is erroneous to exclude one element, say, forgiveness or the presence of the Spirit, and argue that it cannot be present because little children 'do not understand such things'.

Secondly, keeping in mind, therefore, that the baptism of Jesus, with the central place which the Spirit holds within it, is the underpinning and rationale of the sacrament of baptism as we know it, let us now examine whether this consideration appears in any actual liturgy; and thereafter the points within the rite where the presence of the Holy Spirit is to be expected and indeed prayed for.

What we might have expected but do not find in many of the liturgies for baptism is the scriptural rehearsal of the baptism of Jesus, or extended reference to it, or the relating of it to the actual baptism taking place. One notable exception is to be found in the service for 'The Ministration of Publick Baptism of Infants' of the Anglican *The Book of Common Prayer.* In the preamble, one reference is made to the need to be born again of water and the Holy Ghost to be able to enter the Kingdom, and another to the child being baptised with water and the Holy Ghost, and so becoming a member of Christ's holy Church. But it is the prayer which then follows which carries the key to how these things are effected in the sacrament. By the baptism of his well-beloved Son in the river Jordan, 'God sanctified water to the mystical washing away of sin', and the prayer for the child is that God will wash him or her and sanctify him or her with the Holy Ghost, so that he or she be received into the ark of Christ's Church. Interestingly enough, but not surprisingly, an identical theme and sequence of thought appear in the baptismal Hymn 487 of *Hymns Ancient and Modern,* the first line of which – 'The Son of Man from Jordan rose' – introduces the baptism of Jesus narrative. Almost following the first prayer in the service for 'The Ministration of Publick Baptism of Infants', at v. 3 the connection is made between the baptism of Jesus and the modern celebration of the sacrament, in the words,

So when through His Baptising bless'd
The Font new birth conveys,
Man kneels a son of God confess'd,
Heav'n opens as he prays.

Fair innocency, like the dove's,
Invests him, purged from sin;
For God the brooding Spirit moves,
Directs and rules within.

I find this theme, which directly associates the present-day celebration of the sacrament of baptism with the baptism of Jesus, with the content and the efficacy of the latter being derived from the former, rather intriguing, for three reasons. One is that it anchors the sacrament of baptism in an actual event in the life of Our Lord, in addition to the usual sourcing of it in Mt 28.19f or Acts 2.38f. The second is that this actual event has the components of the sacrament and conditions the possibility of the sacrament. There is what used to be called logically 'an internal relation' between the two, in contrast to the command of Christ at the end of St Matthew's Gospel, which stands in an external relation to the sacrament. In this respect, the sacrament of baptism could be thought to have a constituting narrative, which gives it a similarity to the sacrament of the Lord's Supper, which has its 'institution-narrative'. The third point of interest in this approach to the sacrament of baptism through the baptism of Jesus is that it is not an association which we ever find in Paul. His imagery is completely different, referring as he does to those who are baptised as being baptised either into the death of Christ, with the consequence that they are risen with him in his resurrection (Rom 6.3), or by one Spirit into one body (1 Cor 12.13). It is the Pauline imagery which tends to be dominant in the most recent liturgy of the Reformed faith, *Common Order*, though it had not appeared in any of the previous Church of Scotland liturgical orders of 1929, 1940 or 1979.

By contrast with the two Anglican references to the baptism of Jesus in association with the celebration of the sacrament, I find

no similar references in either *Prayers for Divine Service* of the Church of Scotland ('The Auld Kirk'), 1929, or the *Book of Common Order* of the Church of Scotland (after the Union), 1940. The most that I do find in the Scottish Presbyterian tradition occurs on two occasions. The first is to be found in *The Book of Common Order (1979)* (The Saint Andrew Press, Edinburgh, p. 53), in an optional prayer:

> O Lord Jesus Christ, who didst humble thyself to take the baptism of sinful men, and wast there declared to be the Son of God; grant that we who have been baptised in thee may rejoice to be sons of God, and servants of all.

The second occurrence is in *Common Order* (The Saint Andrew Press, 1994, p. 88). After the 'Words of Institution', the 'Statement' concerning the nature and meaning of Baptism, and the Confession of faith by the parents, there appears, in a prayer, a sentence relating to the baptism of Jesus by John in the Jordan and to the sending of the Spirit upon Jesus – but without reference to the messiahship of Jesus implicit in the words, 'This is my beloved Son'. This marginalising of the narrative of Jesus' baptism from the actual structure of the rite in modern liturgies I find somewhat odd, for in much of the recent writing on the theology of baptism, the baptism of Jesus is regarded as central to a right understanding of the sacrament.

Explicit reference to the Holy Spirit appears at definite stages in the course of the celebration. For example, in the minister's statement about the significance of the sacrament, we hear that 'by water and the Holy Spirit God claims us as his own, washes us from sin, and sets us free from the power of death' and, a few lines later, that the baptisand will receive the sign and seal of the Holy Spirit. Then, before the actual pouring or sprinkling of the water upon the baptisand, there is what might be called 'a baptismal *epiklesis*', similar to the *epiklesis* in the eucharist. It takes the form of a prayer that the Holy Spirit may descend upon all present *and* on the water, so that the person baptised being 'buried with Christ in baptism may rise with him to newness of life; and being

born anew of water and the Holy Spirit may remain for ever in the number of [God's] faithful children'. These references more or less exhaust the points at which the presence of the Holy Spirit is prayed for or remarked. But in the *epiklesis* we have the core of the ideas involved in the sacrament, as well as the occasion of time-honoured problems surrounding it. The elements of this core are: baptism with water and the Spirit, or being renewed by water and the Spirit, rising with Christ to newness of life, with the possible underlying implication of forgiveness. Let me take up the points that seem to arise.

Because of the almost universal usage of the phrase 'born anew with water and the Spirit', I cannot agree with any attempt to isolate parts of it and say, for example, that baptism with/by water is for now, while baptism with the Spirit has to wait for another day, as some Pentecostalists would say, or that baptism with the Spirit occurs at the point of conversion while baptism with water comes afterwards as the confirmation of the conversion; or even that the very idea of being born anew, or baptismal regeneration, presupposes the Augustinian/Calvinistic notion of original sin. Whatever the complications for our theology, the whole phrase containing its constituent parts comes as a package – and that certainly is the message that we receive without equivocation from the liturgies of the sixteenth century to those of the twentieth. Baptism with water is visible enough, what of 'baptism with the Spirit', and what about new birth with both? Now I believe that this affirmation is so deeply embedded in the tradition that there is no way in which we can balk it, and that we must find an adequate interpretation of it.

Two possibilities suggest themselves. First, at the heart of the *epiklesis* is the petition that the Holy Spirit will be with the baptisand in the very special way which the rite celebrates. This presence of the Spirit will be either immediate or mediated, and the prayer adumbrates both. If the immediate presence is intended, then the thought is of the Spirit having a special care for the child in the vicissitudes of the life which is now only beginning. If the sacrament is true to the promises contained within it, both explicit and implicit, then we have to acknowledge

that 'in, with and under' it a special relationship comes into being between the child and the Spirit. If the mediate presence is intended, then the thought is that the Spirit will work through the parents and the relatives, who feature both in the rite and in the later prayers, mediating to the child the love, mercy and goodness of God. My own conviction is that both forms of the presence of the Spirit are real in the sacrament, and that it is invalid to try to offer the second as solely the case.

The second possibility relates to the question of the child being born again. It is not necessary here to introduce the idea of original sin, as, for example, in *The Book of Common Prayer*, where the words 'release him of his sins' occur as the explanation of the necessity for such a rebirth, which is effected through the Spirit. Rather is it to be thought of as the beginning of a life ingrafted into Christ, or, to use what might be called the 'alternative language' which appears in the liturgies of baptism, as dying with Christ and being raised with him. This life is a genuinely new beginning in a new dimension, and is not inappropriately described as 'being born anew'. Also, while we have excluded talk of 'release from sin' in the case of child baptism, as an effect of baptism with water and the Spirit, we should perhaps say that as the child grows, he or she, through being ingrafted into Christ, is within the context where forgiveness will be available. On the other hand, it could be argued that the inclusion of the phrase 'release from sin', together with the ensuing prayer for forgiveness in the order for child baptism, is due to the use of Peter's words on the day of Pentecost, 'Repent and be baptised, every one of you in the name of Jesus Christ for the forgiveness of your sins; and you shall receive the gift of the Holy Spirit' (Acts 2.38). Of course, these ideas are quite appropriate in the rite for adult baptism. What is not so appropriate in relation to infant baptism is the mention of repentance as the release from sin, and of the ensuing forgiveness connected with it. I would include the thought of forgiveness in the manner above explained particularly because it is an essential element in that life in Christ which is initiated by the Spirit in the sacrament of baptism. So, once again, it is clear that the realist interpretation of

these baptismal phrases is being adopted; and to turn them into metaphors or allegories is to lose the reality of what is actually happening.

When we come to considering the liturgical place of the Holy Spirit in the sacrament of Holy Communion, the majority of occurrences fall within the categories of ascriptions or petitionary prayers, as, for example, in the prayer that comes first in many orders and which begins, 'Almighty God unto whom all hearts be open, all desires known' and runs on to 'cleanse the thoughts of our hearts by the inspiration of thy Holy Spirit'. Since there are several similar prayers, it might be said that there is in such orders full recognition of the need for the assistance of the Holy Spirit in the effort to do God's will. There is, however, another reference which turns out to be of major theological importance and is to be found in the *epiklesis* previously mentioned (see above, p. 253). The prayer occupies a central position within the Great Eucharistic Prayer, and I shall quote:

> Wherefore, having in remembrance the work and passion of our Saviour Jesus Christ, and pleading His eternal sacrifice, we Thy servants do set forth this memorial, which He hath commanded us to make; and we most humbly beseech Thee to send down Thy Holy Spirit to bless and consecrate these Thine own gifts of bread and wine which we set before Thee, that the bread which we break may be the communion of the body of Christ, and the cup of blessing which we bless the communion of the blood of Christ; that *we, receiving them, may by faith be made partakers of His body and blood*, with all his benefits, to our spiritual nourishment and growth in grace, and to the glory of Thy holy name.

Two comments may be made on the article, emphasised with italics, the one minor, the other of great significance.

First, the phrase 'partakers of his body and blood' is to be found in an almost continuous tradition in Church of Scotland liturgies – 1929, 1940 and 1994 – though curiously not in *The Divine Service: A Eucharistic Office* (1929) by H. J. Wotherspoon, one of the Church's most scholarly liturgiologists of this century;

and the phrase is traceable back to *The Book of Common Prayer.* So if you work with the principle that a Church's liturgy is a more faithful clue to its thinking than its explicit theology, then we have here a declaration of significance.

Secondly, how significant it is will emerge if we look now at the statement, in *The Final Report* (*ARCIC I*) of the Anglican–Roman Catholic International Commission (ARCIC), on 'The Presence of Christ' (1982). In the context of the opening affirmation that 'Communion with Christ in the eucharist presupposes his true presence, effectually signified by the bread and wine which, in this mystery, become his body and blood' (op. cit., p. 14), we are told that this sacramental body of Christ is offered to believers. If they receive it in faith, the presence of Christ is not only *for* them but *with* them, carrying through the petition of the Great Eucharistic Prayer that through the action of the Holy Spirit the bread and wine may become the body and blood of Our Lord. I find this sequence of thought to be scarcely distinguishable from the content of the *epiklesis* as expressed in the tradition of the Church of Scotland liturgy recorded above. But I must go farther. The 'elucidation' relating to the word 'becomes', which (according to p. 21) does not imply material change following the laws of physical science, together with the elimination of the popular understanding of transubstantiation as effecting a change in the inner reality of the bread and the wine (pp. 14f, note), leaves no clear water whatsoever between the Church of Scotland position and that of *ARCIC I* on the reality and the nature of Christ's presence in the eucharist. Moreover, I fear that the footnote just mentioned is tantamount to the surrender of the use of the concept of transubstantiation in describing 'the real presence' of Christ in the sacrament, and it is naive to suggest that the word 'transubstantiation' was used to affirm the *fact* of Christ's presence and not to explain *how* the change takes place. The word 'transubstantiation' has already said how it takes place. It is, perhaps, noteworthy that the text on pp. 14ff (i.e., of *ARCIC I*) states the fact of the presence of Christ in the sacrament without recourse to the Aristotelian metaphysic. Besides, just because the term 'transubstantiation' is always open

to the misunderstanding acknowledged in the footnote on p. 14, it might be wiser to surrender it altogether.

THE SPIRIT AND BIBLICAL INTERPRETATION

Our next concern is with certain special aspects of the *biblical/hermeneutical* role of the Spirit. We have already discussed at length the place of the Spirit both in the preparation of the Scripture and in the understanding of it. Both of these aspects of the subject are prominent in any review, especially of the Reformed areas of scholarship. My present definition indicates a different interest. I have always been fascinated by the logical problem of how an interpretation or a doctrine is related to the scriptural texts from which it derives, or which it interprets. The process involved is not one of straightforward logical deduction, otherwise it would be very improbable that the heretic and the orthodox beginning from the same original texts could arrive at what are seen to be incompatible conclusions. Indeed, it is hard to see how it could be a process of any logical kind that the textbooks recognise. There are no major premises and minor premises leading to conclusions which, if certain rules are observed, are binding and their acceptance obligatory. On the other hand, the argumentation is not inductive inference from particulars to a limited generalisation, for the conclusion in the form of an interpretation or a doctrine is in many ways as particular as the premises. And yet, logical processes are involved, as is readily evidenced in the protracted debate that discussions on interpretation and doctrine generate, and it has to be admitted that the heretic is well-equipped in both logic and scripture knowledge. Thus the impasse seems to be quite insurmountable.

At this point the question has to be asked: is there a place for the Holy Spirit in this process, in reaching the correct interpretation or the orthodox item of doctrine? The dangers in accepting a positive answer are not negligible. Once stated, it can be misused by all and sundry who wish to set a seal upon their pronouncements by claiming the inspiration of the Spirit. Also,

the presence of the Holy Spirit with persons making such pronouncements is not empirically verifiable – the claim of itself is not sufficient corroboration. In the same way, the truth or falsity of the pronouncements is not at the time self-evident. Very often it has taken the Church decades to work out where the truth or the falsity of dogmatic statements actually lay. Nevertheless, given all these dangers, there is, I am convinced, a case for allowing that the Holy Spirit is active in the formulation of true interpretation and of faithful doctrine, for a number of reasons. Such a view is, for example, no more than an extension of the accepted Reformed account of the role which the Spirit is said to play when believers understand and appropriate Holy Scripture, a process which involves interpreting its significance for themselves. The final elaboration of such interpretations into doctrine is an extension of that original process and is of the same order of reflection. We have, however, farther still to go, for while individuals may benefit from the indwelling of the Spirit in their theological activity, the making of doctrine entails a more comprehensive and inclusive involvement on the part of the corporate Church. Then we must ask whether we must not follow the logic of the thinking which has taken us to this point and contend with some conviction and courage that the Spirit has a role also to play in the wider dimension.

That role could be considered as twofold. First, he has an inspirational part to play, in enlightening the thought of theologians so that they devise alternative, contemporary ways of saying what Scripture has to say; as Barth once put it, 'to say to our generation in its language what the apostles and prophets said to theirs in their language'. We have had many references in the previous study to the creative role which the Spirit plays in the lives of believers, and there is no reason to abandon that aspect of his activity in one of the most important tasks of the Church. Secondly, the Spirit also exercises a controlling role in the processes of interpretation and in the making of doctrine. To say so is to recognise that the Spirit, in being a creative agent, is not just an undirected mental energy injected into normal cerebration. He points thought in specific directions, and his inspiration

tends to the ends of the faith and its right understanding. Such action of the Spirit, involving both inspiration and control, is not limited to the thinking of single persons, but is involved with the communal doctrine-making of the Church, and ultimately to the formation of tradition.

Faced with such a forthright acknowledgement of the place of the Holy Spirit in the theological process, we may feel that it is in danger of being somewhat pietistic and even simplistic. Such a reaction reflects, I fear, the Pelagian character of our understanding of the nature of human thinking about God in general and about the Spirit in particular, stated in the terms that we think our own thoughts unaided and, once expressed, we put them to the test, for truth or falsity, of some of our logically worked-out criteria of truth. In fact, the analogy from ethics is most appropriate. Donald Baillie, as has been noted several times in this study, made great use of the 'paradox of grace' based on Paul's analysis of his moral activities, into which he put the maximum of effort but was swift to recognise that it was of God's grace that he succeeded, in the words, 'I, yet not I, but the grace of God which is with me' (1 Cor 15.10). An identical process takes place in the theological thinking involved in hermeneutics and dogmatics, where we make every effort to ensure that our thinking is as formally cogent and as conformed to the Word of God as we can make it, and yet at the same time acknowledge the guidance, the inspiration and the control of the Spirit's enlightenment.

In another respect the analogy from ethics is helpful. In moral matters, while we pray for the guidance of the Holy Spirit and his strength to do God's will, we are not thereby excused from the difficult task of thinking through our problems, which we do with reference to the moral teaching of the Old Testament and the New; nor do we always succeed in doing what God requires of us. Similarly, in our theological thinking we endeavour to think as coherently and as self-consistently as possible. We avoid self-contradiction and the violation of the basic laws of Aristotelian logic. Even when we have to speak of paradox, as we do from time to time because the subject demands it, we are well aware of what

we do, and seek to explain why there is no deviation that will help us to bypass it. Yet, when we have succeeded in saying what we set out to say, despite our awareness of intense personal endeavour, we acknowledge, and we do so readily, that the achievement was not due primarily to that endeavour but to the continuing enlightenment of the Spirit, both inspiring us and restraining us from error. Indeed, without such inspiration and control by the Spirit operating 'in, with and under' the thinking and discussion of the Church and its members, it is hard to envision just how the theology of the Church, encapsulated in its tradition, could have remained true over the centuries to the heart of the faith 'once for all delivered to the saints'. If, also, we think of the tradition as the guardian of the faith which, when preached and lived, is the salvation of believers, then we encounter once again that involvement of the Spirit with the redeeming will of the Father effected through the Son which has been a recurring theme of our study. Nor does the fact of the Spirit's involvement in theological thought of individuals or of the community of the faithful guarantee that the results are invariably infallible. Because a human factor is present, error is always a possibility. But because the Holy Spirit is present, the process has within it the seeds of its correction, and when major reform does occur, as it has been seen to do in the history of Christian doctrine, it develops from within and is not an alien intrusion.

THE ETHICAL ROLE OF THE SPIRIT

Having cited the ethical analogy in unfolding the role of the Spirit in the theological process, we must now amplify what has been said, and deal more fully with the *ethical role* of the Spirit. As has just been indicated, Paul's summary statement could well be the paradigm case for the analysis of moral endeavour and achievement. The Christian moral cosmos might be thought of as consisting of a number of components, not all of which need be regarded as co-ordinate, or of equal importance, but all of which nonetheless are necessary to the whole. The paradox contained in

Paul's paradigm case suggests that the components may be classified as 'human' or 'divine'. So, on the one hand, there are the elements in the moral cosmos within which moral agents live and decide and act, elements which they will consider when they come to make moral judgements. These are many and varied, including, for example, the Scriptures of the Old and New Testaments, particularly in the one the Ten Commandments, and in the other the sayings of Jesus such as the Beatitudes, the parables, stories and miracles of Jesus, the teaching offered by the disciples who appear in the Book of Acts, and by Paul in his Epistles; as well as summaries and codifications of parts of this corpus of biblical material. Several aspects of this corpus will strike us immediately, if we think of it as comprising some of the points of departure for moral decisions or actions. For example, we note at once its sheer heterogeneity, including plain directives, some general, some quite specific, some practical, some purely idealistic, some for all humankind, some for believers only, some absolute, some relative, and including also examples to be followed or faithfully copied; or epigrams, thought to sum up some story; or an action which in itself is intended to be a moral or religious indicator.

In addition, however, to these specifically scriptural sources for the making of moral decisions, there are four further components in what I have been calling the moral cosmos. The first of these is a stock of moral values and principles, conventions and codes of behaviour, taken into consideration from time to time in making a decision, which Christians share perhaps with the rest of society and so enable them to adopt common policies and initiate common projects without invoking any specially religious sanction. Such an ethical stock might be regarded as a form of moral natural law, an endowment of human beings as such, but, on the contrary, considered by others to be the remnant of a previous Christian morality from which society has declined into a humanistic secularism with continuing ethical connections. Whatever its source or nature, such a stock is a part of the contemporary moral cosmos.

The second component in that cosmos is the body of, in itself,

non-moral information required by any responsible agent for the reaching of a relevant and possible judgement on a given situation – information which will, of course, vary from situation to situation. Sometimes this information will be of a highly technical nature, as it has now become in scientific matters connected with nuclear-related developments or certain 'green' issues; but on other occasions this information may just be a matter of fact, which has first to be cleared up before any moral judgement or decision can be reached.

The third component is the affective, attitudinal or even emotional value set by the agents upon the different components in the moral cosmos. Some moralists might want to say that this element will have a distortive influence on the outcome of the moral thinking, and that is certainly true up to a point. On the other hand, without the commitment to one or other of the components in the cosmos, or without some ranking of loyalties within it, it is doubtful whether any decision would be reached rather than a round of 'argument about it and about'. With such commitment, however, and in the case of the Christian the commitment to the scriptural material must be high, the method of decision-making still remains a very complex process, involving assigning value/weights to the different components, and then balancing and weighing them with and against one another. What follows is something of a mystery. It would be easy to say that the different items we have mentioned would be quantified and the arithmetic followed through to an answer, with the resultant weight-advantage falling one way or the other. But, as we all know, it is very rarely so, perhaps for no other reason than that the different components are heterogeneous and scarcely measurable against one another, and some are obscure. So what follows the assessment of the different values affecting the issue – if 'quantification' is not applicable – is a gap which is decision-making time, which may be brief or protracted by indecision, something very like the time in which Kierkegaard's leap of faith takes place, or a form of Pascal's wager.

The fourth component is the prayer which Christian agents bring to their moral living and striving. It is an acknowledgement

both of their own inadequacy and of the fact that in this inadequacy they are not left to themselves. Such prayer, though last in our analysis, could well appear at any point in the process described previously. Though it is prayer to God for the gift of the Spirit, it comes within the human section of the moral cosmos, for it requires of believers discipline in seeking such enlightenment, and is regarded as a central part of the decision-making process.

So, then, even including the element of prayer as described, up to this point we have been thinking through the human aspect within the moral cosmos. But if Paul's paradox of the 'I, yet not I but the grace of God' is our paradigm, we have completed only half of our tracking in that cosmos. That other half takes us to the presence of the Holy Spirit, and with the mention of prayer we have already crossed over. For it is recognised that even here the paradox of Paul is already applicable, in so far as that prayer in our moral 'night of unknowing' is itself inspired by the Spirit. We have, then, to recognise that the Spirit is present in the divine sector of the moral cosmos at three points.

The first we have already mentioned, in inspiring, enabling, articulating the prayer appropriate to the occasion. The second is the enlightening which comes as the believer follows the process of ratiocination and reflection which considers and follows the different human elements in the moral situation, but more particularly as he or she reviews the possibilities at that point which was named as 'the gap'. There is a text in St John's Gospel, at 16.13, where Jesus says, 'when the Spirit of truth is come, he will guide you into all truth', guidance which may come either in the actual process of teasing out the elements relevant to a decision or in the overall review of them in 'the gap'. There has been much discussion of how such guidance is effected, one suggestion being that the Spirit reinforces the weight of one of the relevant elements mentioned and so leads to the favouring of one of the options. That certainly is a not unknown experience, and clearly meets the terms of the paradox, that while the agent is thinking most strenuously, nevertheless he or she is the first to acknowledge that in their deciding they were enlightened from

without and within. Another suggestion, which is sometimes criticised or even ridiculed, is that the guidance of the Spirit comes in a form that has the mark of being propositionalised. The criticism and the ridicule come from the claim that the Spirit 'speaks', for he is not in physical space and able to set up vibrations or waves which the receptors of the human auditory system can transform into recognisable sentences. Yet, for many believing Christians it simply is the case that the guidance of the Spirit comes through to them in communication that is near-propositional, if not actually propositional; certainly when they utter it, it is fully propositional. I think that I would wish to argue for recognition of this position in terms such as these. Given that the ordinary stimulation of the auditory system is as we described it, by waves or vibrations, it is clear that there is an enormous discrepancy between the form of the stimulation and the end-product, not just in words, but in words with highly relevant sense and meaning. The Spirit may not stimulate the auditory system by means of waves or vibrations, but it is conceivable that he may stimulate the brain in such a way as to enlighten the mind and so achieve the end-product of communication. What we have as propositions may result from input which is not in itself propositional.

The third point at which the Holy Spirit is present in the divine sector of the moral cosmos is the enabling role which he plays in the achieving of right action, living the good life and fulfilling the will of God. His presence is not empirically discernible by observers, and very often recognised only with hindsight by the Christian agents themselves, yet none of these purposes would be accomplished without his presence, as they would unhesitatingly confess.

THE PASTORAL ROLE OF THE SPIRIT

We come next to consider the *pastoral* role of the Holy Spirit. Since the term 'pastoral' has both a wide popular connotation on the one hand, and on the other a quite specific technical reference

when it appears in writing in the field of psychotherapy, I ought to delimit my area of interest. It falls midway between these two extremes, and occurs in a variety of forms. For example, I shall be thinking of situations where a group of persons, through unrestricted and undirected discussion, seek to help one another to self-awareness of their past, to more profound self-understanding and to greater clarity in their decisions about their future. Again, the situation may take the form of one-on-one, where one person, who is usually called the counsellor, is endeavouring to assist the other person towards the kind of ends mentioned in the above account of the group activity, and may, therefore, be considered to 'lead' the discussion, which may take two distinguishable forms. In the direct form the questions and responses are intended to move in a certain direction; while in the other, the undirected form, the part played by the 'leader' is latent and inconspicuous, and conforms to the advice of Shakespeare's Polonius – 'by indirections find directions out'. There are, besides, situations which are much less formally contrived – chance meetings, conversations which seem to have no element of intended assistance of the kind mentioned, but which suddenly acquire a pastoral quality; while many doctors are now saying that their surgery has become for some of their patients a secular confession booth, and their 'illnesses' are in fact psychosomatic, or even simply psychological. What, then, we shall look at is the way in which the presence of the Holy Spirit is effected and effective in this spread of definably pastoral situations.

First, we may build upon the view we examined, held by J. V. Taylor (see above, pp. 197ff), that the Holy Spirit is 'the Go-Between God', present in the different above-mentioned situations, a third party in a one-on-one meeting, or an extra member of the group. What is not immediately clear from Taylor is whether the Spirit is 'there' all the time, or whether he is available to be called upon by the believer seeking help or light. It is, I think, a case of both options being true, though the argument is better for the second than for the first. But the first must not be denied, for the Spirit, we believe, may influence a development unbeknownst to the participants, and bring about ends which

they had not themselves anticipated. This conception of the Spirit is a direct transcript to the earthly dimension of the role which the Spirit is classically thought to fulfil in the intra-trinitarian dimension, described by Augustine as 'the eternal love wherewith the Father loves the Son and the Son the Father'; or, alternatively, of the concept of the *emperichoresis*, the interpenetration of the Spirit within the Father and the Son, thus creating a special bond between them. By this presence the Holy Spirit creates an atmosphere of love and of heightened understanding, of hope and expectancy. As the one 'who will guide us into all truth', he will enable us to reach for solutions to the insoluble, and as the creator-Spirit he will unfold for us alternatives beyond our own conjecturing. Awareness of such possibilities is an integral part of the promise of the Spirit made by God to the believing community, and the established basis for prayer to God for the continuance of that gift.

When, however, we think of the pastoral role of the Holy Spirit, it would be wrong to consider only his presence in the kinds of pastoral counselling and caring which we have been considering. He has himself an active pastoral role in relation to individual persons, which is encapsulated in the term 'Comforter', which, while it has the other connotations of 'advocate' or 'helper', carries over from the Old Testament its description of the Messiah as *menachem*, comforter. It represents a tenderness, a closeness, concern and caring, which has been overlooked in the concentration upon the other characteristics of the Spirit, to which we have ourselves given so much space that we stand, therefore, in our own condemnation. It is not that the term 'Comforter' has not been applied, but rather that when it has been used it has been given the content of the other connotations of the Holy Spirit, and consequently deprived of the plain and primary significance as the one who comforts us when for one reason or another life has become difficult, dark, meaningless or just a very lonely place.

This neglect, as I feel it is fair to call it, has led to two developments to compensate for it, the one as a part of a long-standing tradition in Roman Catholicism, the other, more recent,

in the Reformed Church. As regards the first of these, I am thinking of the part which the Blessed Virgin plays in the personal devotional lives of Roman Catholics, the Mother to whom the faithful turn for solace, reassurance and comfort in times of especial need and distress. Theologically correctly, she is the one to whom the prayers are said, but in order that she may in turn intercede with her Son, bearing to him the anxieties, the brokenness, the sorrows of his people. Yet, in reality, for many people that comfort is sought directly from Mary herself. She has an immediacy of profound sympathy and understanding which somehow is not thought appropriate to expect from the Saviour of the world. She is a Mother more loving than all the mothers in the world. These beliefs, which have been built up over centuries of piety, devotion and Christian living, have left little space for the ascription to the Spirit of the role of comforting and caring. Also, if we return to the notion of 'advocate' which has appeared in the interpretations of the word *parakletos* as betokening the Spirit, we can readily see how easily the term may be applied to Mary, the advocate who pleads on behalf of her children for forgiveness of their sins by Christ, and so becomes the mediatrix of the benefits of the Saviour to the faithful. When we recall the insistence of such Reformers as Calvin upon the conception of the Spirit as bringing sinners to Christ, or as completing the redemptive work of Christ, we can see that there might be a conflict of roles as between the Holy Spirit and the Blessed Virgin Mary. The comments are not intended in any polemical mood, and I would at once acknowledge that the Roman Catholic theologians write and have written extensively about the Holy Spirit in terms such as I indicated earlier, but in popular piety the tendency I have indicated is towards a mariology of the kind suggested.

The second movement, which this time is found in the Reformed Church particularly and has arisen, I believe, because of the failure of traditional theology to do justice to the idea of the Holy Spirit as Comforter, is the widespread emphasis upon the 'motherly' qualities in God and, more extremely, even the pressure to speak of God as 'Mother' as well as 'Father', and

occasionally as 'Mother' instead of 'Father'. These views sometimes appear as essential elements in the feminist movement, but are not necessarily so, for they do often represent the protest against the kind of theology which has been said to be male-dominated, and which lacks the tenderness, the caring, sympathy and understanding associated with motherhood. There is considerable truth in this protest. For example, the Calvinist tradition has often presented a God whose transcendence and righteousness seemed to place him beyond the range of tenderness and the other attributes of which we were just speaking. The doctrine of double predestination confirmed the impression of an almost irrational harshness and lack of sympathy, which was not always negated by the doctrine of the atonement.

I have two comments to make on this response to the apparently male-dominated theology. The first is that, allowing for the validity of some forms of the protest, I would prefer to exhaust the resources of orthodox theology before taking such a step. For there does exist in orthodoxy a doctrine of the Holy Spirit which makes the same affirmations of the Spirit which are now being introduced in the name of the 'motherhood' of God. Agreed, these affirmations have been all too muted in traditional theological textbooks, which have made much, and rightly also, of the soteriological–christological role of the Spirit. But these affirmations are there, and should be heeded before we resort to novelties which have little to do with biblical Christianity. The truth is that the Bible speaks of God as 'Father'; it has the authentication of Jesus' own teaching, and there is not enough textual evidence to justify departing from that view of God. The evidence that might be so used would more appropriately be attributed to the Spirit. If we were to go over to speaking exclusively or even intermittently of 'Mother-God', and having to decide between 'he' or 'she', the resultant dilemma might be resolved by the neutral 'it', and a genderless theism replace the authentic faith. But there is no genuine theological call for such extremes. The solution is there before us, in the doctrine of the Holy Spirit.

My second comment is that the attribution to 'God as Mother' of the qualities we have had in mind leaves unchallenged the

conception of 'God as Father' which it presupposes, and, by implication, of the whole Godhead, and this conception is in fact a caricature. It is, moreover, intolerable; and many of those theologians who have been drawn into the 'Mother-God' view and have themselves helped to popularise it, are perhaps unwittingly perpetuating that caricature. For those who are deeply interested in 'gender-theology', it may be of importance that *ruach*, 'Spirit', is masculine and feminine according to H. M. Segal, *A Concise Hebrew–English Dictionary*, Tel-Aviv, 1938. So the answer to the proposed changes to the doctrine of God in order to incorporate the notion of the motherhood of God, and at the same time to correct the conception of God which the supporters of that false notion of the fatherhood of God have popularised, is to present the dogmatically valid view of the Spirit as the 'Comforter' and to unfold the full connotation of that name. But, further, we have to embody that understanding of the Spirit in our devotions, and to live as if it truly were the case in all the vicissitudes of our lives.

THE SPIRIT AND IMAGINATION

I should like now to return to a view I expressed some ten years ago concerning the Holy Spirit and imagination, 'The Holy Spirit is God's imagination let loose and working with all the freedom of God in the world, and in the lives, the words and actions, of the men and women of our time' (*Faith Theology and Imagination*, Handsel Press, Edinburgh, 1987, p. 64). According to this theme, the Holy Spirit would be regarded as fulfilling an *imaginative* role, by which I mean that imagination is the medium which the Holy Spirit employs in achieving certain purposes in our lives. Before proceeding to itemise these purposes, let me amplify these initial statements. There is a constant problem, when imagination is introduced into any analysis of mental activities, that it should be equated with fantasy; and the use of such an equation may be used to ridicule the suggestion. The problem of the distinction has existed from medieval

times down to modern thinkers such as Coleridge and George McDonald. My present claim is that, while imagination may always be in danger of verging towards fantasy, that danger is minimised if not totally removed by being used as a medium for his purposes by the Holy Spirit.

Summarily, the Holy Spirit stimulates, controls and confirms the imagination in the part that it plays in the Christian life. The Spirit stimulates the imagination by alerting it to situations in which it might act. Such situations we shall be going on to examine. Having triggered the imaginative play, the Spirit stands by to control and regulate what might otherwise become fantasy or extravagance, wandering away from the realities of the situations. The Spirit must also be thought of as confirming the imaginative decision, action or thought which has materialised from the process, thus giving to the agent the assurance that the prayer, 'not my will, but Thine', has been answered. It must not be assumed that the process described inevitably yields the result, which is totally conformed to God's will. Where a human element is present, the possibility of error has to be recognised. But this possibility of error is no greater than it would be where the Spirit was operating through human rationality in guidance to decisions or actions. Human reason can be as devious and wayward as human imagination, but the presence of the Spirit in both cases powerfully controls them and brings them within the influence of redemption from sin and error. Let us now consider the ways in which the Holy Spirit uses the imagination to fulfil his purposes.

Imagination is the medium which the Spirit employs in enabling men and women to understand, interpret and appropriate Scripture. This statement is a compound of ideas, for Scripture is not a single, homogeneous entity, but rather made up of different forms of literature – history, myth, poetry, prayer and praise; and the imagination works in different ways in relation to each. For example, if we think of the immense volume of history in Scripture, and of the description of that history as being not only the record of the deeds of humankind but also of 'the mighty acts of God', we may discern two ways in which imagination can

be operative, which, though distinguishable, are not separable. On the one hand, if we avail ourselves of R. G. Collingwood's analytic of historical knowledge (*The Idea of History*, Oxford, 1946; cf. J. McIntyre, *Faith Theology and Imagination*, pp. 109ff), we may say that to understand history, any human history, we require to re-enact it and we do so by means of what Collingwood calls the *a priori* imagination. Without elaborating unduly on Collingwood's use of the term *a priori* in this connection, we may say that he means that thinking historically is an essential element of the human mind, and also that, since history comes to us with gaps that we inevitably try to fill, we do so in a manner congruent with, or even necessitated by, what we have received in the way of data. But it is the concept of imaginative re-enactment of the past that interests me, for it is a true account of what happens when we read Scripture. We do so, not as we might peruse a chronicle of dates and happenings, but as situations and events which are of importance to ourselves and which 'connect' with our lives, our needs and our problems. It is as if we inserted ourselves into the events and the way they affected the original people, so that their reactions might be ours and we become sharers in the experiences they had. An older generation might have spoken of 'reading and applying' Scripture, but the result was the same. The Spirit, in each case, was, through their imagination, enabling the believing readers to re-enact the past and to appropriate it topically and pertinently to their own lives and faith.

We said that Scripture is both the history of men and women, of tribes and nations, over several centuries, and also the record of the mighty acts of God. It is here, I feel, that the presence of the Holy Spirit in the imaginative reading of Scripture that we have just described is most important. Because in re-enacting that past not only are we enabled to stand where the saints and prophets, as well as the sinners and the perjurers, stood, we are also introduced to that dimension of their lives and situations which made them worthy to be recorded and to have meaning for us. Many a person having read or heard read the story of Jesus' account of the harvest being plentiful but the reapers few, has heard Jesus' words as if he or she were present, and responded to the appeal as if it were

intended solely for them. So onwards it goes till, reading of the crucifixion of Jesus, we know in our hearts the answer to the spiritual, 'Were you there, when they crucified my Lord?' It is the Spirit's use of imagination which lifts it beyond a two-dimensional reading of the history in Scripture to the grasping of the spiritual realities which are of the essence of Scripture. It is the role of the Spirit in the sermon in Christian worship to kindle the imagination of both preacher and congregation, so that together they are engrossed in a situation or a story. There follows what Barth used to describe as the Bible *becoming* the Word of God, bridging the gulf between then and now, so that God quite articulately speaks to them now out of a past which has miraculously been contemporanised.

This imaginative role of the Holy Spirit which we have been examining is the clue to one way of expressing the mystery of the presence of Our Lord in the sacrament of the eucharist. I have argued the case at length in a slightly different connection in *Faith Theology and Imagination*, pp. 35ff, and shall not now rehearse the entire argument. The view which it offers of the 'real presence' of Our Lord in the eucharist comes at a time when some of the theologies of the sacrament are losing credibility because of the collapse of the metaphysics which had sustained them for centuries. Given Jesus' practice of uniting heaven and earth, the transcendent and the immanent, the beyond and the immediately present in a single imaginative fusion – the lilies of the field with the all-embracing care of the Father, the welcome of a prodigal son with the forgivingness of the heavenly Father, and so on, for the gospels abound in such instances – the linking of bread and wine with his own body and blood are the supreme example of that same presentation. To see that fusion in separatist terms, whether by means of the concepts of sign and signified, of remembering a past event in receiving present symbols of that past, or even through the substitution of one substance for another, while the physical attributes remain unchanged, is to miss the significance of what actually happened on 'that night in which Our Lord was betrayed'. The significance of the prayer which is the *epiklesis* in the eucharistic office is that the Holy

Spirit may once again activate the imaginative fusion which Christ enacted on that same night, so that we, receiving bread and wine, may by faith be made partakers of his body and blood. This prayer, along with the institution narrative and the consecration of the elements, is so central to the celebration that to omit it, or, as sometimes happens, to omit reference to the Holy Spirit, gravely diminishes the whole occasion. I am greatly cheered by the fact that the editors of the Church of Scotland *Common Order* of 1994 retain the full wording of the *epiklesis* not only in the First Order for the Holy Communion but also in the Alternative and the Shortened Forms, thus enshrining what I regard as an important part of the Reformed understanding of 'the real presence' of Christ.

On several occasions in our study, we have observed how the Holy Spirit has employed the imagination to enable us to transcend our rootedness in time – in reading Scripture to place us in the company of Jesus, as he challenges his followers to costly discipleship and comforts them with the assurance of a Father's tender care and abounding forgiveness; in listening to a sermon to hear again the same authentic call coming out of a text, with what John Baillie so often spoke of as 'mediated immediacy'; and as we have just seen, in and through the institution narrative, to receive from Christ his own body and blood. But it is equally true that the Spirit employs the imagination to transcend our rootedness in space, and it happens in a variety of ways. For example, in *The Psychology of Imagination* (ET 1972), Jean-Paul Sartre draws our attention to the fact that when we look at a photo of a friend who is not with us, we think of one who is absent-as-present, a way of thinking which is a function of the imagination, and one which we exercise frequently. But the concept is of importance for theology, in that the Spirit may be thought to use it when, as in intercessory prayer, he draws near to us, as present, those who are absent from us. It is equally relevant to the understanding of the doctrine of the communion of the saints. On reflection, I begin to realise that I had never thought of the third article of the Apostles' Creed as falling within the bracket of the first item in the article, 'I believe in the Holy Ghost'. Rather did the whole article appear

to consist of mutually unrelated items, unlike the constituent clauses of the first two articles. Indeed it would be a fruitful theological exercise to work out how each of the items of the whole of the third article is affected by being related to the belief in the Holy Spirit. For the present, our interest is in the belief in the communion of saints and what it means. The communion of the saints, as we may understand it in the light of the concept of presence-in-absence, is constituted by the Holy Spirit, who stimulates the imagination to hold as present those 'whom we have loved and lost awhile'. The consequence is that this fellowship is not at the mercy of our reminiscences, which may come and go, but bonded by the love of the Spirit himself.

There is, however, yet another area in which the Holy Spirit uses the imagination to create space, that is, to create a space for ourselves, for each one of us. People seem to feel increasingly, amid the pressures and demands of modern life, the need to have space, to be able to 'breathe' and to think, to be themselves and not the artefacts of their friends or their boss or even of society. 'Give me space' is a request which I find to be a favourite line of many authors and playwrights. Would it be unfair to say that the philosophy so popular of late, which argues that persons are only truly persons in relation, has elicited the reaction which demands space? Agreed, it may be only a matter of emphasis, and each side has a truth, which requires to be complemented by the other. Yet, as we have seen in discussing the use of the notion of persons-in-relation in the trinitarian context, there is a lot of it about. So let us consider how we may answer this plea for personal space, without falling over into advocating narcissism, egocentricity or (impossibly) solipsism.

At the start may I say that this demand for space is not only legitimate, but also necessary. Even if we grant a permissible degree of validity to the idea of persons-in-relation, it is nevertheless important that there be persons to enter relations, and they are not likely to be created out of relations, even if they will certainly be modified by them. To provide the grounds for the emergence of such personhood, it is desirable that the space for

them be made possible through the imagination, inspired and controlled by the Holy Spirit.

What is being sought in the demand for space is the opportunity for people to come to terms with themselves, to execute an honest self-assessment, to think about the way ahead, to analyse relations to friends and colleagues, to undo the pressures and to seek a measure of self-peace, or alternatively to prepare for a course of action. It is the imagination that creates a level of self-awareness, of hope for the kind of person who might reach beyond the present achievement or failure, that creates the possibilities of fresh action, that conjures up the images that make for relaxation and renewal. For Christians it is the Holy Spirit who inspires these different lines of thought and action, of aspiration and self-imagery; and the Spirit, too, who controls them so that they do not become ends in themselves, or change into fantasy to become objects of delusion. Moreover, because it is the Holy Spirit who is in control, there is a guarantee that there need be no ultimate tension between the persons-in-relation and the persons seeking space, for the Spirit will both relate them to one another, and at the same time ensure respect for each other's space.

I have spoken on purpose of the Holy Spirit as playing a quite definite and necessary part in these different activities associated with the imagination, for two reasons. First, it is part of our Christian faith that we have the Holy Spirit as a constant companion, who will, as we have it in John's Gospel, 16.13, 'guide into all truth' – truth about ourselves, about our decisions, about our relations with others, about the world we live in and so on. The space which we all need is not meant to be a vacuum, as we well know, remembering Jesus' parable about the evil spirit who, having been driven out of a man, returns to find 'the house [of the man's life] empty, swept and garnished', and promptly summons some seven of his fellows to take repossession. There is no such thing as an empty mind. Given a world and an environment which, like ours, is constantly bombarding us with images which seduce and traduce us with fantasies and lies and swell the imagination with all the forms of depravity, which Paul

seems to have encountered in Corinth, the only power which can recover the nearly lost area of 'our space' is the Holy Spirit. He is the only means whereby an imagination degraded by such unacceptable influences can receive redemption and renewal. The Gospel, Jesus, promises nothing less.

For a second reason I mention the Holy Spirit in connection with the imagination, the renewal which it constantly requires and the promise, as we receive it from Jesus himself, of such renewal through the Spirit. It is that the Spirit is above all else a gift, a gift for which we have both to ask and pray. Three times over in that same passage in John's Gospel – 16.23, 24 and 26 – Jesus insists that the disciples 'ask', and it seems that that must be the dominant theme in the prayer for the gift of the Spirit, a gift which will mean the filling of the mind with the right images, with a true self-understanding and right relationships with our neighbours. To borrow and adapt an old sentence from times with different problems from our own, but meeting them in much the same way: what is required of us is that 'we practise the presence of God', the Spirit.

THE SPIRIT AND SPIRITUALITY

In the previous section we have unintentionally drifted into another aspect of the role of the Spirit, one which should throw additional light upon the manner in which the Spirit works upon the imagination in a whole variety of ways. I refer to the part which the Spirit plays in the area of spirituality. This term would appear to have many connotations, and the histories of the subject, such as P. Pourrat, *Christian Spirituality*, or L. Bouyer, *A History of Christian Spirituality*, document the spread of the concept across space, time and almost every denomination. Also, as emerges from G. S. Wakefield (ed.), *A Dictionary of Christian Spirituality*, despite the book's title, spirituality, as he himself points out in his own article on the subject, is not solely a Christian phenomenon, for it appears in Buddhist, Hindu, Muslim, Jewish and neo-Platonist forms or, again, in a form

without theistic connections of any kind, and there are many more, for the subject and the practice have acquired many disciples. This multivariety creates for us the problem which we had some twenty years ago when there was a sudden explosion of the subject of 'religious studies' in the universities: we tried to find a definition of 'religion' which would be comprehensive, and so far we seem not altogether to have succeeded. Now, facing that problem with 'spirituality', we have, I believe, two options.

The first is to acknowledge its sheer heterogeneity, to regard it as a form of religion, without the more activist elements of some religions, and go on to list the many components that constitute religions, such as beliefs, attitudes, practices, disciplines, meditation, worship and prayer in their many styles, as well as reflection on sacred literature, and so on. While obviously many of these components reappear in the different religions, there would be no attempt to extract from them some highest common factor obtaining among them, or, to change the figure, some genus of which they could all be regarded as species and subspecies. Indeed, it would be both rash and patronising to impose a single definition to which they must all conform or be ostracised. But the matter need not end there, even though that line would perhaps be highly consonant with the pluralist mood of our day which so much values the mutual independence and equal validity of such systems.

The alternative to the previous first option is to offer a scheme within which all that is to be comprehended within what is generally recognised as 'spirituality' for dictionary purposes can be accommodated without distortion or diminution, even allowing that such a scheme is admitted to have a Christian provenance and a Christian foundation. In setting out this second option, I intend to proceed by way of an argument from analogy, using as the prime analogates the relations of the Father to creation and of the Son to salvation. Thus, the whole created order is the *opus ad extra* appropriated to the Father–Creator, either through the initial act of creation, the *creatio ex nihilo*, or through the continuous creation, the *creatio continua*, which is an essential part of the doctrine of creation. In creation and among his

creatures, the Father–Creator has to deal with all sorts and conditions, and however they behave or whatever they wish, they cannot escape from their place in creation, or from its laws and obligations. So, too, the *opus ad extra* appropriated to the Son within the Trinity is the sphere of salvation of men, women and children, which is appropriated to the Son as Saviour; and, effecting this end, Jesus Christ lived, died and was raised again, and that salvation was sufficient for the forgiveness of the sins of the whole world, whether the folks in the world felt moved to avail themselves of the offer or not. Here my analogy begins: as Father–Creator is to the whole order of creation and creatures, and the Son, Our Lord Jesus Christ, to the salvation of sinners, so is the Holy Spirit to spirituality, as the domain of his special concern and operation (*opus ad extra*). The bonding of the Spirit to spirituality and its appropriateness are to be understood on the analogy between the spirit that is in humans and distinguishes them from the whole of the rest of creation, and the Holy Spirit, as the third person of the Trinity. Because of the universality of spirit in humans, the Spirit, in his domain, has as his concern some who fulfil all the promise of his proffered spirituality, others who may only partially acknowledge his sovereignty, and yet others who prefer to be left to their own inventions, codes and practices. But we encounter the ambiguity latent in the term 'spirituality' when we go on to say that spirituality is the domain in which spirits fulfil their spirituality. For the term is both a characteristic of all human beings, and has acquired the meaning that it is *where* spirits fully realise that spirituality.

When, therefore, we speak of spirituality as a domain with, implicit within it, the sovereignty of the Holy Spirit, we have to recognise four sets of circumstances which are operative within it.

First, there are certain structural components which are to be found in most, if not all, instances of spirituality. These have been mentioned above, and here we must look at them in greater detail. For example, beliefs are one such component, for most forms of spirituality have some expressed or implicit understanding of why and what they are doing, even though this

understanding may be inchoate, or protean, or thought to be of minimal importance by the practitioners. Beliefs may include a view of, and a reference to, the world, other selves and society, which thus form a backdrop to the process, and answer the occasional criticism that spirituality is excessively introspective. Certain attitudes, again, are characteristic of the pursuit of spirituality, which tend to be quietist, pacific, and non-belligerent, as well as receptive and open to similar influences. Patterns of behaviour congruent with such a characterisation develop along lines of meditation, reflection upon texts of sacred literature, prayers both spontaneous and structured, sometimes following meticulously the movement of a religious office. These spiritual forms exhibit a paradoxical combination of freedom and strict discipline: on the one hand, allowing the human spirit to be creative and imaginative; on the other hand, imposing a very constraining discipline. Within the broad spectrum of spirituality, different forms evolve their own patterns of practice, combining by choice some or many of the above components in distinctive ways.

Still regarding spirituality as the domain of the Holy Spirit, and recognising that a commonly accepted purpose of all spirituality is the *katharsis*, the renewal, the reintegration of the human spirit and even its salvation, we acknowledge that there are basic laws, principles, obligations, promises, assurances and mercies which obtain within it, and which among them set out the path to, and the pattern of, such integrity. One such basic principle, a starting-point it might be called, would be that the spirit confesses that as it is, it is not satified with its condition, and has a sense of what used to be called 'guilt', and still is by some, or of what many would recognise as moral failure, for which the cure does not lie in itself. Sometimes this starting-point is described in terms of darkness, 'the long night of unknowing'; and the confession is of lostness in deep ignorance, mental confusion or impenetrable problems, for which the spirit has no cure within it and longs for light coming from without to scatter this darkness. Spirituality then presents itself as the quest for that cure, and it is an obligation to seek it. At that point the significance of regarding

spirituality as the domain of the Holy Spirit now emerges, for its writ is of promises and mercy, of forgiveness for a past strewn with moral failure and inadequacy, of reassurances of the way to renewal and a salvation which, coming from without, coming from above, will transcend the hopelessness of self-disillusionment and lostness.

The third circumstance that we have to consider in this discussion of the domain of spirituality and its components is the part which the Spirit plays within it. His operation is exactly what we have found it to be in the rest of our study of his *opera ad extra*. It is fourfold. First, he creates spirituality as the domain within which the expressions of different forms of spirituality in the ways we have just analysed take place; and secondly, since his are the principles and laws, which maintain its integrity, he controls and judges these expressions. Thirdly, he sustains in existence the whole in its expressions of the different varieties, even when, as G. S. Wakefield points out in his article in *A New Dictionary of Christian Theology*, p. 549, 'spirituality' is not always good, as in the case of Adolf Hitler. Fourthly, the Spirit constantly offers the same sanctification within spirituality as he does in other aspects of his operation within the world and among mankind, and he does so by pointing to Christ.

The mention of Hitler takes us to the extreme case of the position of those who, while they practise spirituality, eschewing evil and seeking to do good, do not make the full Christian commitment, or who may even abrogate such a connection with Christ or the Spirit in their spirituality, or are totally unaware of any connection with the Holy Spirit. Two comments may be made on their situation. First, there is no intention to say that because they do not conform to the full inclusive form of spirituality as a Christian might see it, they somehow cannot be thought to practise spirituality. They will be involved in many of the components which we enumerated as structuring spirituality, and will have integrated them into a pattern of daily living. Even if spiritually they are, like Hitler, entirely evil, they are not opting out of spirituality. Men and women made in the image of God cannot destroy that character, even when they ignore it, and even

when they deny it by word and action. Secondly, just because all of this group remain within what I have called the domain of spirituality, where the Spirit is still Lord and Sovereign, the promises and offers of salvation, of spiritual renewal and eventual integrity, still endure and are still available. Even when they are flouted, these offers and promises remain inescapable.

THE SPIRIT AND MISSION

These considerations concerning the relations of the Holy Spirit to people who are ignorant of his being, or by their behaviour are clearly working against him and his purposes, lead us direct to a further role of the Spirit, which preliminarily I shall designate 'missionary'. Thereafter, I hope to show that this role is in line with a wider and more comprehensive role which he fulfils. We have noted from time to time that theologians emphasise the christological/soteriological role of the Spirit. It is an earthly role based, it is said, upon his intra-trinitarian role as completing the Trinity, rounding off the Godhead. Fulfilling the will of the Father for the salvation of his creatures, Jesus Christ, the Eternal Son incarnate, died for the sins of the whole world on the cross, and after three days was raised again, and later ascended to the Father. The Holy Spirit, who had been involved in the process of incarnation from conception to resurrection, brought it to its final fulfilment in leading men and women out of their sins to receive the forgiveness achieved for them by Christ. But a refinement of this account of what the Spirit does, and an extension of it, appeared in the writing of Barth, in *Church Dogmatics* I.1 (*The Doctrine of the Word of God*), where he described the Holy Spirit as God from below, preparing the hearts, minds and wills of men and women to receive God from above, the Word incarnate and crucified. Another way of putting this view is to say that the Spirit goes ahead of Christ, dwelling in the hearts of unbelievers and sinners and making them ready to receive the Gospel.

So if we apply this view to the missionary or the evangelical

enterprise, we say that when the Gospel is taken to communities, regions or lands where the name of Jesus is unknown or despised, the Spirit has gone before and has already begun to prepare the soil for the seed. In fact, the testimony of some missionaries from another time has been that it was not so much a case of taking Jesus to the other lands as a matter of finding that the Spirit had already begun to prepare for their message concerning Jesus. Returning to the idiom of the last section, the populated world is the domain of the Spirit and he is already working in ways we cannot imagine, even among those who do not believe in him. The phrase commonly used to describe the same phenomena as we are here outlining is 'common grace', meaning that while God gives special grace to believers in the gift of his Son, in the sacraments, and in response to prayer according to the covenant, he has a general or common grace which he gives to all humankind, to maintain them in being, to strengthen them in weakness, providing food and drink and the necessities of life. As I have already mentioned, I would prefer to describe such situations in terms of the Holy Spirit and say that so far as human beings are spirits, they are already within his domain, and accessible by him, in their needs for living. It is, then, a question of a person being with them rather than a matter of their apparently receiving a quantity of grace to enable them to live. I know the reply to what I am saying, namely, that there is ample biblical evidence, especially in Paul, for the use of the term 'grace' by itself. Yet I wonder whether, if we go back to Paul again, we will not find that the word 'grace' frequently occurs (e.g., *passim* in 1 and 2 Corinthians) in what we learned in the Hebrew class to call the 'construct state'. For example, in the phrase 'the palace of the king', the first noun, 'palace' which is 'considered as dependent', is said to be in the construct state; the second noun, 'king', which is not dependent, is said to be in the 'absolute state' (A. B. Davidson, *Introductory Hebrew Grammar*, T. & T. Clark, Edinburgh, 1932, p. 58). So, in the phrase 'the grace of God', even though the construct state did not occur in *koine* Greek, the two nouns severally bear the relation of being, the one dependent in the construct state and the other in the absolute state, which we

noted in Davidson's example from Hebrew. Grace is, therefore, not to be thought of as an entity in itself or by itself, but as dependent upon God, so that the phrase 'the grace of God' becomes almost a circumlocution for the term 'the gracious God'.

To return to our point of deviation from the discussion of the relation of the Holy Spirit to those who within the domain of spirituality do not acknowledge his sovereignty: they do not thereby escape his presence – or his sovereignty. If we speak of their being sustained even in their rebellion, but in all their daily living, through 'common grace', it is perhaps preferable to construe their position in terms of existence within the domain of the gracious Holy Spirit, where they live and act within the structures, the laws, the principles, the sanctions, the mercy, forgiveness and comfort, which are the expression of his sovereignty. Linking this discussion with the much-aired controversy over whether all men and women know God from acquaintance with God's created order, that is, the question of natural theology, we may argue that those who are sustained in the terms we have indicated by the gracious Spirit of God cannot necessarily therefore be said to 'know' God. To establish such a case would require further evidence.

CONCLUSION

To conclude: these are the terms in which I would wish to answer any attempt to charge the Church or its theologians with betrayal of the original New Testament commitment to belief in the Spirit, to life in the Spirit and to worship in the Spirit. Yet in order that we may as a Church reap the full benefit of such commitment, we have to begin by recognising wholeheartedly the obligation to affirm the doctrine of the Holy Spirit and to acknowledge the need for his presence in our midst, with the seriousness with which we have in centuries past honoured Jesus Christ, both in his person and in his redemptive works. Here there is a stumbling-block for many Christians, for whom any

concentration upon the Holy Spirit implies support of the very influential and, in many parts, popular charismatic form of Christian expression. As we already noted, that is not necessarily the only form of commitment to the Spirit. But much remains to be done for those who are caught in that difficulty by way of opening up the alternatives. The central part of this chapter has been an attempt to chart out the range of such alternatives. They span a wide horizon, along which can be observed the important contribution of the Spirit to our understanding of the nature of God, his anticipatory and preparatory ingredience into the hearts of sinful men and women and his earthing of the life and work of Christ in their redemption, the essential part which he plays in our moral life, his necessary place in our day-to-day devotions, his all-important part in the several liturgical offices of the Church, his illuminating connection with human imagination and its wide range of creative expressions, his identifying role in pastoral situations among and between persons, his sovereignty in what seems to be a rapidly expanding domain of spirituality, and his activity in areas of truth, beauty and ordinary decency and goodness, which might be called 'secular' but cannot be totally so if he is there present. These may be presented as points at which we for our part may seek for the presence of the Spirit in our lives, in our society and in our environment. But more importantly, these are the points – and only some of them, for he has no limited mandate – at which he is already waiting to meet us.

So if the charge of 'betrayal' cannot, on the evidence, be brought against the contemporary Church over its attitude to the Holy Spirit, are we concluding on a note of self-satisfaction? On the contrary, if 'betrayal' is one judgement too far, perhaps it would not be altogether unfair to suggest that we have not entered into the full strategy of the Holy Spirit, or adequately attempted to implement his tactics. Let me expand these two points.

The starting-point of our whole study was an awareness of the difference in attitude between the early Church and ourselves towards the Holy Spirit. He was involved with the early Christians at every point of their lives, and they clearly expected him to

be – in decision-making, in planning evangelical missions, in their interpersonal relations, in their piety and morality, as in their preaching and baptising. The effect of such a recitation can produce a sense of failure on our part. Yet it need not. For what has emerged, particularly in our our analysis of the 'definitional dynamic model/relational patterns', is the immense variety of ways in which we have been able to trace the working of the Spirit in our midst. Such working may not produce the extraordinary phenomena of which we read in the Book of Acts, but it does bear close resemblance to the understanding of the work of the Spirit in Paul's writing, though not only so. That review of the 'dynamic relational patterns' suggests that, while we may escape the charge of 'betrayal', the exculpation will last only so long as we learn to live in a mood of expectancy to encounter the Spirit in the variety of the 'patterns'.

At another level, when we consider the intensity with which the Church of the fourth and fifth centuries wrestled with the theology of the Spirit, always being conscious of the importance of their assertions for the understanding of the doctrine of God, it may be that, in human terms, the full implementation of the patterns referred to above will entail a strong undergirding of theology of the Spirit to support it. Consequently, part of our sharing in the strategy of the Spirit in our time will be an expectation on our part that the doctrine of the Holy Spirit has new light to throw on the doctrine of God. We have become so inured to treating the third person of the Trinity last that the resulting implication is that, by the time we have reached him, there is nothing new to be said about the Godhead. That, I trust, we have proved to be a travesty. But full appreciation of that fact will require us to think what we might previously have thought to be 'backwards', and find from the Spirit a new understanding both of the being and of the activity of God.

As to our sharing in what I called the 'tactics' of the Holy Spirit in our day, quite a number of possibilities have already been considered in this chapter. For example, if it really is the case that the Holy Spirit relates in a quite singular way to the detail of our daily existence, then it is an inescapable duty, or rather we must

say 'privilege', to seek a wider range of his presence across the entirety of our decisions and action, our prayers and our believing. It is amazing how much we have secularised or Pelagianised wide tracts of our existence, when all the time there was the offer of the challenging, comforting, enabling presence of the Spirit to lift us on to a higher dimension.

The time has come, I am convinced, to have a fresh look at our prayers, both private and public, to see whether they reflect the role which Jesus himself told us the Spirit would play in them. The absence of mention of him in so many prayers again tells its own tale of the extent to which even in our praying we have come to think that we are on our own. I would wish my plea for more explicit sensitivity to the presence of the Spirit in prayer and liturgy to be quite specific in two matters already mentioned. The first is in relation to the sacrament of baptism. The scriptural passages used in the introduction of the sacrament of baptism ought properly to include the account of the baptism of Jesus, because of its theological and soteriological significance. By the same token, some liturgical attempt must be made to define less ambiguously than is at present the case, the part which the Spirit plays in the baptismal rite, and I speak of infant baptism as well as of adult baptism. At the same time, the almost ritualistic repetition of the phrase 'by water and the Spirit' compels us to attempt to tease out the phrase and give its components genuine meaning within the sacrament. My second specific reference concerns a point in the eucharist. Here I feel moved to go further than I have done in the relevant text, and to insist that the *epiklesis* be regarded as an indispensable prayer of the service for anyone of Reformed or even Roman Catholic persuasion. It is the linchpin of the celebration and, more clearly than any theology, describes for us the manner of the presence of Our Lord. Take out the *epiklesis* from our liturgy and we are left with what is in effect a memorial service.

There are, finally, three areas of contemporary interest to which the doctrine of the Holy Spirit is particularly relevant, and where the question of tactics is important. It is a question of claiming these three areas specifically for the Holy Spirit. I am

thinking of the world of nature and ecology, of other faiths and of the arts. First, we have spoken already about the idea of the Holy Spirit relating humankind to the world of nature in all of its components. That theorem remains a pious thought unless we see ourselves as already compromised, already set within a natural order which has placed obligations upon us, to which we are called to respond in the Spirit. The Holy Spirit who was so intimately involved in the original act of creation as its efficient cause, to use the Aristotelian/Thomistic language, is equally present in the process of *creatio continua*, and so we find ourselves in an environment of which he is part and within which he is active. Given the ecological crises of our day, I sometimes wonder whether the ethical motive to sustain ecological sensitivity and direct action will prove sufficient, or whether, in fact, a much stronger religious motivation such as I am suggesting will not be urgently required.

The second tactical area of engagement is that of other faiths. The pressing presence of other faiths and their practitioners in our midst has raised questions of truth and validity in forms which were unimaginable in the days when the subject was treated with a degree of philosophical detachment. The problem is how Christians who accept Jesus Christ as the one true and only Saviour can acknowledge the religious claims of the other faiths. Some Christians have already solved this problem for themselves by holding that there is 'no other name under heaven whereby they must be saved', and that the other faiths are erroneous. Others, again, have argued for a more liberal stance, and contend that the revelation and salvation offered in Christ are offered in other terms but eventually equally effectively to those of other faiths. But there is a third way which we earlier adumbrated, namely, that while retaining allegiance to the unique offer of salvation in Christ, we recollect that he himself said that he had 'other sheep not of this fold'. The Holy Spirit is with them guiding and directing them Godwards, and making sure for them the uncovenanted mercies of that God. Might we also add that the beliefs and works of the people of the other faiths are the expression of that presence of the Spirit with them? But beyond

that, I would find myself agnostic as to whether they are thereby led to Christ or to salvation; but I would hang on to the conviction that they have not wandered beyond the mercy of God or the compassion of his Spirit.

The third area of pressing interest for many Church folk today is the relation of the faith to the arts. When reviewing the Old Testament teaching on the Spirit, we drew attention to the ascription to the Spirit of the abilities shown by those who were workers in what we would now call 'the arts and crafts'. The references were miniscule and confined to the Old Testament. Scotland has a bad case-history in the subject of the arts and the faith, not, I would maintain, because of John Knox, but because of the puritanism of the seventeenth century and the scholastic Calvinism of the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries. These excesses took a toll of beauty in the Church which has taken centuries to redress. Yet if we begin from the awareness that the imagination expressed in the arts – whether it be poetry or prose, drama or ballet, music or painting, sculpture or floral design – is the inspiration of the creativity of the Holy Spirit, then we have gone a long way towards retaining the insight of the Old Testament. This creativity in its turn constitutes a criterion for the arts, and provides a corrective to the subjectivity which equates all taste with passable taste. But more positively, it opens up an entire dimension of worship and theology which begins to do justice to the God whom we adore 'in the beauty of holiness'. The Greeks should not be allowed to have a prerogative of 'truth, beauty and goodness'.

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